

Spain's First Carlist War, 1833-40

Mark Lawrence

War, Culture and Society, 1750-1850



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Spain's First Carlist War, 1833–40

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Preface

This book originated in my studies of German intellectual history, in particular of the ‘panentheist’ philosopher, Karl Christian Friedrich Krause, and the ways he shaped radical free-thinking in nineteenth-century Spain. Yet the more I began empirical research into Spanish radicalism, the more I recognised the need for a ‘bottom-up’ study of the masses and their relationship to radicalism rather than a top-down study of the elites. Very quickly I realised that ideas exist only in the ‘context of their context’, and that no satisfactory study of ideas could be sensibly sustained without any empirical study of their reception and impact. I also discovered that my early interest in Spain’s 1850s and 1860s was being pulled back to the events of Spain’s early nineteenth century. Time and again I had to explain such events as the failure of the revolution in 1848 and its success in 1854, the Loja rising, and the evolution of the Spanish Democrat Party with reference to the chaos and revolution wrought by the Peninsular War of 1808–14 and hardened by the bloody struggles between Left and Right during 1820–23 and, especially, the First Carlist War of 1833–40.

I noticed that the First Carlist War was a comparative blind-spot in the English-language scholarship. Thanks to the feedback I received at various international conferences, the untiring inspiration and encouragement from Professor Charles Esdaile, and the particular interest of the ‘War, Culture and Society’ editorial board at Palgrave Macmillan, I was able to produce this monograph.

I should offer a note of explanation with regard to my use of languages. A glance at twenty-first-century maps of the Basque country, Catalonia and Galicia will reveal the respective use of Basque, Catalan and Gallego names for places which, in the nineteenth century, were generally written in Castilian. Largely for the benefit of my Anglophone audience, I have used Castilian place names instead of their regional equivalents (which I use more sparingly). Hence my readers will not be arrested by the sight of ‘Bilbo’ instead of ‘Bilbao’. Equally, I have privileged the use of Castilian over Anglicised Spanish place names. ‘Corunna’ and ‘Saragossa’, for example, must look quaint to twenty-first readers who will have at least some familiarity with Spanish geography, and I think I am not making too many cognitive demands by using La Coruña and Zaragoza, respectively.

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Above all I thank my wife, Susana, for her unflinching love, support and patience. Life as an academic presents immense challenges as well as rewards but our team efforts have paid off. *Este libro está dedicado a nuestra hija, Nicole.*

1

Introduction, History and Sources

Tragedy invites study, and wars, especially civil wars, are tragic by their very nature. National, imperial and civil wars dominated Spain during the revolutionary and counter-revolutionary turbulence of 1808–48, pitting Patriots against Frenchmen, *americanos* against *peninsulares*, and Liberals against Carlists. These interminable conflicts have shaped works of fiction. Benito Pérez Galdós's *Episodios Nacionales* serialised calamities from the Battle of Trafalgar to the Carlist War and beyond, weaving fictional characters into real historical events in a didactic construction of national truth. Political elites contested the legitimate nature of the state but generally had no interest in social change. Instead, they relied upon a surfeit of army veterans who 'pronounced' against governments in return for pay and promotion, precious commodities in a bankrupt economy. The predominantly rural masses were integrated into political programmes as a last resort. Yet the inability of elites to rescue Spain from its post-imperial crisis condemned their people to two generations of upheaval and war, to the extent that upheaval has been seen as the normal, if problematic, functioning of politics. The longest nineteenth-century Spanish conflict, the First Carlist War (1833–40), began with a dynastic dispute. But it developed into an unlikely agent of modernity on account of the unequal demands it imposed on the people who, in response, and for the first time in modern Spanish history, found their own voice, agendas and solutions.

It is surprising that Spain's First Carlist War remains Europe's most neglected nineteenth-century civil war in the English scholarship. This lacuna is unworthy of the conflict's importance. It was both the last great European conflict of the pre-industrial age and, before the nineteenth-century military revolution, an iconic moment in the pan-European struggle between liberalism and absolutism, and a key stage in

the history of modern Spain. Yet, unlike the Peninsular War (1808–14), the First Carlist War is something of a Cinderella for monographs and transnational histories alike.¹ The conflict's Spanish historiography is far better, thanks to such scholars as Jordi Canal, Josep Clemente, Alfonso Bullón de Mendoza, Ramón Urquijo Goitia, Pedro Rújula and the late Julio Aróstegui, to say nothing of the wealth of local and regional studies. But it is surprising that even the Spanish historiography was late in applying modern historical methods to the conflict; rather, until the 1970s, the war, like the broader issues of Carlism and Liberalism in general, was the battleground of ideologically committed panegyrists and detractors. Antonio Pirala's exhaustive six-volume study, written between the 1850s and 1870s, remained authoritative for more than a century as a consequence. But the Spanish innovation has not yet led to a monograph of the conflict in English. In principle, then, there is a need for a new study in English which will examine the whole of the war and integrate the military narrative into wider questions concerning politics and society. This monograph shows how the First Carlist War created a radical movement within the ranks of Spanish liberalism which thereafter never ceased to exert pressure on its more moderate (and distinctly elitist) movement.

Spain's Carlist Wars make interesting and exciting reading, especially the first and most prolonged of these civil wars, the First Carlist War of 1833–40. The background to this conflict is extremely complex, but, in brief, as a result of the Peninsular War (1808–14) Spain had been plunged into a far-reaching political, social and economic crisis. The only way forward from this situation was a comprehensive programme of reform that extended and deepened the changes already made in the reigns of Charles III (1759–88) and Charles IV (1788–08). Initiated by the progressive group of *liberales* that had dominated the Cortes of Cádiz (1810–14), and picked up in more timid fashion by the counsellors of Ferdinand VII after 1814, this programme of reform was challenged by elements in the Church and the nobility who had hoped rather to 'colonise' Ferdinand VII and to make him not only turn back the clock in respect of the changes made in the period of 1808–14, but reverse those made in the period of enlightened absolutism as well. For a long time it seemed that they would ultimately reverse the tide of reform – the heir to the throne, Ferdinand's younger brother, Prince Charles ('Don Carlos': hence the word 'Carlist') was very much under their thumb – but the last months of Ferdinand's life saw a complicated series of events threaten their dominance, and no sooner had he died than they staged an armed revolt aimed at ensuring their triumph

by force. This civil war has attracted nothing like the critical attention lavished upon its iconic successor a century later. In some ways this situation is surprising, as, for a start, the enduring stereotype of the 'Two Spains' – which for so long was deemed central to understanding modern Spain – might have seemed an equally compelling paradigm for the First Carlist War: whereas the Spanish Civil War saw Nationalists and Republicans fighting for their respectively hegemonic visions of Spain, the First Carlist War offers a comparable struggle between legitimist Carlists and modernising Liberals which took twice as long to resolve as its successor, exacted relatively more casualties and even anticipated the International Brigades (some 18,000 French, British, Belgian and Portuguese volunteers for liberty). One major difference lay in the reversal of the term 'national'. Whereas in the 1830s it was the progressive Liberal side which was 'national', in the 1930s the Francoist coalition, heirs of the vanquished Carlists, claimed this title. Spanish nationalism had evolved from Left to Right, from a civic force of nation-building into a conservative force of National Catholicism.²

It was a dynastic dispute about who should succeed to the throne in 1833 that provided the trigger for war, but the latter's roots in reality stretched far wider. The first root was contested legitimacy, which was no arcane matter but an issue that shaped all sorts of popular militancy. Spaniards had traditionally held their monarchy in great reverence: unlike the French and English, they have never killed their king. The illegitimacy of Napoleon's seizure of their throne in 1808 in the name of his brother, Joseph, had been the formal *casus belli* for the Peninsular War. But to the question of legitimacy needs to be added the question of absolutist royal will. In 1789 Ferdinand's father, Charles IV, had used a secret session of the Spanish Cortes to issue a decree opening up the royal succession to female as well as male heirs. This broke with the Salic Law which the Bourbon victor of the 1701–13 War of the Spanish Succession, Philip V, had conferred on his new dynasty and which effectively excluded female heirs from the succession by exhausting all legitimate male bloodlines to the throne. Any doubts surrounding the validity of the Salic Law had long remained moot: Ferdinand's first three marriages bore him either no children or resulted in miscarriages and infant mortalities, which could only mean that the King's younger brother, Don Carlos, would succeed him. But the healthy birth of the royal daughter, Isabella, born in October 1830, revived the question of the succession. Don Carlos did not challenge his brother openly, and much of the running was made by Ferdinand's wife, María Francisca, who was at odds with his sister-in-law, Luisa Carlota. Bourbon women

had always dominated when their menfolk were weak. But now this tradition was given new form, as the dynastic triumph of the women, María Cristina and her young daughter Isabella, was countered by the Carlist faction in sexist propaganda.³ As a leading Carlist propagandist pronounced, 'Phillip V knew how nature demands that a man should command and a woman obey, and that there is barely one out of a million of the fairer sex fit for something greater than homespinning.'⁴ Despite this sexism, the war would place women into roles 'naturally' reserved for men. Pre-war court politics foreshadowed this. From 1830, after the birth of Isabella and then a second daughter, it became possible for the Cristino faction to win the succession. Under pressure from María Cristina, whom events would throw into the arms of the Liberal reformists, Ferdinand timidly reissued the 1789 decree, now termed the Pragmatic Sanction, thereby announcing Isabella's succession to the throne in the event of his death. Pro-Carlist court pressure succeeded in prevailing upon Ferdinand briefly to revoke the Sanction.⁵ But the Carlist recovery was by no means assured. In 1832 the King lapsed into what was thought to be terminally poor health, and his powers were passed to the regency of his wife who presided over a purge of Carlists from the army and administration. During a brief Indian summer in the King's health, three months before his death, the Cristino faction again secured the King's approval for the re-abolition of the Salic Law. Thus, Carlist hopes of a smooth transition were dashed: the royal will was that the infant Isabella's minority reign would be exercised by her mother's regency when the King's death finally came in September 1833.

Don Carlos, devout and tenacious, refused to recognise the Isabeline succession: the recent legitimist rising known as the Agraviados had taught him the wisdom of awaiting events. But he also refused openly to challenge the King whilst the monarch still lived. This legitimist propriety did not have to matter as such. Early nineteenth century Spain had been littered with examples of *pronunciamientos*, or military coups, being mounted in order to change politics and, in the case of young Prince Ferdinand and his elderly father, Charles IV, in 1808, even to force a royal abdication. And Don Carlos suffered no lack of proxies prepared to do his bidding, including several in some of the highest positions of authority in the Bourbon state. The purge of these Carlists during the last months of Ferdinand's life was explained by Liberal historians with references to the 'illegitimacy' of the Carlist dynastic claim. The dual issue of the secret decree of 1789 and the definitive expression of royal will of 1833 supported their case. According to the Liberal historian, Antonio Pirla, the Cristino case may have been impolitic

but was by no means illegitimate. Not only had the Cortes effectively legitimised a female succession as early as 1789, but the Salic Law in any case was the worst example of 'foreign despotism' to contravene centuries of Spanish tradition, and which had been instigated by the Bourbons in 1713 solely in order to settle European fears of a formally integrated Franco-Spanish monarchy.⁶ One of the ironies of the dynastic dispute was that modernising Liberals invoked medieval Spanish tradition whereas medievalist Carlists invoked the eighteenth-century Bourbons, the very dynasty whose enlightened absolutism created the conditions for nineteenth-century liberalism to emerge.

Certainly, nineteenth-century Liberals used Spanish tradition in other contexts for political ends. Most markedly, the 1820s radical-liberals named their secret society the *Comuneros* in honour of the 1520s Comuneros revolt of Castile, the founding myth for Spanish Liberals who viewed it as the first modern defence of popular sovereignty. Historicism came easily to nineteenth-century Spanish Liberals, many of whom (Count Toreno, Agustín de Argüelles and Alcalá Galiano, to name a few) were themselves historians. But despite their erudition, their works are unhelpfully partisan and self-exculpatory with regard to the early nineteenth-century crisis that unleashed the Carlist War.⁷ This is not only because an equally strong case could be – and was – made by Carlist historians for Don Carlos's claim,⁸ but also because most nineteenth-century histories lacked the analytical and contextual rigour demanded by modern scholarship. An adequate understanding of the background to the First Carlist War needs to integrate archival research with the advances made in Spanish social history since the mid-twentieth century.

The First Carlist War: history and sources

Whereas most publications relating to the First Carlist War appeared during the conflict itself and its immediate aftermath, the highest quality of publications has appeared since the 1970s.⁹ That said, the most important single body of work remains Antonio Pirala y Criado's six volumes, written over two decades from the 1850s. Pirala was a positivist *progresista* (Spanish 'Whig') and sometime fiction writer who, in his youth, flirted with democracy in response to failure of the 1848 revolution in Spain. His politics moved to the Right in proportion to his advancing age and career. But he remained a Liberal, thinking the Carlists were wrong even though he was objective and unusually knowledgeable about them. His even-handedness was commended by the Carlist side. He was bequeathed private Carlist correspondence

by the Carlist commander-in-chief who, in 1839 made peace, Rafael Maroto.¹⁰ When Pirala, in the 1870s, began his five-volume *Historia Contemporánea*, dealing with the Second Carlist War (1872–76), he was granted privileged access to Carlist papers.¹¹ Yet Pirala's prolix narrative means that he was often cited but seldom read. As a positivist he expressed immutable moral norms and was constrained to give meaning to the political and social radicalisation unleashed by the war. In committing details of massacres, violence and riots to paper, Pirala conforms to a peculiarly nineteenth-century humanitarian literary model designed to make readers feel part of national suffering.¹² Pirala was not the first to use this technique. As the historian of Aragonese Carlism, Pedro Rújula, has pointed out, three Radical-Liberals who had exercised public roles in Aragón during the war (Francisco Cabello, Francisco Santa Cruz and Ramón María Temprado) were quick to write a leftist history of the conflict which amassed details of heroism and massacres in order to cast the Liberal militia as the martyred vanguards of a civil society whose memory must be avenged not just against any resurgent Carlists, but also against the conservatives (*moderados*) who brutally disbanded the militia whilst these authors were writing in 1843.¹³ But Pirala, less radical in his liberalism, provided the classic nineteenth-century expression of the humanitarian narrative. Yet he was not without his shortcomings. In particular, he neglected the Cristino 'home front', especially Andalucía where Carlism was admittedly at its weakest, but where so much of the social and political radicalism was nonetheless produced by the war.

Pirala's failure to integrate the Cristino experience of civil war into the Liberal revolution has still not been fully addressed. At the turn of the current century Jordi Canal lamented that there was still no reliable synthesis of the First Carlist War.¹⁴ Certainly, no adequate attempt has been made to undertake this in the English language, but it is interesting to reflect upon how even the more sophisticated Spanish scholarship presents challenges and controversies. The Spanish historiography may be divided into five broad categories. The first comprised nineteenth-century dynastic and classical military histories, contemporary (and generally inferior in quality) to Pirala's volumes.¹⁵ The second comprised the panegyrics from Franco-era traditionalists who depicted Carlism as an organic Christian good resisting the onslaught of godless and artificial Spanish liberalism.¹⁶ The First Carlist War was but one protracted episode in the wider war between Christianity and the Anti-Spain that was joined in 1808 and won by the crusaders only in 1939. The most impressive work in this vein was the 30-volume history of traditionalism

edited by Melchor Ferrer from the 1940s, which was meant to be the Carlist answer to the Liberal Pirala, but which in fact lacked the latter's balance and command of primary sources.¹⁷ The third category comprised the 'Navarra School' of Pamplona-based neo-traditionalists, led by Federico Suárez Verdeguer. These scholars sustained a far more sophisticated right-wing analysis based on modern empirical research.¹⁸ Their contention that Spain remained royalist, or apolitical, throughout this period rendered Liberalism an artificial and arrogant innovation. As the best neo-traditionalist scholar of the First Carlist War, Alfonso Bullón de Mendoza, put it, the Cristino Liberals were waging war against their own people.¹⁹

Even though both the traditionalists and neo-traditionalists sympathised with historical Carlism, they were alienated by the leftward shift of 'Carlism 1968', which inspired a new generation of neo-Carlist scholarship. The neo-Carlists are the fourth category, and their revisionism is impossible to understand without reference to the socialist 'self-management' (*autogestión*) doctrine advocated from the late 1960s by the Carlist 'Prince' Carlos Hugo de Borbón Parma and his followers. The neo-Carlists resented how the Francoist 'families' of neo-traditionalists and National Catholics had hijacked their movement since 1937 in the name of the 'Movement', and the neo-Carlist movement accordingly faced repression under the last years of the Franco dictatorship.²⁰ Their most strident scholar was Josep Carles Clemente. Clemente argued that early Carlism was an inchoate social protest against nineteenth-century oligarchs who were using the Liberal property revolution to marginalise villagers' livelihoods and erode the communitarian model enshrined in the Basque *fueros* (devolved economic and political powers under the Spanish crown)²¹ Carlism predominated in the Basque country, he explained, because since the eighteenth century landholding there had become concentrated in fewer, more exploitative, hands, causing rents to rise whilst agricultural prices remained depressed, and to varying degrees this class conflict pertained elsewhere in Spain.²² Clemente thus turned Marxist social history against its 'correct' constituency, representing Carlism as a 'social dissidence' springing from a form of 'feudal socialism' under attack from the centralising and capitalist drive of Spain's modernising Liberals;²³ a neo-Carlist interpretation that was expanded upon by other scholars equally exasperated by Spain's oligarchical liberalism.²⁴ But Clemente's ire targeted not the Marxists but the traditionalists who had hijacked the true historical essence of Carlism, or as he complained in the 1977 publication *Nosotros los carlistas*: 'first came the volunteers to raise their standard of King and

Fueros, and later came the traditionalists with an agenda of their own, adding God and Fatherland to our popular movement and turning it into a political philosophy of traditionalism'.²⁵

Clemente's neo-Carlism did not hold the field for long, however: in the early 1990s neo-traditionalism counter-attacked with Alfonso Bullón de Mendoza's doctoral thesis, quickly turned into a published monograph. Bullón de Mendoza found Clemente's neo-Carlism, along with conventional Marxist analyses, to be 'wilful history' (*historia volitiva*), left-wing propagandistic distortions foundering upon their lack of 'objective facts'. Thus, there was not a single coherent Carlist manifesto offering social justice, and episodes of villagers and combatants asserting their 'moral economy' came as much from Liberal as Carlist quarters (i.e. the side was irrelevant). Meanwhile, the Basque *fueros* on which Clemente based part of his argument, were no pre-capitalist model of social harmony but simply a different model of social exploitation.²⁶ Bullón de Mendoza's thesis provoked a furious debate with the neo-Carlists, which was happily sustained more by evidence rather than assertion. We may add to this by considering how Carlist War newspaper extracts qualify Clemente's 'social dissidence' thesis. On one level, Clemente's thesis does indeed reflect the fears of 1830s Cristino elites who saw Carlists as reactionary levellers bent on smashing the progress and hierarchy of respectable society, or, as a *moderado* newspaper in 1837 put it: 'Carlism could never be attractive to people who have something to lose because it is in fact a kind of pure democracy, demagoguery, and anarchy.'²⁷ This would support the 'social dissidence' thesis, until we find that the same Cristino elites also despaired of the excesses made by the 'democratic rabble' on their own side.²⁸ The inference must be that the First Carlist War should be studied not from the perspective of elite discourse and ideology but from the perspective of contingency. This book aims to take this perspective, using a chronological organisation to enable the simultaneous analysis of concurrent developments which shaped the background and the course of the conflict. This approach, it is hoped, will avoid the constrictive, jargon-prone methodologies of so much of the ideological scholarship.

A narrative study can make an original contribution for two reasons. First, the 1990s 'end of history' made Clemente's focus on class conflict seem passé. Second, connected to this, a fifth category of Spanish historiography has emerged which, to a large degree, has liberated itself both from the ideological hegemony of Marxism on the one hand and the rebarbative legacy of Francoism on the other. Much of this feat may be attributed to Jordi Canal's now standard work, *El carlismo* (2004). This

has revised the Marxist and neo-Carlist emphasis on structural causation by showing the 'multifaceted' nature of its militants in different regions, social contexts and times, distinguishing between Carlists as pragmatists and Carlism as a creed. It has also rejected the neo-traditionalist fixation with the 'Marxist distortion' of history: in claiming to be apolitical and interested only in 'objective' facts, the Navarra school has failed to acknowledge its own right-wing political mission (i.e. another politicisation of history).²⁹ The freer intellectual environment since the Cold War inspired new research questions, such as what *quotidian* Carlism meant in practice.³⁰ This has been answered by outstanding regional research by such fifth-category scholars as Pedro Rújula and José Ramón Urquijo, who have shown in the Maestrazgo and the Basque country respectively that support for Carlism was far more conditional than traditionalists, neo-traditionalists and even Liberals believed.³¹

The sum of Spanish historiography allows two relevant observations to be made for this volume. First, it lays bare just how few histories of the First Carlist War beyond travel and campaign narratives are available in English. Although serious studies have been written, they have discussed the First Carlist War only as part of either a wider narrative or a particular interest.³² The best English-language study is by John Coverdale, but even this covers only one-third of the conflict's span and, more importantly for this book's rationale, explains the Carlist side much more than the Cristino.³³

Second, twentieth-century research into the First Carlist War has been more interested in the Carlist losers than the Cristino victors. Nineteenth-century writers often referred to this conflict as the 'seven years' war', arguably a better title as it removes Carlist ownership of the conflict and instead obliges scholars to understand the war's impact on the Cristino side. Carlism was both Europe's most enduring legitimism and, paradoxically, a creed of losers, even when it was part of the winning side in 1939. As a corollary to this, Spain's Liberal revolution, which was definitively victorious as a consequence of the First Carlist War, has been seen as the normal trajectory of Spanish history. This attitude was internalised by the school of Marxist social history pioneered in Spain in the 1950s by Miguel Artola-Gallego, which was morally driven by the need to historicise the Left's defeat in the recent Civil War, in other words, to explain the defeat of the 'normal' trajectory of history. To this end, these social historians footnoted the military history of the Cristino side to what they saw as the far more important social and political transformation of the hallowed 'bourgeois' or 'liberal' revolution which Marxism could explain in structural changes

of the 1830s without having to resort to the contingencies of military history.³⁴ They found Spain's 1830s liberal revolution not to have been arrogant, as the neo-traditionalists held, but timid. The capitalist property revolution actually left the old nobility's socio-economic hegemony unmolested and frustrated the 'correct' emergence of new forces as during the French Revolution.³⁵ As such, it is hard to categorise the Artola school as part of the First Carlist War historiography, as these social historians, with some important exceptions,³⁶ saw the war as a symptom rather than a cause of social conflict. As a result, the Cristino response to the First Carlist War has not been studied with anything like the degree of innovation as the Carlism side. Because of this, perhaps, the conflict's collective memory remains weighted towards the smaller Carlist side, in their victory anthem 'Oriamendi' and the recording of colourful village memory ('Espantero hid in this farmhouse').³⁷ The relative dearth of Liberal memory is especially stark when compared with the 1872–76 Second Carlist War, a conflict which forged a galaxy of Spanish intellectuals across the political spectrum in a European context of class conflict.³⁸

Yet the Cristino side deserves a study of its own in English: it was both by far the larger side and ultimately victorious. As Cristino Spain was the government rather than insurgent side, its hundreds of thousands of conscripts had no a priori reason to be ideologically committed (although interesting exceptions can be seen in the volunteer free corps and militia) as they were recruited indiscriminately and via the established arms of the state.³⁹ Even during the most extreme episodes (1835–37) of Carlist expeditions and Liberal revolutions, the vast majority of Spanish territory and population remained outside of formal Carlist control. Thus, the civil war, in all its diverse demands of mobilisation, violence, insecurity, militancy and deprivation, impacted on far more inhabitants in Cristino than Carlist zones of control. Even cities such as Málaga and Cádiz, hundreds of miles beyond formal front lines, were affected by the civil war. Given that Cristino Spain's war with the Carlists profoundly shaped the 1830s liberal revolution, a narrative study of the popular impact would seem particularly propitious. A study of the militancies of combatants and non-combatants would offer scholars a more diverse understanding of the conflict, going beyond the historiographical pitfalls of elitist censure or apology and beyond structural analyses of the *ancien régime*. The civil war, after all, left no part of Spain untouched and over seven years killed 5 per cent of the 1833 population. A new study therefore needs to show how the experience of warfare shaped the politics and society of 1830s Spain, especially

the Cristino zone. My approach is no whim: the late Julio Aróstegui observed that 'the options for violence by individuals or groups ended up creating cultures of their own'.⁴⁰ In this spirit, this book tells an untold story of how otherwise undistinguished Spaniards who hitherto had been absent from political history underwent seven years of brutal civil war and revolution and framed this military experience in a politically meaningful and radical way.

The state of affairs described above creates virgin territory for new interpretations and justifies the sources I use for this volume, most of which logically come from Cristino rather than Carlist quarters. I defend this stance in part in deference to the fact that Carlist archives in the Basque country have already been mined by some outstanding researchers,⁴¹ and in part because the Carlist sources I do use (the *Gaceta Oficial* and published memoirs) reinforce my general approach, which is to show the impact of the war on Spain as a whole. This ambitious task must inevitably fail to exhaust all sources, and experts will doubtless be alarmed at omissions. Nonetheless, my combination of secondary with primary sources must perforce appear selective within the constraints of a medium-sized monograph. The primary sources are in three categories, published memoirs, newspapers and unpublished archives. The rationale for using memoirs, from both Carlist and Cristino authors, is explained by the events described. Cristino newspapers are particularly valuable, especially the advanced Liberal *Eco del Comercio*, because their networks of provincial correspondents reported on local military developments, and newspapers led the maturing Left versus Right divide in Liberal politics. My unpublished sources come from three major archives in Madrid (the Archivo Histórico Nacional, Real Academia de Historia, Archivo General del Palacio), the municipal archives of Barcelona, Málaga and San Sebastián, and the university archive of Zaragoza. The unpublished campaign letters of the Cristino 'Duke of Victory', General Espartero, complete my Spanish archive base, whilst some foreign sources (George Borrow, French and British press, German campaign memoirs) help to internationalise the conflict.

A note of caution is necessary with regard to my use of newspapers as a primary source. News of atrocities was often embellished in the telling. The war shattered normal systems of information gathering, and terrified correspondents often lent credence to the worst rumours of Carlist atrocities, which subsequently sometimes appeared unsubstantiated in the Cristino press. The press thus contributed to the perceptions of such atrocities, and the degree of terror depended as much on perception as concrete facts. The hold of 'Carlist atrocities' over Cristino

opinion is explained not only by the events to which they referred but also by deeper mentalities and traditions through which they were expressed. Neither the content nor the vocabulary was new, owing to the trauma of Spain's recent Peninsular and Royalist Wars. But the greater duration and irregular quality of the First Carlist War created a press-driven 'myth-cycle' which flourished on patchy knowledge of the march of events, and reduced strange experiences and inexplicable events to a conspiracy of Carlist fifth-columnists, poisonings, prison breaks, arms storage in churches and so forth. Confused and poorly led Cristino conscripts in unfamiliar territory sometimes fired on each other by mistake, but these shots were reported to have been fired by 'Carlist' inhabitants: with dire results. As the war in 1835 expanded beyond the Basque country, demographic factors increased the scope both for actual and 'reported' atrocities to take place. Cristino atrocities were often harsher in such irregular areas of Carlist control as northern Castile and, especially, Aragón and Catalonia, precisely because, in contrast to the Basque country, 'suspect' men of military age were usually encountered inside hostile villages. (The Carlist Basque country, by contrast, had been thoroughly militarised by mid-war and thus offered greater resistance to Cristino incursions, and those incursions that did take place usually encountered few 'suspect' combatants as virtually every available man was at the front.) Equally, Carlist raiders into Cristino territory encountered a vulnerable population disproportionately composed of women and children. Masculine anxieties in a culture of honour must account for part of the rise in reports in the press of rape and murder.

Thus, even though real atrocities took place, it is in fact impossible to know whether they can really be taken at face value. This uncertainty can be mitigated in two ways, of a practical and conceptual nature. Practically, I have endeavoured to substantiate accounts of atrocities and counter-atrocities, or at least tried to qualify their reporting. Readers may still feel a humanitarian scepticism at the evidence offered throughout these chapters, and such a response would ironically match that of the Cristino Liberals whose politics were radicalised by the need to combat 'savage' Carlists and the backward religiosity and royalism they represented. Conceptually, then, what matters is not what happened but what was believed to be happening. Much of the political radicalisation of Cristino Spain was caused by 'news' as much as lived experience. This news often came from anonymous sources, a routine cause of frustration for historians interested in the social background of protagonists and in corroborating facts. Yet anonymity also reveals two types of sources,

one motivated vindictively and the other ethically; that is to say, either delation or whistle-blowing. These motives had an intimately violent dimension that characterised the local experience of civil war. In sum, the questionable veracity of sources is not the central issue. There was enough truth in the sources as a whole to unleash violence and polarisation, plunging Spain into seven long years of civil war. The Carlists were always the smaller side in this chaos, which means that there is greater scope to study the impact of the war in Cristino areas of control. Yet the frequently asymmetrical nature of expeditions, banditry, revolution and conspiracy undermined Cristino control and gave the war an enduring dynamic of insecurity. As most of this book studies the insecure Cristino zone rather than the Carlist heartlands, it is helpful to set the context by introducing the debates and dimensions of early Carlism.

Early Carlism

Carlism's first 'safe zone' was in the Basque country. The Basque country comprises the three Basque lordships – later provinces – proper, Alava, Guipúzcoa and Vizcaya, and the ancient autonomous Kingdom of Navarra. The early attempts of the Viceroy of Navarra to recruit villagers into Cristino ranks failed miserably, even when service wages were offered of double, then treble, what the Carlist insurgents promised.⁴² Coverdale summarised four factors as to why this was so: (1) traditional society was still economically viable for most of population, hence liberalism was seen a threat; (2) natural leadership strata (clergy, landowners) lived cheek by jowl with peasants and supported the Carlist cause; (3) the terrain was sufficiently abrupt and broken to prevent the use of cavalry and to facilitate small bands to escape (to *change their shirts* and fight another day), whilst the landscape was densely populated enough to allow regular food and supplies; and (4) the appearance of the extremely gifted guerrilla leader, Tomás de Zumalacárregui. Other parts of Spain may have had one, or some of these factors, but not all four.⁴³ (In the Aragonese Maestrazgo a comparable situation would pertain only from 1836.⁴⁴) The Basque provinces, like Catalonia, also had a long-standing tradition of irregular military service (in the Basque country recruits were called *requetés* and in Catalonia *somatenes*). The Basque Carlist acceptance of war and armed struggle as a legitimate means to seize power gave the cause its most enduring characteristic, resurfacing 100 years later in preparation for the Spanish Civil War as 'a quintessential part of the Carlist way of life'.⁴⁵ Contemporary writers noted the independent, agile and hard-drinking (by Spanish standards)

Basque character, believing this to be the result of centuries of autonomy and hardy geography.⁴⁶ Recent victories against the French taught the Basques to feel naturally superior in terms of military prowess.⁴⁷ Writers of Basque culture have stressed the provinces' historical pre-eminence (the three lordships – *señoríos* – and the Kingdom of Navarra matched other Spanish kingdoms in longevity). 'False' religions had never penetrated the Basque country, and during the sixteenth century the kingdom was rewarded accordingly with the grant of noble status to all indigenous Basques, which meant that nobility became far less significant as a factor in social differentiation than in the rest of Spain. This ancient history gave the Basques the confidence to negotiate their Spanishness on their own terms, via their *fueros*, language, Catholic piety and the importance of the self-contained homestead – or *caserío* (which was handed down in its entirety to a single male heir) – in family and social relations.⁴⁸

The Basque *fueros* have played a major role in debates about early Carlism. Marxist historians objectified the *fueros* and the local elites they empowered as a doomed defence of pre-capitalist socio-economic norms. The popular Catholicism which distinguished pre-capitalist Basque society, and which was the cause and motive for popular Carlism, was merged by beneficiaries of the *fueros* into the self-interested war cry of 'religion and *fueros*', tying their debatable merits to the unimpeachable merits of religion.⁴⁹ But it would be superficial to explain Basque Carlism as a war in defence of the *fueros*. Whereas Carlist propaganda defended the *fueros*, it did so in the defensive tone of the 'ancient constitution' violated by the pre-war police state (which in the Basque country intensified its activities after 1830 whilst relenting elsewhere in Spain), and by the martial law of Cristino 'pashas' once the war had started.⁵⁰ In fact early Basque Carlism did not place foral interests foremost. The Carlism's second-in-command claimed that the Basque insurgents of 1833 saw the *fueros* as secondary to the legitimate royal succession, and his subaltern, Wilhelm von Rahden, whose foreignness made him disinterested, agreed.⁵¹ Even though the October 1833 Carlist insurgency in Alava mentioned the *fueros*, its leader, Valentín Verástegui, had a vested family interest. But the proclamations of the insurgent king, Don Carlos, were slower to invoke them: not until September 1834 did he make an explicitly foralist proclamation.⁵² The Pretender's foralism was not proactive but purely in reaction to the fact that the rest of Spain (which had long been stripped of its *fueros*) had failed to rally to his cause. He was forced to rely on the *fueros* because no other wing of the Fernandine state, neither the army nor (mostly)

the Church, defected to the Carlist cause.⁵³ In fact, the *fueros* grew in importance only when military victory seemed impossible in the wake of the failed Royal Expedition, and as Carlist peace feelers voiced a growing willingness to abandon Don Carlos who, since 1834, had been the *fueros*' champion.

In sum, the *fueros* do not by themselves explain the prevalence of Basque Carlism; yet Basque Carlism is also impossible to understand without them, not least because their most outspoken defenders were to be found in Carlist ranks and their most outspoken critics amongst the Cristino Liberals. This dynamic was especially intense in the Basque country itself, which entered the war bitterly divided. The port-cities of Bilbao (Vizcaya) and especially San Sebastián (Guipúzcoa) welcomed their Cristino garrisons. This was because the Cristino-Liberal policy of moving the customs frontier from the River Ebro to the actual Spanish frontier in the Pyrenees promised to achieve by war what frustrated commercial elites had failed to achieve at the foral level for decades.⁵⁴ Even in the rural areas satisfied with their *fueros*, local juntas and deputations were split between supporters of Cristinos and Carlists in 1833. Cristinos were sidelined and then expelled, but the powers of the *fueros* themselves were increasingly curtailed by the Carlist Royal Government in the name of the war effort. These actions made the government unpopular, not least because they were frequently carried out by non-Basque Carlists, 'Castilian' refugees from Cristino areas of control whom Basques suspected of meaning to harm local interests.

Such Basque versus Castilian friction within Carlism, combined with the wider Cristino versus Carlist struggle, led some Basque nationalists to originate their cause in 1830s Carlism, stressing inchoate wartime demands for Navarrese independence and the ancient *fueros* as a blueprint for modern autonomy. The most vociferous nineteenth-century example was the French Basque Augustin Chaho, for whom the First Carlist War was a war between the Basque country and Castile.⁵⁵ But such teleological nationalism defies scrutiny. The late nineteenth-century founder of Basque nationalism may have come from Carlist ancestry, but Sabino Arana rejected Carlism because it sacrificed Basque interests to Spanish dynastic politics.⁵⁶ However, the link persisted in the minds of several Basque nationalists. In 1935 Bernardo Estornés Lasa claimed Carlism's first warlord 'wanted to proclaim Basque independence', and in more recent years the vandalism inflicted upon the 'English cemetery' at San Sebastián by the armed Basque separatist organisation, *Euskadi Ta Askatasuna* (ETA), shows a link between memory and contemporary militancy.⁵⁷

In fact Francoism manoeuvred the Carlists – who had already merged with National and Traditionalist Catholics in 1931 to become the Traditionalist Communion – into a right-wing coalition of virulent Spanish unitary nationalism and anti-separatism, the very antithesis of Basque independence. Whereas Franco rewarded his allied provinces of Navarra and Alava with limited autonomy, he stripped the Republican provinces of Vizcaya and Guipúzcoa of theirs. Franco-era Traditionalists lauded their 1830s Basque forefathers and their *fueros* as traditionalist models not for Euzkadi, but for Spain as a whole. Although some complained at how the ‘ungrateful’ Francoist regime was pushing the Basque language and *fueros* into virtual extinction, most stressed their national regionalism as Spaniards above all else, rejecting regional nationalism.⁵⁸ That said, even though Basque Carlists during the First Carlist War were not fighting for the independence of their homeland in the modern sense, they certainly formed a caucus, not just against the Cristinos but also against the non-Basque Carlists (the ‘Castilians’). This Basque–Carlist cohesiveness was reinforced by priests who were always local as they had to hear confessions in Euskera. Cloistered clergy, meanwhile, had comparatively little presence in the Basque country, and those institutions which did exist were disproportionately of the humbler Franciscan orders; this explains the alliance of the vast majority of Basque religious with Carlism.⁵⁹ Thus, even though Carlism was not Basque proto-nationalism, the Basque Carlists certainly mustered enough identity – in particular, popular Catholic piety – to separate themselves culturally and psychologically from the rest of Spain. Evidence of this is the persistent xenophobic term *guiri* coined by Basque Carlists, an abbreviation of the Euskera *guiristino*, or Spanish *Cristino* name of their enemy, a term which survived the conflict to describe the centralising paramilitary police force, the Guardia Civil and, in the twentieth century, even foreign tourists.

But the Basque Carlists represented just one part (albeit the biggest part) of the insurrection. Carlism in the 1830s was Janus-faced. Whereas in the Basque country Carlism defended a still-viable socially conservative, stable rural society from the onslaught of liberalism, in the eastern areas of rural Aragón, Valencia and Catalonia it was a protest vehicle for peasants whose livelihoods were already being eroded by capitalism in nearby urban centres and by the Liberal property revolution.⁶⁰ These socio-economic issues were the reasons why a second ‘safe zone’ for Carlism was forged in Lower Aragón and adjoining inland areas of Valencia and the northern extremities of historic Murcia (an area known as the Maestrazgo). The character of the war was different here. The

rural population was hostile to the cash economy, whilst recurrent Liberal land reform in the Maestrazgo encroached upon the *de facto* rather than *de jure* property rights in agriculture of 'tenants' who were really common-law smallholders, or peasants. Nonetheless, these regions did not enjoy the *fueros* of the Basques either, which meant that the population here had perhaps the most to lose and the least to gain from the war, as even Cristino urban centres in the region had to spend all their economic gains defending themselves against the impoverished rural population which joined the Carlist guerrillas. Thus, as Pedro Rújula, Josep Fontana and Manuel Ardit have explained, this rural economic stress fuelled such other factors as the local Carlist religious, and the lack of sound administrative organisation and communication (caused by adverse terrain), in turning the Maestrazgo Carlist.⁶¹ The Carlist insurgency gave political expression to recurring rural *émeutes* in Valencia caused by a legacy of Spain's harshest feudal regime.⁶² The Carlist effort in the Maestrazgo was led from 1835 by Ramón Cabrera and went through three incremental stages. During the first stage, 1833–35, the Carlist effort here was dispersed by the Cristinos and confined to rural guerrilla warfare. The second phase, 1836–37, saw the breakthrough as Cabrera expanded the boundaries of the Carlist safe zone and turned it into a military state. The third phase, 1838–39, in contrast to the stagnation in the Carlist Basque country, saw the Maestrazgo reach its apogee in terms of geography, military victories and recruitment. The August 1839 Peace Treaty in the north orphaned these achievements and sent Cabrera into exile the following year, ending the First Carlist War.⁶³

A third Carlist safe zone operated in the Catalan interior adjacent to the Pyrenees. Economic crisis again explains much of the rural support for Carlism here, but in contrast to the situation in the Basque country, the nature of Catalan Carlism was not well understood by Cristino Liberals at the time. For Espoz y Mina, Captain-General of the Principality, his Catalan enemies were no social bandits but incorrigible mountain folk, driven to violence from superstition and lack of civic education.⁶⁴ His fellow Liberal, Evaristo de San Miguel, held a vague but kinder judgement: 'agricultural improvements' based on the true fulfilment of the Constitution, so he thought, could win over the rural masses from Carlism.⁶⁵ It was not until the twentieth century that social historians probed the economic complexities of Carlism in both the Maestrazgo and Catalonia. Thus, the threat of Liberal property revolution in the Maestrazgo, and memories of how this, in the early 1820s, had threatened common-law 'ownership', from 1833 pitted the countryside against the towns.⁶⁶ Studies of Catalonia, meanwhile, have shown

how economic reforms impoverished such declining economic centres in the hinterland of Liberal Barcelona as Baix Camp and Berguedà, a situation which, in contrast to their counterparts in Castile and Andalucía, persuaded many Catalan aristocrats to support Carlism.⁶⁷ Thus, economic factors explain some of the motivations for Carlism: a viable rural economy in the Basque country, a traumatised economy in the Maestrazgo and an impoverished rural economy in Catalonia. But the economic factors cannot be simplified as a 'rural–urban divide', as even in urban settings artisans threatened by recurrent Liberal abolition of the guilds and redundant officeholders (*cesantes*) could be drawn to Carlism, whilst, by contrast, villagers who had benefited from the Liberal property revolution would correspondingly turn Cristino;⁶⁸ flight either from or to the countryside in many cases entrenched a rural (Carlist) versus urban (Cristino) divide, but as an effect rather than a cause of the conflict. Moreover, as the 1832–33 palace revolution had driven Carlist conspirators from the court and into the country, regional hierarchies decided local popular political allegiance. The poorest areas of Spain, which were in Extremadura and Andalucía, were lost causes for Don Carlos. Carlist writers explained this by congratulating themselves on how advanced, rather than backward, areas embraced the legitimate cause.⁶⁹ But the bald fact was that any nobles outside of the three heartlands pronouncing in favour of Don Carlos would have been banished from Madrid and had their extensive lands and incomes in the south seized. The northern nobility, by contrast, had either few or no lands to lose.⁷⁰ Economic factors thus explain the structural context, indeed it would be strange if they did not, given that the Spanish state in 1833 collected in revenues barely more than half what it had at its imperial peak in 1792.⁷¹ But they do not explain everything.

Further explanation can be sought in the Carlists' exploitation of local military traditions, although recent research has shown this to be more coercive in nature than voluntarist, as was previously assumed. Both the Basque country and rural Catalonia had strong armed militia traditions, the *requetés* originating in Navarra and the *somatenes*, respectively. These militia, especially the Basque militia, which had employed irregular resistance against the French during the periods 1793–95 and 1808–13 and against the Liberals during 1820–23, certainly possessed a psychological 'DNA' of popular armed mobilisation. Carlist writers, especially leftist neo-Carlism, attracted to the 'people's war' paradigm, claimed these mobilisations were voluntary rather than coercive in nature: 'Don Carlos's army was fundamentally popular, nourished by volunteers...although fines were imposed on families who resisted

the calls to arms, these acted more as a tax than a fine, and without exception targeted families of Liberal sympathies.⁷² But in fact the Carlists suffered almost as much from draft-dodging and desertion as the Cristinos, or rather popular Carlism *was*, at least in part, draft-dodging and desertion. Even in the case of the Basque country, recent research shows Carlist insurgent leaders at best tolerating rather than endorsing the early phenomenon of 'shirt-changing' amongst their men.⁷³ Yet for a long time, shirt-changing, the practice of Carlist insurgents dispersing in the face of superior Cristino forces, was romanticised as something nobler than desertion, as a form of voluntarism winked at by otherwise very authoritarian officers. Certainly, geography allowed Carlist combatants in the Basque country to return to their homesteads relatively easily, concealing their weapons usually in the full knowledge of civil authorities who not only tolerated but also protected them on the understanding that they would return to fight the Cristinos as soon as they could do so with advantage, or at least that they would not cause trouble with Carlist military authorities. But the consolidation of Carlist military control in the Basque country diminished this practice, and even though shirt-changing remained common on expeditions and in patchy areas of Carlist control, the Basque safe zone, and to a lesser extent, those in the Maestrazgo and Catalonia, produced predictable and coercive patterns of conscription into increasingly regular armies. This militarisation was answered by widespread draft evasion and desertion, not on the scale of Cristino Spain, but significant and deleterious to the war effort nonetheless. Thus, even though the Carlists' exploitation of local military traditions was more successful, as we shall see, than that of the Cristinos, it was distinctly qualified.

The nature and extent of Carlism beyond the three safe zones diversified still further, and its adherents may be differentiated into Carlists of conscience ('civic Carlists') and of violence (*facciosos* or 'insurgents'). Their geographical distribution was patchy and changing, although support for Carlism was generally strong in northern Castile, Asturias and Galicia. Galicia was especially prone to Carlism as its clergy were lease owners of tiny, subdivided peasant plots (*minifundia*) in a social geography sometimes referred to as 'Spain's Ireland'. Several Galician clerics self-interestedly mobilised their rural dependents against the enemy's property revolution.⁷⁴ In general militant Carlism was dispersed into the countryside and away from the larger towns. Rural pockets were often held by 'insurgents', but many of these 'Carlists' were really bandits looking for political cover or deserters from the Cristino army. Many more Carlists were peaceful ('civic Carlists'), and were found, above all,

amongst the religious but also in other walks of life. Even the largest Cristino towns contained Carlist sympathisers (and Cristino supporters also remained in revolted provinces). Those finding themselves in the wrong zone could be subjected to financial penalties, imprisonment and even death, in proportion to the approach of enemy forces, popular demands for reprisals and the radicalisation of politics produced by the war.

In sum, the diverse dimensions of early Carlism present scholars with a striking paradox, namely that 1830s Carlism was militarily most developed at a time when its ideology was least cohesive. Early Carlism was a mix of radical royalists, absolutists and theocrats, prisoners of Spain's multiple pasts, and rivals in court and military politics.⁷⁵ Later civil wars during the periods 1872–76 and 1936–39 never came close to threatening a Carlist conquest of the state to the extent that 1833–40 did. Yet Carlist ideology – its traditional culture, intense Catholicism and espousal of a medievalist decentralised political structure – was more developed then.⁷⁶ Thus, events demand greater scrutiny than would be the case in studies of the later Carlist conflicts; they justify this book's chronological history approach, liberal with the conflict's ideological background but rigorous with its physical manifestations. This approach can be justified by the scale of the conflict. The First Carlist War was the bloodiest civil war in nineteenth-century Europe – by some measurements bloodier than the Spanish Civil War – with military casualties alone amounting to as much as 2.5 per cent of Spain's entire population.⁷⁷ This notwithstanding, it is the great conflict of which most scholars and students outside of Spain are ignorant. If this volume makes even the slightest dent on this ignorance, this author will be satisfied.

2

The First Carlist War: Origins

Ferdinand VII described himself as a cork in a bottle of beer: as soon as that cork was removed, all the troubles of Spain would explode into the open. He is routinely considered the worst of all Spanish monarchs. Timid, mediocre and vindictive, his reign compounded such geopolitical disasters as the Peninsular War and the interconnected loss of Spain's mainland American empire. During the Peninsular War (virtually all of which Ferdinand would sit out in the gilded captivity of France) a Liberal clique had emerged to dominate the politics of the Spanish Patriots who were fighting against France in the name of the captive King. This clique, led by such enlightened young nobles as Count Toreno, Agustín de Argüelles and Martínez de la Rosa, was besieged in Spain's most bourgeois port-city, Cádiz, during 1810–12, crucial years in which the Liberals pointed to the repeated defeats sustained by the Patriot regular armies in the rest of Spain as evidence of the need for a 'Great Leap Forward' of political reform, the most iconic and advanced of which was the Constitution of 1812, also known as the Constitution of Cádiz, which would be adopted as a mascot by Spanish Radicals for much of the nineteenth century.¹ During the whole of the Peninsular War the French army never conquered Cádiz, but bombarded it from afar on occasion, and this gave the Patriot Liberals the illusion that they were sharing the suffering of the rest of Spain.

The Liberals, resentful of the eighteenth-century militarisation of Spain's Bourbon monarchy and resolute in their belief in the rights of the individual against arbitrary power, cast a suspicious eye towards Spain's Bourbon military, even though most members of this had sided with the Spanish Patriots in 1808 and subsequently took to the field against appalling odds, never abandoning the struggle against Napoleon.² The social composition of the officer corps was already

changing in response to the demands of the war. The revolution of 1808 saw officers from undistinguished social backgrounds rise through the Patriot ranks, whilst the Patriot provisional government (Junta Central) embarked upon crash military reforms which were at least beginning to improve the army's fighting potential. Yet the Spanish Liberals divided opinion both inside and outside the military. Liberal journalists, taking advantage of Cádiz's first (and fleeting) free press, frequently goaded Bourbon commanders to prove their patriotism in battle against obvious French superiority on Spain's high plateaus – with appalling results. Just as the Carlist War would show, Spanish generals did not like being second-guessed by civilians. Even though the Spanish army did eventually prevail, it did so only as a humiliatingly junior partner under British leadership, financed and even clothed by British subsidies.³ Factionalism, also a dominant feature in the Carlist War, characterised the Liberals who, from the convocation of the Cortes in Cádiz in 1810, increasingly dominated the war effort. On the one hand, the Patriot Liberals championed several military mediocrities, such as General Ballesteros (who had unsuccessfully challenged the Duke of Wellington's appointment in 1812 to the Supreme Command of Allied Forces), mainly because they proved useful agents in domestic politics.⁴ On the other hand, the Liberals exaggerated out of all proportion the effectiveness of the famous *guerrilleros*, or Patriot guerrilla bands, who have given the Peninsular War its most enduring image. Viewed by the Liberals as a useful counterweight to the 'despotic' army, the guerrillas also neatly served the ideological purpose of the 'people in arms', literal embodiments of national sovereignty – though the reality was, in fact, far more complex.⁵ Meanwhile the Liberals, especially the more radical ones, planned to check the Bourbon army with the National Militia, a part-time citizens' force organised at local level and in the hands of property owners. The National Militia was written into the Constitution, yet its existence during the Peninsular War was ephemeral: called into being as late as April 1814, it survived only two weeks in the places where it had even organised at all before the royalist coup of May rendered all the reforms of the Liberals null and void. Yet this seed would germinate during the later Liberal revolutions of 1820–23, and especially during the Carlist War of 1833–40 when the militia would be dragged as much into conflict in Liberal politics as against the Carlists.

Given the anti-militarist trajectory of the Liberals, a faction grew within the army that was hostile to the whole constitutional experiment. Some historians have explained this disaffection in generational terms, with older officers who had established themselves during

Bourbon absolutism being more hostile than their younger counterparts, whose more progressive outlook had been forged in the war and revolution of 1808–14.⁶ But whilst some officers were certainly ideologically opposed to progressive politics, many more, by 1814, had learnt to become anti-Liberal because of the army's shabby treatment at the hands of politicians: this attitude was common to both old and new officers. Army discontent was matched by a growing conservative group in the Cortes whom the Liberals called the 'servile ones' (*serviles*) who seconded the Church's forlorn attempts to save the Inquisition (the Holy Office was abolished in January 1813). Whether the Liberals would prevail in their reformist mission depended on the nature of the imminent peace over which King Ferdinand – the legitimate monarch in whose name even the street radicals of Cádiz agitated – would preside. In December 1813, Napoleon, in a forlorn bid to split the Spanish Patriots from their victorious British alliance, dispossessed his brother of his now negligible Spanish realm and released Ferdinand back into Spain. Whilst the Patriots of all political stripes rejected Napoleon's gambit, the arrival of Ferdinand on Spanish soil confirmed the Liberals' worst fears.

The *serviles* of the Cortes issued a legitimist 'Manifesto of the Persians'. The title refers to the Persians of antiquity who suffered anarchy after the death of their King; now the Spanish Persians appealed to the King to end the anarchy visited on Spain by the Constitution of 1812. But this manifesto was not absolutist in tone but traditionalist. It wanted Ferdinand to overthrow not just the Liberal Constitution but also the Enlightenment-inspired reforms of the eighteenth century from which liberalism had progressed. Such traditionalism meant restoring the medieval rights of the king, Church and nobility, above all the Church. Even though the Constitution had reserved a stridently confessional role for the Spanish state, an anomaly in an otherwise very progressive charter, the traditionalists countered that Spain's Catholicism came from God and history, not as a gift from the arrogant young lawyers of Cádiz. With more reservations the absolutists agreed, although the absolutist restoration of 1823 would be less clerical than 1814. During the crisis of 1813–14 these nuances on the Right were shelved by the abolition of the Constitution. For this task, Ferdinand needed a military coup, just as he had needed one in 1808 to oust his father from the throne. Most of the army was happy to oblige and to coalesce around the 'reaction incarnate', General Eguía, whose defiant wearing of outmoded wigs seemed to symbolise a desire to return Spain to the happier times of absolutism. On 4 May 1814, King Ferdinand, having amassed enough military support to prevail, decreed all acts

of the Cortes null and void. The Liberals were imprisoned, exiled or banished from court, and were thus tarred with the same brush as the *afrancesados* – the ‘Frenchified’ servants of the vanquished Bonaparte regime. Thus ensued six years of what is known to Spanish history as the *Sexenio absolutista*, Ferdinand’s absolute rather than traditionalist (with the exception of reviving the Inquisition) monarchy. The White atmosphere of May 1814 was described by a Zaragoza diarist:

11 May: Around 300 men assembled in the centre of the city at midnight to smash the tablet (*lápida*) representing the Constitution, throwing its rubble into the Ebro, and leaving in its place *vivas* to Fernando VII.

12 May: The ‘Great Day’. All householders have been ordered to illuminate their windows for three days in honour of the king’s coup, on pain of being considered ‘traitors to the *patria*’.

14 May: More than 4,000 copies of the king’s decree sold in one day, joy increasing all the more when lists were read out of all the imprisonments made in Madrid.⁷

Yet Ferdinand was unable to restore peace with stability. Instead of living up to his wartime propaganda image of a hero of suffering Spain, martyr and first amongst Spaniards, Ferdinand treated his kingdom as a personal patrimony rather than a sovereign nation, whilst placing himself in the hands of the Spanish Church far more than his eighteenth-century predecessors did, thereby storing up false theocratic expectations for the future.⁸ No peace dividend eased his lot. The post-war peace established by the Congress of Vienna saw Spain formally demoted to second-power status. The future peace of Europe would be directed by the powerful states of Russia, Austria, Prussia and Great Britain, and even defeated France would be welcomed back into the fold in response to renewed turmoil in Spain. Even if Ferdinand had had any vision of Spain’s place in the new era of peace (and all the evidence suggests that he did not), it is difficult to see how he might have achieved it. The demographic and economic devastation caused by the Peninsular War was compounded by the post-1810 Spanish American revolt, which first reduced, and then curtailed altogether, the remittances of silver and gold that had funded the eighteenth-century growth in state power. The consolidation of Spanish American independence between 1810 and 1836 caused great economic loss to Basque exports. It also disturbed traditional outlets for emigration at a time when the rate of

Basque population growth was accelerating. This meant that Basque communities which, in the eighteenth century, would have exported its surplus manhood to the Americas now faced a bottleneck of impoverished and underemployed men of military age who had little to lose by joining Carlist insurrections.⁹ The financial shortfall caused by the loss of empire, meanwhile, had to be made up by attempts to modernise methods of raising internal revenue. In 1817 a fiscal reform created the *derechos de puertas*, which saddled municipalities with a greater burden of taxation to fund state penury.¹⁰ Smugglers and bandits who managed to dodge provincial revenue guards became as much popular heroes as saboteurs of the state coffers. Meanwhile, the voided attempts of the Liberals to substitute state jurisdiction in the countryside for that of the manor, thereby creating a free market in landownership, were now revived as a desperate means of raising revenue.¹¹ Attempts to confiscate and sell off ecclesiastical and military lands met with the successful opposition of the Church and nobility. But a portion of lands owned directly by the Crown, together with some common lands held by municipalities, were sold off.¹² Whilst this measure barely helped the state's finances, it obviously reduced the resources of the municipalities and squeezed the amount of land available for rent.

Underlying the economic crisis was what contemporaries identified as a moral crisis. Parish priests anathematised the recent 'atheism' and 'Jacobinism' of the Liberals in equal proportion to what one royal decree termed the 'vices introduced during the war', which ranged from widespread prostitution to the new practice for women, even respectable ones, to walk the streets unaccompanied by men.¹³ This practice would be compounded during the Carlist War when women entered public roles in the absence of male heads of family, a handful even becoming militants and strikers. The rural masses, which during the war had seen their hopes of owning nationalised land dashed by the Liberals, now faced similar disappointment as the King kept the land in the hands of its feudal owners.¹⁴ The rural population accordingly took varying forms of direct action. Where legal appeals for redistribution (*reparto*) failed, peasants tore noble insignia from churches, refused feudal dues and turned ploughshares back into swords.¹⁵ The Fernandine regime responded with the rigours of an absolutist police state, reviving for a final lease of life the Inquisition which, as one Liberal fugitive discovered, kept 'an active agent in every single village in the realm'.¹⁶ The cities, especially the coastal ports receptive to liberalism, were divided into police districts answerable to regional captains-general who would crack down on unrest by closing taverns, establishing curfews and

monitoring the transit of outsiders.¹⁷ The army was thus key to the Fernandine police state. But soldiers faced arrears in pay, casual brutality at the hands of officers and inadequate rations: hardly conditions propitious to law and order. Meanwhile, despite the coup of 1814, the army was no monochrome: a Liberal faction remained amongst its officers, often now being placed on half-pay or in remote garrisons by a suspicious King.¹⁸ During the autumn and winter of 1819 several such officers were amassing forces around Cádiz as part of Ferdinand's effort to dispatch reinforcements for the cause of royalism in Spanish America. Under the command of Rafael del Riego they would end up marching not on Mexico, but on Madrid. And they would succeed where previous Liberal *pronunciamientos* had failed.

The first of these failures would later end up as the sword-arm of Spain's Liberal revolutions during the Royalist and Carlist Wars. Francisco Espoz y Mina had been the most successful Patriot guerrilla commander, turning Navarra, a conservative and autonomous region where socio-economic conditions had generated a uniquely popular armed mobilisation against the French, into a virtual fiefdom (his French enemies even dubbed him the 'King of Navarra'). Despite his later politics, Espoz had been violently at odds with the Liberals during the Peninsular War, even allegedly executing by firing squad a copy of the Constitution of 1812. This anecdote remains apocryphal, but it would have suited the Navarrese he commanded. Thus, when he hurried to the newly restored court of Ferdinand VII, he expected a reward, nothing less than the Viceroyalty of Navarra. But the King snubbed his entreaty, and Espoz returned to his Pamplona garrison and raised a revolt in the name of the Constitution he had so recently derided.¹⁹ When this failed, Espoz escaped retribution by escaping to France (his idealistic nephew, Xavier Mina, even following through on his uncle's pretexts by fleeing via France, the British Isles and the USA to Spain's restive Americas where he would die fighting for Mexican independence from Spanish absolutism). Ironically, when Espoz finally became viceroy, it would be as a Liberal fighting against the Carlist sons of veterans he had once commanded, failing militarily in his advanced middle age where in his youth he had triumphed. The year 1815 saw another guerrilla leader, Juan Díaz Porlier, pay the ultimate price for rebellion, and the following year saw an abortive Republican conspiracy called the Triangle.²⁰ In 1817 another popular war hero, Luis Roberto de Lacy, was executed amid much controversy after having tried to raise Barcelona, whilst in 1819 another commander, Vidal, would meet the same fate.

These veterans had acted with not insubstantial civilian support, often networked via powerful Masonic lodges which provided a natural conspiratorial environment for progressive elites who liked to exhaust all options for keeping the people out of politics. Yet their conspiracies ended in failure. What gave Riego success was Ferdinand's resolve to bring metropolitan rule back to Spanish America. The absolutist regime set great store by pacifying America so that bullion could flow again. Yet quite apart from the unpromising diplomatic environment, this task could only be achieved with the dispatch of sufficient troops, itself a task which was so costly as to be undertaken in circumstances which virtually guaranteed military rebellion: namely, inadequate and irregular pay and troop concentrations around the Liberal port of Cádiz which were slow to disperse due to insufficient trans-Atlantic shipping being available. Thus, when, late in 1819, the King ordered ten battalions to the province of Cádiz to await transport on festering hulks to Spanish America, the stage was set for disgruntled commanders to rally their equally disgruntled men – whose rallying cry was 'No America' – to overthrow the Restoration regime. Consequently, it was the army in 1820 which was breaking a regime, just as in 1814.

For several weeks it seemed as though Riego's revolution would meet the same fate as that of his predecessors. Marching across Andalucía, Riego's army blended Liberal appeals aimed at the urban well-to-do with populist promises aimed at the masses. The port-city of Algeciras, one of the first urban centres to be taken by Riego's army, saw its import duties on foreign goods abolished, the unpopular *derechos de puerta* tax system mothballed 'pending the design of a better system' and the important state tobacco monopoly broken up.²¹ Similar measures were enacted as other cities fell to the constitutional rebellion in January, February and March, whilst an open trade in grain imports was proclaimed as means of staving off recurrent famines.²² Despite these measures, Riego's rising soon petered out, as populations failed to rally, horses were hard to find, rains were torrential and soldiers deserted into banditry. Even those men remaining under Riego's command had no commissariat and were thus so reduced by hunger as to make enemies of the rural Andalusian communities in their path, demanding cash from the generally cashless villagers, and pillaging when none was forthcoming.²³ Other soldiers, like the cash-strapped privates in General Freyre's army, feared becoming substitutes for the American expedition and so tried to demonstrate their indispensability by pronouncing against Riego, committing atrocities (some 71 deaths and 171 wounded) in the genteel

streets of Cádiz in the name of the absolute king.²⁴ And if fellow officers saw Riego's men as deserters, so did the civilian population. In a January 1820 letter to a fellow revolutionary, Riego admitted the lack of popular support: 'What guarantees could we give to anyone who joined us? ... What help can we expect from the *pueblos*? Everyone runs for the hills as soon as they hear the sound of our drums.'²⁵ What saved the situation were the calculations of commanders elsewhere in Spain who thought that their careers would be better served by a constitutional regime. Thus, on 4 March, Ocaña's garrison pronounced for Riego, and the Liberal hero of 1812, Ballesteros, followed suit in Madrid, thereby sealing the fate of absolutism. Crowds sacked the gaols of the Inquisition and invaded the palace, and the King's nerve finally broke on 7 March 1820 when he swore allegiance to the Constitution of 1812.²⁶ A provisional junta staffed by what Ferdinand called his 'gaolbird' Liberals came into being. This junta was soon replaced by the Cortes, whilst those Liberal politicians who had been exiled or imprisoned even claimed six years' worth of back pay in a bid to re-establish the continuity with 1814.²⁷

Even though the army had restored to Spain its 'liberty', a crisis ensued as the resurgent constitutional authorities tried to subordinate it to civil supremacy. Liberal newspapers noted that, whereas in 1820 the army had been the nation's liberator, as recently as 1814 it had been its gaoler.²⁸ As a safeguard, the 'people-in-arms' principle now dictated the creation of the National Militia, a reform which, under the 1810–14 Cortes, had barely left the drawing board. For the time being the militia was little more than a society for the local well-to-do, enlistment into its ranks being conditional upon both a literacy test and the ability to afford the uniform.²⁹ The militia ordinances of 1820 were similar to those of the later Carlist War, when the citizens' force was reformed more cautiously. Zaragoza, a provincial capital with a population of 36,000, was, in April 1820, ordered to create six companies of 144 men each plus nine officers:

Uniform and turquoise pantaloons, white-metal buttons and black boots; officers and sergeants longcoat with buttoned lapels, high-peaked cap marked with the sign of town and province. Duties to include patrols to maintain order, pursue and arrest deserters and wrongdoers, whilst militiamen will enjoy *fuero militar* when active in these duties and will thus be bound by army ordinances, and will be paid a daily wage of 5 *reales* for each soldier, 6 for each corporal and drummer, and 8 for each sergeant (without bread ration).³⁰

Only under duress did the Liberals seriously open its ranks to plebeians, and even then on the understanding that they would do the bidding of their social superiors. From the outset the militia vexed the regular army, which was set on extracting a reward for having liberated the nation. Militiamen enjoyed the same immunity from civil jurisdiction (*fuero militar*) as the army, the only vague and practically meaningless condition for this privilege being 'when on active duty'. Thus, as during the Carlist War, militiamen and officers shared similar facilities enabling them to compete on matters of entitlement and honour. The army reserved the power to force the militia to disband under a state of siege, but this 'nuclear option' only displaced inter-service rivalry, to the streets, cafes and the Cortes where the Jacobin deputy, Romero Alpuente, repeatedly called for the army to be replaced by the militia altogether.³¹ Radicals like Romero Alpuente were representing the Radical Patriotic Societies and local militias which increasingly exercised an extra-parliamentary 'double regime' in Liberal Spain. Romero Alpuente owed his radicalism in part to his antimilitarism – the Liberals saw soldiers as brutish mercenaries lacking in civic nationalism – and in part to his passion to cut the tax burden, the benefits of which, to his mind at least, should be used to improve living standards. Many more civilian Liberals, by contrast, assumed that Spain's depleted post-imperial coffers should fund the expansion of state power provided for by the Constitution. The dissident *sevillano* utilitarian, José María Blanco White, criticised this careerism, noting that only Spain's minority classes of students, literati, merchants and officeholders could gain from constitutional rule, and his words were borne out by the *empleomanía*, or unrestrained competition for the government posts, unleashed by the Triennium.³² Whilst many Liberals sincerely believed that expanded government would eventually reverse Spain's social crisis, *empleomanía*, as in other Hispanic polities, should really be understood as the ladder undistinguished place-seekers climbed in order to achieve personal honour.³³

The regime had to recruit constitutional administrators on a diminishing budget: the populist suspension of consumption taxes during the Riego rising had robbed the government of 88 per cent of its projected revenue for the first half of 1820.³⁴ Forced to make economies, the government ordered the disbandment of Riego's revolutionary 'Army of Andalucía'.³⁵ But Riego's army resisted dissolution, and forged a personality cult around its leader. Born in 1784 in Asturias into a typically minor noble background, Riego was the epitome of the Spanish careerist officer bent on mastering the vicissitudes of politics to advance

his career. As his career had been doubly marginalised in 1814 due to both his suspected Liberal sympathies and his lengthy captivity in France, Riego was now psychologically incapable of merely settling for the promotion to general which he had gained for reasons of political expediency during the Andalusian rising.³⁶ In fact, in September he entered Madrid amidst a wave of agitation stoked up by the Patriotic Societies, whose members hoped that the liberator Riego might offer a better ladder for gaining office. Yet September 1820 was no Spanish *Brumaire*. Riego was bought off with the Captaincy-General of Galicia (followed early in 1821 by that of Zaragoza), and his men were sent home to their villages. These men had hoped to gain from a September 1820 Cortes decree awarding parcels of land to revolutionary veterans, but local authorities dragged their feet on this measure now that Riego had been neutralised.³⁷

This particular wedge driven between the army elite and the rank and file was masked by a humiliation of the throne and altar which appeased Radical-Liberal opinion and added insult to the injury of Ferdinand's royal instincts. In the November 1820 'Carvajal affair', the royal will came second to the oratorical prowess of the most prominent Liberal in the Cortes, the 'divine' Agustín de Argüelles, author of the Constitution of Cádiz. Like all Liberals, Argüelles wanted to advance the regalism of the eighteenth century by subordinating Spain's traditionally powerful Catholic Church to state power. Whilst parish priests would be left in their posts and even paid stipends from the public purse, the cloistered clergy should be defrocked, put to useful work, and their substantial lands sold off for profitable and productive uses. Thus, when *el divino* threatened to raise the streets of the capital if the King did not sign a bill to cut the cloistered clergy, Ferdinand ominously left the capital for the sanctuary of El Escorial, where the clerical party of his younger brother, Don Carlos, was known to hold sway. Having failed to rally support there, however, the King had no option but to return to Madrid and sign the bill into law. Now a virtual prisoner of the Constitution, things took a turn for the worse for the King as some 'hotheads' (*exaltados*), or 'men of 1820' (so-called for their desire to make more radical reforms than the 'men of 1812'), triumphantly joined the government.³⁸

Yet this Liberal bipartisanship did not portend stability. The army lost its revolutionary unity as Riego and his clique gradually dominated the levers of power whilst the rank and file went unpaid and unshod. Just as the Peninsular War had shown (and as the Carlist War would show) army officers tended to see politics in narrow career terms and their men as pawns to this end; purely military considerations came second.

As one historian put it with perspicacity, 'Men who did not want to serve were led by men who did not know how to serve.'³⁹ And as the Riego revolution had burdened the state with an excess of political officers, these potentially dangerous men had to be bought off with appointments which the Constitution had designed for civilians. Much of the blame for this situation should be laid at the polarisation of Liberal politics. Certainly, Spanish liberalism was steeped in generational conflict, young Radicals resenting the stranglehold of old conservatives. The men of 1820 grew so embittered at the older Liberal generation's stranglehold on public offices that they forged pseudo-Republican *Comunero* clubs which promoted increasingly violent attacks on the Church and monarchy in a bid to win power. The Left-Liberal challenge to the men of 1812 (*moderados*) in turn divided as the 1820 generation was caught between the rock of *moderado* and court disapproval and the hard place of Radical pressure.⁴⁰ Anguished by the collapse in April 1821 of a sister revolution in Italy, the *Comuneros* launched a press campaign to uncover absolutist sympathisers and rebellious priests.⁴¹ Rightly fearing the growing hostility of the Holy Alliance, the *Comuneros* also tried to safeguard the Spanish revolution by internationalising it. They welcomed Italian émigrés (the carbonari) into their lodges and militia battalions, whilst one Cortes deputy, Zorraquín, 'the foremost revolutionary in Spain', established correspondence clubs in Gerona and Catalan frontier towns with the aim of enlisting public support for Liberal Spain in the southern *départments* of France.⁴² When, during September 1821, Riego compromised himself in a plot forged by a group of Spanish and international Republicans, the moderate-Liberal (*moderado*) government dismissed him from the Captaincy-General of Aragón.⁴³

Meanwhile, government attempts to remedy state finances fell hardest on the poor. The unpopular consumption taxes (*derechos de puertas*) were re-established. Even though the Argüelles law began evicting monks and nuns and bringing their property to market, it was the highest bidder, not the landless labourer, sharecropper, tenant farmer or demobilised soldier who got possession of the nationalised property. The rural masses might yet have been appeased by the early 1821 Cortes decree that tithes for the parish clergy would henceforth be halved. But the half-tithe was accompanied by other taxes payable in cash, a massive burden for a rural population still largely unaccustomed to a cash economy, which, most devastatingly, came at a time of slump in prices for agricultural goods.⁴⁴ In fact, at least some foreign observers singled out the Liberals' formalisation of cash taxation as the origin of the collapse of the constitutional regime.⁴⁵ Even though this policy

was accompanied by the renewal of the 1811 Cortes decree which abolished feudal jurisdiction in the countryside, in theory obliging manorial lords to provide legal proofs of landownership and the right to receive rents from villagers, these crucial conditions were blocked by royal veto, whilst only a minority of Cortes deputies like Romero Alpuente and Alvaro Flórez Estrada pressed the matter, seeing *reparto* as a way of making the countryside constitutionalist instead of royalist. When the royal veto was finally overcome in May 1823, this was done merely as a forlorn attempt to win over the countryside from royalism. The Liberals' failure to enlist much support beyond the urban clubs and militia does not mean that the rural masses were apolitical. Attempts by the Liberal bourgeoisie to advance capitalism were met by a recognisably modern defence of traditional work practices. Alcoy was the textile capital of the old Kingdom of Valencia, employing some 40,000 rural outworkers. Thanks to the recent abolition of guilds, textile entrepreneurs were able to introduce self-acting lathes (*selfactinas*) as means of employing fewer workers more productively. The workers' response was decisive: some 1,200 of them overwhelmed the local militia, helped themselves to arms and seized control of the town for four days whilst they painstakingly dismantled all the *selfactinas*.⁴⁶ Although the Argüellian Liberals in the Cortes condemned these attacks on the sacred right of property, brushing aside Romero Alpuente's defence of the workers, similar episodes happened in centres of Catalan proto-industry amidst the French invasion of 1823.⁴⁷

As rural Spain moved from indifference to outright hostility to constitutional rule, it was clear that it was royalism rather than liberalism which enjoyed the initiative. This is a matter which divides historians. Leftist historians hold that the 1820–23 revolution failed because it was betrayed by its own leaders, the wealthy landowners and bourgeoisie having hijacked the democratisation process inherent in the Constitution of Cádiz and steered the ship of state back towards absolutism.⁴⁸ Rightist historians hold that if the masses remained royalist in 1820, they were even more fervently so in 1823, as the King abandoned all remaining pretences of accepting the revolution.⁴⁹ Since the 1990s other writers have tried to rescue Spanish history from its ideological partisanship by offering regional, comparative and international studies of the Triennium in a bid to Europeanise Spain.⁵⁰ The *exaltados* certainly went to great lengths in their attempts to embed the revolution in the masses. Yet most Liberals, even radical ones, shared a superior disdain for common Spaniards; and time and again they failed to comprehend the degree to which they were hated in return. Romero Alpuente had

co-founded the Radical *Comuneros* Society, and dominated the important 1822 *Landaburiana* Patriotic Society. But even though both of these clubs presided over sophisticated and virtually democratic networks of participation and reward for the urban popular classes, they were late in addressing the social crisis, and their leadership failed to rally to match the counter-revolution of 1823.⁵¹ Royalist resistance to Liberal rule in the countryside, by contrast, had been coterminous with the Liberal revolution itself. There were 122 local revolts against Liberal rule between 1820 and 1823.⁵² Royalist resistance was explained by Spain's geographical, social and economic diversity. As would be seen during the Carlist War, the heartlands of anti-Liberal revolt were to be found in the countryside rather than the towns, and, broadly, in increasing proportion the further north and north-east the constitutional authorities tried to impose their regime. The cradle of royalist resistance was in upland Navarra and the villages and small towns of the neighbouring Basque provinces, although resistance to the Liberals also spread to inland Catalonia, Aragón, Galicia and Old Castile. By the summer of 1823 even Andalucía, New Castile, Extremadura, Murcia and the Valencian-Catalan coastline – all areas where commercial and landowning oligarchies had vested interests in making liberalism work – witnessed violent popular royalism following close on the heels of the invading French army.

By the summer of 1822 formal civil war raged in Spain between Liberals and royalists. This first modern civil war in Spanish history was a geographical dress rehearsal for the Carlist War.⁵³ Until the summer of 1822 *moderado*-dominated governments had shown restraint towards royalism in the countryside, releasing scarce monies to fund public works and buy foodstuffs in the provinces, understanding that hardship was driving peasants affected by necessary Liberal reforms into the arms of rebellious priests and royalist guerrillas.⁵⁴ Meanwhile since the Carvajal affair the King had seemed safely under the Liberals' thumb, out of reach of the royalists acting in his name. King Ferdinand was an inviolable prisoner of the Constitution, relegated like Louis XVI before him to saying all the right things in public whilst confining his real thoughts to diplomatic correspondence. Don Carlos and his restive clerical faction, meanwhile, would not move openly against his brother's official display of constitutional monarchy. But on 7 July 1822 a royalist coup attempt in the heart of Madrid transformed the situation. The Royal Guard rising (which had been financed by the French embassy) was quashed, the defeated royalists taking to the hills to wage guerrilla war on a government which, after July, was in the hands of the

Radical Left, or fleeing to France whence many would return the following year under French arms.⁵⁵ The judicial execution of General Elío, Captain-General of Valencia, who had captained the absolutist coup in May 1814 and hanged Vidal in 1819, united the new government in a pact of blood whilst serving notice on those army officers who lacked ideological commitment to *exaltismo* that it was time to quit.⁵⁶ Several officers, seeing that the national and international winds were turning against the revolution, either followed the royalists into exile or defected to the rebel regency which was proclaimed in Ferdinand's name at La Seo de Urgel in August 1822. In turn the Radical regime installed Riego's men in civilian governorships, and set about imposing a military dictatorship which foreshadowed the most radical episodes of the Carlist War a generation later. Although Romero Alpuente's *Comuneros* were far-sighted enough to use this crisis to parcel out some marginal lands in the antediluvian south, most *exaltados* did not think beyond using state terror against royalist villagers.⁵⁷ The government of Riego's right-hand man, Evaristo San Miguel, imposed crippling cash fines on villages which failed to resist royalist bands, or even simply failed to show 'due respect towards constitutional forces'.⁵⁸ At the local level, priests and absolutists were fined, imprisoned, expelled, even killed. Espoz y Mina, whom the revolution had drawn from his French exile, led a reign of terror against royalist villagers in the north, destroying the Catalan town of Castellfullit.⁵⁹

If the constitutional army had managed, by the end of 1822, to crush royalist bands, whether it would stand up to Congress Europe was another matter. In October 1822, the Great Powers met at Verona to discuss intervention against Jacobinism in Spain. In the same month the San Miguel administration formally militarised Liberal society by imposing martial law on the National Militia and calling up some 67,000 men into the army.⁶⁰ For a generation afterwards the men of 1812 remembered these actions as proof that the *exaltados* were the 'real absolutists'.⁶¹ But foreign diplomatic pressure only increased in response to these measures, which emboldened the timid King to sabotage the work of his Radical ministers. In February 1823 Ferdinand, seeing that San Miguel had split the *exaltados*, exercised one of his remaining prerogatives by dismissing him, surviving the inevitable mob invading the palace shouting 'Death to the king!'⁶² The Radicals retaliated by derogating the King's remaining powers, pending the 'recovery of his health'. Meanwhile, the Congress of Verona, brushing aside Britain's abstention, finally invaded. Louis XVIII was eager both to lance a new boil of Jacobinism and to revive French prestige in Europe. He sent some

into Spain 56,000 French troops, accompanied by some 35,000 Spanish royalists, with the mission to restore Ferdinand to full powers.⁶³ The invasion of the 'One Hundred Thousand Sons of St. Louis' was astoundingly successful: unlike Napoleon's invasion in 1808, the French met virtually no popular resistance. The networks of Spanish elites who had mobilised the people in 1808 could not (or would not) do the same in 1823. The French invasion even faced little sustained resistance by either the army or the militia of the Liberal state. Had the army leadership united against the invasion, such was the suffering of their men that they would likely have turned on their officers. The National Militia either hid its guns, deserted or went openly royalist. Even the artillery corps, a socially mobile and exclusive part of the army noted for its liberalism, preferred to spike its guns rather than fire on the French.⁶⁴ The breach caused by factionalism, an unfair and political promotion system, and the inability of the constitutional regime to pay or even clothe its soldiers, had thus rendered the army unfit to face a professional invasion force in 1823 – all this despite the fact that some 88 per cent of taxes received by the Treasury in February 1822 went to fund the military.⁶⁵ By the end of August Cádiz was once again under French siege, and only some three weeks later this cradle of the Constitution fell, the Liberals releasing Ferdinand from captivity in the vain hope that the French might prevail upon him to issue an amnesty.

3

The First Carlist War: Context

The defeat of what historians call the Liberal Triennium strengthened Spanish royalism, although not in the way that Don Carlos's *faction* demanded. In order to trace how the 'Carlist' movement campaigned not just against the vanquished revolutionaries, but also against the Ferdinand's restored absolutism, we must first explain how the social crisis undid constitutionalism and bequeathed the conditions for renewed civil war. The reasons for the constitutional collapse are threefold. The regime had made itself unpopular with its repeated drive for taxes, conscription and the liberal property revolution, which, owing to both elite disdain for the character and capabilities of the masses and the constant economic crisis, had generally benefited elite interests at the expense of commoners. Thus, the Constitution was discredited, and the counter-revolution vengefully triumphant. A royalist officer in Córdoba proclaimed: 'the whole nation has been subverted by secret societies which have foisted upon us the foul Constitution of 1812, which, in the three years of its existence, has produced evils which will take three centuries to resolve'.¹ This was good propaganda, but the terror royalists unleashed against local Liberals was even more impressive.² The other reasons lay with the Spanish army, where divisions and political unreliability stretched from top to bottom. Whereas some officers (like Manuel Llauder) had remained royalist throughout the Triennium, many more (like Vicente Quesada) opportunistically defected to royalism during 1822–23. As the Liberal poet, Manuel José Quintana, who had written that 'kings are for the people, not people for the kings', would soon note from the cruelty of his internal exile, these latter men vainly hoped that by changing sides they might retain the careers and honours they had obtained under the Constitution.³ Other officers thought that more

might be gained by defending the revolution. General Zorraquín, the international revolutionary, died in a skirmish with French troops near Vic on 26 May 1823.⁴ The tragically miscast hero of the revolution, Rafael del Riego, was captured and executed, although not before he became a left-wing martyr in the process. Corralled by the *moderados*, Riego had returned to Madrid in August 1822 as *exaltado* President of the Cortes. Having lacked the time and means to gain the respect of his fellow officers, Riego could not but divide army opinion, and ended up being more admired by civilian Radicals than anyone else. Other army Liberals played a more ruthless game. Espoz was involved in skirmishes enough to save his honour, and then led his men into French captivity, complaining without irony that although the Constitution was great, it was detested by the Spanish people.⁵ A refugee in Plymouth, Espoz became a Garibalduesque international celebrity *avant la lettre*, local crowds flocking to his public appearances and obliging the jaded veteran to travel incognito to London; Riego, by contrast, was publicly garrotted.⁶ During the decade of reaction that was to follow, Espoz in exile would reinvent himself as a Radical 'Great Dictator', mixing Benthamite with Bonapartist principles, and maintaining an iron grip on the Spanish Liberals in first Britain and then France.⁷

But the constitutional collapse of 1823 did not produce the ascendancy of the royalist faction surrounding Don Carlos. It had been vanquished by Espoz, and remaining royalists who rallied in 1823 necessarily fought as auxiliaries to the French and thus lacked the independent gravity to sway Ferdinand. What the 'Carlists' wanted (the term first appears in official correspondence in 1824) was not the sort of modern absolute police state which Ferdinand favoured and which had been common throughout Metternich's Europe since 1815, but a full-blooded reactionary policy that would restore the privileged positions of the Church and nobility, decentralise legislative and jurisdictional powers, and relegate the monarchy to a medieval coordinating role. In other words, the Carlists wanted to revise not just the recent Liberal revolution but the entire eighteenth-century legacy of enlightened absolutism.⁸ These hopes were dashed during what was called the 'Ominous Decade' of 1823–33. The Carlist conception of society was organic, and in the Basque provinces and Navarra in particular it spoke out in defence of local traditions and privileges and against the centralising impulses of Madrid. The strongly Catholic, conservative and economically stable countryside of upland Navarra made this the natural refuge for Carlist insurrection. Even so, Carlism during the 1830s would spread to rural areas outside of its northern heartland. According

to Charles Henningsen, a British volunteer in Don Carlos's army who later fought for the Confederacy, Spanish civil wars were essentially a conflict between Liberal towns and royalist countryside, an observation shared a century later by the Hispanist, Gerald Brenan, for whom 'Carlism (was) nothing else than the hostility of a sturdy race of mountaineers and farmers to industrial life.'⁹ In fact, as we shall see, the urban versus rural divide was at least as much an effect as a cause of the Carlist War (on account of the displacement of refugees and combatants). But certainly, historians have seen the land as the root of popular fanaticism. Evaristo San Miguel, exiled in 1823 and returned to Liberal politics during the 1830s civil war, thought that the spread of Carlism to the eastern Spain could be arrested by equitable agricultural reforms.¹⁰ Twentieth-century historians interpreted the endurance of rural Carlism, not just during the 1830s war but also in a century of subsequent conflagrations, as evidence that Spanish revolutionaries, unlike their French counterparts, failed to win over popular support.¹¹

Some 24,000 Liberal families fled Spain, and military tribunals processed those who remained. By the time of their dissolution in August 1825, the tribunals had dealt with some 1,094 individuals, rather more than half of these being charged with political crimes. Whilst around three-quarters were condemned to punishments of varying severity, including death (132), the rest were absolved.¹² Former *constitucionalistas* were condemned to banishment of a minimum of five leagues from Madrid.¹³ The commercial elites of Málaga recorded the repression unfolding around them:

5 September 1823: Málaga has been occupied by French and absolutist troops who have decreed the establishment of the old system. The municipal staff have fled, and the Constitution tablet has been smashed to pieces. Official celebrations have been proclaimed, and the pre-1820 municipal system reintroduced.

27 October 1823: Orders have been issued to dismiss all teachers guilty of having taught the Constitution, whilst all National Militia arms have to be handed in within twenty-four hours.

18 July 1824: 3 supporters of the Constitution have been executed for no other crime than having been found with several proclamations against the government.

22 July 1824: General O'Lawlor has made important arrests of well-known *malaqueño* Liberals.

15 September 1824: 3 men have been sentenced to death and shot in Málaga: Lorenzo González (known as *el Pato*), Mateo de la Cruz and Antonio González; all for the 'atrocious crime of having destroyed the royal tablet' in the township of Benahavis.¹⁴

But even these draconian steps did not satisfy the Carlists. Despite the execution of some high-profile constitutionalists, and the vengeful imprisonment and internal exile of thousands who had not fled, political, financial and diplomatic expediency persuaded Ferdinand to relent. Although laws were passed making execution the penalty for acts of 'rebellion' – laws which would be used by both sides in the civil war after Ferdinand's death – these could be implemented as much against the Carlists as against the Liberals.¹⁵ Moreover, this crackdown was to be enforced not by the Inquisition, as in 1814, but by Spain's first centrally organised police force, which the Carlists condemned as the 'Frenchified' takeover of Spain's traditional character and an outrageous end for the Church's temporal power, which was now reduced to watered-down 'faith councils' (*juntas de la fé*).¹⁶ All these measures confirmed the worst fears of the royalists who were now referred to as the *ultras*, *apostólicos* and Carlists. A token political amnesty as early as 1824 provoked a royalist reaction in the abortive 'Capapé affair', followed a year later by a more serious rising at Brihuega. When, in 1826, Ferdinand agreed to a more substantial amnesty aimed at former *moderados*, royalist manifestoes denounced the King as a coward and a disaster as ruler.¹⁷

As with the Liberal officers of 1814, part of this invective was explained by frustrated careers. Reserve armies of royalist 'heroes' sought office and promotion but Ferdinand's second Restoration found the state coffers even emptier than in 1814. Once again, the state was virtually bankrupt. Ferdinand's default on the debts incurred under the Constitution brought only temporary relief as this action barred Spain from lucrative British debt markets. Ferdinand's technocratic Finance Minister, Luis López Ballesteros, managed to source new loans from Paris and Amsterdam, but only under onerous conditions.¹⁸ Spanish America remained free. Even though penny-packets of troops from Cuba and San Juan de Ulúa continued to harass Mexico as late as 1829, any last hopes for restoring metropolitan rule to the American mainland were ended by the defeat of the last great imperial army at the Battle of Ayacucho (Peru) in 1824. Moreover, even though Ferdinand ruthlessly dispossessed Liberal officers of their commissions, he did not replace them with royalists. Rather, the regime maintained a French garrison

as a Varangian guard, and reduced the Spanish royalist army to a mere skeleton. Even though the French carbonari had tried to sow discord amongst the Duke of Angoulême's troops before their 1823 invasion, the French garrison – which did not withdraw until 1828 – proved a reliable tripwire against renewed revolution and could be counted upon to stay out of Spanish domestic politics.¹⁹ Quite apart from the ire this provoked amongst a population which, a generation earlier, had fought the French, army elites bristled at the patronage diverted away from Spanish *pretendientes*. In July 1824, General Quesada's troops even skirmished with the French garrison in Madrid.²⁰ But during 1823, just as 1814, the army had some grounds for optimism. Whereas constitutional regimes had tried to subordinate the Spanish military to civilian authorities, only tacitly accepting the abusive 'fuero militar' and grudgingly accepting the rights of captains-general to declare states of siege, Ferdinand VII, in 1824, opened up the chances for a military recolonisation of society once more. The provincial assemblies and governorships instituted under the Constitution were abolished, and the captains-general saw their traditionally extensive police, judicial and administrative powers restored.²¹ But, in return, officers' commissions were squeezed and a French garrison of occupation maintained from the public purse. This meant that even during the Ominous Decade, around 50 per cent of state expenditure still went on security, with Spanish forces comprising, by 1833, some 50,000 regular troops and 652 generals and around 100,000 Royalist Volunteers (see below) according to an 1830 estimate.²²

And if army insiders had to endure Fernandine parsimony, things were far worse for the thousands of *ilimitados*, cashiered officers who were forced to eke out whatever meagre living they could, sometimes as 'professional subversives'.²³ Several *ilimitados*, and many more deserters, turned to brigandage. Brigandage has been asserted to be a 'natural' phenomenon in geographically and economically marginal societies like most of rural Spain.²⁴ But during the Peninsular War it had become conflated with patriotic resistance, and had thus been given political legitimacy.²⁵ Brigandage peaked in 1822 when unpopular conscription and economic reforms drove thousands of men into the hills. During 1822 two of the south's most notorious bandits, 'El Barbudo' (the Bearded One) and 'El Tempranillo' tried to insure their careers by asserting their royalism. It was a wise calculation, but it yielded very different results. El Barbudo, a brigand at large in Alicante and Murcia who had fought the French in the Peninsular War, was hunted down and hanged.²⁶ By contrast, El Tempranillo, a stronger presence in the

Andalucían Sierra Morena in command of a sophisticated extortion network, was not only pardoned by Ferdinand but also given a formal commission to punish other wrongdoers. El Tempranillo proudly quipped 'Ferdinand rules in Spain and I rule in the Sierra'; in 1833, at the age of 27, he was killed by a Liberal bandit.²⁷

Wrongdoing was honoured by political flags of convenience; during the Carlist War banditry and Carlism would be, in many ways, indistinguishable when operating behind the front lines. Spaniards since the Peninsular War had been suffering a collective trauma which made them materially and psychologically prepared to take to arms: this 'reserve army' of demobilised soldiers, deserters, outraged priests and downtrodden peasants could become a potent weapon if they could be harnessed to a political aim. At first it seemed as though the restored absolutist regime might channel this disaffection. As soon as the military tribunals were wound up, the reactionary militia force of 'Royalist Volunteers' (*Voluntarios Realistas*), which had come together during the Royalist War, was formalised by War Minister José de la Cruz, with a dedicated budget independent of army funding, and no real 'bottom limit' on recruitment. As Cruz remarked, this plebeian force would be instilled with 'elements of order and monarchical subordination' in contrast to the extinguished National Militia, which 'seemed set on turning each town into a state, and each town-hall into a government'.²⁸ Rising in number from 70,000 in 1825 to a peak of 284,000 in 1832, the Volunteers, however, proved to be no Sanfedisti. Like their National Militia forbears the Volunteers enjoyed both immunity from civil prosecution and cash remuneration when on service, and got to run all manner of municipal rackets, whilst terrorising village Liberals. Thus, historians have labelled the Volunteers fanatical, violent and a financial black hole.²⁹ Ferdinand hoped that they might please the royalists, thwart the Liberals and check the 'professional subversives' in the diminished regular army. Yet Ferdinand would not concede the Volunteers' main demand that they replace the army altogether. Nevertheless, the Volunteers blocked Liberal attempts to regain power after 1823. The Liberals' attempts were organised by Espoz who, from his London exile, directed doomed but often dramatic Liberal invasions. In 1826 the Bazán expedition to Valencia, learning the lessons of the Royalist War, blanketed villages with propaganda promising land.³⁰ Liberalism was not just a creed of desperate exiles. A few months after the Bazán expedition, Don Carlos's new bride, María Teresa, the ultra-conservative princess of the *miguelista* side in the Portuguese civil war (1826–34), was publicly insulted by a crowd shouting *mueras* whilst she toured Madrid.³¹

Whilst Liberals attacked Fernandine absolutism from the Left, Carlists did so from the Right. The rightists' moment came in the so-called 'War of the Aggrieved' of 1826–27, a rising centred in rural Catalonia (where the rebels were called *Malcontents*) which was Carlist in all but name: quite literally, as the rising rallied to its 'Manifesto of the Federation of Pure Royalists' (*Manifiesto de la Federación de Realistas Puros*), signed in Madrid in November 1826 by anonymous 'Members of this Catholic Federation, graced by Heaven and Eternal Blessing' who explicitly called for the replacement of King Ferdinand by Don Carlos. The authorship of this manifesto remains in doubt, but its spirit is clear. Its demands for the re-establishment of the Inquisition, banishment of the amnestied *afrancesados*, an end to technocratic reforms and the removal of the constraints on the power of the Royalist Volunteers, all described the demands of the most reactionary (*apostólico*, or theocratic) wing of the Carlist insurrection of 1833.³² The Aggrieved were led by Agustín Saperes and the smuggler, Josep Bosoms, both 'heroes' of 1822–23. Their followers – whose numbers varied between 20,000 and 30,000 that summer – comprised unemployed officers and men, suborned Catalan militia (known as *somatenes*) and Royalist Volunteers, villagers made desperate by ongoing capitalist reforms in agriculture and several ideologically committed 'true believers', most of whom were priests.³³ The *Agraviados'* insurrection briefly invaded the Basque provinces, the cradle of the later Carlist revolt, seizing some Royalist Volunteers arms near Vitoria.³⁴

Despite their manifesto, most of the Aggrieved claimed to be 'liberating' Ferdinand VII from 'evil counsellors', the amnestied courtiers of moderate-Liberal and *afrancesado* backgrounds, whilst at local level manifestoes spoke against economic modernisation. Spain continued the drive towards a single national market and a cash economy at a time when crop prices were plummeting: from their peak level of 100 during the famine year of 1812, agricultural prices plummeted to 63 in 1814, 49 in 1820, 45 in 1826 and to a low of 33 in 1830.³⁵ Catalan parish priests defied the loyal Fernandine bishops in droves, drawing money and even weapons from the restored monasteries.³⁶ All bishops except one stayed loyal for strategic reasons: the cloistered clergy had recovered their numbers from a low during the Jacobinism of 1823 of 8,000 to a figure which would climb to 61,272 by 1833.³⁷ This ecclesiastical recovery had been achieved by Ferdinand's decision in 1823 to return to the Church its lands which had been nationalised during the Triennium, ruining local buyers who had bought into this Liberal revolution and who got no compensation. (By contrast, notes issued during 1822–23

by royalist leaders for peasants' supplies were paid. This made villagers more willing to support royalist insurrection in 1827 and, especially, in 1833.³⁸) But parish priests also justified their rebellion in spiritual rather than strategic terms. Liberalism – or rather the progressive and episcopalian Catholic current they called Jansenism which spawned Spain's first Liberals – undermined those popular religious practices, such as the idle saints' days and the burial of dead inside churches, which defined cultural life at the local level.

After a lacklustre start, the rebels made a capital out of Manresa, whence a royalist newspaper briefly appeared. The rebels took villages, conveniently discovering amongst local notables 'Liberals' whom they could ransom and rob.³⁹ This conflict already showed signs of violent actions against 'spies' and harbingers of 'melancholic news', which particularly damaged a society without railways and telegraphs (this feature would also characterise the Carlist War).⁴⁰ But the *Agraviados'* domination of the Catalan countryside was short-lived. Ferdinand sent forth an army which swept all before it, pacifying the whole region during September 1827, executing dozens of rebels, and deporting to North African garrison prisons around 300 combatants who refused the King's pardon. Saperes and Bosoms managed to flee to France, although the latter was lured back to the frontier in February 1828 and given up for execution.⁴¹

The rising had been launched in Ferdinand's name, and Liberal historians have since been routinely perplexed by a legitimist rising against the legitimate king. In 1823, after all, Ferdinand VII had been restored to full powers, and wasted no time persecuting his Liberal tormentors via his Justice Minister, the humble-born Francisco Calomarde – much derided by contemporaries and historians alike as a base upstart – who attacked not just the Liberals but also their values when he replaced 'liberal' science teaching in colleges and universities with Counter-Enlightenment theology and bull-fighting.⁴² But otherwise Ferdinand would not share power. Rather, through a closed camarilla of favourites, the King timidly pursued a policy of modernisation which gradually adopted several of the more conservative, technocratic reforms of the vanquished Liberals. Thus, all other noble, clerical and popular interests were to be subordinated to his will, Ferdinand seeing fit, like any eighteenth-century absolutist before him, to govern in the interests of the people without having to be accountable to them in any way. Ferdinand's gambit reveals that there were not the 'two Spains' of popular legend, but at least three. Whereas the Liberals were certainly the progressive Left, in that they wanted to advance the eighteenth-century

enlightened absolutist reforms into the modern realm of national sovereignty, constitutional monarchy and individual (rather than corporate) rights of property, the Right was divided in two ways. The absolutist wing, personified in Ferdinand VII, understood 'absolutism' to rest on purely in the powers of the king. The traditionalist, or legitimist, wing of the Right, however, wanted to strip the monarch of all the Bourbon reforms which, since the eighteenth century, had so enhanced his power, passing onto the Church, nobility and other corporate bodies the 'absolute' right to enjoy their traditional privileges.⁴³ In the rural Basque provinces and especially Navarra, where the *fueros* were resilient, the Church popular and arms never more than a few yards away, this Carlist current could raise an insurrection.⁴⁴

Luckily for Ferdinand's regime, the failure of the Aggrieved meant that the Carlists, for the time being, were a spent force. Don Carlos remained loyal in deed if not in conscience.⁴⁵ Portuguese *miguelistas* tried to circulate proclamations aimed at reigniting a fraternal rising in Spain, but postmasters in Badajoz intercepted these with apparent ease.⁴⁶ For the Liberals in exile, however, the failure of the Aggrieved transformed their invasion schemes from spontaneous 'heroic gestures' into properly organised affairs.⁴⁷ But the Fernandine regime also organised its repression, at both home and abroad. When in 1828 some Burgos printers produced the inflammatory 'Tears of Mother Spain', a thesis which condemned the entire history of Bourbon absolutism, and demanded that the 'deaf king' reconvene the Cortes ('for Spaniards saved the nation on the 2 May 1808'), the government response was ruthless. The writer and his printers were all gaoled, although not before several copies of the thesis had circulated.⁴⁸ Abroad, the Spanish government exploited exiles' penury to infiltrate their networks. Romero Alpuente was so short of cash that he wittingly maintained a spy for the Spanish regime as his manservant and tried in vain to extract a subsidy from Prime Minister Wellington, a man whom, in a previous incarnation, he had excoriated.⁴⁹ In July 1829, Spain persuaded the Wellington administration to scrap the exiles' subsidy.⁵⁰ This was the nadir of Liberal fortunes. But in 1830, the international situation changed in the exiles' favour and against the Carlists. In Britain a Whig ministry came to power and boosted the long-standing links its Radical wing had cultivated with Spanish Liberal exiles.⁵¹ More importantly, in France, the Orleanists came to power in the Revolution of 1830.

The centre of Spanish Liberal operations thus shifted to France, where the revolution of July 1830 initially portended better prospects of success. In October, Espoz sent one invasion across the Pyrenees in

coordination with a 400-strong invasion of assorted émigrés and adventurers led by the veteran of the lost American wars, General Jerónimo Valdés, who had resisted coming under Espoz's direct command. Espoz's propaganda appealed to Spaniards to 'forget the past', a shrewd choice of words which might relate either to absolutism or to the disastrous effects of Liberal rule during the Triennium. But they were defeated by a 7,000-strong government force under General Llauder. Valdés' force was defeated at Vera, and only the swift intervention of Espoz extricated the survivors and brought them back across the frontier.⁵² Despite Espoz's show of contrition, the civilian population did not rally to the Liberal invasion, and it was small consolation that the Carlists failed to answer with a rising of their own. But the Carlists were not demoralised. Don Carlos was still the heir to the throne and victorious General Llauder accordingly ingratiated himself with the heir apparent.⁵³ But the changed international context belied Carlist confidence. Although Madrid got Paris to seal the border to Spanish émigrés, the Liberal French regime received Spanish diplomatic recognition in return.⁵⁴ Moreover, the Whig administration in Britain, Belgian revolution, Polish rising and the resilient *pedrista* side in the Portuguese civil war, combined with the French Revolution, all had the hallmarks of an emerging 'Liberal international' which might sway Spanish affairs. In November 1831, an international force of idealists, led by the Spanish Liberals Torrijos and Manzanares, invaded southern Spain in a Mazzinian-style gesture of 'spontaneous revolution'.⁵⁵ This attempt also failed, but in circumstances which made martyrs out of the invaders.

Despite – or perhaps because of – the changed international scene, Carlist conspiracies mounted during 1832–33. As Ferdinand's health deteriorated, a series of court manoeuvres contrived to put the crown beyond Don Carlos's reach. This scenario was caused by the 'La Granja affair' of 1832, a palace revolution which confirmed that María Cristina would succeed King Ferdinand as regent until their daughter, Princess Isabella, came of age. Thus, Don Carlos was excluded from what he saw as his God-given duty to succeed. With the moribund King handing over the running of the monarchy to his reformist wife, a crackdown on Carlists ensued. The Royalist Volunteers were opened up to recruits of non-royalist backgrounds and state power centralised over them. A technocratic Ministry of Development (an Interior Ministry by another name) was created with wide-ranging powers against regional Carlists, and this was reinforced by the 1833 territorial reorganisation of Spain into 49 similarly sized provinces.⁵⁶ Manuel Llauder, who so recently carried favour with Carlists, now established a military dictatorship

against them. Other Carlist sympathisers who escaped the attention of the Cristino military, were nonetheless driven to insurrection by economic insecurity.⁵⁷ Despite the government purge, it was clear that the Carlist faction could not be brought to heel. Rather, the purge forced the Carlists to contest the Cristino succession from the country rather than the court. Staring into the abyss, the now uniformly Cristino court faction tried for a final time to persuade Don Carlos to renounce his claim, a courtier asking him plainly: 'Do you want a civil war?'⁵⁸ Don Carlos replied that it was the Cristino faction which wanted war by illegitimately revoking his God-given duty to rule. Don Carlos's hand was then forced when one of the conspiracies (centred on the Bishop of León) turned into an abortive rising launched in the prince's name. Don Carlos fled to Portugal, where he raised his standard amidst friendly *miguelistas*. Exasperated by the news that Carlos would not recognise the Isabeline succession, the dying King ordered him exiled to Italy. Carlos prevaricated and reopened the *miguelista-agraviado* conspiratorial network which had been dormant since 1827, whilst at the same time making sure he did not risk re-entering Spain until Fernando was dead and enough armed Carlist support was forthcoming.⁵⁹ For his part, the bishop had his assets seized and was placed in solitary confinement, but escaped to join his King in Portugal after Ferdinand's death.

The Pretender's flight galvanised rather than stymied Carlist conspiracies. Arms were forged in convents and monasteries, illicit deliveries took place between Portuguese *miguelistas* and Carlists in northern Spain, whilst even a prospective 'pan-legitimist' uprising planned to link Marseilles and southern France with northern Spain on the occasion of Ferdinand's death. Whilst Llauder purged Carlists from the army, Prime Minister Cea Bermúdez, by contrast, pursued a *juste milieu* policy, hoping, like any enlightened technocrat, that the 'nonsense' of Carlist versus Liberal violence would cancel itself out.⁶⁰ Whilst Llauder's military dictatorship was allowed to run its course, Cea hoped that his crash reforms in the way the state was organised would suffocate the warring factions 'from above'. Cea's civilian absolutism thus rivalled the regional dictatorships of the Cristino generals. The February and November 1833 municipal reforms were carried out by force, reforming town halls to ensure that they would be under the sway neither of taxpayers as during the Triennium, nor of local Royalist (Carlist) hierarchies as during the Ominous Decade. Henceforth, town halls would represent only 'respectable' local interests. (The latter were to be elected only on a highly restrictive franchise: masters of guilds and members of other corporations became local electors along with an equal number of those

who paid the highest rates of taxation.⁶¹) Cea's moderate reformism might have worked a decade earlier, but now it was largely irrelevant. Carlists and Liberals were locked into a fight to the death which was not just played out on the streets but also at the highest levels of the state. For Carlists, Cea was a servant of usurpation, and the thin end of the wedge for godless revolution, and for Liberals, his reforms – and the associated Royal Statute (see below) – did not go far enough. When Cea, on 4 November 1833, proclaimed that 'the principles of government observed by the late Ferdinand VII will never be changed', he showed his fundamental misunderstanding of both sides.⁶² This popular tension was described in an 1833 literary journal by the young Romantic and pessimist, Mariano José de Larra:

In our vulgar language we are experiencing phrases which have come of age and are being spread throughout a whole nation. In political vocabulary especially it takes only one word to fall from the lips of an orator in his small circle, and a great number of people, anxious for words, pick it up, spread it by word of mouth, and with the speed of an electric bolt a larger number of living machines repeat and consecrate it, *most times without understanding it* [Larra's emphasis], and always failing to calculate that it sometimes only takes one word to raise a mob, inflame passions, and so cause a revolution.⁶³

Meanwhile, Cea's purging of political factionalism in the army reduced this force by the time of Ferdinand's death to the toothless size of 45,000 men. This was certainly too small for a military coup to seize the state, which was his intention: but it was also too small to crush the Carlist insurgency that grew in the north upon word of the King's death. By 1837, the Cristino army would grow to over 200,000 effectives; but the early months of the civil war would prove the error in Cea's strategy.⁶⁴

4

The Basque Phase, 1833–35

I believe in the power of Queen Isabella II, creator of Spanish felicity, and in María Cristina her mother, our Queen-Regent, who gave birth to Ferdinand VII's daughter in order to console us and to condemn the friars. I believe that the mother and daughter suffered under the infernal government of Calomarde, that the mother was infamously oppressed and her honour outraged, that she descended to the dungeons to save faithful liberals... I believe in pardoning those who have been led astray, in the resurrection of our National Congress, in our political regeneration.¹

This chapter narrates and explains the First Carlist War from the start of the insurgency in October 1833 to the start of the siege of Bilbao in May 1835. It shows how the Carlists mobilised the charismatic leadership of Tomás de Zumalacárregui and propitious socio-political factors in the Basque country to create a Carlist state which expanded in spite of increasingly desperate Cristino military attempts to vanquish it. It also introduces the significance of Carlist insurgencies in the Maestrazgo and Catalonia, although these are explored in greater depth in subsequent chapters. It explains how the cumulative Cristino defeats on the battlefield were both the cause and consequence of political revolution. The popular experience of the Cristino war effort created a 'community of sacrifice' amongst both soldiers and militiamen, who gave this radical political expression through mutiny, defection, atrocities and a new popular aesthetic of heroic martyrdom. Finally, this chapter also introduces the fraught international context of this civil war.

Ferdinand's death in October 1833 transformed Carlist violence into formal civil war. Technically the first Carlist rising began not in the

Basque country but in Talavera de la Reina (New Castile), an isolated and ill-fated attempt by a local postmaster in an episode celebrated by Carlists as evidence that their cause was nationwide, voluntary and popular.² This case would be stronger if there were an even pattern of civilian risings, or civilian support for Volunteers, across Spain matching the activity in the Basque country. Yet this was not the case. An attempted coup by the Royalist Volunteers at the seat of power in Madrid failed on the first day when the urban masses failed to rally and the Cristino army seized control of the Volunteers' artillery.³ Barcelona's Carlist-ridden Royalist Volunteers were disarmed without much violence.⁴ Oviedo's Volunteers were disarmed during Mass by troops who seized the weapons the Volunteers had piously left outside. Inchoate risings elsewhere did not prevail and failed to match the conditions in the Basque country.

But even here the rising had only mixed success. Navarra, where Carlism was strongest, was actually the slowest to rise, ironically because popular royalism had always been so dominant here that the local Royalist Volunteers were barely organised to begin with. The Navarrese veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars, Santos Ladrón de Cegama, had first to raise Carlists in nearby Logroño before striking north. His capture and execution on 11 October backfired on the Cristinos, as hundreds of Navarrese peasants mobilised to avenge this popular royalist. Meanwhile, the Deputation of Navarra was caught between the Carlist sympathies of its members and countrymen and the reality of Cristino military control.⁵ It prevaricated by refusing to swear allegiance to the Cristino monarchy until María Cristina had first sworn to observe the *fueros*, as was indeed constitutionally proper, but which, more importantly, reflected *Realpolitik*.⁶ In the rest of the Basque country, the greater preparedness of the Volunteers gave local Carlists little difficulty in mobilising armed forces, most dramatically in Vizcaya, where the Royalist Volunteers answered the calls of Carlist insurrectionists and invaded Bilbao, levying punitive taxes on known Liberals. Six weeks' 'curfew for the rich' ensued until Cristino troops reoccupied the city on 25 November, after which Bilbao would become a symbol of the Cristino and Liberal cause, resisting repeated sieges.⁷ But at the time, this future was far from certain, and Bilbao's civil authorities had accordingly tried to maintain as 'neutral' a posture as possible during the Carlist occupation, keeping few and 'antiseptic' minutes of meetings, whilst prudently funding the Volunteers' wages at the same time and even arranging for the chamber of commerce to 'lend' the Carlists a cheap loan of 1.8 million reales repayable at 3 per cent interest.⁸ When the Cristinos

liberated the city, they exposed this embarrassing accommodation, for which the Madrid government made the commander of the Cristino liberation force, General Sarsfield, a boisterous Peninsular War veteran, responsible, rather than the local authorities. Sarsfield was removed by the Cristino regime, which had had cause on other occasions to suspect his loyalty.⁹ The early loss of Bilbao was a blow for the cause of Carlism, as most of the Vizcayan volunteers deserted when Bilbao ceased funding their pay, and would not return to fight until Carlist territorial expansion throughout 1834 subjected them to compulsory enlistment.¹⁰ The burghers of Bilbao, for their part, stiffened their resolve against future Carlist attempts.

Risings elsewhere in the Basque country and beyond hardly compensated for this loss. Royalist War veteran Valentín Verástegui raised a Carlist insurrection in Alava, named himself commander-in-chief, and invaded Alava's capital of Vitoria. Here, foral authorities, as at Bilbao, tried 'neutrality', deflecting Verástegui's overtures. Verástegui prevaricated and set up a rival junta in the name of Carlos V, an ominous move which could only point to the eventual suppression of the civil authorities.¹¹ But the foral authorities persevered until Sarsfield's Cristino division on its way to Bilbao defeated Verástegui's insurgents and liberated Vitoria. Unlike Santos Ladrón, Verástegui survived to fight another day. Looking beyond the Basque country, the internal threat to Madrid had been quashed, but there remained the prospect of a descent on the capital from without. The threat came from the aged priest, Jerónimo Merino, famous guerrilla veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars and the obvious choice to command the forces of the Carlist junta of Old Castile which convened in Merino's old 'fiefdom', the heavily church-dotted province of Burgos. Merino's conservatism posited the Cristinos as dangerous revolutionaries: 'Do you believe that the declared enemies of Ferdinand VII, those who dragged him captive to Cádiz, and who proscribed faithful royalists, can in any way be trusted to defend our monarchical institutions and religion?'¹² This proclamation appealed to several thousand more in his path during his march on Madrid, who remembered the disappointment of Liberal rule during the Triennium and the opportunities offered by royalism in 1823. Some even included disbanded royalists fleeing from the Cristino capital. But Merino was swamped with men he was unable to arm or provision, and soon had to release the married volunteers from his service. Meanwhile, the Carlist junta near Burgos lost confidence in his campaign and ordered Merino to return to defend Carlism in La Rioja against Sarsfield's counter-insurgency. Thus, the first 'March on Madrid' in the conflict

proved abortive. But its impact was felt inside the capital, where the new Liberal press decried the subversive opinions and violence of disbanded Royalist Volunteers, and demanded that the Liberals' militia of 1820–23 be resurrected.¹³ Even though fears persisted of a Carlist 'fifth column' in the capital, the immediate danger to Madrid was over. General Sarsfield marched east from the Portuguese frontier, pursuing Merino's retreat to Salamanca and thence to Burgos, near which he clashed with Merino in an inconclusive foggy battle on 13 November 1833.¹⁴ Merino rallied in northern Castile, reinforced by Colonel Cuevillas, purged Military Governor of Zaragoza who had raised a guerrilla force in La Rioja. But Verástegui refused to send him any reinforcements from Alava, and a Cristino force soon put Merino's men to flight, leaving the priest with only Cuevillas and a dozen other followers, little better than fugitives. Merino and Cuevillas now fled west towards Portugal, avoiding Cristino security patrols and escaping from a number of ambushes. At the end of 1833, Merino finally reached northern Portugal and the relative safety of Don Carlos's fugitive court and friendly *miguelistas*.¹⁵

The Carlist insurgency obliged María Cristina to look for political support amongst the exiled Spanish Left. On 23 October 1833, despite Cea's objections, a near-total amnesty was proclaimed for exiled Liberals. Meanwhile, army officers whose careers had survived the purges were rewarded with powers to control, and disband where necessary, the Royalist Volunteers. At first these measures, along with initially successful counter-insurgency operations and the onset of the northern winter, promised an early peace. However, the Carlists had merely dispersed – 'changed their shirts' – and would return to fight again.¹⁶ Given that the number of rural insurgents was potentially limitless, and given that the Cristino army was still too small, no end to the conflict was in sight in 1833. A Cristino cordon sanitaire around the Basque country was spread too thinly and sapped reserves which might have dealt a decisive counter-insurgency blow. Meanwhile, the process of purging the Carlist-ridden Volunteers was still not complete. At one end of Spain, the weeks after the start of the war saw Liberal Cádiz reinforce its Volunteers against any Carlist attempts, whilst at the other end the Royalist Volunteers had either gone over to the insurgency or were held in abeyance by Cristino captains-general reluctant to call them out in a poisoned and uncertain political climate.¹⁷ Into this vacuum stepped the Cristino army, but this was too small due to Cea's fears of a coup, and it had risen to only 60,000 effectives by the end of 1833. Also, a large part of these were assigned to Extremadura and Portugal as the 'Army of Observation', tasked with fighting *miguelistas* and arresting

suspect governors of Spanish border garrison towns.¹⁸ Admittedly, the insurgents were also too few, as Don Carlos's refusal to lead an insurrection until his brother died had limited their organisation. But the regional balance in the Basque country would shift in favour of the Carlists thanks to the emergence of a charismatic military genius as their leader.

Tomás de Zumalacárregui (1788–1835) is central to understanding the Basque phase of the war. Born in Ormaiztegui (Guipúzcoa), Zumalacárregui was a veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars, as a Patriot and Royalist respectively, and was purged for his Carlism in 1833. Many of his biographies border on hagiography, detailing such colourful episodes as his men accepting half-pay without protest, and a Basque grandmother who offered her last surviving grandson for service, and then a horse after Zumalacárregui tearfully rejected her blood sacrifice.¹⁹ Such miracle stories reveal the imaginative and ideational world of the Carlists. These stories were probably nonsense, or grossly distorted, but useful, as in being deprived of the open support of Rome and almost all of Spain's bishops, the Carlists rallied to Zumalacárregui as their own Christian soldier, and even refashioned their own organic religious iconography around him and subsequent national models and symbols. Unsurprisingly, most modern historians have seen through this Romantic haze. His most recent biography reverts to the Romantic legend, however.²⁰ John Coverdale defended a contingent interpretation of Zumalacárregui's motivations: he was apolitical, the only books he was known to have read being either military or religious in nature.²¹ Zumalacárregui's importance explains the quantity and diversity of his representations. Within weeks of the first rising in October 1833, Zumalacárregui made himself Carlist Commander-in-Chief of Navarra, at the head of a growing army of local peasants which used guerrilla tactics to turn Cristino garrisons and expeditions into a pale imitation of the French a generation earlier.²² These guerrilla tactics were overborne throughout 1834 by Zumalacárregui's painstaking formation of cavalry and artillery units, eroding Cristino superiority in these arms (and indeed despite the lack of a cavalry tradition in Navarra).²³ Zumalacárregui's military success earned him full administrative powers, conferred upon him by Don Carlos's exiled court in March 1834. Zumalacárregui thus enjoyed untrammelled power until the King arrived in the Basque country in July.²⁴

The first stage of Zumalacárregui's strategy began between the winter of 1833 and the following summer with the employment of his army in a guerrilla war of surprise and ambush. During this first stage his

army lacked the strength to wrest Bilbao from its Cristino liberators. His first set-piece battle on 29 December 1833 in La Berrueza valley was indecisive: Zumalacárregui simply wanted to blood his men against the superior Cristino forces and disengaged in good time to prepare for his next operation. This was a raid into the fertile Ribera region of southern Navarra, populated by hostile Castilian-speaking landowners, whose 'enemy' produce would feed his guerrillas.²⁵ Zumalacárregui's second stage ran from the summer of 1834 until the winter, and involved controlling rural territory and communications. The ensuing third stage involved taking Cristino forts and fortified towns.²⁶

Cristino Spain would never produce a commander to match Zumalacárregui. Quesada, who had abandoned a lifelong career of royalism in order to escape the Cristino purges, used court pressure to replace Jerónimo Valdés as Viceroy of Navarra, an old office which was interchangeable with the new command of the Army of the North. Valdés was a veteran of the American Wars and Governor of Cartagena (Murcia) in 1833, but his liberalism was ahead of court politics at the time. Quesada, by contrast, had absolutist credentials which recommended him to the Queen-Regent, and, as a 'pasha', in January 1834 had dissolved a defence junta in Santander which an advanced Liberal had led against local Carlists.²⁷ His perspicacious 'State of Navarra' letter to María Cristina claimed detailed knowledge of the insurgency and won him the vicerealty. As Cristino Viceroy, Quesada acted on his rightist political instincts by writing to Zumalacárregui, offering him a post in Burgos in return for his recognition of the Cristino transition. But Zumalacárregui, in conference with his staff, publicly rejected Quesada's overture, thereby reinforcing his own authority and image of indispensability for the Carlist cause.²⁸ Writers from both sides agreed that Quesada's overture was a disastrous own-goal, for in reinforcing Zumalacárregui's legitimacy it weakened the Cristino claim they were fighting outlaws.²⁹ Moreover, Quesada could not parry this blow by successful campaigning. Although the new Urban Militia (see below) was beginning to garrison towns, freeing up the army for mobile operations, Quesada was deaf to its Liberal-patriotic pull and instead relied on his army. But the latter waged war ineptly: launching frontal attacks against mountain positions, losing baggage and communications, and being outmanoeuvred and outfought by Zumalacárregui's genius in active defence.³⁰ A key early Carlist victory occurred at Alsasua in April 1834 when Zumalacárregui routed Quesada's convoy, cutting Pamplona off from supplies from Vitoria, and enveloping the Navarrese capital in a siege which lasted on and off throughout the war.

The Liberal press blamed Quesada for his failure and in June 1834 he was relieved of his command.³¹ Having conceded that the Carlists could no longer be crushed by mobile counter-insurgency operations, Quesada knew that fortified lines would be the best strategy but protested he had too few troops to implement this.³² Even though this 'blockhouse' counter-insurgency strategy had been successfully pioneered by the French during the Peninsular War, the Cristinos still lacked the resources to make it effective, as one of his officers complained in response to the criticism of the Liberal press: 'let us not fool ourselves...many more troops are needed if we are to crush the hordes infesting these provinces, just as our commander-in-chief explained when this command was conferred upon him'.³³ Quesada's strategy avoided expanding the war effort to the people, in contrast to the doctrine of his leftist colleagues, Espoz and Jaúregui. Gaspar de Jaúregui (alias 'El Pastor'), guerrilla veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars and of Espoz's Pyrenean invasion, was amnestied and recalled to his native Guipúzcoa to lead a local Cristino free corps. Jaúregui was ambitious to replace Quesada, but Madrid thought him an uncouth *parvenu* and blocked his promotion.³⁴ His case was not helped when the French press reported that he had promised to rid the Basque country of rebels within a fortnight.³⁵ Quesada's replacement was actually the Galician Marquess José Ramón Rodil, the only veteran of Spain's lost American wars to have emerged with any credit as a tactician, who, in April 1834, was disengaging from the Quadruple Alliance invasion of Portugal. Unlike in Navarra, Cristino operations here had been generally bloodless and effective. Rodil's force had helped force Dom Miguel renounce the Portuguese throne (in the 26 May 1834 Treaty of Evora-Monte), even though the Cristinos' real prize, Don Carlos, escaped on a Royal Navy ship bound for an exile in Britain.³⁶ Despite this failure, Rodil's 12,000 troops, fresh from Allied victory in Portugal, were the best in the Cristino army.³⁷ Rodil began his command of the Army of the North with speechifying optimism, scorning the enemy as 'weak, exhausted and agonised'. Yet his results proved no better than Quesada's. Zumalacárregui drew Rodil into a fruitless summer campaign invading Navarra, managing to entice the Cristinos away from strategic targets of any real significance and refusing open battle. After weeks suffering ambushes and empty campaigning, which resulted in mass desertion from Cristino ranks, Rodil had to retire to his fortified base at Mendavia near Logroño.³⁸

The only Cristino officer to distinguish himself was Baldomero Espartero, the son of a carter whom the Carlist War elevated from mere divisional commander to Regent of Spain. Espartero led a clique

of ‘ayacucho’ officers, veterans of the lost American wars who, during the Carlist War, forged a highly praetorian bond of leftist politics. The campaigns of both Napoleon and Espartero show how men who follow their leaders on distant campaigns grow very attached to them, with destabilising consequences for civilian politics, as Espartero, the ‘Spanish Napoleon’ of 1840, would show. But whilst Espartero after the war would divide Spanish politics, in 1834 his local victories had already made him the symbol of Cristino hopes. Physically brave, Espartero was wounded several times throughout the war and even more times had his horse shot from under him. In February 1834, Espartero was promoted to major-general, and later to Comandante General of Vizcaya. His humble background and bravery gave him good qualities for leadership, even though these made him prone to immodesty. Espartero confided to his wife that ‘the troops love me like a father... they have an enthusiasm for me which borders on delirium and I fear that this could end up harming me’.³⁹ This dramatic irony was condemned as callow self-aggrandisement by the British consul at Bilbao, who thought Espartero was deluded in thinking that Zumalacárregui’s forays into Vizcaya were anything more than a feint:

(Zumalacárregui) seldom came into Biscay. Apparently convinced of the inefficacy of Espartero’s operations, he let him amuse himself by running after the Biscay battalions, who were accustomed to lead him a dance all round the province; and when his men were totally fatigued with four and five days’ marches, they would make a stand upon some hillside, right in his road; then after disputing the ground for half an hour or an hour, and causing the loss of some 50 or 100 men, they would run off, leaving the *victorious* general to write such bulletins as were never equalled... the field of Burseña (for example) was *cubierto de cadáveres* (covered with corpses). There were plenty of spectators, the writer among the number; and yet nobody could find above 18 dead bodies!⁴⁰

The Carlist press matched the consul’s parody, punning Espartero’s name, ‘General Embustero’ (General Fiction).⁴¹ But Espartero’s minor victories at Portugalete, Guernica, Sollube and elsewhere, certainly won him plaudits from the Liberal press. Unlike Espoz, future Commander of the Army of the North who professed a particular understanding of his native Navarra, Espartero claimed no insight into why the Carlists were fighting. His letters throughout 1834 spoke of the enemy as rabble or canaille and his dealings with Carlists were as harsh as any Cristino

commander. Yet Espartero's humble origins and political exploitation of victories recommended him to Spain's Romantic movement, and to left-ist tributes to the 'son of the people', a Spanish George Washington.⁴² This rhetorical hyperbole was, of course, divorced from military reality, from the martial law which Espartero, like other Cristino commanders, imposed on Carlist territory. On 4 May, Espartero threatened fines for families of insurgents, that houses locked upon the approach of Cristino troops anywhere in Vizcaya would be treated as fair game, and also that all 17 to 40-year-old men capable of bearing arms and who had had their hair cut (a sign of military service) were to be sent to Bilbao to prove that they were *not* Carlist guerrillas. Those who did not convince were to be expelled from Vizcaya.⁴³ Espartero's repressive occupation was accompanied by the provisional suspension of the Basque *fueros*, a measure which included the shifting of the customs frontier from the Ebro to the Pyrenees, and replacing Navarra's historic status as a kingdom with that of a province conforming to the 1833 model. Henceforth, areas that came under Cristino occupation would be doubly subjected by the state of war and the emasculation of civil authority.⁴⁴

Zumalacárregui matched the Cristinos in ruthlessness as his reach widened, demanding that local authorities throughout Navarra and Upper Aragón swear allegiance to Carlos V or face the ultimate penalty. This radicalisation placed the Deputation of Navarra in a dire position. Early in 1834 Zumalacárregui finally moved against this 'nest of traitors', pointing to its duplicitous care for the preservation of the *fueros* on the one hand whilst speaking out against Don Carlos and petitioning Madrid to reconvene the local Cortes on the other.⁴⁵ By early 1834 binary Carlist and Cristino authorities confronted each other in the Basque country. The Carlists had formed a 'Superior Governmental Junta of Alava', a 'War Deputation of Guipúzcoa', a 'Governmental Junta of Navarra', along with their own Deputation. The Cristinos, for their part, imposed their own authorities in the same provinces, although their remit was shrinking beyond fortified urban centres on account of Carlist military successes. As each side refused to recognise the other, even a modest incursion imposed double jeopardy in terms of taxation, conscription and reprisals on local communities in the armies' path. Particular stress was placed on the lowest levels of local authority, aldermen and mayors forced to raise exorbitant sums to fund both armies, and who faced brutal reprisals for having been found to have helped the wrong side. Thus, local authorities increasingly deserted their posts.⁴⁶ As Zumalacárregui expanded territorial control throughout 1834, local authorities logically became more

prone to flee before Cristino incursions, compounding Cristino weakness in local intelligence.⁴⁷ One of the most mobile Cristino tacticians, General Marcelino Oráa, blamed his defeats at Zubiri and Urdaniz on the enemy's superior local intelligence.⁴⁸ But Carlist domination by no means ended the strain on local authorities. Zumalacárregui increasingly overrode civil authorities whilst arrogantly rebuffing petitions for alleviation by Carlist juntas and the Deputation. And little relief came from the arrival of Don Carlos's court: although Zumalacárregui's personal authority was curtailed, the burdens on the civil authorities only increased.

But the military–political crisis of 1834 was far worse for the Cristino side and quickly made the premiership of Cea untenable. Opposition centred on the Isabelina Society, whose membership ranged from Liberals of radical to moderate opinions and included several 'pashas' who resented Cea's civilian absolutism. Demands grew for a Liberal regime to root out Carlists and attract intervention from Britain and France. Bowing to this pressure, in January 1834 María Cristina appointed as Prime Minister Martínez de la Rosa, an Andalusian patrician of Spain's first and second Liberal experiments, who promised to restore Spain's happiness by marrying 'order with liberty'.⁴⁹ One of his first moves was to create the Urban Militia, to be organised at local level under the command of the reformed town halls. The advanced Liberal newspaper, *Eco del Comercio*, hailed this force as the 'people in arms' destined to vanquish the Carlist insurgency.⁵⁰ The reality in its first year of existence was very different, however. Property owners remembered the royalist proscription of 1823 and had no wish to suffer the same now in the event of a Carlist victory. Cristino captains-general in Andalucía and Valencia despaired at the middle classes' reluctance to lead the Militia, and exercised a range of coercion against them as a consequence.⁵¹ The Radical press complained how patriotic economic dependents substituted their masters in dangerous roles, and how the notables' listlessness meant that disbanded Royalist Volunteers were being enrolled in the Liberal force.⁵² Alborea (Albacete), for example, was dominated by the Meoro y Sánchez family, who maintained their grip on local policing when the Volunteers' commander, Anacleto, later Governor of the Bishopric of Almería, handled the Cristino purge by simply abdicating his command and preparing his nephew to take command of the 'new' militia.⁵³

The Cristino militia was despised by Carlists as a club for playboy revolutionaries and was routinely the first to be subjected to reprisals whenever urban centres fell into their hands. It was also poorly regarded by the Cristino army, which resented the militia's parochial structures

(including, from 1835, elected officers), comparatively good pay and benefits, and internal restrictions on where and when it might serve. In return, the *urbanos* resented army 'despotism' and protested the Militia's exclusion from an internationally brokered agreement in April 1835 which promised quarter to surrendering soldiers serving in the north. Ultimately the Cristino army retained the upper hand in this inter-service rivalry: it could impose a state of siege in response to revolution or Carlist invasion, subjecting the Militia to martial law or even disbanding it altogether. But the Militia grew in power. The revolutionary summer of 1835 made Militia service more attractive, and as its numbers expanded, its control over urban spaces and Liberal pageantry claimed privileged ownership of Spanish patriotism: time and again this was turned into a focus for radical political action, massacring clerics and Carlist prisoners, and in September 1835 leading a Liberal revolution across Cristino Spain. A generation of historians saw this Militia radicalism in Marxist class-conflict terms.⁵⁴ But whilst class interests were not absent, members of the Militia were radicalised more by the experience of the civil war. Their sacrifices for the Cristino cause were used to justify revolution and even the most extreme atrocities. Cities like Barcelona were filling with refugees who had witnessed murders and wanton destruction. Their arrival provoked demands for revenge against Carlist sympathisers imprisoned in Cristino gaols, a demand that became impossible to resist during the revolution of 1835.

The inter-service rivalry about who was making the biggest sacrifices raged as Zumalacárregui tightened his grip on the Basque country and Carlist risings flared up elsewhere. In 1834 the *urbanos* defending Cristino towns in the Basque country, Catalonia, the Maestrazgo had no doubt that *they* were the defenders of liberty. During the winter of 1834–35, besieged Pamplona filled with timorous army officers who avoided rejoining their units by exaggerating or inventing personal injuries, and often hiding behind the presence of their families. Pamplona's militiamen, by contrast, with a great deal more than honour at stake, manned their city's defence by day and night, often in conditions of appalling hygiene and hunger.⁵⁵ Forty miles south of Pamplona, the besieged Militia garrison of Villafranca was heroically martyred by defeat. Villafranca was the gateway to the Ribera and a customs-post before the 1834 Cristino suspension of the *fueros*, and its Militia garrison went to the utmost lengths to resist Zumalacárregui's siege. The Militia retreated into the defensive redoubt of the village church. Zumalacárregui burnt down the adjoining buildings and burnt sacks of chilli at the foot of the church in order to suffocate the defenders

inside. A truce was brokered to allow the release of the militiamen's women and children, but shots were fired during this delicate operation and Zumalacárregui reacted by beating and feather-tarring the refugees. Before the surviving defenders choked to death, they stormed out of the church and charged the Carlist ring. Those militiamen who were not killed were captured and shot. Heroic Villafranca, and its heroic refugee women, became Liberal cause célèbres. On 10 December 1834, after the Cristinos had retaken the town, the Cristino government decided to rebuild the church, and compensate the widows and orphans (the Queen-Regent, seeing the emerging popular meaning of the war, prudently made a public donation).⁵⁶ The martyrdom of Villafranca was downplayed by Carlist historians who resented the muddying of Zumalacárregui's own heroic image.⁵⁷

The violent, sudden and unsolicited martyrdom which overtook overwhelmed Militia detachments and pitiful prisoners of war provoked demands for vengeance. Whilst poorly led Cristino armies were defeated at every turn, these rural defeats were offset by urban defensive victories – or by valiant defeats which made martyrs to liberty out of the armed citizens who suffered them. Vergara (Guipúzcoa) controlled vital communications with the French border, and its Militia garrison distinguished itself resisting a Carlist attack in August. In September, a Carlist force which struck west into Old Castile was defeated by the outnumbered militia garrison of Villarcayo, which fought without outside help and despite half the town being burnt by the attackers. Thus, whilst the Cristino army elites failed on campaign, the 'people's army' succeeded in point defence.⁵⁸ It would not be long until the militia cashed in these military honours for a stake in politics. In the early stages this radicalism amounted to vengeance, targeting Carlists captured on the battlefield, languishing in prisons, or civic Carlists cloistered in monasteries and nunneries. But it also targeted Cristino elites who were either callous or incompetent towards their men. And the militiamen were not the sole agents of vengeance, as the result of Zumalacárregui's great victory in October 1834 at Alegría (Alava) showed. This triumph was prepared by Zumalacárregui's expert command of geography. Civilians in his path were forced either to join his columns or to be corralled under guard away from roadsides, out of sight of Cristino scouts. Then he ambushed a superior Cristino force, dividing it into two and defeating both sections in detail. Some 2,000 surviving Cristino soldiers (twice as many as he had killed in action) defected to the Carlist side and made no protest when he had their captured Cristino commander shot.⁵⁹ As Cristino revolutions and Carlist expeditions afflicted Spain from 1835, civilians,

too, followed the lead shown by militia and soldiers by making decisions and acting on them. Episodes like these grew to spawn a Cristino martyrology that was distinctive in its subaltern and civic qualities, in being no longer concerned with avenging heroic elites (like Riego in 1823 or Torrijos in 1831), but about avenging popular grievances. In this regard, 1830s Spain contrasted with comparable ideological struggles in such other Latin polities as Italy, where both nationalist and ultramontane martyrologies were crafted to support elite rather than popular aims.⁶⁰

This civic martyrology had no equivalent on the Carlist side where the motives of religion, dynasticism, impoverishment, adventure and wrongdoing did not naturally lend themselves to progressive, civic martyrdom, and still less beyond the Basque country, in areas where wrongdoing and poverty played a larger role in Carlism. Throughout 1834, Cristino counter-insurgency forces in Catalonia had varied success suppressing Carlist guerrilla bands raised from the traditional *somatén*. The war here divided the staunchly Cristino coastal range, inhabited by an influential bourgeoisie, from the front-line plateau and mountains of the Catalan far west, where Cristinos fought Carlist guerrillas. The early Carlist insurgency was led by the cleric and Royalist War veteran, Benito Tristany. His opponent, Catalan Captain-General Manuel Llauder, complained of the inextinguishable Carlist conspiratorial networks based around parish priests and monasteries, but believed he had vanquished the Carlist *somatenes* by the summer of 1834.⁶¹ But they never lost a foothold in the mountainous north of the Principality, where a Carlist rural network was ready to revive the disbanded *somatenes* for another insurrection. Meanwhile, army detachments were drawn away from Catalonia to reinforce the hard-pressed Army of the North, and Llauder himself left for Madrid where, on 2 November 1834, he became Minister of War. Thus, the newly constituted Urban Militia was left to defend itself against resurgent *somatenes* without much help from the regular army.⁶² Outside the Basque provinces, Catalonia and the Maestrazgo, Carlist risings had a symbiotic relationship with banditry, both feeding off it and reverting to it when dispersed by Cristino counter-insurgency actions. Carlist bandits were dangerous not only for operating outside the norms of war, but also because of their example of ill-gotten gains, which might encourage Cristino conscripts to desert. In October 1834, one Cristino military commander in action against Carlist irregulars in the Maestrazgo was acutely aware of this when he wrote to the War Ministry demanding that his troops get proper rations of bread, wine and meat, 'as it is most demoralising for them to discover that the *facciosos* take and eat what they want'.⁶³

Beyond these emerging Carlist safe zones, insurgents were motivated, above all, by adventure and wrongdoing. The mundane case of 'El Locho' (Manuel Adame), a pig-rustling day labourer and veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars, and the main guerrilla plague of La Mancha in 1834, was not untypical. Other bandits preyed on Manchegan communities using Carlism as their cover. Their colourful *nomes de guerre* (the Palillos brothers, Tercero, Rompe, Ventero, Barba, Lobito) exemplified the Spanish popular culture of using resonant nicknames to hide mundane identities. Further south and west, virtually all insurgents were bandits using Carlism as the flimsiest of political covers. Extremadura had a long border with restive Portuguese *miguelistas*, but Cristino border garrisons prevented any organised Carlist insurgencies from taking hold and security forces instead had only bandits to suppress. Andalucía's aquiline bandits were already infamous, and attempts to recruit them met with derision from several quarters. Nonetheless, Carlist emissaries were dispatched throughout the war to turn the bandits, smugglers and deserters of the Serranía de Ronda into a guerrilla force.⁶⁴ Thus, even though organised Carlism outside of its safe zones could never prevail without outside help, the countryside was strewn with bandit gangs whose varied motives (desertion, landlessness, crime) they often explained by allegiance to Carlism. In short, Carlism was often a cover for contingent rather than ideological motives.

This is not to say that Carlism was nothing more than a flag of convenience. Civic Carlism in the Cristino zone, especially of priests, often spilled over into incitement or violence in the face of leftist provocation. Throughout 1834, Cristino authorities uncovered plots involving Carlists who had got involved with the new Militia,⁶⁵ suspicious arms caches⁶⁶ and, especially, hostile clerics. Clerical hostility included incitement: one cleric brought to trial proclaimed 'Death to all *negros* [pejorative for "Liberal"]! The Holy Spirit speaks through me!' whilst a Valencian capuchin preached that the Church would resist the onslaught of the 'philosophers' of the century and that the cholera which appeared between 1832 and 1834 was divine punishment for Spain's wickedness. The cleric's curse probably instilled the fear of God into his parishioners. The Asiatic cholera epidemic had ravaged the population, with the province of Granada alone registering a grisly toll of 5,293 dead between January and August 1834, notwithstanding municipal quarantines uselessly designed to contain the '*miasma*'.⁶⁷ In fact, the cholera had an even more sinister legacy in the pretext it provided for Cristino elites to channel the anger of those elements of the

Cristino population who saw the Church as the cause of the war. Influenced by similar phenomena in central Europe and Russia (and the assaults on the Jesuits during the July 1830 revolution in Paris), Liberal agents in July 1834 spread rumours in Madrid that the cholera was caused by Jesuits poisoning the wells. The response was horrific. The militia rallied mobs in a violent assault on Madrid's convents and monasteries, massacring seventy-eight Jesuits, Dominicans, Franciscans and Mercedarians. Whilst Liberal newspapers drew a veil over the whole affair – 'a few bad apples' according to *El Eco del Comercio*⁶⁸ – a police report found the Militia to have been the chief culprits, whilst the additional participation of some Royal Guards confirmed the suspicion that the events of 17 July 1834 enjoyed both the foreknowledge and the tacit backing of the government. Leniency was shown towards those token culprits arrested, whilst for days afterwards groups of militiamen swaggered about the streets 'boasting of their crimes' and 'showing more pride and haughtiness than the French after Marengo'.⁶⁹ A savage tradition of anti-clericalism had been born, and generations of clerical historians would remember 17 July as a day of infamy.

Although religious personnel in the rest of Cristino Spain were spared a massacre for the rest of 1834 and the first three months of 1835, the climate of hostility grew in the wake of Madrid. To some degree this was remarkable, as even though relations between Madrid and the Holy See deteriorated, culminating with the expulsion of the nuncio in 1835, all but one of the Spanish bishops obeyed Rome's orders not to recognise the Carlist insurgency as legitimate. Thus, clerics who joined the insurgency did so as individuals rather than as an institution, but given the well-known religious claims of the Carlists, it was understandable how episodes of anti-clerical violence spiralled at local levels in Cristino Spain.⁷⁰ Monks in Huéscar (Granada) were deported after they tried to evict militiamen who played revolutionary music and adorned their hats with the green ribbons of the Constitution. Fines were imposed upon priests who refused to offer blessings to Isabel II during Mass.⁷¹ The enemy's anti-clericalism gave Carlists hope of intervention in their favour from abroad. One priest whipped up popular Carlism in the Almanzora river area of Almería – hundreds of miles from the front line – with the promise that Carlists from Genoa would make landfall.⁷² In fact the expedition landed in Catalonia, and comprised mainly Catalan émigrés from the transition of 1833 rather than Italians. These went to ground in the Barceloneta district of Barcelona, troubling the watchful Cristino city authorities who feared a fifth column.⁷³ This was the first and last expedition organised from abroad before the British Navy

closed off the Mediterranean to all but the most intrepid volunteers for Carlism.⁷⁴

But from the landward side there was one volunteer who would not be kept out of Spain. Don Carlos's exodus through Portugal was remarkable, even more his escape from exile in Britain. Reaching Spanish soil via the Pyrenees at Urdax in July 1834 – around the same time as the massacre of his beloved Jesuits in Madrid – Don Carlos finally gave the insurrection its natural leader.⁷⁵ This was a far cry from the months of exile in Portugal. There the Pretender's supply trains had been seized by Rodil's vanguard and his entourage reduced to scavenging potatoes. Rodil had almost captured Don Carlos himself, a feat which earned him Quesada's incumbency. But this reward backfired when news shocked both Rodil and his government – Don Carlos had reached Spain to preside over the insurgency.⁷⁶ Some of Madrid's blindness in this affair may be attributed to the Cristinos' poor diplomatic connections resulting from six years of *miguelista* control of Lisbon.⁷⁷ Even though the *pedristas* captured the Portuguese capital in 1833, the new Cristino legation in the city had been powerless to influence Britain's usual hegemony in Portugal, in particular the latter's resolve to undermine the Carlists by exiling Don Carlos from Iberia, in the same way that the exiling of Dom Miguel had ended the Portuguese civil war. Upon the Pretender's arrival in Britain, the Cristino ambassador in London at last managed some intercession. Although Foreign Secretary Palmerston protested he could not hold Don Carlos prisoner, he made the Pretender give his word that he would not leave Britain, and in any case satisfied Cristino foreign policy by signing the Quadruple Alliance. In the long term this alliance augured well for Cristino Spain, as it united the constitutional monarchies of Britain, France, Spain and Portugal in diplomatic support for Madrid, and was followed by agreements to raise volunteers in these countries for service in Spain. As this alliance brought Europe's two foremost powers to the aid of the Cristinos, an unqualified Carlist victory was now highly unlikely. At the heart of the alliance was the Anglo-French 'Liberal international' of Whigs and Orleanists. Whereas London used this to support a new era of Liberal interventionism in foreign policy, Paris used it to help fend off legitimism at home (Orleanist fears had been evoked by an abortive rising in the Vendée in 1832). But in the immediate term the alliance fell at the first hurdle when Don Carlos escaped from London, making for Brighton, then Dieppe, Paris and Bordeaux and Bayonne, and finally Spain. Don Carlos was himself amazed, whispering to his companion, Auguet Saint-Sylvain, 'My good cousin of the Orleans dynasty is very far from suspecting that I'm going

through his territories without his permission, to go and tear asunder at the point of my sword his treaty of the Quadruple Alliance.⁷⁸ This journey would have failed without the protection of Saint-Sylvain, the French Carlist and private secretary to Don Carlos, who drew finance, obtained passports and secured safe houses in France, and consequently joined the Pretender's court in Spain.⁷⁹

Once on Spanish soil, Sylvain helped the King to forge a central provisional junta out of the several local Carlist juntas and set it to assessing the economic and military potential of the newly created Carlist zone.⁸⁰ The King's mere appearance on Spanish soil galvanised the insurrection and became the biggest propaganda weapon against both the Quadruple Alliance and the Cristino war effort. In a revealing proclamation, Don Carlos appealed to conscripts to the Cristino army to defect. Don Carlos equated the sex of María Cristina with illegitimacy, weakness and indiscretion, attributing these to the usurping nature of the entire Liberal project.⁸¹ This was integral propaganda, but the fact that defectors from Cristino ranks greatly outnumbered those from the Carlists owed more to Madrid's inability to succour its conscripts than to any dynastic attraction. Cristino defection grew during 1834, and even though no exact numbers exist – the *Gaceta Oficial* printed the names and units of defectors for propaganda purposes, but obvious fears of retribution appear to have limited this practice⁸² – it is clear that their numbers peaked during 1835–37, as expeditions tore across Spain and revolution derailed Cristino military strategy. Both defectors and non-Basque recruits were called Castilians (*castellanos*) by the Basque Carlists – who soon used the term to describe all Carlists who were not from the Basque country – and by 1835 several battalions described as such had been formed. The Castilian Carlists occupied an awkward position during the war: loathed by the Cristinos, they were also treated with suspicion by the Basque *fuéristas* who saw them as a 'foreign' threat to Basque autonomy, as non-productive refugees consuming resources and as proxies for the unpopular Castilian-dominated Carlist Royal Police.⁸³ A diametrically opposed suspicion pertained to the considerably fewer recruits and defectors from the Basque country who served in Cristino ranks. Espoz actively recruited deserters and villagers in his native Navarra, even from French border villages. Their different language, uniform and pay structure, and, above all, their self-interested bravery in battle (they were particularly vulnerable to Carlist reprisals), alienated conscripts from the rest of Spain whose only thought was survival in a strange land.⁸⁴

Meanwhile, the arrival of the Pretender on Spanish soil threw Cristino politics into turmoil. Prime Minister de la Rosa's refrain that Don Carlos

was merely 'one more insurgent' angered the Army of the North, which by now thought Madrid was losing all grasp of reality.⁸⁵ The union of the Pretender with his commander-in-chief appeared the worst possible outcome, and the Cristino army responded by waging war more strategically. Serious consideration was given to conducting a scorched earth policy.⁸⁶ In a limited form this was carried out: raids routinely destroyed war-related material which could help the insurgency, from ramparts to entire arms factories. But this economic war was countered by the Carlist soldiers' readiness to use the arms of Cristino prisoners and defectors, and even to loot their corpses. The first and last year of the war when the Cristino army was adequately supplied was 1833/34, which made it a cash cow for the scratch Carlist forces. And the Carlists' resourcefulness countered the Cristino blockade. Zumalacárregui demanded parsimony in his soldiers' use of powder, ordering his men to take only ten musket cartridges into battle and to fire these only when the enemy was in sight and range.⁸⁷ Meanwhile Carlist *materiel* was improving. An initial 'powder scandal' was gradually overcome when the quality of powder smuggled from Aragón and France or made in overworked forges was improved, and the conditions of Carlist armaments workers militarised.⁸⁸ The father of the Carlist artillery arm was Vicente Reina, a Cristino defector who was killed in action in July 1835.⁸⁹ By the end of 1834 the Carlists got to possess their first artillery pieces: three guns (including two captured from defeated Cristinos at Alegría). Reina expanded this number by building two howitzers, improvising shells from materials collected from villages. An ironmonger in a forest near Labayen became the early centre of Carlist mountain-gun making. An old iron gun with a wide calibre was pressed into service and christened 'El Abuelo' (grandfather) by its Cristino targets on account of its age, and this name stuck with the Carlists, too.⁹⁰ Now Zumalacárregui had sufficient siege and field artillery, whilst the travails of 'El Abuelo' made the gun as much a propaganda as a military weapon, as it was transported from burial in a Cantabrian beach and pulled by six-pair of oxen until it reached Urbasa, where it was secretly reburied. A foreign observer noted 'if the Carlists win, it will be lodged in the Madrid museum as a memorial of the war'.⁹¹

Carlist military expansion underpinned Zumalacárregui's authority in religious, political and economic matters. He embodied the 'throne and altar' reaction of the Carlist movement, combining the role of Christian soldier with exterminating angel, presiding over his troops' daily attendance at Mass on the one hand, and endorsing the public execution of some 70 Cristino captives in reprisal for Madrid's Jesuits on

the other.⁹² Zumalacárregui combined austere charisma with discipline, planning and resourcefulness. He responded to villagers' complaints about Cristino raiding parties by arming flying parties tasked with their protection. He also used draconian punishments when he judged it necessary. In September 1834, he decimated a battalion of his own men when their timidity spoilt his plan to trick his way into a key fortified village (Echarri-Aranaz) on the Pamplona–Vitoria road (pro-Carlist sources conceded Zumalacárregui rare emotion when he halted the executions halfway, tearfully realising the men were 'his children').⁹³ Zumalacárregui's military state was already in place when the King's court arrived. It had even established regular finance from internal sources: the revenues of customs posts the Carlists were seizing along the border with France, taxes levied on parish clergy, and fines imposed on Cristino sympathisers and hostile settlements. The harvest of 1834, meanwhile, was abundant without collapsing market prices, owing to war depredations and Zumalacárregui's supply needs.⁹⁴ Expanding territorial control allowed battle casualties to be transferred from homes to Carlist military hospitals; patients in the latter stood better chances of recovery than Cristino patients did in theirs. Cristino casualties, by contrast, had to be transferred over exterior lines of communication, which gave them greater exposure to the Asiatic cholera epidemic and also absorbed far more manpower – some ten Cristino soldiers to litter each patient to safety.⁹⁵

By the time of his King's arrival, Zumalacárregui was thus already presiding over an integrated military state. He even kept a platoon-strength bodyguard who also relayed messages day or night.⁹⁶ This insurgent model provided a mystique for Carlist supporters which their Cristino enemies completely lacked. Cristino commanders, by contrast, cut lumbering, conspicuous figures, which afforded local authorities time to desert their posts en masse, so as to avoid reprisals from the stronger Carlists.⁹⁷ Thus, the Cristinos routinely lacked local intelligence and liaison networks, and so manoeuvred their men into vulnerable group formations and corralled them in valleys. Consequently, the Carlists had little difficulty intercepting communications and, unlike their enemy, faced no shortage of willing spies in the Basque country.⁹⁸ The effect of superior local intelligence was plain to see in Carlist victories throughout 1834. In August, Zumalacárregui defeated a Cristino division at Las Peñas de San Fausto (Navarra), inflicting some 250 fatalities for the loss of barely more than a dozen of his own. Zumalacárregui seized the secret codes with which Cristino commanders communicated with one another yet, remarkably, the defeated general took no measures

to change them. General Carondelet, who was called embarrassed or incompetent, knew that Carlist spies were tracking his every move even without the codes.⁹⁹ Even worse, the numerical and material superiority which the Cristinos had once enjoyed was now being eroded by Carlist rearmament and recruitment of conscripts and defectors. The Carlists formed a battalion of scouts called the *Guías de Navarra*, comprised entirely of Cristino defectors, and their artillery and even cavalry arms were beginning to match their enemies'. On 4 September at Viana, Carlist cavalry were decisive in victory for the first time.¹⁰⁰ For their part, few Cristino commanders could match the Carlists in mountain warfare, and officers had to wait until late 1834 for a book on the subject to appear.¹⁰¹ Much depended in the meantime on such resourcefulness and initiative as the Cristino field commanders could muster. General Oráa, dubbed the 'grey wolf' by the Carlists on account of his complexion and risk-taking with rapid marches,¹⁰² was one of the best hopes the Cristinos had. A native of Beriáin (Pamplona), and Peninsular War veteran, Oráa knew local terrain.¹⁰³ But he was nevertheless outmanoeuvred and defeated by Zumalacárregui at Los Arcos.

In November 1834, Cristino fortunes appeared to change with the appointment to the Command of the Army of the North of the swordarm of Liberalism, Espoz y Mina, who replaced the exhausted Rodil. Espoz's advanced liberalism had made him one of the last exiles to be amnestied, and his appointment to the most senior appointment in the Cristino army divided military opinion far more than Jáuregui's candidacy. Espoz offered the surrounding Carlists an amnesty or even service under his command, whilst imposing martial law in Pamplona, including a shoot-on-sight curfew after nightfall. Despite Espoz's recourse to such illiberal measures, the Liberal press carved out an image of him as the grand old man of liberty. A Zaragoza newspaper called him a 'man of his fatherland (*patria*)', in contrast to Zumalacárregui who was merely a 'man of his mountains'.¹⁰⁴ Espoz certainly had a great reputation, but this did not bode well as Zumalacárregui had already spent a year humbling Cristino reputations. A German Carlist compared Espoz to 'a well-practised gladiator forced to fight his enemy with a shield instead of a sword'.¹⁰⁵ Yet it was nonetheless remarkable how the Liberal-patriotic allure of Espoz persisted amongst the Cristino rank and file despite his failures. After his death from stomach cancer in December 1836, Espoz's mortal remains were carried around Cristino Spain in a revolutionary ritual of popular liberty. Evidence of the strength of feeling arose when the Málaga militia rioted at their city's refusal to pay public homage.¹⁰⁶ On paper Espoz found the Army of the North still in a strong state, as it

included some 23,357 infantry and 1,089 cavalry, but barely more than half of these were actually available for campaigning. Espoz knew that they were tired, poorly equipped (they still only had summer uniforms) and demoralised from previous encounters. However committed Espoz was to remedying this, he continued the incompatible War Ministry policy of garrisoning isolated small settlements, diluting his campaign strength whilst failing even to defend in depth. Most settlements in Navarra and the Basque provinces proper were unwallled and located in militarily indefensible valleys, which left ridges and peaks free for Carlist activities: indeed Cristino attempts at defence in depth had done nothing to break the siege of Pamplona.¹⁰⁷ Whilst the Carlists were amassing, Espoz's energies were absorbed safeguarding essential relief column supplies for besieged Pamplona. Local Cristino victories at Mendaza and then Puerta de Arquijas (12–15 December) ensured Pamplona received supplies safely but barely altered the strategic situation.¹⁰⁸ This remained bleak, as Zumalacárregui's victory the same month at Las Arquijas attested.¹⁰⁹ Then, inevitably, both sides yielded to the elements, with a virtual truce over Christmas whilst Spain and the world took stock of an alarming year of civil war.

Zumalacárregui retired his army to his stronghold of the Améscoas valley (Navarra) whilst Espoz had no option but to withdraw Cristino forces from the countryside. Espoz's background gave him an advanced understanding of the war, but his illness usually confined him to Pamplona, and so he delegated generals to escort convoys into the city. Espoz's strategy was to box in Zumalacárregui by arming local militia units as much as possible. This ran the risk that the inhabitants, especially in the smaller settlements, would turn their arms over to the Carlists, but Espoz hoped that their initial resistance would 'soak up' Carlist forces and free up the Cristino army for a decisive counteroffensive. This close engagement strategy would turn on the Cristinos' clinging on to villages in the valley of Baztán (Navarra), especially its local capital, Elizondo, as this region controlled access to French customs revenues and contained valuable arms factories like Orbaiceta.¹¹⁰ Espoz's strategy was clearly informed by his ideology, a form of Bonapartist Liberalism dictating that the people be armed for authoritarian ends.¹¹¹ He could claim a common touch (he wrote a number of key proclamations in Euskera). Like any Bonapartist, Espoz harmonised Cristino military with civilian administration and proved tolerant towards civic Carlism, but also intervened ruthlessly whenever this turned to violence or reprisals. Thus, when Zumalacárregui raided the Baztán he imprisoned the wives of absent Cristino soldiers

and militiamen; Espoz responded in kind with the wife of a Carlist mayor and several other prominent Carlist women, ransoming them in a Pamplona prison.¹¹²

Escalating reprisals provoked international interest in the conflict and motivated foreign volunteers. Zumalacárregui assembled a squadron entitled the Defensores de la Legitimidad, comprising Spanish and foreign officers who served as simple soldiers, and they increased in number and distinction (research has revealed between 120 and 250 foreign Carlist volunteers, of whom more than a quarter boasted noble titles).¹¹³ It became fashionable for European aristocrats hooked on the Hispanophile Romanticism of writers like Chateaubriand, Schlegel and Hugo to assert old-fashioned notions of honour in a continent which had otherwise lapsed into the *juste milieu*. French volunteers were the most numerous; reeling from their recent failure in the Vendée, Spain's conflict offered legitimists the chance to reignite the cause of Henri d'Artois and restore honour. Aubert, a French officer and fugitive of 1832, fled France under a death sentence to serve under Don Carlos in Spain, but faced the same sentence once captured by Cristino forces. Rejecting an invitation to defect and save his life, Aubert died a Carlist: 'In France I would have given my life for Henri V; here, I owe it to Carlos V. Long live the king!'¹¹⁴ Prussians formed the second largest contingent of volunteers; their Protestant piety in the service of the Carlist Catholicism was explained by a pan-European, interdenominational defence of legitimacy.¹¹⁵ German conservatives of both denominations united in pro-Carlism: the ultramontane Rheinlander Josef Görres shared Protestants' enthusiasm for Carlism as the organic Spanish resistance to 'foreign' Liberalism.¹¹⁶ The prospect of adventure lured other young legitimists. The young August Karl von Goeben, full of a sense of Romantic adventure, followed his countrymen:¹¹⁷

A royalist in the full sense of the word... I imagined those mountains, how the Carlists there were struggling against the overwhelming might of the revolutionary armies, bowing neither to sword, hunger nor death, and I resolved to offer my blood for the cause of legitimate monarch.

The Carlists claimed their cause was truly Spanish, unlike the 'foreignness' of the Liberals. Yet his knowledge of European divisions inflected Don Carlos's proclamations against the Quadruple Alliance. The quarter Zumalacárregui offered to Cristino prisoners after his victory at Los Arcos was used by the King to counter the black legend his cause

attracted in the foreign press and capitals: 'Europe does not know us and yet pronounces without hearing us... and offers us nothing but unjust hatred.'¹¹⁸ As we shall see in Chapter 5, far more foreign volunteers with far more varied motives would soon join the Cristino side, with the result that, by the summer of 1835, the expanded Spanish political and military battlefields were accompanied by an expanded international civil war of ideologies and volunteers. Contemporaries certainly saw the war as an international struggle between Liberty and Catholicism, not unlike their great-grandchildren during the Spanish Civil War a century later. According to three Aragonese Radicals, 'the Spanish civil war was not just a dynastic issue between Isabel II and her uncle, Don Carlos, nor was it just a contest between despotism and liberty in Spain, but also between Dom Miguel and María de la Gloria, and Henri V and Louis-Philippe, between Liberal and Absolutist Europe'.¹¹⁹

But, as with the Spanish Civil War a hundred years later, international involvement had a 'great distorting' effect. The first two years of Cristino Spain, from the start of the war in October 1833 to the revolution of the juntas in September 1835, were certainly marked by growing polarisation between Left (which tended towards republicanism in extreme cases) and the Right (which in many cases leaned towards Carlism). Leftist climates along the Mediterranean littoral (Barcelona, Málaga, Seville) saw Cristino governors there champion reformist calls whilst the inverse was true in such conservative cities in the north as Burgos and Salamanca. But beneath this macropolitical trajectory, several thousand local disputes were given a political dimension by the demands of war. The Liberal postmaster of Valladolid had his house ransacked and family abused by Merino's royalist bands in 1822; in 1833 he faced the same terror at Merino's hands in 1833 when he refused to frank Carlist mail.¹²⁰ Women from the poor neighbourhoods in the south-west of Madrid regularly invoked the cry of 'Long Live Carlos VI' in a primitive protest against cholera – from which many of the wealthy classes had fled – and taxes.¹²¹ Journeymen resented master tradesmen who managed to embellish their fortunes with Militia service, whilst unskilled labourers (such as Madrid builders) jeered passing *señoritos* in uniform.¹²² Newspapers reported violence between militiamen and soldiers, which, though sparked off by rivalry over women, in reality was caused by resentment between those who had to go to the front and those who could stay behind.¹²³ The poor Triana neighbourhood of Seville saw riots in protest against the cost of expanding local Militia forces and against their insufferable behaviour strutting about in the name of liberty hundreds of miles behind the front line, persecuting those without friends

in authority. This tense situation was soon made worse by the execution of a cabal of conspirators led by a purged army officer. They failed to raise Seville for Don Carlos, but not before renewed riots and a prudent decision by the Cristino authorities to execute the conspirators in secret.¹²⁴

Tensions grew between mobilised militiamen and civilian populations in either front-line or bandit-infested areas. By the summer of 1834, Cuevillas had returned from Portugal and was invading several rural communities in the province of Logroño, and Cristino mobile Militia was sent out on a punitive expedition. Unable to catch up with Cuevillas, the militia nonetheless fined villages which 'failed to report' the transit of Carlists, whilst militiamen were also entitled to claim 'expenses' incurred whilst away on campaign.¹²⁵ Militiamen sent on fruitless campaigns to exterminate Carlist bands often vented their frustrations on civilians. Irregular risings to the south of Madrid that summer caused a tense atmosphere in Ciempozuelos, where the Urban Militia rampaged in reprisal for the killing of one of their number in a tavern. This arrogant paramilitarism was flawed because it tied the exercise of Liberal patriotism on terms favourable to the Militia to the use of force. To some extent violence against non-combatants was understandable in a civil war which was both highly localised and asymmetrical. But Cristino heavy-handedness often recoiled on the authorities. When a June 1834 tax riot in Corella (Aragón) was brutally suppressed by militiamen, the population responded with cries of '¡Viva Carlos VI!'¹²⁶ In Novelda (Alicante), local people proclaimed the Pretender in protest at the continued imprisonment of hundreds of men who, in December 1833, had attempted a Carlist rising. In this case, the Militia likewise brutally cleared the streets, banishing five ringleaders, and forbidding meetings in the open.¹²⁷ The terrible – and sometimes liberating – choices that civilian communities were forced to make in this war would be starkest during the years of 'deep war' between 1836 and 1837. In the meantime, the civilian experience of the war, at the hands of both Carlist and Cristino forces, created its own community of sacrifice which had a distinctive impact on popular politics. Fundamentally, civilians under Cristino control resented conscription. The 'blood tax' by the end of 1834 was set at 8,000 reales, a sum beyond the means of all but a select few, and draftees could not easily escape, as communities had to provide replacements for any of their number who failed to enlist or soldiers who subsequently deserted.¹²⁸

The blood sacrifices demanded by the Cristino regime poisoned the popular reception of its Liberal project whilst also providing Radicals

with political oxygen. Popular disaffection was heightened because Carlist violence obliged Liberals to explain often elite-driven reforms in the strident language of liberty. In order to rally Spain to reject Don Carlos, it was necessary to make the cause of the infant Isabella that of liberty against despotism, constitutional government against absolutism and civilisation against barbarism. Thus, the government decision in February 1834 to create the Urban Militia on a very limited basis was quickly overturned by a press campaign, which saw this force's expansion as a tripwire against despotism. By the end of the year the Militia contained about 200,000 effectives, one-third of whom were unarmed.¹²⁹ Political newspapers, which were permitted for the first time since the Triennium, exercised unprecedented importance in radicalising the politics of the Cristino zone. Strict censorship laws passed in January and June 1834 would be swept away in the revolution of 1836.¹³⁰ The *Eco del Comercio* was mouthpiece to the Left-Liberals (known as the *exaltados* – 'hotheads' – and, after 1836, *progresistas*), whilst more radical, Republican journals emerged besides. The Right-Liberals (*moderados*) were represented by a succession of titles (*La Abeja*, *El Español*, *El Castellano*, *El Correo Nacional*, *El Piloto*). The civil war thus ushered in a recognisably bipartisan political system. The Carlist press, by contrast, constrained by territory and prior censorship throughout the conflict, failed to evolve. Its official gazette, of which Metternich despaired for its inquisitorial, sermon-like quality and blindness to positive propaganda opportunities, was the *Gaceta Oficial*.¹³¹ Just like the Liberal press with its correspondence, the Carlist *Gaceta* flourished on the correspondence of fellow travellers, especially civic Carlists in Cristino territory. This led Cristino authorities to destroy as many editions of the *Gaceta* as came into their hands.¹³² Liberal newspapers, by contrast, due to their sheer quantity, infiltrated the Carlist zone and permeated Cristino territory where they became a vehicle for political parties and revolution.

Newspaper opinion was central to pressurising María Cristina into yielding to progressive reform. In April 1834, the Royal Statute (*Estatuto Real*) was 'granted' by the Crown to the nation. But the bicameral Cortes it established was even more restrictive with regards to suffrage than the French Charte of 1814, and only 27 representatives of the 188-strong lower house had been deputies during the Triennium, and fewer still *exaltados*.¹³³ Much of its conservatism was overruled by liberalising decrees in 1835 before the Statute itself was abrogated the following year, but this liberalism had to be wrested from a Queen-Regent who remained almost absolutist in her political instincts. The war caused

extra-parliamentary radicalism to re-emerge, the first manifestation of which was the Radical Isabelina Society. Government listlessness in response to the anti-Jesuit massacres encouraged the Radical Isabelina Society to act. Meeting in secret on 20 July whilst the cinders of Madrid's monasteries were still warm, the society's leader, the now elderly Romero Alpuente mobilised a petition of prominent leftists to the Queen-Regent, saying that the Royal Statute was too restrictive and asking for it to be replaced by a Constituent Assembly tasked with introducing a version of the Belgian Constitution. The petitioners threatened street barricades if these demands were not met. But whereas the government was prepared to overlook anti-clerical violence, the threat to the monarchy posed by advanced Liberal elites was another matter. The conspiracy was quickly penetrated, but despite the arrest of Romero Alpuente and such other Radical elites as the leader of the dissolved Santander junta, Flórez Estrada, the network was so wide and well connected that only Eugenio de Aviraneta e Ibargoyen, an experienced Liberal conspirator and veteran of Spain's last attempt to reconquer Mexico, was actually convicted and imprisoned. Aviraneta was the easiest Isabelina leadership scapegoat for the government. But Madrid's Liberals did not forget him. Aviraneta was allowed to keep abreast of politics from his prison cell, a concession which, so Liberal opinion fumed, had to be wrenched from the Apostolic 'Junta of Selva', a group of Carlist political prisoners who informally determined which privileges and punishments their fellow captives might receive.¹³⁴ The notion of Carlist prisoners running a prison in the Cristino capital is almost as striking as the subsequent story of Aviraneta, whom the 1835 revolution would free from captivity and elevate to the leading counter-espionage role in Liberal politics.

The Carlist state would also become politically divided, between theocratic and enlightened absolutist factions, jostling in a notoriously Byzantine court. Indeed, Don Carlos's civilian court faced several problems improving Zumalacárregui's military state. Lacking formal diplomatic recognition, even from sympathetic absolutist powers, the Carlists lacked predictable foreign financial support. The Carlist commander in Catalonia, the ill-fated Count Romagosa, may have managed to secure a substantial donation from Turin, but British markets were the most lucrative, and this foremost ally of Cristino Spain blocked most private Carlist efforts to tap London loan markets. Privately contracted arms shipments frequently failed to reach the Carlists either because cargoes were impounded in French and British ports or because they were intercepted by Quadruple Alliance seapower before they could reach the safety of the Carlist-held coastline.¹³⁵ Therefore, populations

under Carlist control had to shoulder the burden, which meant Navarra, Alava, Vizcaya and Guipúzcoa (in that descending order of magnitude). A junta collected income from customs posts which the Carlists had seized along the French frontier, monies were raised from Basque and Navarrese clergy, especially during Lent ('a crisis time for the cause of Isabel II'¹³⁶), titles and offices were sold, and other income was found in fines, both in an ad hoc (i.e. against local Cristino sympathisers) and organised basis, such as the 20,000 duros fine imposed on Cristino communities that came under Carlist occupation in the Baztán. Don Carlos's arrival had brought some new money from international sympathisers, but also court sinecures who frittered away the budget.¹³⁷ Nominally, the Carlist war economy was dwarfed by the economic and demographic potential of the Cristino zone, even though revolution there meant that this was not optimised. Carlist geostrategic inferiority could only be overcome by formal and substantial diplomatic support. And this, in turn, could only be won by decisive victories on the battlefield to make foreign powers view the Carlists as a regime in waiting instead of a mere rural insurgency.

The year 1835 seemed to promise the Carlists such an outcome. Bloody three-day actions opened on New Year's Day at Celandieta and Ormaiztegui were defensive victories for Zumalacárregui (they were falsely reported as Cristino victories in San Sebastián where the Militia had to rescind victory celebrations).¹³⁸ Zumalacárregui intensified pressure on besieged Cristino towns by employing guerrilla forces. The Cristino army could win few victories, and those it did win were ineluctably skewed by political and careerist considerations. General Córdova, whose later leadership of the Army of the North I address in Chapter 5, felt his role in the victory had been downplayed and offered Madrid his resignation in protest; Madrid appeased him with the *comandancia* of the Basque provinces, replacing the American war veteran, Canterac, who was made Captain-General of Madrid. Political pressure, buoyed by a radicalised press, exhorted Cristino commanders to win victories no matter what the cost. Zumalacárregui was dislodged by overwhelming enemy numbers at Orbiso on 17 January 1835, and this was subsequently celebrated as a Cristino victory, even though the Cristinos then abandoned their useless territorial gain, allowing Zumalacárregui to claim the field.¹³⁹ Two weeks later Zumalacárregui repulsed a Cristino attempt to seize the bridge at Arquijas, in circumstances which summed up the Cristino quandary: Córdova and Oráa saw their communications paralysed by Carlist interception, and

Oráa ended up advancing onto the wrong enemy flank, allowing Zumalacárregui to defeat both armies in detail.¹⁴⁰

Whilst the Cristino army was bogged down, the Carlists were successful in a series of localised offensives to expand their hold on the Basque country. In the front line was the Baztán, whose hard-pressed Militia felt abandoned by the Cristino army. Elizondo was terrorised by artillery bombardment: such was the panic that the town's women were allowed to leave to take their chances with the surrounding Carlists. The town made desperate appeals for reinforcements from Pamplona but Espoz, conscious of Pamplona's precarious situation, at first rejected these. Espoz himself begged Madrid for more reinforcements, but those that arrived were of insufficient quantity and quality.¹⁴¹ War Minister Llauder, himself so recently a royalist and accustomed to seeing Espoz as a revolutionary, was reluctant to send him reinforcements, and did not believe his remark that 'it did not matter whether Juan or Pedro are War Minister as I know how to obey'.¹⁴² Rather, Llauder was one of the first *moderados* to utter a preference for an international rather than national solution to the conflict, precisely so as to avoid Espoz's revolutionism. Espoz would soon have his revenge by publicly condemning the leftist Cardero rising of January 1835, thereby placing the blame for its success entirely on Llauder's shoulders.¹⁴³ Meanwhile, as besieged Elizondo began to starve, pressure mounted on Espoz to send a relief force, which he scraped together by mobilising Pamplona's militia cavalry. But this suffered a reverse at Larráinzar, where Espoz himself was almost captured by the Carlists after a series of errors which historians have explained along partisan lines.¹⁴⁴ Espoz eventually relieved Elizondo and made a brutal example of the nearby village of Lekaroz, which had been a Carlist thorn in the Cristino side of the Baztán capital, executing three male residents and relenting only when villagers marked for execution disclosed the whereabouts of three buried Carlist cannon. Carlists condemned Espoz for repeating his terrorism during the Triennium at Castellfullit. But to the Carlist cry to avenge Lekaroz, the Cristinos answered with Villafranca. Espoz defended his ruthlessness as stiffening the resolve of front-line Cristino communities and intimidating other Carlist villages.¹⁴⁵

But a pattern had emerged whereby a Cristino local victory in one area would be cancelled out by two defeats elsewhere. Whilst Espoz relieved Elizondo, Zumalacárregui took Los Arcos after a bloody siege involving artillery which the Cristino garrison – accustomed to seeing the enemy as insurgents rather than a regular army – assumed the Carlists could not

have. Unlike at Villafranca, the Cristinos yielded the town, evacuating safely under cover of night and rainfall. Whilst the Cristino rearguard fought off Zumalacárregui's cavalry pursuit, the vanguard faced the wrath of Espoz, who arrested the 'cowardly' garrison commander and his officers.¹⁴⁶ Espoz knew that the Carlist ring was tightening on the sensitive Baztán valley, but his exhortations for a maximum effort sounded hollow as defeatism swept his ranks. When Zumalacárregui, on 19 March, made a second attempt at Echarri-Aranaz on the key Pamplona–Vitoria road, the town yielded after a short bombardment from El Abuelo, the Cristino officers accepting terms to keep their swords and withdraw to Pamplona, whilst the subaltern ranks (including the artillery), who were also free to go, chose to serve under the Carlists rather than their own officers. These defectors were amazed to discover the still shoestring nature of the attack: El Abuelo's bore had worn out just as the garrison accepted terms (Carlist soldiers joked that it had gone quiet due to it being 'promoted' to lieutenant-colonel), whilst the parsimonious Zumalacárregui uncharacteristically bribed the inhabitants with scarce money in lieu of sustaining a full garrison of occupation. He had now consolidated his communications between Guipúzcoa and Navarra; Espoz, by contrast, had to abandon and destroy the nearby fort at Olazagutía, which had now been rendered indefensible.¹⁴⁷ Espoz thus lost hope in destroying the Carlist army in open battle, and instead focused on holding fortified towns, and absorbing virtually all his energies escorting supply convoys. And when fresh troops became available for a major offensive in April (see below), they failed to wrest the initiative from the Carlists. For the Carlists, meanwhile, only one prize now mattered.

Carlist legend says that Zumalacárregui opposed the decision to besiege Bilbao. Rather, Vitoria, so Zumalacárregui thought, was an easier target, whose fall could easily be followed by a general offensive towards Madrid. As he would be killed during this siege, it was comforting for the Carlists to read infallibility – and martyrdom – into their fallen leader. Certainly, the overruling of Zumalacárregui on the Bilbao question gave the court a pretext for bringing its commander-in-chief to heel. But early events also strengthened the court's case. Bilbao was blockaded from the land as early as March 1835, and illness and exhaustion forced Espoz to resign his command only weeks later. This deprived the Cristino cause of an experienced counter-insurgent strategist and Basque speaker. Also, the Bilbao operation was led by Zumalacárregui's second-in-command, the very able Francisco Benito de Eraso, who had fought Espoz during 1822–23 and again in 1830, and who probed the

weaknesses in Espoz's strategy by dispatching guerrillas to harass multiple Cristino fortified centres simultaneously, always reserving his main effort for Bilbao. Eraso was aided both by increasing defections from Cristino ranks (during the first ten days of March alone some 76 men and an officer defected) and by crisis within Bilbao. The Basque capital was in the grip of an economic crisis caused by the influx of refugees, mainly from the exposed coastal towns of Portugalete, Bermeo and Lequeitio, and by the paralysis caused by rural Carlism to local economic activity.¹⁴⁸ The world anticipated some sort of decision at the Vizacayan capital; Carlists indeed hoped that their capture of this port would trigger decisive aid from Metternich's Europe. International interest in Bilbao also magnified reports of atrocities. On one occasion some 37 Cristino soldiers captured by the besiegers outside the city walls were shot in reprisal for the killing of three wounded Carlists. The Carlists castrated some of their victims, as if playing out the emasculation trope of dynastic propaganda.¹⁴⁹

Mounting atrocities like these alarmed European opinion, and caused the British expert on Spanish affairs, Lord Wellington, to dispatch a humanitarian mission under the politician and diplomat, Lord Eliot, and his adjunct, the Peninsular War veteran, Colonel John Gurwood. The 'Eliot Treaty' which resulted from this mission gave quarter to regular Carlist and Cristino troops who surrendered in the Basque country, allocating them mutually recognised prisoner-of-war camps, or 'depots', from which they were to be exchanged at regular intervals. Both Zumalacárregui and Cristino War Minister Valdés agreed that the treaty could be 'extended if the war reaches other places', even though the Cristinos were horrified by this prospect.¹⁵⁰ In fact, this humanitarian mission by their Quadruple Alliance ally poisoned Cristino politics, especially later in the war when pressure grew from some quarters to extend the treaty to the irregular war raging in Catalonia and the Maestrazgo. Both Left and Right Liberals protested that the treaty treated the Carlists as equals, and even worked in their favour as their forces were numerically inferior. Left Liberals protested that the treaty allowed the Carlists to exclude militiamen, foreigners and Cristino free corps from quarter, licensing them in particular to massacre any militiamen they captured. As one Bilbao Radical complained whilst his city was under Carlist siege: 'here is a treaty which carefully excludes the militia, the very pith of the popular cause... The Spanish Generals ought to have spurned the mere idea of bargaining for their own safety at the cost of the families who fed, clothed, and paid them.'¹⁵¹ Other Liberals in safe urban centres shared the same indignation in the press.¹⁵²

The treaty touched a raw nerve in terms of inter-service rivalry, and the behaviour of Spanish officers increased leftist grievances. Episodes abounded of Cristino officers' callousness towards the Liberals' Militia. When the Cristino commander of Ochandiano surrendered his town to Zumalacárregui, he negotiated the safe handover of his horses but neglected to negotiate anything for the town's Militia garrison.¹⁵³ Episodes like these fed a popular martyrdom complex and primed the 'people-in-arms' to start the revolution of the juntas in 1835. In the meantime, the Eliot Treaty could not have come at a worse time for Cristino fortunes, for Valdés signed it only days after having left his Ministry to replace Espoz in the command of the Army of the North in order to mount what turned out to be a disastrous offensive.

On 18 April 1835, the Army of the North mounted the biggest campaign of the war so far, involving some 21,000 Cristino soldiers, which led on 22 April to the Battle of Améscoas. Valdés's offensive aimed to destroy the Carlist army in its 'den' of the valley of Améscoas in Navarra, which Zumalacárregui had developed as a redoubt in the early days of the insurgency. The army invaded as pincers, one arm led by Valdés and the other by Córdova from his base at Vitoria. The Cristinos' 34 battalions vastly outnumbered the 11 which Zumalacárregui had committed for defence (his main effort was massing against Bilbao) but the Carlists' signature tactics of ambush and superior local intelligence hampered the invaders' progress. Early success by Córdova's pincer at destroying Carlist depots proved a false dawn when his men lost discipline and gorged on the supplies Carlist civilian evacuees had stashed in oak boughs. Both Cristino armies lost around half their effectives to desertion during the two-week campaign, and these losses were compounded by suffering as the Cristinos' flimsy footwear broke on the notoriously tough limestone terrain and their supplies broke down. The hunger of Valdés's men drove most of their effectives away from the planned route and towards the Carlist capital of Estella instead. Even though they occupied Estella, their ignorance of local geography and a complete breakdown of communications caused the Cristino columns to fire on each other the whole night before the occupation. Meanwhile, Zumalacárregui's rearguard wore out Córdova's force with repeated ambushes, especially at night, which meant the Cristino force which reached Artaza, the gateway to the Améscoas valley, on 22 April, was hungry, sleep-deprived and diminished. Zumalacárregui issued a halt order, and repulsed the Cristino attack despite his three-to-one inferiority, inflicting over 700 fatalities. The Cristino line broke and the demoralised soldiers fled for their lives, vanishing into the hills,

some ending up being lynched by enraged Basque villagers, and others reaching the temporary safety of Estella. The Army of the North was spent, and even worse it had not even drawn any Carlist battalions away from their offensive against Bilbao.¹⁵⁴ As the English Carlist veteran Henningsen noted:

The high expectations entertained in both London and Madrid, of what Valdés was to do against the *faction*, were crushed, particularly when it was known that Zumalacárregui had overthrown him with eleven battalions, having in the provinces twenty-eight under his command, if he had chosen to bring them up; but that while he effected this, every fortified place was as strictly blockaded as ever.¹⁵⁵

The defeat at the Améscoas valley handed the initiative to the Carlists, who now embarked upon a general counteroffensive. Espoz's recent strategy of mobile warfare to retain as much territory as possible was now impossible to sustain, and by the end of May Cristino forces were driven from all of the Basque country outside the fortified capitals of Pamplona, Vitoria, San Sebastián and Bilbao. The greatest loss was the Baztán valley and the huge stretch of sensitive French border it commanded. The evacuation of the Baztán was followed by that of all Cristino fortified centres in Navarra outside of Pamplona; the Carlists occupied them and sometimes even did not even bother to harass the retreating Cristinos. Liberals, especially those enrolled in Elizondo's Militia, felt abandoned and fearful of Carlist reprisals: Oráa called an extra-ordinary session of the Baztán town hall in order to allay their fears of the army's retreat. It was to no avail. This episode crystallised an ideological divide between the army and the militia which had, of course, long distinguished Spanish liberalism but which now, in the context of brutal civil war, became an anguished question of survival. Unlike the Militia, which answered to local government, the army followed a chain of command deaf to local interests. The militia, by contrast, was a localised force that in the Carlist north made more enemies than friends. The army's retreat from the Baztán turned into a rout in wet weather, with swollen streams hampering the retreat of often barefoot soldiers. And the situation for the Cristinos elsewhere in the Basque country was equally grim. In late April, General Iriarte was defeated at Guernica, losing almost 500 in action and countless others when soldiers careered off a bridge into a fast-flowing river. Captured officers were shot in reprisal for a recent Cristino atrocity elsewhere.¹⁵⁶ The only officer who stemmed the offensive was Espartero, who, at Rentería, halted

Iriarte's flight and reoccupied Guernica. A grateful government promoted Espartero to Comandante General of the Basque provinces.¹⁵⁷ But the cupboard was bare when compared to the prizes on the Carlist side. Zumalacárregui took Treviño (an exclave of Castile inside the Basque country) after an almost bloodless siege. Its demoralised garrison of both soldiers and Militia was happy to surrender on the Carlists' word that the new Eliot Treaty would be binding on both forces. Zumalacárregui now had truly contiguous territory under his command with all its economic, demographic and military potential, and he justified his overlordship using the language of a Christian soldier.¹⁵⁸ He implored his prisoners to renounce revolution and embrace Catholicism and King Carlos V. Learning of his commander's flourish, the pious Don Carlos offered Zumalacárregui a noble title: Duke of Améscoas, but Zumalacárregui coyly replied that he would 'accept this honour once the Carlists are marching into Cádiz'.¹⁵⁹ But despite Zumalacárregui's plans for Vitoria, the court had resolved that the path to Spain's Babylon lay through Bilbao. Only Bilbao now stood between the status of Carlism as a rural insurgency and Carlism as a regime-in-waiting.

5

The War Radicalises Cristino Spain, 1835–36

This chapter charts the Carlist recovery from their failure to take Bilbao (first siege) and the death of Zumalacárregui, including Carlist territorial expansion in the Basque country, the Maestrazgo and Catalonia. It explains how Carlist military success was both a cause and a consequence of the Radical-Liberal revolutions in the Cristino zone of September 1835. It shows how this leftist shift in politics was fed by a popular anti-militarism and anti-clericalism, which, with varied results, forced the hand of the Radical Prime Minister, Mendizábal. Whilst his anti-clerical reforms solidified Cristino support at the expense of provoking support for Carlism, his 100,000-man levy provoked an expanded pattern of desertion, particularly because of the peculiar supply problems the Cristino army faced. It shows how the war radicalised international opinion and led to volunteers enlisting for both sides, especially the Cristino auxiliaries who helped defeat Bilbao's second siege, and explains their impact on Spanish politics and society.

The Cristino army now abandoned all of the Basque country apart from San Sebastián, Bilbao and Pamplona, the front line being established at Miranda del Ebro. The Carlists thus gained population, money and other war-ready resources. Eraso already had Bilbao under siege: now the Carlist cry went up of 'To Bilbao!' Eight artillery pieces were trained on the capital of Vizcaya, and shortages, if not outright hunger, began to envelop the city. Carlist women followed the besieging army in the hope of entering Bilbao for plunder.¹ Count Mirasol, Cristino military governor of the province of Vizcaya, came from second-generation military aristocracy and was no natural friend of the popular cause. Yet, on 18 June 1835, he made a stirring speech to the Urban Militia of Bilbao, telling them they had 'nothing to learn from the army'. The

walls were breached on 14 June, but the Militia managed to secure the gap. Even though the Carlists, as always, managed to work miracles with their limited artillery, two of their guns were so worn that their bores split. The Carlists were too exhausted to continue the assault on the night of 14 June, and the Cristino batteries opened up a counter-fire. Mirasol had scoured the northern front for spare artillery, as far afield as San Sebastián. British and French gunboats were also active in the River Nervión, and the allies accepted Mirasol's request to strip their vessels of some of their guns in order to bolster the defences of the city. Mirasol's resourcefulness was matched by a chance catastrophe in the enemy camp. On 18 June, Zumalacárregui was wounded outside the walls and died a week later.² Zumalacárregui's death turned him into a Carlist legend, at the right hand of such patriotic figures as Pelayo and El Cid.³ Carlism was deprived of its first and last undisputed leader, and no sooner had Zumalacárregui died than rumours abounded that he had been poisoned by Don Carlos's court.⁴ It was therefore strange that early Cristino responses included panic as well as triumphalism. The consulate at Bayonne repeated ill-digested rumours that the Quadruple Alliance was abandoning plans to reinforce the Cristinos with some 3,000 Polish émigré infantry who had been awaiting embarkation from Southampton; news of Zumalacárregui's death, it seemed, convinced Paris and London that the war would now be short and that intervention was both unnecessary and dangerous in view of renewed legitimist plots in France.⁵ In fact, Liberal Polonophilia in the wake of the recent Russian repression of Poland had exaggerated the real figure of 500 infantry, and these Poles would still reach Spain as part of the French Foreign Legion (and they would be joined the following year by three Polish cavalry squadrons).⁶ Rumours and half-truths shaped the Carlist War like no other.

Cristino spirits were raised when a relief force led by General Manuel Latre, a veteran of the Riego revolution, forced a gap in the Carlist siege line. On 26 June, Don Carlos appeared in person before Bilbao, but this emboldened rather intimidated the defenders. When a particularly savage bombardment on the morning of the 27th opened a breach in the walls, into it sprang soldiers and the artillerymen of the Urban Militia, even British Royal Marines, the shock troops of the Quadruple Alliance, all of whom displayed doggedly high morale, shouting *vivas* to Isabel II and liberty.⁷ Seeing this resolve, on 27 June Eraso made a plea for the besieged to surrender, promising even to show mercy to the Militia as the Carlists recently had at Villafranca and Vergara. But the resolve of the Militia, Quadruple Alliance and even Bilbao women

who answered the sound of shellfire with piano music and dancing, emboldened Mirasol to reject capitulation.⁸

The Carlist siege was formally broken by the arrival, on 30 June, of a Cristino relief force led by Córdoba, acting head of the Army of the North. The Carlists had fired a total of 1,580 projectiles into Bilbao, and, in all, more than 200 soldiers and militiamen had been killed or wounded (no exact figures exist for civilians).⁹ On the one hand, the Carlists had been defeated by the Cristino defence: Bilbao's Militia had excelled in urban point defence, giving time for the relief force, and the propaganda value of the Liberal 'people in arms' surged in the wake of the victory.¹⁰ On the other hand, the Carlists also defeated themselves via internal dissent. The Carlist court was riven with intrigue and animosity. Maroto and Eraso disliked each other whilst Villemur, the French émigré of the 1790s and now Carlist prime minister ('Universal Minister') disliked Zumalacárregui. These court divisions in part resulted in the Cristino relief force from Portugalete relieving Bilbao. Sturdier siegeworks and more intense bombardment might have taken the city, so the Carlists reckoned.

Meanwhile, the death of Zumalacárregui and the victory at Bilbao gave the Cristino side the initiative for the first time since the Améscoas offensive. Strategically, the situation showed promise: on 17 March 1835, Madrid had decreed the creation of a Reserve Army comprising both regular troops and, controversially for the Cristino Left, mobile militia, to be based in Castile to combat both Carlist incursions from Navarra and guerrilla activity behind the front line. Valdés's failure to lead the lifting of the siege of Bilbao had cost him his job, and on 2 July 1835, he was replaced as commander-in-chief by Luis Fernández de Córdoba.¹¹ A royalist during the Triennium and diplomat during the Ominous Decade, Córdoba's career was tarnished by a notorious altercation in 1831 with Prime Minister Calomarde. But Córdoba returned to favour after the transition and became an intimate ally of the Queen-Regent.¹² For the first time since the appointment of Espoz the previous November, the Cristinos had a commander with real vision, albeit a very different one (Córdoba planned a static war of attrition). The Carlists, by contrast, never found a replacement equal to Zumalacárregui. The hero's successor, Vicente González Moreno, was 58 years old – almost 20 years older than Córdoba. Moreno's Ominous Decade had honoured the Liberal black legend: as Captain-General of Granada he had presided over the execution of Torrijos. The 'Hangman of Málaga' also alienated his own side: in 1827, he had supported Calomarde's anti-Carlistism and had timorously fled possible retribution from vengeful Liberals after

being purged of his captaincy-general in October 1832. Moreno thus needed some military success to restore Carlist fortunes and silence his detractors.¹³

Moreno advanced the Carlist army to Mendigorriá (Navarra), rashly joining battle with the Cristinos in a tactically weak position, as the River Arga lay behind his troops with only one bridge allowing for the contingency of retreat. Thus battle opened on 16 July 1835, and Córdoba won his first victory as commander-in-chief, even though his cavalry failed to exploit this in pursuit. For the first time, Carlist casualties (some 2,000 dead) significantly exceeded those of the Cristinos, who lost about half this toll.¹⁴ Moreno's hopes of silencing his critics were thus dashed. It was suggested that Moreno hoped his reckless deployment would intimidate an enemy which had been showing every sign of nerves, and yield the possibility of a general invasion of Castile.¹⁵ Don Carlos, who had never forgotten Moreno's betrayal during the *Agraviados*, replaced him with the ambitious Nazario Eguía, who was of a similar age but was a career officer and a better tactician.¹⁶

Even though Córdoba was feted in Pamplona as a hero, the strategic situation was not significantly changed. Despite Cristino defensive victories at Bilbao and Mendigorriá, the Army of the North remained chronically undersupplied, only limited help came from outside Spain and poor conditions made an ideal environment for Radical agitators to subvert the army. Córdoba repeatedly offered his resignation in disgust but Madrid neither called his bluff nor managed to attend to his needs. The first problem was that the granaries and other foodstores established in northern forts were either abandoned or empty. The second problem was the corrupt and chaotic system of private contractors. The government regularly defaulted on its payments to the contractors, or *asentistas*, and these in turn did not supply the army, or at best, supply would be partial, erratic and unpredictable. The largest contractor of this chaotic scheme was Agustín Alinary, and as little as 30 per cent of his contracted supplies actually reached the army. The third problem was that it proved difficult to surmount this shortfall by living off the land. Cristino invaders in Navarra seldom found booty as Carlist defenders were supplied at short range and the Royal Government issued decrees against the hoarding of foodstuffs (Carlists invading Castile, by contrast, could get booty). Córdoba thus had to show an administrative and political acumen beyond his relatively young years. On the one hand, he coerced Cristino civilian populations in his zone to shoulder the burden of supply. This won him the loyalty of his soldiers but not of civilians. For operations either on the actual front or in hostile territory,

Córdoba contracted 1,000 muleteers, of whom some 700 presented for work (not enough, but a valuable addition nonetheless). But as these men routinely went unpaid, or were paid only in arrears, most ended up deserting. Córdoba blamed the political leadership for these failings, and owing to the revolution of the juntas in September 1835, his supply situation deteriorated still further as Radical juntas exercised their 'sovereignty'.¹⁷

The everyday life of the Cristino soldier and the officer on campaign was thus precarious in the extreme. Letters to officers from loved ones at best arrived twice per week when soldiers were in garrison, and not at all when they were on campaign. Relatives might send mail to fortresses and towns which approximated the soldiers' whereabouts, but there was no guarantee that recipients would pass through.¹⁸ Billets were dreary and unwelcoming: Pamplona, Vitoria and even San Sebastián lay under close blockade. Only Bilbao, with its busy port and entertainments, was a popular posting, at least for officers. But as for the ranks, foreign observers of both Cristino and Carlist sympathies agreed upon their dire state. Pro-Carlist Honan remarked: '(Cristino conscripts) were chiefly boys from sixteen to twenty years; many of them in tatters, and presenting most ungainly specimens. They took all opportunities of deserting, and some old soldiers escorted them from town to town to prevent it.'¹⁹ A British Legion officer in San Sebastián, for his part, saw wonders in his allies' predicament:²⁰

The Queen's recruits are mainly short, poorly clothed and worse fed. It is a mystery to me how any man can survive on their fare: meatless rations of rice some days, boiled vegetables with an ounce of bacon on others, coarse dark bread, no wine, and the meanest serving of rough spirits on Sundays.

In fact, this diet compared favourably with that of the civilian population: it has been estimated that in 1834 only some 13 per cent of Spain's population, some 1,550,000 out of 12,000,000, ate meat as part of their diet.²¹ But food supplies were erratic, especially at times of revolution, which fed a spiral of popular radicalisation, and the war for supplies was a constant Achilles heel for the Cristinos.

Meanwhile, politics radicalised in Cristino Spain. A pre-emptive rightist coup was plotted by Manuel Llauder: the ministerial *La Abeja* newspaper, on 18 January 1835, called for a military dictator to come to power and end the war. Llauder, meanwhile, ordered a levy of 25,000 men into the army and that martial law be imposed on the Urban Militia

to replace troops in fortified areas.²² This threat spurred a leftist coup forged by the Isabelina and led by a junior rather than senior officer, Lt. Cayetano Cardero, a man with unlimited reserves of ambition. Such veterans of the 1834 Isabelina as Quiroga and Palarea were to be assigned to captaincy-generalships, whilst the cry that went up in the centre of Madrid on 18 January was 'Down with Llauder!' Llauder, occupying the all-powerful War Ministry, had got wind of the plot, including its exact details, through his flourishing network of spies and informers. But, refusing to stop a ball being held in honour of the Queen-Regent, he self-assuredly predicted that the plot would fail. But the Madrid rising of 18 January went far beyond Llauder's expectations. The Captain-General of Madrid, Canterac, was drawn into negotiations as a stand-off emerged outside the Post Office on the Puerta del Sol, the centre of the revolt. Seeing that the militia had gone over to the rebellion, Canterac voiced an appeal for the rebels to unite behind the Royal Statute, but their response was 'Long live liberty!' Canterac then made an appeal to the loyalty of a palace regiment, but this was misheard as a Carlist cry.²³ A hail of bullets was the response from the rebels, who took little convincing to suspect official collusion with the enemy, and Canterac died instantly.²⁴ Seeing that they had crossed the Rubicon, Cardero's men returned to fortify themselves in the Post Office whilst pro-government troops descended on the centre and opened fire. Several bystanders, especially the ubiquitous *aguadores*, or water-sellers, were caught in the crossfire. Madrid, which had already suffered cholera and the anti-Jesuit massacres, had now become an open battleground between the ministerial and radical wings of Cristino liberalism.

Eventually a 'no-winners-no-losers' truce was negotiated, and Cardero was even allowed to send a petition to the nearby Cortes (the former Radical, Argüelles, contrived to ruin the document by spilling ink over it). Cardero and his men marched out of Madrid towards Navarra, drawing the cheers of a large part of the population. At Burgos Cardero was taken aside from his detachment and dispatched to 'safety' in the Balearic Islands. But real damage had been done to the Martínez de la Rosa government. Whereas Liberal writers explained Cardero's actions generously in idealistic terms, conservatives condemned the moral defeat the rising imposed on lawfulness and respectability, and the political cover it gave to urban criminality which had been rising since the anti-clerical massacres of July 1834.²⁵ In any case, such was the powerlessness of the government that all those soldiers involved were pardoned, Cardero even being promoted, after which, like Riego before him, he entered the Cortes; by contrast, his soldiers were sent to the

front.²⁶ Riding the tiger of army grievances, Cardero went on to become a darling of the Left, and the nemesis of conservative army elites.

In the wake of this rising a memorable debate ensued in the Cortes in which Palarea, a mooted beneficiary of the rising, bizarrely attributed the 18 January events to a Carlist plot, whilst Alcalá Galiano and others condemned it as showing how honest, liberty-loving soldiers and militiamen had been led astray. The rightist Liberal, Fernández de Córdova, by contrast, was scathing both of Cardero's careerism and of Llauder's weakness in allowing the insurgents to march out unpunished. All pointed the finger at Manuel Llauder, who had combined Bonapartist vainglory with shocking timing and incompetence. Llauder was dismissed from the War Ministry and dispatched with a token decoration to captain the generals in Catalonia. His replacement was Jerónimo Valdés, a man of the Left, whose reputation had grown as Captain-General of Valencia, in which role he had virtually wiped out the insurgency, and who had acted as temporary Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North in April 1835.²⁷ When the speaker of the Cortes on 21 January made a widely reported speech condemning the heavy-handed treatment of Liberals across Spain, including their imprisonment in Cartagena for singing the Riego Hymn, it was clear that the Cardero rising had shifted Cristino politics to the Left.²⁸

Madrid remained in a state of heightened tension for months. A riot on 11 May 1835 provoked by the Eliot Treaty led to rioters surrounding the Cortes in protest against Martínez de la Rosa, who narrowly avoided being lynched by indignant Urban Militia when he alighted from his coach. The capital was becoming ever more radicalised, as remaining royalists found that they could not walk the streets in safety.²⁹ Popular royalism had been greatly diminished by the Bourbon feud which saw Don Carlos rebelling in the north and the emigration of other family members, leaving María Cristina and her two daughters alone in the capital to negotiate the leftist shift in Cristino politics.³⁰ Thus, a leftist junior officer and his network of Liberal conspirators had caused the death of Madrid's captain-general, the humiliation of the War Minister, an embarrassed debate in the Cortes and a terminally weakened *moderado* administration that was unable to survive any further radicalisation.³¹ For a while it even seemed as though the controversial question of foreign mediation, in the form of the Eliot Treaty, could be such a spark. Despite the Francophile de la Rosa's constant reluctance to see British-led foreign intervention, the government now sought it, citing relevant clauses in the Quadruple Alliance which had been signed the previous April. It was desperately hoped that even the symbolic

showing of the Royal Navy flag off the northern coast would cow the rebels, and also that the French would send in an army.³² But Britain would not move. Westminster knew that greater intervention in Spain would need another Act of Parliament and that this would be rejected by a resurgent Tory opposition, in both chambers, which was either neutral or Carlist in sympathy. If the reactionary Northern Powers tried to put Charles X on the French throne, then Britain would act, but for the time being Britain thought that the Spanish Liberals could manage by themselves. The only olive branch was an undertaking not to oppose a stronger intervention from the French side. But France would only intervene after a British security guarantee against the Northern Powers, which was not forthcoming. The absence of an interventionist French army, which Interior Minister Thiers desired for purely expansionist reasons, fatally weakened the de la Rosa government and strengthened the hand of the Radicals.³³

Meanwhile, the Cristino home front beyond Madrid underwent radicalisation. In March 1835, Málaga saw riots provoked by the supposedly lenient treatment of a few Carlists behind bars and the militarisation of the citizens' force for service in the Serranía de Ronda. The military governor and de la Rosa's relative, Nicolás de Isidro purged the citizens' force of troublemakers, only to find a trenchant rival in the civil governor, who publicly sided with the militia. The clash between the heavy-handed military governor and the more conciliatory civil governor resulted in a power vacuum which the militia filled. Fearing that what had happened in Madrid could follow in Málaga, Isidro tried to disperse the crowd, only to be thwarted by a local agitator, Miguel Deomarco (a tinker by trade and progenitor to a Radical dynasty in Málaga), whose cry of '¡Viva la Constitución!' rallied the militia to defy martial law. The following day saw a funeral cortège of a dead militiaman pass by Isidro's residence, playing the Riego Hymn. An order the following day prohibiting subversive music and establishing a curfew went unheeded, and the situation spiralled quickly out of control.³⁴ When, on 22 March, the militiamen were summoned to hear a War Ministry circular about discipline, they broke ranks and marched into the town square shouting *vivas* to the Constitution. Three days of stand-off followed, as rival factions patrolled the streets: the civil power led by the militia who besieged Isidro's residence, and the military power, which had recruited a posse of some wealthy individuals who had 'a decided interest in re-establishing order'. Yet on 24 March, it was the militia which triumphed, as Isidro suffered a negative *pronunciamiento* in his ranks and was forced to resign and flee to Granada. The replacement

governor did the Radicals' bidding, presiding over a tablet-laying ceremony honouring the Constitution of 1812 and collecting signatures for a petition to the Queen-Regent protesting the states of siege. The *moderado* government was losing control of its rearguard.³⁵

Málaga, one of the most Liberal cities in the kingdom, had been radicalised by a civil war whose front line lay hundreds of miles away, and both central and regional authorities were heeding its example. Officers needed special leave to enter Madrid and a mass purge of the Urban Militia was decreed. Captains-general were empowered to assemble military committees against anyone disturbing the peace and a crackdown was ordered on La Isabelina and other secret societies. But central government decrees were countered by a Radical double regime at local levels. Cristino militiamen cleansed town halls of symbols of absolutism, especially the flags of the disbanded Royalist Volunteers, and organised revolutionary symbols in their stead, such as a marble statue of Riego in Seville and a cenotaph to intimidate priests and pro-Carlists.³⁶ Civil governors publicly burnt police files from the Ominous Decade, channelling revolutionary tension and also removing evidence of their own collusion with the police state.³⁷ It took little to turn this atmosphere into violence against both real and imagined Carlist fifth columnists. In Zaragoza, a Cristino priest led a mob against the pseudo-Carlist archbishop. The violence intensified as part of the militia went over to the assailants, and several clerics were killed. Three clerics were also killed in Murcia on 6 April 1835.³⁸ More serious violence flared up again in Zaragoza on the night of 5 July 1835 when some 11 clerics were killed, and similar killings followed in Barcelona. In both places, the militia stood by as the mobs burned convents and monasteries, a few hours later, most actually went over to the side of the assailants.³⁹ The militia stepped in to halt the riots only at the point when the crowd, having satiated itself on the Church property, moved on to rob nearby shops.⁴⁰ Assaulting the Church was one thing, but property was sacred, and the 'safety valve' of popular anti-clericalism could not be allowed to recoil on Liberal interests. Drawing on this lesson, the military governor of Huesca forestalled similar riots in his provincial capital by temporarily evacuating the nuns from their convents and placing them in asylums which were protected by militiamen he could trust.⁴¹ The Cristino military was seeing its supremacy challenged by the rising radicalism of its Militia rivals. Whereas Zaragoza's captain-general confided his fears to paper, noting how 'popular heroes were being made out of the militia who committed the most atrocious crimes',⁴² violence in other Cristino cities soon forced the military to more drastic reactions.

The worst anti-clerical violence struck Catalonia, where mountain Carlists threatened Cristino garrisons protecting the Catalan coastal plain. Carlists were blockading the proto-industrial town of Reus and ambushing its garrison's supplies and patrols. An 'exterminating angel' monk led an ambush in July which left, amongst seven Cristino dead, a mutilated militiaman who was father of eight children. In response Reus's convents went up in flames, whilst Llauder had few troops to spare outside of Barcelona even to fight the Carlists let alone pacify the militia on his own side. Even in Barcelona the military authorities were losing control.⁴³ Monasteries were torched and religious personnel killed, often at the hands of what contemporaries called 'obscene' women. The defection to Carlism of the Catalan nobility had made the Principality's clerics second only to those in the Basque country in their pro-Carlism, and they were confronted by Cristino Spain's reddest city in 1835.⁴⁴ Barcelona's new anti-clerical tradition was forged by its war refugees, nascent proletarian militancy, and even its inauguration in 1834 of crowd-pulling bullfighting in the working-class Barceloneta district.⁴⁵ Part of this revolutionism was being channelled in support of the federal Republican agenda of Xaudaró y Fàbregas, editor of *El Catalán* and a militia commander known for recruiting citizen-soldiers who failed to meet supposedly stringent property qualifications.⁴⁶ The ministerial press, by contrast, was relegated to impotent commentary, complaining how 'the worst symptom of our situation is the simultaneity of the killing of the clerics on the one hand and the, if not universal, then common indifference with which they were witnessed, heard, and spoken of on the other'.⁴⁷ Ambivalence describes attitudes better than indifference, as Catholics were cowed by the collusion of the authorities with the massacre, or, as a young girl later remembered: 'I recall the upheaval at home and my family's despair. As if in a dream I recall the reddish glow illuminating a high wall overlooking our roof-terrace, and of the horror etched in my mother's face as two friars ran for their lives past our house.'⁴⁸ An out-of-town lawyer who tried to stop a textile worker beating a captive priest was told to 'fuck off!'⁴⁹ Captain-General Llauder's humiliation during the Cardero crisis had weakened the once-strong relationship he had enjoyed with Barcelona's dominant business community and the militia it patronised. His military tribunals failed to arrest any serious anti-clerical instigators, and his inability to protect the Church matched the distant Carlists' inability to rescue it. Barcelona's realistic civic authorities confiscated the contents of the religious institutions, boarded their doors and windows, and then abandoned them to their fate.⁵⁰ Llauder had not only estranged the bourgeoisie but also

enraged popular radicalism with his policy of militarising some 40,000 Militia for want of regular troops.⁵¹ Whereas members of the Militia did not object to being sent out of their homes on active patrol, they did object to garrisoning distant villages and forts surrounded by rural Carlism, where torture and summary execution often awaited those citizen-soldiers unlucky enough to be captured alive in ambush.⁵²

The patricians' 'negative *pronunciamiento*' against Llauder served notice on him to leave Barcelona. Leaving for Mataró, Llauder left power in the hands of his fellow Catalan who became Captain-General, Pedro Nolasco Bassa y Gerona, and civil governor, Pedro María Pastors. But hopes of re-establishing normal control were rendered impossible, because the assault on the convents had unleashed the people not only against Carlism, but also against the economic liberalism of the Cristino elites. The eve of the war was also the eve of the modern industrial age for Barcelona, as José Bonaplata built the country's first steam-powered cotton mill, known simply as the 'Steam' (El Vapor) or the Bonaplata works. The machines required fewer workers than had been customary, and even those workers the employers retained were made to do unpopular piecework, with the measure of cloth per worker being constantly widened for each wage. Meanwhile, the dislocation caused to agriculture by the war had increased food prices more quickly than commensurate wage rises.⁵³ But the Bonaplata was well protected: its owner, José Bonaplata, commanded a militia battalion which had led the attacks on the Church, and there were middle-class vigilante juntas besides. The propertied elites also had Captain-General Bassa on their side, whose 'restraint' (*moderantismo*) was unequivocal. Yet the revolutionaries had not dispersed since their 25 July assault. Whereas the civil authorities dared not turn the militia against them, Bassa decided to follow the letter of martial law by marching 1,500 troops down the Ramblas, rounding up and imprisoning revolutionaries. The revolutionaries tried to win over Bassa, and when this overture fell on deaf ears, the civil authorities, on 5 August, implored him to follow Llauder into flight. But Bassa was adamant: 'within two hours either I or the people will have succumbed'.⁵⁴ The revolutionaries held nothing but contempt for Bassa, an armchair general who had 'never even seen a *faccioso*', and the riot that broke out was inevitable. Bassa fled to the near-deserted Ciudadela, the eighteenth-century fortress overlooking the city, seeking reinforcements in vain, but the mob broke in, cornering Bassa, shooting him dead and defenestrating his corpse. They then moved on to the Bonaplata. The militia battalion defending the factory failed to pacify the revolutionaries with invectives against Don Carlos and the

Church. The anti-clerical massacres may have bound the executioners together and intimidated the restrained Liberals, but they had failed as a social prophylaxis against working-class radicalism, for the revolutionaries killed more than 15 militiamen who were defending the works whilst they also burned the Bonaplata to the ground. Meanwhile Bassa's body was dragged around the city and burnt to ashes in a bonfire in La Rambla.⁵⁵

The following day, the civil governor, Pastors, who had survived the violence, made a show of humility which won over both the anti-clerical and working-class factions of the Left and halted further fratricidal killing. Two prisoners were executed in a pathetic resurrection of lawful authority, a Carlist *cabecilla* (Garri) and the Radical instigator of the Bonaplata attack (Pardinas). Llauder, his nerves wrecked, crossed into France and exile.⁵⁶ The militia was expanded from six battalions to 13 in order to accommodate hungry workers, entrenching popular radicalism in Barcelona.⁵⁷ But matters did not rest there. Barcelona's example was followed by other Cristino cities threatened by Carlist encroachments. Tarragona and Valencia, whose hinterlands were invaded by the Carlist forces of Quílez and Serrador, both saw their prisons invaded by mobs and several inmates lynched for 'conspiracy', whilst the authorities saved more than a hundred others by hurriedly exiling them to garrison prisons in Ceuta, North Africa. Equally, Murcia and even Zaragoza, the latter already an *exaltado* stronghold saw similar violence. Seven Carlist prisoners were executed in kangaroo courts, including Don Carlos's confessor, Blas de Hostalaza.⁵⁸ The growing violence propelled attempts first by the toothless parliamentary opposition, and then by radicalised militia in the provinces, to replace the *moderado* government with a proactively Liberal and anti-Carlist regime.⁵⁹

The Cristino government soon discovered that it was powerless to arrest this radicalism. A cosmetic cabinet reshuffle in July replaced one restrained (*moderado*) prime minister with another, Martínez de la Rosa with Count Toreno, both former Radicals who now shared a grim assessment that popular opinion in the country as a whole had swayed in favour of Carlism. They may have been right, but this guardedness was read as defeatism, even as collusion with the enemy, in Radical circles. On 15 August, Radicals raised the capital's militia in rebellion, demanding the imposition of the Constitution of 1812 and the release from prison of the leader of the Isabelina, Eugenio de Aviraneta e Ibargoyen.⁶⁰ But this insurrection was met by a Carlist rising in some of the poor neighbourhoods of Madrid where artisans and women sustained a low-level urban guerrilla against Militia patrols. Aviraneta had

not been the only prisoner running street politics from his prison cell: the Carlist Junta of Selva had been doing the same. Seizing the chance to re-establish order, the *moderado* government mobilised army units and conservative elements in the Militia to disband three of the capital's most radical Militia battalions. The War Ministry then reformed them, filtering out the Radicals.⁶¹ Powerless to resist this purge, the Radicals replied with a pamphleting campaign. Whereas the Militia was praised for its sacrifices resisting Carlism, the army was scorned as the parasitical tool of despotism: 'You are not the people! Nor are you Spaniards! You don't belong to or care about our soil and laws at all! It's a shame you forget that you clothe and feed yourselves on our blood and sweat!'⁶²

The government's success in Madrid encouraged the Interior Ministry to issue a triumphalist communiqué the following day (17th), but this sangfroid proved short-lived. Revolution was sweeping across all provincial capitals. And gone were the days of popular riots: now the Radicals were linking the struggle against Carlism to a positive programme of Liberal renewal. Insurgent juntas frequently restored to buyers the nationalised property which royalists in 1823 had confiscated. They also tried to win over the unpropertied by abolishing the hated consumption taxes called the *derechos de puertas*.⁶³ Revolutionaries, meanwhile, attacked not just Carlists but also *moderado* elites who attempted resistance. In Tarragona, the governor was killed trying to escape the revolutionaries by boat.⁶⁴

The alarmed Toreno administration reshuffled the cabinet again, but no serious candidates could be made to resist the revolutionary tide, posts being filled with the senile and politically innocent. The ministerial *Gaceta de Madrid* condemned the revolutionaries as dishonourable cowards. But the revolutionaries were no longer leaderless. Juntas were being formed by *exaltado* public figures, including members (*procuradores*) of the parliamentary opposition. Even though the government decreed the 'abolition' of these juntas, this was vain rhetoric. The government may have hoped for survival due to the 9 September 1835 proclamation from the Commander of the Army of the North, Fernández de Córdova, that he would defend the central government. But Córdova's attention was absorbed containing a Carlist breakout and suppressing mutinies in his own ranks, and he could spare only piecemeal forces under General Latre to shore up the central government.⁶⁵ At first, Latre's forces were successful pacifying such provincial capitals as Burgos and Palencia, which were instinctively conservative anyway and whose militia revolutionaries were not dispersed in the countryside. Unlike the Carlists, the Radicals centred their militancy in towns, which

meant that government troops and artillery could easily be concentrated against them. But the further south Latre pushed the greater the degree of revolutionary resistance he encountered. Juntas in Andalucía, Valencia and Catalonia had won over local regular forces in addition to the Militia, and some had launched populist manifestoes which went beyond a mere tax amnesty. The Andalusian revolutionaries convened their junta at Andújar under the leadership of Count Donadío and throughout September waged a physical struggle against Madrid, which they justified, in part, by sloganeering social justice. Whilst Donadío let his 4,000-strong revolutionary army behave like 'anarchists', cutting all communications between Andalucía and Madrid,⁶⁶ his future father-in-law, the *procurador* Count Navas, rallied Andalusian labourers with the cry of *¡Viva la República!*⁶⁷ When Latre's column passed the Andalusian frontier at Depeñaperros on 17 September, his men defected to the revolutionaries; only the elite cavalry and artillery stayed loyal to the government.⁶⁸

The juntas have been heralded by leftist writers as evidence of nascent socialism and federalism. Twentieth-century Andalusian regionalists saw the Andújar revolution as a vehicle for combating the notorious abuses of the agricultural proletariat, and a model of regional solidarity against centralising diktats of Madrid.⁶⁹ Equally, members from revolutionary juntas in Valencia, Aragón and Catalonia discussed federating themselves along the historical lines of pre-absolutist Hapsburg model.⁷⁰ In fact, these later representations overlooked the actual behaviour of the juntas and how their revolutionary decisions were driven by the contingencies of the war rather than ideology. The republicanism of Navas and Donadío was mere rhetoric. When Navas was returned to the revolutionary Cortes he lost interest in land reform and never bothered to intervene in debates about widening suffrage.⁷¹ Donadío's radicalism, meanwhile, was bought off with his marriage into the Navas family and the military governorship of Málaga.⁷² The federalism plan was dropped as soon as the juntas realised that the Toreno government could no longer use military force against them. Its real rationale, in any case was telling. The Captain-General of Valencia briefly captained the confederation idea for military rather than political reasons, in protest at the Cristino government policy of denuding the east of regular troops: 'The only sufficient force under my command is the militia.' Unless exceptional rulings applied, the militia answered to local civil authorities, and the captain-general therefore sensibly subscribed to 'a type of confederation between the three kingdoms that used to form the Crown of Aragón'.⁷³

Moreover, the devolution of power to juntas did not equate to a democratisation process in the way that rarefied studies of the 1835 juntas have argued.⁷⁴ For one thing, Spanish liberalism never diverged from an intolerant inability to admit pluralism – or ‘loyal opposition’ – which in practice meant the exercise of close clientelist networks of patronage and punishment and rigged elections.⁷⁵ Mendizábal grew nostalgic for his 12 years in Britain where he had discovered that political adversaries could yet remain friends because of fair play in politics.⁷⁶ The revolution of the juntas often impaired the war effort by releasing hitherto repressed networks of corruption and cronyism into public office. The Andújar junta soon found itself fighting, in Málaga, a civil war inside a civil war. The notorious local extortionist, Cuban-born Vicente Abello – whose coup during the Peninsular War in 1810 had ruined Málaga’s defence against the French – mobilised a mob to seize the local Captaincy-Generalship of Granada. Abello justified this act by proclaiming the Constitution of 1812, but this did not convince subordinate juntas at Jaén and Málaga, which led a tax-strike against him. Andújar promptly deposed him, but Abello’s mob assaulted a meeting of Andújar revolutionaries held at Granada’s Chancellery, forcing them to reinstate him. Abello now emerged as a statesman, having successfully defied the Liberal ‘Right’ of Andújar whilst also violently suppressing his own Liberal ‘Left’ once he could safely dispense with it. Half-a-dozen rioters were exiled to the penal colony at Ceuta and a leading mobster, the ‘notorious Olmo’, was executed.⁷⁷

Even the power struggles of the revolutionary juntas paled in comparison to the subaltern ranks of the Cristino army who used the revolutionary climate to vote with their feet. Official bulletins during 1835 complained about Cristino draftees’ illegal emigration to Portugal and France, and this exodus peaked during the breakdown in authority in September.⁷⁸ Popular pressure at local level often forced revolutionary authorities in Barcelona to suspend the hated draft, and several other Cristino authorities followed suit, most completely in the Andalusian town of Antequera.⁷⁹ Historians of revolutions in politically undeveloped societies have noted how communities ‘import’ slogans devised by elites (‘republic’, ‘Constitution’ and ‘liberty’) and invest them with their own meaning.⁸⁰ The meaning the Cristino rank and file invested in the revolution was freedom from abusive military service. Sergeants occupied a key role in the social history of the Cristino army as they disciplined, championed or subverted their men. In September 1835, a squadron of off-duty cavalry led by Sergeant Manuel Vilches staged a *pronunciamiento* in Burgos in the name of the Constitution of 1812,

Table 5.1 Eco del Comercio, 7 March 1836: Strength of Cristino National Guard at end of 1835

District	Mobile		Sedentary		Total	
	Men	Cavalry	Men	Cavalry	Men	Cavalry
New Castile	422	21	29611	1903	30033	1924
Old Castile			97732	2233	97732	2233
Extremadura	6307	392	30669	1296	37076	2588
Galicia	936		14945	270	15881	270
Catalonia	10811	112	31096		43987	112
Aragón			17911	371	17911	371
Valencia	5686	215	70172	2497	76158	2712
Andalucía			29437	3630	29437	3630
Granada			39567	2233	39567	2233
Balearic Islands	423		7512	56	7935	56
Total	25663	740	309052	15409	394717	16149

actually a pretext for the entire squadron to desert.⁸¹ A similar attempt weeks later by infantry sergeants in Soria met with little following, Comandante General Valdés confiding to Espartero that ‘the ambition of some sergeants created much hot air but fortunately no response’.⁸² Even the militia, which had expanded to 394,717 men and 16,149 cavalry by the end of 1835, shared many of the grievances of the Cristino army as the war made conditions of service deteriorate (Table 5.1).⁸³ The government divided its membership between privileged volunteers and a less privileged ‘legal’ category (*legales*) whose conditions of service approximated those of the army as they could be ‘legally’ commanded to campaign against Carlists outside of their home province. Sacedón (Guadalajara) in October 1835, witnessed *legales* refusing campaign orders and rioting against the privileges of the volunteers.⁸⁴ In fact, the ‘revolutionary’ juntas of 1835 occupied a middle ground between the *moderado* central government and a radicalised Militia and soldiery, channelling the grievances of the latter in order to get the *exaltados* into power.

For the *moderado* central government all depended on whether the Cristino Army of the North would switch its allegiance to the juntas. The government sensibly did not want a repeat of Latre’s failure and ordered Córdoba to hold the front in Navarra. For their part, those juntas threatened by Carlist invasions, such as Zaragoza and Barcelona, lacked confidence in the military ability of their own radicalised Militia and urged Córdoba to send regular reinforcements. Other juntas,

especially those deeper in the Cristino zone, made explicitly political pleas. Zaragoza urged the army to disobey Madrid which was ‘the real enemy’, Granada declared the Queen-Regent a prisoner, Badajoz condemned the government as ‘the real anarchists’, issuing it with a 12-day deadline to resign, whilst Cádiz declared Toreno a traitor.⁸⁵ Terrified, Toreno appealed for French help, but the French foreign minister, the Duc de Broglie, refused. The only concession France could make had already made. On 28 June 1835, agreement was reached to dispatch to Spain the 4,100-strong *Legión d’Algérie* (the early Foreign Legion) to Catalonia under the command of Colonel Bernelle. Prime Minister Thiers had wanted to expand this force by some 8,000, increasing French influence in Liberal Europe without provoking Metternich (whose pro-Carlism, Thiers knew, had practical limits) to intervene militarily on the Carlist side. But the Liberal interventionism of the French king was restricted in Spanish matters: Louis-Philippe, much to the chagrin of Liberal Europe, privately held Don Carlos’s claim to the throne to be stronger than Isabella’s and in any case did not want Spain to become for France what Italy was for Austria. French foreign policy never managed to square this circle.⁸⁶ Thus, by late 1835, the Legion’s Spanish presence had not expanded beyond six battalions. Nearly all its officers were French, but its rank and file included many Germans, Italians and Poles, this last nationality replacing the Spanish battalion which, in February 1834, was disbanded for service in the Cristino army.⁸⁷ The French government, which was worried about Spanish revolution infecting its soldiers, dispatched its Legion to combat positions only, away from the ‘contagion’ of the *exaltados*.⁸⁸ But, despite the hopes of several *moderados* for formal French assistance against the *exaltados*, this force would not leave its quarantine to be drawn into Cristino domestic politics. His last hope gone, and revolutionary death threats mounting, Toreno resigned on 14 September and fled into the safety of a French exile.⁸⁹ His successor, *exaltado* Juan Álvarez Mendizábal, would channel the radicalism caused by the war. Mendizábal was the favoured candidate of Britain, the second Quadruple Alliance great power whose auxiliary British Legion had come to the aid of Cristino Spain in June 1835, around the same time as the French. The arrival of organised foreign volunteers coincided with the radicalisation of Cristino politics and had the effect of the projecting the Spanish Civil War into a world war between Absolutism and Liberty.

Exaltados praised the altruism of the foreign auxiliaries but criticised their governments’ refusal to make open war on the Carlists.⁹⁰ Even though the French had a kind of cultural entrée to the Cristinos which

the culturally more distant British did not at first enjoy, *exaltados* generally identified with British liberalism, even when its free-trade mantra alienated Spain's fledgling industrialisation. Most *moderados*, by contrast, were drawn to the authoritarian, centralised liberalism of the July Monarchy, and many also to the prospect of formal French military intervention. The Carlists, for their part, ridiculed the auxiliaries as proof of the Cristinos' need to use foreign mercenaries to impose liberalism on an unwilling population, and traditionalist historians a century later excoriated the auxiliaries as the 'first International Brigades'.⁹¹ Carlists regularly betrayed xenophobia in their cause. Ramón Cabrera expressed 'Spanish pride' at defeating a succession of Cristino generals with cosmopolitan surnames (Borso di Carminati, Oráa, Van-Halen and O'Donnell), taunting the indigenous generals who remained at María Cristina's court.⁹²

Unlike the *brigadistas* of the Spanish Civil War, the 1830s auxiliaries failed to disabuse the enemy of this impression of their mediocrity. The best auxiliaries were Peninsular War veterans like the Irishman Lieutenant Edward Costello, a brilliant recruiter whose return in 1835 to Vitoria, scene of a bloody battle a generation earlier, evoked poignant memories bordering on post-traumatic stress for him and his fellow handful of veterans.⁹³ But most British auxiliaries were new to fighting. The French and Portuguese auxiliaries, by contrast, were more seasoned, but political divisions in Paris and Lisbon impeded their full deployment. The British auxiliaries, which also suffered from equivocal political support, were slow to acclimatise to northern Spain and spent the first months constructing fortifications.⁹⁴ They were decimated in body by typhus ('Vitoria fever') during the 1835–36 winter and spring, and in soul by the virulent attacks of the Tory press, and their tragic neglect upon their return to Britain after 1837.⁹⁵ Chronic arrears of pay persisted even after the war, when British Legion veterans protested outside the Spanish legation in London, in a series of stand-offs lasting until 1843.⁹⁶ Even when most arrears were finally settled, several Spanish veterans lapsed into pauperdom which caught the eye of social reformers. Henry Mayhew, in his seminal *London Labour and the London Poor*, labelled the 'Spanish Legion men' as 'those who will not work' and categorised them under 'Professional Beggars'.⁹⁷ Ironically, Mayhew's sententiousness was anticipated by the Carlists, who reserved particular scorn for the British auxiliaries as 'pirates' and Protestants, recruited from the taverns and pie-shops of London.⁹⁸

This distasteful image has overshadowed the history of the foreign auxiliaries. Certainly, many men joined for the basest motives

of adventure or desperation. As so few auxiliary rank and file left memoirs, we must privilege those that have been discovered, such as that of William Turner, a poverty-stricken volunteer who, after two years' service in Spain, returned to England wounded and penniless, and was later imprisoned for committing acts of fraud.⁹⁹ Most other humble biographies are extremely fragmented and yet suggest that many of the authors' motives and outcomes were similar.¹⁰⁰ Yet two qualifications must be made to their mercenary image. Recruits came mainly from expanding British and Irish cities, and, in the case of the Glasgow, a particularly strong cohort were weavers proletarianised by industrialisation.¹⁰¹ It was no small irony that Scottish handloom weavers and other victims of industrialisation entered Spain alongside record British cotton imports. The economic grievances of recruits were championed by their Radical officers such as Alexander Somerville, an Anti-Corn-Law League member who defended his men from Tory-Carlist insults. Thus, the British auxiliaries were no more scum than the British army proper which, under Wellington during the Peninsular War, had defended the old order of 'physical and intellectual slavery' whereas volunteers for Liberal Spain upheld the 'good of mankind', an opinion shared by the great utilitarian and pioneering advocate of foreign intervention in Spain's civil war, John Stuart Mill.¹⁰² This Liberal internationalism was also held by other prominent officers, such as the journalist, Charles Southwell, who preferred the 'pseudo-liberalism of Queen Isabella to the monkish absolutism of Don Carlos'.¹⁰³ Above all, the Commander-in-Chief of the first British Legion and Radical Member of Parliament for the Westminster constituency, General George de Lacy Evans, linked the cause of British and Spanish radicalism. Evans was accused by both his Tory opposition at home and the Carlist enemy abroad of vainglory, greed, and of possessing a self-publicising Bonaparte complex.¹⁰⁴

In short, European Liberals saw the struggle against Carlism in international rather than merely Spanish terms. The most influential auxiliary in this regard was Joseph Tánski, a Polish refugee from the Russian invasion of his homeland in 1831 and an officer in the French Foreign Legion. He left a remarkable account of the political and military state of the Cristino war effort and a nuanced critique of the Constitution of 1812 beloved of his fellow Spanish Radicals.¹⁰⁵ The most seasoned Liberal internationalists were in the Belgian Auxiliary Legion, which comprised veterans of the Belgian Revolution and Portuguese civil war. Portuguese civil war veterans used their battle honours to call themselves the 'Cazadores de Oporto' (Hunters of Oporto), making up

one of the two Belgian formations, even though their ranks contained many Portuguese and Italian Mazzinian exiles, who were the most radical Liberal internationalists. The other Belgian formation (which also contained Portuguese and assorted nationalities) was commanded by the Genoese Mazzinian who had fought in revolutionary wars in Italy, Spain and Portugal, Gaetano Borso di Carminati, a Romantic conspirator who would be executed for his part in the October 1841 rising against Espartero's regime.¹⁰⁶

The greatest manpower contribution in proportion to national population was made by the Portuguese who, during the winter of 1835–36, were billeted in Zamora.¹⁰⁷ Their legion was distinct as it was formally on loan from the regular Portuguese army, and included a large minority of pardoned *miguelista* veterans from the Portuguese civil war. The Portuguese auxiliaries were thus of the best quality.¹⁰⁸ But their questionable loyalties were complicated by the cinders of civil war in Portugal, which included resilient *miguelismo* in northern Portugal on the one hand, and Radical-Liberal revolution on the other (Radicals under General Sá da Bandeira seized power in September 1836 but were defeated by the moderate-Liberal 'Revolt of the Marshals' under General Saldanha the following July). Such domestic uncertainty meant that the Portuguese were reluctant to deploy their legion too far beyond their own frontier.¹⁰⁹ Thus, the lengthy billeting of Portuguese troops in Zamora, far behind the nominal front line, was typical of this policy. General Córdova complained 'I may have 2,500 Portuguese mouths to feed but I don't have 2,500 Portuguese arms.'¹¹⁰ The Portuguese faced similar supply and remuneration problems as the other auxiliaries. Their currency had been accepted at an agreed exchange rate, but that winter the cash-strapped Cristino authorities devalued it in the Spanish favour. The response was two nights of rioting as the Allies smashed up market stalls and Spaniards retaliated with the assassination of a Portuguese spendthrift. Finding the body of their comrade, the Portuguese rampaged through the streets, injuring civilians and looting and destroying shops. The Cristino commander did not fire on his allies, but restored calm by circulating news that the Portuguese soldier had been murdered by a 'Carlist'.¹¹¹ But trouble returned in January when Portuguese soldiers and Spanish market traders exchanged fire over the price of olives. Joint Luso-Cristino patrols restored calm, and the Portuguese martial band was tactfully invited to play patriotic music at a ceremony to restore a monument to liberty vandalised by royalists in 1823.¹¹²

The foreign auxiliaries were not protected by the Eliot Treaty, and could expect execution when captured. The Liberal *Eco del Comercio*

detailed such outrages as part of a moral campaign to enlist international support. Thus, three British artillerymen who, on 13 July 1835, fell for a Basque ‘honeytrap’ were ambushed and executed.¹¹³ The following winter the bodies of several of their executed compatriots were left to decompose on the walls of Guevara castle.¹¹⁴ In January 1836, five British soldiers were captured near Vitoria, and forcibly baptised into Catholicism before being executed humanely and with the sacraments.¹¹⁵ Whilst auxiliaries who were captured could expect no mercy, those who defected were welcomed, especially Protestants who voluntarily converted to Catholicism. In August 1836, the Carlist press reported that six British defectors were publicly baptised in the presence of the King at Azpeitia cathedral, and contrasted this serenity with the atheistic chaos of the revolution in the Cristino zone.¹¹⁶

This ‘atheistic chaos’ was presided over, since the fall of Toreno, by Prime Minister Juan Álvarez Mendizábal. His comparatively humble origins (and Jewish ancestry) are the exception that proves the rule of Spanish Liberal elites having long-established privileged backgrounds.¹¹⁷ Mendizábal’s cosmopolitan experience in finance had allowed him to source vital funds for Espoz’s invasion of 1830 and the cause of Dom Pedro in the Portuguese civil war.¹¹⁸ His premiership of 1835–36 marked the peak of British influence in Cristino Spain, via Ambassador Villiers, who was so powerful that at times he virtually chaired cabinet meetings. Mendizábal’s background was targeted by the Carlist press which condemned the usurping Prime Minister as a Wandering Jew merchant bent on looting the Spanish Church as collateral for international Jewish financiers and their British guardians.¹¹⁹ Mendizábal’s representative government was attacked by the Carlists, as a ‘repugnant Protestant innovation’ that distorted 14 centuries of Spanish Catholic monarchy, and later, when his rule became more dictatorial, as Robespierre reborn.¹²⁰

Yet Mendizábal’s immediate task was neither to democratise nor demonise Spain, but to resurrect a working central government which could both revive the deteriorating war effort and subject the revolutionary juntas. This daunting task he approached with the mantra of ‘Liberal union’, the rallying of all anti-Carlist forces, which he later summarised as ‘forgetting, respecting, revising, repairing and reforming’.¹²¹ Whilst rejecting, for now, demands to reinstitute the Constitution of 1812, Mendizábal prorogued the Royal Statute and incorporated the juntas into provincial deputations along the 1812 model but with different powers. They were charged with establishing and managing committees of armament and defence to defend their respective territory against

Carlists.¹²² The Zaragoza commission tried to suppress Carlist guerrilla activity by compulsorily purchasing all horses not owned by the army or militia, banishing gypsies (whose mobile spatial relations, outsider status and domination of horse-trading made them suspect), and giving political expression to the army's martial law.¹²³ This demotion to an administrative role was resisted by the Andújar junta, which held on to its 'sovereignty' until the Cortes were recalled. In response, the government maintained martial law in Madrid and other provincial capitals and suppressed communications with the revolutionaries. The repeal of martial law and calling of the Cortes on 28 October made even the Andalusian Radicals conform to Mendizábal's suzerainty. His premiership now secure, Mendizábal set out to channel the anti-clericalism of the revolutionaries to politically useful ends. Already, on 7 July, the Toreno administration had expelled the Jesuit order for the second time in Spanish history, confiscating its assets to reduce the ballooning National Debt. This legislative anti-clericalism opened two years of government onslaught on corporate Catholicism which would be scaled back, but not halted, only when the *moderados* returned to power in 1837. Mendizábal expanded this anti-clericalism by suppressing all religious houses containing fewer than 12 inmates and auctioning their assets. Citizens who had bought Church property during the Triennium, only to see it confiscated in the 1823 counter-revolution, were reunited with their purchases courtesy of a July 1837 decree.¹²⁴ The tithe, along with an extra clerical tax levied in Galicia called the Voto de Santiago, had long been unpopular, but their abolition became politically impossible to resist as Carlism spread during 1835.¹²⁵ These were both abolished and replaced from 1837 by a smaller tax (*culto y clero*) collected by the constitutional municipalities in order to pension off monks and nuns evicted by the disentailment.¹²⁶

Mendizábal did not expect formal French or British intervention and so pledged to use nationalised property to fund a decisive campaign in the Basque country.¹²⁷ The degree to which he channelled revolutionary anti-Carlism was remarkable. His Liberal union saw an initial 'patriotic' flurry of donations to the Cristino war effort: ministers volunteered cuts to their salaries, ladies' charity circles made clothing for the front and Liberal students answered the call to enlist.¹²⁸ Despite the paternalistic opposition of the *moderados*, enlistment to the militia was expanded by removing the requirement that unmarried recruits obtain permission from their heads of family.¹²⁹ A freer intellectual environment grew in proportion to the *mendizabalista* assault on corporate Catholicism. Barcelona's medical academy ruled that suicide victims died 'insane' and

thus qualified for Christian burial. The British Protestant missionary and know-it-all, George Borrow, set up a Bible Society in the same city.¹³⁰ The first athenaeum came to Madrid and the Radical government historicised its claim to rule by starting to build a pantheon to the fallen masses of the Second of May.¹³¹ Some Liberals even proposed that confiscated Church property should be leased to the landless, thereby inoculating the rural masses against Carlism. Flórez Estrada, leader of the dissolved anti-Carlist junta of Santander in 1834, serialised his 'social liberal' treatise, *La cuestión social, o sea, origen, latitud y efectos del derecho de propiedad*, which culminated in February 1836, with his proposal to grant landless labourers smallholdings under 50-year renewable leases.¹³² But the Liberal union waxed sectarian over the winter of 1835–36, as the *exaltado* Militia exercised a double regime targeting *moderados* as well as Carlists. Tellingly, in February 1836 the leftist *Eco* congratulated the Militia for increasing and popularising its enlistment as a 'dyke against the machinations of the perverse'.¹³³ By the summer, the march of events would create a revolutionary dictatorship in the Cristino zone.

Mendizábal's most important decree was to conscript 100,000 men for Córdoba's Army of the North. Three separate rounds of conscription, each for 25,000 men, had been enacted since the start of the war, but Mendizábal's measure augured the mass militarisation of society. The 100,000 *quinta* made all males aged between 18 and 40 liable to serve, the only free exemptions being disability, unigeniture, ordination and veteran status. Alternatively, draftees could pay 4,000 reales, or 1,000 reales and a viable horse, in order to avoid service.¹³⁴ The net 'blood tax' collected by the government was some 25 million reales and 700 horses; this income was in the spirit of Mendizábal's demand for 'abundant men and money to end the war soon'.¹³⁵ But the sums collected made little impression on an annual state deficit of 30 million reales, which was made acute both by the lapsed customs revenues during the revolution (some £500,000 worth of British imports had entered Spain that summer without suffering any duties) and the expanding army budget, which had reached some 600 million reales annually.¹³⁶ Only Mendizábal's long-standing contacts with the Paris and London bourses, combined with the structural reforms of the *desamortización*, kept the Cristino state liquid, ensuring terms of credit which no other Spanish prime minister could have achieved.¹³⁷

Only about half of Mendizábal's 100,000 actually made it to the front, despite draconian regulations making relatives and then town halls responsible for deserters. In front-line areas many conscripts defected to the Carlists, especially in La Rioja, Aragón, Castellón de la

Plana, Cuenca, Toledo, and Ciudad Real. Several deserters from Galicia, Salamanca and Zamora fled to Portugal. Even then, the Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North, Córdoba, complained bitterly of the incomprehension of the Madrid regime and of how the radicalisation of Liberal politics was making his task harder. Civilian Radicals turned into armchair generals, criticising Córdoba's inaction in light of these reinforcements. Yet Córdoba complained that the revolution had sent him conscripts who were worse than useless. They had not passed any height or health tests, had had little training, and invariably ended up burdening the hospital system. Municipalities across Cristino Spain had clearly sent their most destitute and desperate sons. Córdoba was obliged to establish laborious training camps south of the Ebro, where more conscripts deserted and ended up straining food supplies (whereas before they had been producers). In any case, Córdoba estimated that only some 17,000 actually made it into service after all these losses.¹³⁸ In other words, Mendizábal had scored a great *political* victory in mobilising his 100,000; military victory, however, patently still eluded him.

The march of events at local levels escaped Mendizábal's attempts to manage anti-clericalism from the centre. Part of the anti-clerical atmosphere in Cristino Spain may be attributed to episodes of anti-Carlist hysteria returning with a renewed outbreak of the cholera in July 1835. The rest was caused by the very real attempts of individual clerics to fight the Liberal revolution.¹³⁹ The Cristino authorities sent suspect monks and priests, especially in the Maestrazgo, into internal exile in Andalucía, and from November 1835 all new entrants into religious orders required a certificate of loyalty to Isabel II signed by the civil governor.¹⁴⁰ The need for deportations was clear after the 10 August 1835 Carlist rising of evicted Dominican friars in Manacor (Mallorca) who, the Radical press alleged, 'burnt alive' militiamen they captured, and whose 'lenient' sentences provoked a revolutionary rising by some 1,400 Militia in Palma demanding 'a sound example be made of the guilty to guard against future risings'.¹⁴¹ Other religious were terrorised by the massacres into fleeing into Carlist zones, where nuns nursed war casualties, or even leaving into Spain altogether: several were welcomed to Buenos Aires where they occupied vacancies in River Plate monasteries.¹⁴² Clerics who remained under Cristino control faced a bleak future of eviction from disentailed monasteries and subjection to laic authorities in the meantime, either constitutional or 'double regime' in nature. In the former case, the Civil Governor of Pontevedra forced local nuns to observe night curfews and provide charity relief to war widows, remarking impudently that the sisters should be content to do

God's true work.¹⁴³ Elsewhere in Galicia (Ribadeo) the double regime targeted Carlist clerics as militiamen forced civil authorities to close local monasteries and expel their inmates. Their vigilantism was supported in the Radical press, which published their complaints of how the clerical guerrilla captains they had captured had faced no greater punishment than deportation to their home parishes, or imprisonment in Vigo castle from which, in one instance, a cleric escaped with official collusion and rejoined the *facción*.¹⁴⁴ The economic power wielded by the Church in Galicia over rural leaseholders was shrinking the Cristino safe zone into the port-cities and fortified centres. Illicit arms production for the Carlists was widespread, and was concealed from passing militia patrols.¹⁴⁵ When Latre was dispatched to La Coruña to replace Morillo as Captain-General of Galicia, both men undertook their journeys under false names and even physical disguises, Latre being convinced that his execution would follow being identified by any priest in his path.¹⁴⁶

The growing Carlism of clerics prevented the Cristino authorities from relying on them as natural guardians of the social order, which was always the aim of the Liberals, who wanted only to strip the Church of its political rather than moral power. But the refusal of many clerics to accept Cristino political legitimacy drove the double regime to attack their moral authority. In March 1835, the Mayor of Vera (Almería) prohibited any contact between women and monks of the nearby monastery at Beruela, citing the scandals the monks had been causing amongst local women.¹⁴⁷ Radicalised Cristino soldiers and militiamen targeted Church property and symbols. In April 1835, a Cristino patrol sent out from Pamplona robbed and vandalised a church at nearby Yanci.¹⁴⁸ Cristino army elites worried about the violent and socially subversive radicalism that led people to invade abandoned and confiscated Church property.¹⁴⁹ In a nationalised Dominican convent in Barcelona several nuns' tombs were opened and the remains disrespectfully scattered.¹⁵⁰ During July 1835, mobile militia near Belchite rebelled against the government when a popular lieutenant (a certain Blas Pober) was arrested and a Radical demagogue (a certain Urbina) was found dead in suspicious circumstances. In response the militia refused to march out against rural Carlists, and sacked a monastery in the name of the Constitution of 1812.¹⁵¹ In October 1835, mobile militia used Church icons along the Imperial Canal linking Aragón with Navarra for target practice, assaulting the chapel on the Marquess Lazán's estate, firing their muskets at the altar of the Virgin of Pilar inside, despite the fact that the Virgin during the Peninsular War had been 'nationalised' as the celestial Captain-General of Patriot Spain.¹⁵² In Madrid, authorities

grew concerned at the growing number of women visiting newly confiscated monasteries, hitherto a closed and sexless male world which was now the haunt of rowdy National Militia musters, and, it was feared, copulation.¹⁵³ In Barcelona, the captain-general was forced to deal with the local authorities' quandary about the former convent of San Francisco del Asís. Its premises had first been used for cholera victims, and then as a 'lock hospital' for prostitutes whose numbers had been increasing since the start of the war. But, much to the annoyance of the captain-general, both male and female prostitutes were still selling themselves there, undermining the physical and moral condition of his conscripts¹⁵⁴:

It has come to my attention that the inmates there, far from being cured of the vice of prostitution, have been propagating it amongst themselves, drawing to them individuals who have no other business being there. They have been engaging in homosexual acts (*amancebamientos de un mismo sexo*), corrupting those of a youthful or gentle disposition.

Centrifugal radicalism impaired Mendizábal's relations with General Córdova. By early 1836, the *moderados* were openly calling Mendizábal a dictator, forcing a parliamentary vote of no confidence, blocking attempts to expand the electoral franchise and politicising the tensions between the Army of the North and Madrid. All this tension caused Mendizábal many sleepless nights. Aides recounted how he would spend days without proper sleep, collapsing onto his papers at his desk for snoozes, or stealing carriage time for sleep during his trips to the Queen-Regent at El Pardo.¹⁵⁵ The British missionary, George Borrow, who secured a brief interview with Mendizábal, remembered the prime minister's remarkable ability to maintain an English-language conversation without once looking up from a pile of documents at his desk.¹⁵⁶ But even Mendizábal's energies were exhausted by summer 1836, as his erstwhile *exaltado* allies refused to serve under the 'dictator', the Cortes was dissolved, and the Carlists expanded their domain over the north and east of Spain.¹⁵⁷ Again, both the cause and effect of this political disunity was the failure of the Cristino army to arrest the spread of Carlism. Mendigorriá was the last significant victory in a long time, as the Carlists regrouped, tightened their blockade of Cristino towns in the Basque country and dispatched expeditions deep into Cristino territory.

In August 1835, the Carlist court launched the first major expedition of the war in a bid to link the Basque country with Carlists in Catalonia.

Juan Antonio Guergué, a purged colonel of 1833 and prominent 'brute' in the theocratic wing of Carlism, on 8 August 1835 led a legion of just under 3,000 men past Córdoba's covering force and towards Catalonia. Since the Cristinos had executed Count Romagosa, Catalan Carlism had been in almost as much disarray as under Llauder's early counter-insurgency. Guerrilla bands led by Porredón, Borges, Sobrevías, Galcerán, Vall, Masgoret, Zorrilla and, above all, Tristany, had kept the insurgency alive, but Guergué's expedition aimed to unite the striking power of these bands and carve out contiguous territory.¹⁵⁸ Taking small towns along the way in Aragón, he intercepted diplomatic correspondence from the Cristino legation in Paris which confirmed Carlist hopes that the revolution was debilitating the Cristino war effort. Guergué was welcomed into Huesca on 16 August by local authorities who had tired of revolution and who implemented Carlist orders to demobilise the Militia, seize its arms and draft men of military age. Guergué enjoyed similar success occupying an abandoned Barbastro, where he resurrected the Royalist Volunteers of 1833 and used them to repulse an attempt by mobile Militia to recapture the town. Crossing into Catalonia, Guergué was joined near Tremp on 25 August by Antonio Borges's force of 500 irregulars and then by the 3,500 Carlists of Jacinto Orteu, landowner and ex-colonel of the Royalist Volunteers. The next day a Cristino regiment at nearby Orgaña was subverted by conscripts who disarmed the local militia and defected to Guergué's Carlists. In two weeks Guergué's expedition had traversed Aragón, subverting Cristino populations and defences at every turn. Major difficulties began only as he entered Catalonia, caused both by his own Navarrese, who complained of inadequate food and footwear, and by a stiffening Cristino defence, owed in part to the unpardonable excesses the revolutionaries had recently carried out. Guergué sent home his troublesome Navarrese, who by now formed a minority of his force, and concentrated on regrouping the Catalan guerrillas: by the end of the year these numbered some 22,363 infantry and 395 cavalry.¹⁵⁹

Since the revolutionaries had ousted Captain-General Llauder, neither Bassa nor Pastors had matched his counter-insurgency zeal. The revolutionary crisis had ended any hopes of regular army reinforcements creating a mobile reserve. Thus, virtually the entire Carlist offensive was met by the Militia, ensuring hatred and atrocities on both sides. When Carlists attacked the village of Camarasa, its 50-strong garrison of mobile militia fortified itself in the church, but were soon smoked out by the outnumbering Carlists and forced to surrender. All were then executed, most by gruesome beheadings, their corpses being dumped

into the River Segre weighed down by stones. Residents at nearby settlements for months afterwards avoided the river-water for drinking and fishing. Such brutality was counterproductive for Carlist campaigning, as news of such outrages only served to embolden the Cristino defence elsewhere. After Torá, on 8 August 1835, came under Carlist siege, it resisted against appalling odds, including an all-enveloping inferno of outlying buildings, set by the Carlists. Concepción Preciado, wife of a Cristino captain, stepped into the breach brandishing a sabre and goading the men on. A total of 200 Cristinos had been wounded and some 70 killed before a relief column finally arrived to save Torá. Pastors's counteroffensive halted the Carlist incursion on his left, retaking Guimerá and establishing a front line from there to the university town of Cervera and Torá. This protected Barcelona by ensuring Cristino control of southern, and a large part of central, Catalonia, but it relinquished much of the north and all of the far west to the Carlists, who made a regional capital out of Berga and blockaded remaining Cristino fortified centres (Olot's garrison defected to the Carlists on 28 August).¹⁶⁰ Even at his base in Cervera Pastors's control did not extend far beyond the town. Cervera, the base of the Aggrieved of 1827–28, had a violent history of conflict between its reactionary 'town' and Liberal 'gown'.¹⁶¹ On 12 October 1835, the Liberal university – whose students, travelling to and from Barcelona, had repeatedly been robbed and attacked by Guergué's men – was closed.¹⁶² After Pastors repulsed a Carlist breakout towards San Quintín on 23 October 1835, executing prisoners he had captured, the Catalan front reached stalemate between a Carlist west and a Cristino coastal hinterland.¹⁶³

Elsewhere the Army of the North came under political pressure to match Mendizábal's rhetoric with action. The two opposing commanders-in-chief, Córdoba and Eguía, fought a bloody stalemate at the Carlist capital, Estella. Both sides claimed victory, Córdoba because he managed briefly to occupy the capital on 16 November and Eguía because he quickly liberated the town. Some residents who had broken cover by welcoming the Cristino occupation were imprisoned and ransomed.¹⁶⁴ With Cristino forces monetarily spent, Eguía chose to strike not southwards but northwards, to seize control of the French frontier and coastal towns garrisoned by Cristinos. The latter objective, he hoped, would mitigate Quadruple Alliance naval supremacy by ending the growing Anglo-Cristino naval cooperation in matters of supplying and fortifying bridgeheads. At the onset of the civil war the Cristino navy had been small and decrepit. But Madrid acquired foreign steamships to sustain the blockade of the Carlist coast, and these

cooperated with the French and British by transporting men and supplies along the Basque coast; now the Cristino navy would be at full stretch supplying and defending coastal towns.¹⁶⁵ A key target in this Carlist campaign was therefore San Sebastián, on account of its wealth, command of the French frontier and its port crammed with Quadruple Alliance vessels. The close blockade had already driven hundreds of rural refugees into the city and caused a severe shortage of fuel and food which the shipping bottlenecks had been unable to solve; this was compounded by the billeting of Cristino troops in private homes. San Sebastián's town hall had to counter-license some resident merchants to whom Carlists had given permits to trade with their zone. These masters of no-man's-land brought imported goods to the Carlists in return for food and fuel for the hungry Cristinos.¹⁶⁶

Carlists began their assault in a swift and devastating conquest of the fort of Arambarri, adjacent to San Sebastián, wiping out its Asturian and Andalucían garrison. The Queen-Regent wrote to the city authorities, anguished that Arambarri might presage the loss of the city itself, boosting popular radicalism: 'it is not just that the faction is emboldened insufferably, but also that men may think that my government has not undertaken precautions in the city's defence'.¹⁶⁷ The loss of the fort impaired San Sebastián's deployment of defensive artillery, and maximised the Carlists' effectiveness of theirs (only three – but well-positioned – siege cannon). With the city closely blockaded, the Carlists turned to securing the French border. In response, French General Arispe warned the Carlists that if they assaulted the remaining Cristino border posts, the French army would invade. The French side of the border had been filling with refugees, including, ignominiously, the entire Cristino Provincial Deputation of Guipúzcoa, which timidly feared Carlist reprisals in the event of San Sebastián's fall. The French were afraid the war might spill over the frontier, and whilst they pursued a hard line with the Carlists, they also ordered all Cristino refugees to move either deeper into France or back into Spain.¹⁶⁸ Sensibly backing down to the threat of formal French intervention, Carlist General Montenegro decided to assault San Sebastián instead. His close-range, overnight bombardment of the city began on 6 December. In response, all remaining 18 to 50-year-old male residents who had not already enlisted were called into the militia.¹⁶⁹ Montenegro hoped that the flight of city Liberals and the effect of his terror bombardment on refugees might yield him San Sebastián through a coup from within. But the city held fast, and the Carlists turned their fire from the city to the fortified ex-convent of San Bartolomé. Concentrated fire forced its Cristino

garrison to withdraw into the city proper. As the pursuing Carlists occupied the ruins, they burned the wooden bridge linking the remains of the convent to the rest of the city. Therefore, San Sebastián was closely blockaded from the landward side, but the offensive lacked the strength to storm the city. Carlist cannon-bores had become so overworked that Montenegro was delighted to pose as a humanitarian by agreeing to a French-brokered ceasefire to evacuate foreign civilian casualties: this gave him time to repair his guns.¹⁷⁰

Meanwhile, Eguía's next effort came on the Carlist Left, with the assault on the fortified port of Guetaria. At first General Córdova, as if remembering Napoleon's famous dictum of not interrupting an enemy making a mistake, indulged Eguía's strategy. The Carlist drive towards the coast diverted attention away from the demoralised centre of his army at Miranda del Ebro. That said, Guetaria commanded a harbour and a promontory which could shut off most Guipúzcoan cabotage when emplaced with coastal artillery. The Cristino garrison knew this: when Carlist guns, on 19 December, opened fire on the town, the defenders answered with some 13 guns of their own.¹⁷¹ The Carlists stormed the town, but not before virtually every building in Guetaria had been destroyed or damaged. They did not remain long in possession, as Carlists were caught between the pincers of Espartero's landward march and amphibious reinforcements from Bilbao.¹⁷² Espartero's troops included a free corps of Cristino Basque scouts, the *chapelgorris*, who were noted for their brutality and who had looted and destroyed 'Carlist' churches during their march.¹⁷³ When they looted a ruined church in Guetaria, however, Espartero ordered harsh reprisals. He could not afford to alienate war-ravaged *guetarenses* civilians and accordingly condemned ten *chapelgorris* to death, actually carrying out the sentence on nine.¹⁷⁴ Espartero's disciplining of anti-Carlist Basque volunteers made every possible wrong impression with Cristino Radicals who were still indignant after a publicised exchange of gifts between the Cristino and Carlist Commanders-in-Chief, and there was even talk of the need for revolutionary justice against overbearing officers. Espartero thought this interference by civilians the utmost impudence, confiding to his wife that he would: 'break the heads of those who have asked for mine'.¹⁷⁵

Elsewhere Catalan Carlists were encroaching on the frontier with France, causing consternation amongst Cristinos and French alike. Unlike General Arispe in the Basque country, the governor of the border fortress of Bellagarde appeased the Carlists by promising to permit no more armed Cristinos into French territory. This overture recoiled on the French: not only did it recognise the Carlists as legitimate combatants,

but it also failed to prevent their border violations.¹⁷⁶ These were starkest in the Cerdanya/Cerdagne region of Catalonia, where Cristino loyalties in the border town of Puigcerdá and the exclave of Llívia invited hostile Carlist attention. Llívia was separated from Spain proper by two kilometres of French territory through which a 'neutral road' ran to the Franco-Spanish border at Bourg-Madame/Puigcerdá. The Guergué expedition made refugees out of Puigcerdá's public officials.¹⁷⁷ Their flight to France was followed by an attempt by townsfolk who were stopped, disarmed and returned by Carlist irregulars operating in French territory.¹⁷⁸ The Carlist violation of French territory was repeated on 6 February 1837 when some 200 of them crossed the border in order to loot Llívia. On the way back along the neutral road French troops arrested the Carlists and confiscated their pillaged goods.¹⁷⁹ On occasion Carlist soldiers were found 45 miles inside France, and Carlists issued passports to aid smuggling.¹⁸⁰ Border contingencies like these involved France in local interventions which moulded debates about the extent of French intervention in the civil war. This section of the border would not stabilise until Puigcerdá decisively defeated the Carlist siege of November 1837.¹⁸¹

Mendizábal desperately summoned Espoz from his French convalescence to captain the generals in Catalonia and arrest the spread of Carlism. Espoz was a leftist hero, a sop to junta opinion, and he was on good terms with the French who gladly transferred to him impounded Carlist arms. On 29 November 1835, he imposed a state of siege on the Principality, with measures including collective punishment on communities invaded by Carlists, ranging from summary executions of heads of households harbouring enemy agents to the confiscation of property. These conditions were so draconian that even his Liberal allies in government resiled from them. Espoz had always seen the Catalan Carlists as criminals deserving of no better treatment. But the effect of these measures was to promote reprisals and to terrorise civilians caught in the war zone.¹⁸²

Espoz had used collective punishment in the Royalist War, and it was more than matched by what Cabrera was doing in the cruellest front, the Maestrazgo. Cabrera's eastern Carlists combined ruthlessness with bravery but without the magnanimity that had characterised many of Zumalacárregui's operations. Cabrera established a pattern of attacking small towns which were garrisoned only by a handful of local or mobile militiamen. During these localised but ferocious sieges, Cabrera's Christian soldiers ironically became more prodigious at church-burning than the mobs of Barcelona. This was because the church steeple was

usually the ultimate refuge for Cristino militiamen resolved to fight to the last, and was targeted by Cabrera's artillery and arson. Cabrera's rural terrorism was answered by Cristino municipalities organising fund-raising not just for the Militia but also local fortifications and defences, all in addition to the usual taxes and conscripts levied by the central government.¹⁸³ Carlist atrocities provoked reprisals against mountain villages where, as the Prussian Carlist, von Goeben, recalled, 'troops used terror; all inhabitants, it was said, were Carlists and had to be destroyed, plundered, violated, and their homes burnt down. Several hundred were forced by the ensuing misery to join the Carlists.'¹⁸⁴ The Cristino counter-insurgency had the effect of merely reshaping rather than eliminating the nature of the Carlist threat. General Nogueras mobilised both troops and mobile militia but his expeditions caused the Carlists to regroup, reducing their ability to terrorise but increasing their striking power. Thus, the columns of Miralles and Torner linked with Quílez in Aragón, whilst Cabrera reorganized his and Forcadell's men at Beceite, their fortified headquarters and refuge.¹⁸⁵

The revolution obliged Nogueras to retire to his starting point, and Cabrera and Forcadell exploited this in an assault on Rubielos (Teruel), in the nineteenth century a populous town commanding vital transport links. Its garrison was outnumbered by the Carlists, whose attack on 11 September 1835 resonates both for its representative military details and its brutal aftermath. Cabrera fought through the town and obliged the Cristino garrison to withdraw to the highly defensible convent in the centre. Cabrera tried to force entry using fire and testudo formations from carts which were armoured and used as battering-rams. He then seized an adjoining house in an attempt to break into the convent from the side. Desperate, the Cristinos set fire to the house. But the wind blew the flames into the convent, so the Cristinos, now thirsty and suffocating in the fumes, hoisted a white flag on Cabrera's stated guarantee of quarter. But when the pitiful survivors descended the convent's tower, many were killed outright whilst the rest of the captives were herded together and marched to a field near Nogueruelas where they were stripped naked (Cabrera needed the uniforms) and forced to run for their lives. All the men were hunted and killed by the Carlist cavalry, one corpse registering no fewer than 26 lance wounds.¹⁸⁶ The martyrdom of Nogueruelas outshone Villafranca's in 1834, and, soon after the war ended, the public disinterment and reburial of the martyred militiamen allowed Radicals to capture public memory of the conflict.¹⁸⁷

Cabrera's initiative turned the remote regions of Aragón and Valencia, centred on the Maestrazgo, into a hybrid of guerrilla insurgency and

counter-insurgency punctuated by increasing episodes of intense violence. Whilst there were indeed economic origins for rural Carlism and urban liberalism, the war distorted these into geographical loyalties as civilians sensibly obeyed whichever side was strongest in their area. Cabrera's successful military strategy earned him the sobriquet 'Tiger of the Maestrazgo', whose threat was answered by signal sacrifices from Cristino populations deprived of adequate garrisons. Requena (Valencia), for example, resisted Cabrera's siege because its women and children dug trenches and constructed barricades, maximising the defensive power of its outnumbered garrison until a relief column arrived.¹⁸⁸ The revolution of the juntas undermined Cristino counter-insurgency efforts as militiamen prioritised parochial interests and soldiers deserted. Nogueras's minor victory at Orta on 24 September 1835 was important only because it helped to stem the desertion affecting his ranks. Insufficient Cristino forces encouraged the spiral of atrocities and reprisals. There was no Eliot Treaty in the east, and pragmatism overrode any residual compassion. Cristinos were reluctant to take Carlists prisoner as they had too few forces to guard them sufficiently (on one occasion, some 600 captured Carlists escaped because the Cristinos had too few cavalry to round them up).¹⁸⁹ By the same token, any acts of mercy which did result from military action usually had pragmatic motives. On 17 October 1835, Cabrera assaulted Alcanar, only four miles from the Mediterranean Sea on the Catalan–Valencian border. There, the tragic routine of an outnumbered Cristino garrison retiring to the biggest church, defending itself to the last, even throwing beehives at the attackers, repeated itself. Cabrera had wiped out a scratch Cristino force rushed from the nearby port of Vinaroz which had tried to relieve Alcanar. The desperation of the besieged women and children compelled the militiamen to surrender and the town was sacked.¹⁹⁰ Alcanar cut off land communications between revolutionaries in Barcelona and Valencia. But Cabrera's dash for the sea was short-lived, as Anglo-Cristino gunboats repulsed his attempt to seize a nearby port, and overreach eventually obliged him to evacuate Alcanar.

Cabrera's ascendancy was formalised with the 11 November 1835 royal decree making him Commander-in-Chief of Lower Aragón. Cabrera was still theoretically answerable to the junta at Berga, but in practice his forces – which at the end of 1835 numbered some 3,416 infantry and 218 cavalry – imposed military rule in territory he commanded. Cobblers were forced to produce footwear, Cristino columns – such as that of Terrer (Zaragoza) on 13 December – were wiped out and raided for weapons and uniforms, and a factory was constructed to

turn saltpetre, lead and sulphur into arms.¹⁹¹ In response, the Cristino counter-insurgency imposed its own state of siege, impounded deliveries of war material to areas where Carlists were known to be operating, and exploited occasions in which urban and rural geography favoured the Cristino order of battle. After Terrer Cabrera invaded Castile, but at Molina de Aragón terrain and cavalry superiority favoured the Cristinos, and General Palarea won a victory which dispersed the invaders and silenced his revolutionary critics. Cristino victories were rare that winter, so Prime Minister Mendizábal tried to consolidate this success by offering an amnesty to Cabrera's men. Many accepted but the vast majority who did use it to 'change shirts' and regroup in Aragón.¹⁹²

The brutality of the war in both Aragón and Catalonia radicalised Cristino politics, most violently in Barcelona. The Ciudadela fortress contained several Carlist prisoners, including the high-profile Colonel Juan O'Donnell. Civil Governor Pastors knew that O'Donnell was the target of vengeful radicalism and desperately tried to get him transported elsewhere, even interceding with the British consul about possibilities for the evacuation of prisoners by Royal Navy ships.¹⁹³ Matters were made worse by newspapers' exaggeration of atrocities committed by the Carlist defenders of the besieged hill fortress of Hort ('news' reached Barcelona that the Carlists were answering each Cristino artillery shot by throwing live militia prisoners out of the fortress windows to their deaths below).¹⁹⁴ Cristino spymaster, Eugenio de Aviraneta, whom Mendizábal had dispatched to Barcelona to work for the ailing Espoz, was anonymously tipped off that the Carlist prisoners of the Ciudadela would be massacred.¹⁹⁵ On 4 January 1836, Barcelona revolutionaries allied with sympathetic militiamen and marched on the lightly defended Ciudadela, proclaiming Liberty and the Constitution of 1812. Pastors showed physical bravery once again by mediating, but whilst he spared the Ciudadela's powder stores from a potentially catastrophic explosion, he could do nothing for the inmates, who were all massacred. Carlists turned O'Donnell into a martyr, recording his last words as 'Give me a sword! Don't let me die at the hands of vile assassins!'¹⁹⁶ The massacre was worse than Carlist outrages at Hort. Although seven Cristino prisoners had indeed been barbarically defenestrated, many more victims were Carlists themselves who, after a failed breakout on 23 January, had desperately tried to escape the siege by lowering themselves onto the rocks below. When Hort was finally taken, some 104 unmolested Cristino casualties were found whom the Carlists had abandoned rather than massacred.¹⁹⁷

Local authorities thought it expedient to excuse the prison massacre with reference to ‘the inhumane ferocity and cruelty with which the defenders of the usurpation sacrificed at Hort and other parts of Catalonia a large number of our prisoners’.¹⁹⁸ But behind the scenes, army reinforcements were quietly entering the city, Pastors was deposed for his temporising and Captain-General Espoz dared to impose a state of siege. Proclamations of the Constitution of 1812 were forbidden and the most egregious Radicals in the militia arrested and exiled to the Canaries. To guard against sedition, prisoners were dispatched, for the first leg of the journey, on Royal Navy rather than Cristino ships. Amongst the deported was Aviraneta, who was accused of inciting the massacre with alarmist claims of a Sardinian-led international Carlist invasion bound for Catalonia.¹⁹⁹

But there *were* international plots, and Don Carlos was playing to the international gallery of public opinion when, on 20 February, his manifesto condemned the Liberals as anarchists and foreign revolutionaries whose barbaric outrages at Barcelona, Zaragoza and elsewhere made a mockery of the humanitarian intervention of ‘respectable powers’. True Spaniards would not stomach such ‘democracy’, which amounted to barbarism.²⁰⁰ His manifesto unwittingly coincided with news of the execution of Ramón Cabrera’s mother, who had been held hostage by Cristino forces for almost two years, and this apparently senseless act of barbarity ricocheted around Europe in support of Don Carlos’s manifesto. María Griñó’s iconic end reveals a story of the intimate madness of revenge, for she was shot in reprisal for Cabrera’s execution of the mayors of two villages in contested areas of Teruel province (Valdealgorfa and Torrecilla), who had given Cristino mobile militiamen intelligence about local Carlists.²⁰¹ The mayors’ deaths prompted the Cristino arrest of Cabrera’s three sisters, two of whom, ironically, were married to militiamen who appear to have connived at their escape. Tragically, as soon as Cabrera got news of his sisters’ escape, he avenged his mother by executing four Cristino hostages of his own, all wives or daughters of serving Cristino officers.²⁰² Such high-profile Cristino victims obscured countless others known only to their families and, sometimes, the Radical press. Thus, the five-year Carlist occupation of the hill settlement of Alcalá de la Selva (Teruel) began with the dragging out of his home and public execution of the ‘only liberal in the village’.²⁰³

Such barbarism certainly complicated the task of the Cristino Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North, as troops had to be diverted to the cities and captured Cristinos were even more likely to

face reprisals from outraged Carlists. Two weeks after the Barcelona massacre, Córdoba began an offensive at the mountain pass of Arlabán dividing Guipúzcoa from Alava, employing 'foreign revolutionaries' – French and British auxiliaries – in large numbers for the first time. But the Carlists turned the geography, snow and fog to their defensive advantage, repelling the Cristinos at the cost of only half the enemy's 600 casualties. Captured British and French auxiliaries were shot, and retreating French committed reprisals of their own against Carlist prisoners whom the Cristinos had handed over to them.²⁰⁴ Arlabán had been one of the strongest parts of the Carlist defensive line, but Córdoba lacked the intelligence networks needed to have known this in advance.²⁰⁵ Consequently, he was thrown back onto the defensive, resorting to the static strategic warfare of the blockhouse system.

In different conditions Córdoba's static strategy might have been sounder than Espoz's war of movement. But the Carlists turned the enemy's revolutionary crisis and the porous French border to their advantage. The Royal Army, with its 16,000 infantry, 1,000 cavalry and 13 artillery pieces, was vastly outnumbered by the Army of the North.²⁰⁶ But superior local intelligence, internal lines of communication and the distraction provided by the expanding Carlist forces in Catalonia and Aragón, all allowed the Carlists to wrest the initiative after Arlabán in a series of victories. On 8 February 1836, the Carlists overwhelmed the 1,300-strong Cristino outpost of Valmaseda, capturing five swivel-guns, 360 rifles, 60,000 bullets and 65 quintals of cod, 800 bread rations, 53 boxes of biscuit and other stores besides. The quarter shown to the garrison encouraged the capitulation of nearby Mercadillo three days later.²⁰⁷ Things got worse still for Córdoba. Plencia, a coastal town on the western extremities of the Basque provinces, was taken after a short siege on 25 February 1836, giving a morale boost to the Carlists, who had now captured a seaport (albeit a very modest one); another seaport, Lequeitio, would follow on 12 April. A total of 800 prisoners were taken at Plencia, including National Guardsmen, the revolutionary rebranding of the Urban Militia, who were conscripted into Carlist ranks whilst their officers went to depots to await exchange. Some 13 artillery pieces and other effects were taken as prizes, and a 3,000-real fine (the Cristino 'blood tax') was imposed on those refusing to defect to Carlist ranks.²⁰⁸ Apart from a minor cavalry victory at Orduña by General Esparero (whom Córdoba had placed under Lacy Evans's command in a bid for more British support), followed by a bloody stalemate at Unza two weeks later on 19 March, the winter and spring of 1836 had seen the Carlists steadily undermining the Cristino blockade.²⁰⁹

The greatest strategic blow to the Army of the North originated not at Don Carlos's court in Durango but in Paris. Since July 1834, the French had officially closed their south-western border to all supplies destined for the Carlists. But smuggling was a way of life in the Pyrenees, and it was in part due to this that Zumalacárregui, throughout 1834, had been able to assemble his army under the noses of the Cristino forts. That said, the Spanish Liberals knew from bitter experience that the French police force was the best in Europe, and French protestations to the contrary cut little ice with Prime Minister Mendizábal, who scoffed, 'let them treat the smugglers as they treated me and other Patriots when we tried to cross the Pyrenees in 1830'.²¹⁰ But worse was to come. In February 1836, the Broglie government fell and was replaced by a new administration led by Thiers, which tried to appease Metternich's alarm at the internationalisation of the Spanish revolution. Hence, on 26 March 1836, the French government revoked its 3 July 1835 decree, which had intensified the embargo on any trade with Carlists on the Spanish side of the border. French legitimists rejoiced when they heard that their allies in Spain would not be starved into surrender. Madrid's indignation was only partly appeased by French permission for the transit of Cristino troops and supplies across their territory. This measure may have allowed Córdoba to outflank some Carlist positions, but its advantage paled in comparison to the abandonment of the French blockade.²¹¹

Córdoba was caught in the vice of Radical pressure and Carlist rearmament, and whereas the Carlist threat could be evaluated, that of the revolutionaries could not. In April 1836, as two regiments rose in a pay revolt in Bilbao, Córdoba confided to General Narváez: 'I fear that agents of different extreme parties are working my men with sinister aims, singling out the sergeants and troops who are most vulnerable to seduction and intrigue.'²¹² In May 1836, two companies of Militia rampaged through the village of Arévalo (Soria), some 50 miles behind the northern front, smashing the windows of 'Carlist' inhabitants. Cristino civil authorities were helpless and the militiamen had to be disarmed at gunpoint by loyal troops.²¹³ Only victory could silence Córdoba's critics and stem rebellion in the ranks. British auxiliaries allied with Royal Marines (a new departure for Quadruple Alliance 'non-intervention') and Cristino militiamen in a bloody attempt on 5 May to relieve besieged San Sebastián. The withering bombardment by Anglo-Cristino gunboats and the death of the charismatic Carlist commander, Sagastibelza, sealed the Allied victory, and the siege of San Sebastián was lifted.²¹⁴ At the same time, Córdoba renewed his offensive against

the heights of Arlabán, even though the same geography, and even the same snow on the peaks, favoured the defenders once more. The result was a bloody stalemate, compounded by Cristino casualties from exposure as men could not light fires lest they reveal their positions, and instead slept beside each other and mules for warmth. Córdova's renewed assault in the same sector of the front was greeted with relief by the Carlist Royal Government and consternation in Madrid. Eguía knew that there were more vulnerable sectors of the Carlist front line (the Baztán, Irurzun, Lecumberri), and he thanked the enemy's revolutionary crisis for having made Córdova so blind and desperate. Prime Minister Mendizábal, by contrast, had lost patience with his commander-in-chief. Córdova's protestations that the second battle of Arlabán had actually strengthened the Cristino line around the Basque country made no impression on the Radicals, who demanded swift victories.²¹⁵

The second battle of Arlabán came in the wake of an irate exchange of letters between Córdova and Mendizábal, in which the military will clashed with the political. Both men implied that the other was neglecting to put the interests of the fatherland (*patria*) first, emotive language in the Liberal revolution, and its use was all the shriller from Mendizábal because of his cosmopolitan background. He assured his commander-in-chief that Madrid was doing all it could, decreeing mobilisations, advancing the revolution and even being aided by a fortuitous cabinet change in Portugal – which promised to bring 10,000 auxiliaries to Córdova's side – and that all this could come to sound effect if only the commander-in-chief would show some initiative and achieve victories. Córdova called Mendizábal's decrees empty, castles in the air, and his quest for victories as mistaking cause for effect, of wanting to reap the harvest of victory without sowing the seeds. Córdova claimed a detailed understanding of the fundamentally defensive nature of the war which made no impression on Mendizábal. No Cristino commander could force the Carlists to engage if they did not want to. Finally, Córdova tendered his resignation, trying to remove the potential political threat this posed by reassuring the prime minister of his Liberal credentials in a manner which nonetheless revealed the powers of his office. Thus Córdova boasted about how many convents he had closed on his own authority, and stated he was in agreement with the legal reforms and the sale of nationalised property. Córdova, who claimed to be non-political, obviously could become political at any moment. The choice facing the Queen-Regent was obvious: either her prime minister or commander-in-chief had to go.²¹⁶ On 4 May 1836, Córdova was

summoned to Madrid and a council of war; where his fate and that of Mendizábal would be decided.²¹⁷

The Queen-Regent, who was hardly even liberal, let alone *progresista*, in sympathies, seized upon Córdova's presence in the capital to dismiss her Radical prime minister and to call new elections. Córdova had wrongfooted the Radicals by leaving Espartero in temporary command in the north, dashing their hopes of animosity between the two men. Once in Madrid, Córdova petitioned for four things, all of which the government approved. Firstly he sued for reinforcement. He asked for whatever troops could be spared from Madrid plus that France be asked to increase its legion by 4,000 to 6,000 men, the same request to be made to the British that they might thus reinforce Evans's strategically vital position. Secondly, he wanted a Reserve Army to be created and centred on Burgos. This force should be comprised almost entirely of National Militia that could be subjected to army command whenever necessary.²¹⁸ Clearly, a more divisive issue for Liberal politics could scarcely be imagined. Thirdly, he begged for sufficient supplies so that his army would not starve, beg and riot. And fourthly, Córdova made a partisan demand which he disguised as a concern for the morale of the Cristino 'home front', namely that the government should refrain from making a formal request for direct French intervention unless it was clear that Paris would reply in the affirmative.²¹⁹ A likely French refusal would leave Cristino Spain diplomatically stranded and make the position of the French Legion untenable. In fact, Córdova was worried that a refusal would boomerang against the *moderados* in domestic politics as it became clear that they did not have the French army as a counter-revolutionary card to play as a last resort against the *exaltados* (as the absolutists had done in 1823). Silence on this matter, by contrast, might maintain the illusion of the French army's *moderantismo*.²²⁰

But the victory of the Queen-Regent and her general was short-lived. The Cristino army continued to collapse as a cause and consequence of Carlist expansion, and ousted *mendizabalistas* began to manipulate Radicals in the army in order to win back power. The Radical revolution of August 1836 would be made by junior officers and sergeants against their own leaders, and the Constitution of 1812 they revived was designed to ensure both a greater degree of civil authority over the suspect army leadership, and an emasculation of the powers of the troublesome Queen-Regent.²²¹ In the meantime, the removal of Mendizábal encouraged officers to take revenge on the Liberal press for 'abusing' its freedom of expression to criticise the army.²²² Córdova's brother, a colonel based in the capital during the summer of 1836, invaded the

home of a Radical editor, assaulting him and insulting his wife. A similar episode almost unfolded at the headquarters of the all-powerful *Eco del Comercio*, but a National Militia detachment was on its premises to face down the indignant officers.²²³ But Córdoba's ascendancy could not last long. His return to the northern front did nothing to arrest the deterioration of the war effort. On 11 July 1836, Carlists repulsed a British attempt to evict them from the French frontier at Fuenterrabia, and on 17 July 1836 a Franco-Cristino force of six battalions failed to force the Carlist-held bridge at Muniáin on the River Ega. In frustration Bernelle's legionaries burnt the harvest of local Carlist villagers, which the Carlists publicised as part of their reactionary Black Legend against the French Left and with a threat to execute Cristino prisoners if such outrages were repeated.²²⁴

The Quadruple Alliance had undertaken a greater military burden because desertion and draft evasion had rendered the Cristino Army of North unfit for further offensive operations. Even defensive troops increasingly surrendered at the first opportunity, many of these defecting to the Carlists. On 10 June, Carlist Commander-in-Chief Eguía publicised his government's offer to 'true Spaniards' who wished to defect, including a sliding scale of rewards depending on rank and chattels, and promotions for officers who brought numerous defectors with them. In response the Cristinos imposed drastic measures, including cash incentives and even promotions to informers betraying plots to defect, and verbal councils of war imposing the death penalty against offenders.²²⁵ Yet even if such measures stemmed some defection on the northern front, they could do nothing to reverse the draft-dodging and desertion that plagued the Cristino safe zone behind the formal front line. Virtual 'reserve armies' of deserters roamed across the countryside, sometimes securing remote territory against punitive missions of mobile militia and preying on civilian communities and travellers. The revolution of 1835–36 may have 'democratised' conscription by abolishing exemptions which the nobility traditionally enjoyed (by abolishing the nobility as a separate legal estate). Yet in their place it formalised the system of cash payments ('blood tax') for exemption.²²⁶ And the vast majority of draftees had neither money nor protection to escape conscription. As a British pro-Carlist remarked:

I had no idea of the desolating effects of the repeated *quintas*, or conscriptions, until I had traversed Spain in so many directions, but I was not so forcibly struck with them anywhere as in Estremadura, where I saw only old men, women or children; the youth having

been carried off four times within the last two years, and the land being tilled only in the immediate neighbourhood of the villages.²²⁷

It was small wonder that conscripts increasingly either absconded or deserted once they had been pressed into service. Fugitives and deserters, of course, resented state power in principle. But given the tendency of the Radical-Liberals towards populism, and given that their platform of autonomous town halls offered certain networks to shield men from conscription (Militia membership, employment, fraud), Radical-Liberals were often successful at mobilising a popular hatred of conscription against the *moderados*, especially in regions like Andalucía that were far from the Basque country. Earmarked conscripts without friends in authority sometimes committed the desperate act of leaving town to impersonate militiamen in settlements where their anonymity could make them look convincing, complete with embellished uniforms and fake moustaches. Local authorities often chose to ignore this tragic charade, except when this phenomena evolved into further wrongdoing, such as in Seville, where complaints reached the national press of fake militia street-rowdies, and in Granada, where a spate of burglaries were committed by ‘criminals masquerading as militiamen’.²²⁸ In 1837, the Office of National Sub-inspector of Militia was set up in order to stamp out this fraud. In Málaga during the May 1836 elections *mendizabalista* Liberals conveniently described wrongdoers in nearby Vélez-Málaga as ‘enemy insurgents’ rather than the deserters and draft-dodgers the *moderado* newspaper magnate, Andrés Borrego, believed them to be. Borrego, whose surname means ‘lamb’ in Spanish, was lampooned in a charivari involving the symbolic slaughter and skinning of a lamb, which was then turned into the mascot at the helm of a wagon carrying copies of Borrego’s offending newspaper that was publicly burnt. Radical Málaga did not like being reminded that so much of its power rested on indulging the popular classes’ hatred of military service.²²⁹ When the government, in October 1835, complained of its slowness in drawing up lists for conscription, Málaga responded by vehemently professing its patriotism whilst ‘disappearing’ draftees from the lists all the same.²³⁰

Other Andalucían communities also shielded their menfolk as best they could. Antequera, for example, exaggerated the very modest concessions to anti-militarism imposed by *exaltados* in 1836 (men’s right to object to their name being included on a list of potential draftees at the very moment that the list was compiled) into a vehicle for shielding virtually all of its menfolk from conscription.²³¹ Vélez-Málaga’s municipality continued to connive in draft-dodging and was fined accordingly

in early 1838.²³² Radical liberalism was more implacably opposed to Carlism than *moderantismo* ever was. But leftist mayors maintained a parochial relationship with the war, especially in parts of Cristino Spain far from the front line, defending the expansion of their local power-bases, the militia, but opposing conscription. In some instances, this anti-militarism bordered on terrorism. In early 1840, the prefect of Granada toured his restive province and was depressed to discover a history of wrongdoing which local authorities could not – or would not – prosecute. In August 1836, the Mayor of Baza had sent militiamen to seek and murder an unpopular customs guard and war veteran, Antonio Honorati, whose body was dragged back into Baza bearing both his assailants' wounds and older ones inflicted by Carlists in Navarra. The following year, another Cristino soldier was murdered in public view and his killers went unpunished. Mayors who tried to punish subsequent killings were themselves terrorised and even banished. At the root of this lawlessness, the prefect held, were the decrepit militia forces which, in this region, 'contained simple day-labourers and vicious fellows with no stake in society', including brigands who (before 1834) 'belonged to the frenzied royalists who committed outrages in the name of God and who were now doing the same in the name of Liberty'.²³³

Episodes of popular anti-militarism were repeated across dozens of locations throughout Cristino Spain. By the summer of 1836, these had been exploited by Radicals to expel the commander-in-chief and restrain the powers of the Queen-Regent with the Constitution of 1812 during the revolution at La Granja (see Chapter 6). Córdoba had just suppressed a military conspiracy at his base in Logroño in favour of the Constitution of 1812 (a plot which appeared to be political cover for mass desertion as the city's artillery was to be spiked and troops were to retire to Aragón). Soon after his success, however, news reached him of the La Granja rising, which had made that Constitution the law of the land. Córdoba saw this as final notice to quit. The exit of Córdoba meant the exit of the natural leader of the *moderados*, in the same way that the death of Espoz four months later would deprive the *progresistas* of their hero. The government asked Córdoba to recommend his successor, which he did willingly, recommending Espartero, despite the latter's rumoured *progresismo*. Córdoba made his way to France with his personal escort, refusing to swear allegiance to the Constitution of 1812 whilst not directly disparaging it either. Crossing into France unscathed, on 25 August 1836 he met the Spanish consul at Bayonne, instructing him that he should obey the new government, whilst also conferencing

with some exiled Carlists, including Maroto, with whom he would even strike up a friendship. Córdoba's parleying with the enemy appeared to confirm Radical accusations that the *moderados* were a fifth column for Carlism. In all likelihood, however, Córdoba was motivated by humanitarian rather than treacherous concerns.²³⁴ But whatever the truth of this matter, the march of events had eclipsed Córdoba, his military strategy and his *moderado* allies.

6

Deep War Feeds Revolution, 1836–37

This chapter charts ‘deep war’, when the extent of violence, suffering and civilian casualties reached their peak. It is the geographically most extensive chapter, detailing the Gómez Expedition of 1836. It explains how the collapse of the Cristino war effort – *pace* the Carlists’ third failed siege of Bilbao – radicalised Liberal politics and disrupted social and economic relations across Spain, and forged new patterns in their place which became a focus for Radical political action. It shows how this radicalisation was caused by suspicion of *moderado* collusion with Carlism, by actual or threatened Carlist invasion, and by the interlinked phenomena of mass desertion and glorified banditry that this provoked. It explains the diplomatic crisis into which Cristino Spain was plunged by the August 1836 revolution at La Granja.

The cycle of Carlist atrocities and Cristino counter-atrocities mounted throughout 1836 and provides the crucial context for the La Granja revolution. The Basque theatre had the Eliot Treaty and increasingly formal (though still porous) front lines, but Catalonia and Aragón witnessed an increase in military activity without any of the humanitarian provisions of the north. By April 1836 Carlist forces in Catalonia alone had grown to 13,367 infantry and 218 cavalry, reinforced by troops from Navarra, and this greater military presence led to a corresponding war for resources. On 10 May, Tristany sacked the town of Caldes, 25 miles north of Barcelona, after it had failed to supply his forces, destroying all but a handful of its buildings. Mobile Militia chased the invaders northwards, but not before Tristany’s men had abducted the wives of several militiamen and pillaged villages in their path. Terroristic episodes like these were met with harsh countermeasures, targeting not just the Carlists, but also demoralised Cristino militia garrisons which were ordered to fight Carlist invaders whenever the latter’s numbers did

not exceed one-half of local available defence forces. Crippling fines were to be imposed on local authorities which failed to enforce this order, whilst a deforestation programme was even ordered in an attempt to deprive Carlist bands of natural cover.¹ Months earlier, the first siege of Gandesa was underway, a town whose siege became legendary in nineteenth-century Spain on account of its heroic women. On 5 March 1836, Cabrera, Torner, Quílez and El Organista attacked the town. Not only the local militia but also the civilian population, including women, rallied to its defence. Luisa Bará honoured the example of Zaragoza's Agustina de Aragón by delivering arms and food to the defenders whilst under fire. Turning to terror to subdue the defenders, Torner seized from adjoining villages the wives and daughters of militiamen and imprisoned them. The Cristinos replied by imprisoning powerful men and women in Gandesa who were related to the besieging Carlists. Gandesa's heroism was thus overshadowed by a mundane cycle of reprisals.²

The war in the east was Cabrera's war: on 11 April Eguía promoted him to brigadier, and on 15 August 1836 to major-general.³ On 29 March 1836 Cabrera took Liria, just four hours from Valencia and a wealthy town in its own right. Some 20 militiamen were killed in the fields and streets. Twenty-seven more were captured and led to Chiva where they were slowly murdered by a gruesome ritual, which included being shot in the kneecaps at point-blank range before having their genitals sliced off.⁴ Castration had been a common ritual in the French Wars of Religion for emasculating the enemy, feminising bodies in death which in life had not been 'truly masculine'.⁵ Carlists saw their enemy as emasculated by the double usurpation of an illegitimate and female candidate on the throne. The wives and daughters of the Chiva victims, for their part, did not submit to the domestic grief traditionally prescribed to their sex. Rather, they joined militiamen on campaign seeking to exact vengeance on the perpetrators. Palarea overwhelmed Cabrera's rear-guard near Chiva and committed a revenge massacre against captured Carlists.⁶ But Torner soon counter-attacked, dispersing Palarea's men. Women avenged their men not only by killing Carlists, but also incompetent or cowardly officers on the Cristino side. When some militiamen were killed in September 1836 in a skirmish near Alcaraz (Albacete) with the Carlist irregular, Orejita, their widows went to the Militia captain's house and, finding him absent, burnt it down, killing his wife who was inside.⁷

Catalan communities were thus put in an impossible position. Both Cristinos and Carlists punished communities severely for helping the other side. Even though the Cristinos lifted the provincial state of

siege on 5 November 1836, they also applied the law of 17 April 1821, which exempted charges of 'conspiracy' and 'anti-constitutional activities' (activities described as *infracción de Constitución*) from civil jurisdiction. Further north in Catalonia, villages were reduced to penury, something which in itself encouraged villagers to flock to the Carlist ranks so that they might at least become perpetrators rather than victims. An economic war ensued. In order to prevent hardship swelling the ranks of the Cristino Militia, Carlist commanders frequently forced local landowners under their sway to hire hands in order to starve the Cristinos of recruits.⁸ Invasions of Cristino territory were marked by Carlists' sacking and pillaging civilian property they did not expect to hold. Quílez's guerrillas, who, on 29 June 1836, were repulsed when they attacked a fortified church in Alcorisa (Teruel), burnt down 173 neighbouring houses before retreating towards Montalbán. Quílez then stormed Montalbán after its Cristino militia had murdered two of his emissaries. Quílez performed a vengeful ruse by burning Montalbán, but not before granting its inhabitants an hour to flee with as many possessions as they could carry. After burning the town, Quílez's vanguard hunted the refugees and robbed them all the same.⁹ Sometimes even such acts of total war could appear comparatively merciful. By the onset of the Maestrazgo winter the Carlists had extended their terror against remaining Cristino settlements in Teruel province. On 20 October 1836, some 100 conscripts from Extremadura surrendered the church and village of Albentosa (Teruel) after brief resistance against the outnumbering guerrilla forces El Rojo and Peinado. Evacuation terms were being discussed when an exterminating angel priest, a certain José Lorente, who had been attached to a different band, arrived to insist on the Cristinos' deaths. Some 73 captives were stripped naked and killed in the road, including an 11-year-old who had followed his father from Extremadura, despite desperate pleas for mercy, even offers of ransom, having been voiced by the local municipality, including priests. Lorente rejected the ransom, but offered a sadistic compromise: that the people might find replacements for the soldiers' fate. After the massacre was over, Lorente robbed the inhabitants of the money they had offered for ransom all the same.¹⁰

Patrician Liberals unhelpfully condemned the enemy's barbarity as the product of an ignorant plebeian rural culture, vulnerable to backward clerics and deprived of productive labour. The rural, asymmetrical nature of the Carlist insurgency complicated the Cristino counter-insurgency. The fortified Carlist hill town of Cantavieja, Cabrera's strategically most valuable possession, was thus a rare target for a

conventional assault. It was known to hold Cristino prisoners as well as foodstores which could augment meagre Cristino rations at the onset of the dire regional winter. Evaristo San Miguel, Radical prime minister during the Triennium and Cristino Captain-General of Aragón since the La Granja revolution, conquered Cantavieja at the end of October 1836, and the momentum of the offensive persuaded the Carlists to burn rather than try to defend Beceite, their other fortified town in the Maestrazgo. Cantavieja was a boost for revolutionary morale, even if the foodstores were depleted by corrupt commissaries in the vanguard, who ended up selling on such delicacies as cinnamon and cocoa at inflated prices.¹¹ Yet San Miguel qualified his victory address with a grim prediction for Cristino communities:¹²

Cantavieja, hitherto a nest of bandits and false defenders of the altar and throne, is now under national occupation... Yet, people of Aragón, defend yourselves. Dedicate yourselves to this sacred task the moment you fall under enemy attack. Defend your homes, which are yours after all, along with the fruit of your sweat and toil. Who else will care as much about your security and who else is willing to match your sacrifices?

Civilians were thus on their own, and were exhorted to manage their own affairs as best they could. Army units were too dispersed, and even militia garrisons could be overwhelmed in point-defence, often in circumstances which recoiled on civilians they abandoned. Soneja (Valencia) during the summer of 1836, for example, saw its militia garrison flee the superior forces of El Serrador, but not before it had poisoned foodstores which it knew the Carlists would seize. El Serrador avenged the agonies of his men not on the absent militia, but on the inhabitants, who were fired upon as they fled their burning houses.¹³ Patrician Liberals who were unable to gain victory over the enemy instead proposed prophylactic measures to divert listless men from Carlist bands. National elites, like San Miguel, and the deputy for Alicante, Joaquín Abarques, shared the vague opinion that 'agricultural improvements' could turn Carlist swords back into ploughshares.¹⁴ Abarques became a self-parody of patrician arrogance when he proposed 'enlightening' the insurgent provinces by sending them copies of the Constitution of 1837.¹⁵ Local elites, like Barcelona's Council of Armament and Defence, worried about the influx of refugees who might be blandished into Carlist fifth-column activities, and prescribed practical measures like putting the idle to work in nationalised monasteries and convents.¹⁶ Such measures were

either unhelpfully long term in nature or limited to reinforcing control of urban centres already inside the Cristino zone. But what mattered most during the middle years of the war was the expansion of the conflict, and not just in Catalonia and Aragón, but also across Castile and even Andalucía, where banditry grew under the banner of Carlism and expeditions tore across the countryside. Civilians who were neither soldiers nor active revolutionary citizens (militiamen) had to forge their own responses to violence, occupations and counter-occupations in an insecure environment.

Popular responses to this security crisis were part and parcel of the leftist revolution in the Cristino zone. Jacobin politics had overtaken Madrid in August 1836, and this was soon reflected in the figure of Antonio Quiroga, who enjoyed even better Radical-Liberal credentials than San Miguel, taking over the Captaincy-Generalship of Aragón. The victorious Army of the Centre was stripped of men to help confront a Carlist breakout from the northern front (Gómez expedition), allowing Carlists to regain lost territory. The Carlist breakout tested the revolutionary Spain of La Granja beyond breaking point.

Meanwhile, the Queen-Regent's closure of the Cortes led to insurrections in Málaga, Granada and Cartagena, the last one being a bloody exercise in settling scores. When Cartagena's governor, O'Daly, deported the miscreants to Ceuta, the prison ships were recalled so the culprits could stand trial and O'Daly was replaced by Count Mirasol, the hero of Bilbao. The Málaga revolution had heavy republican undertones, despite its protestations of loyalty to the Queen-Regent.¹⁷ In July 1836, Donadío, now military governor, was assassinated after some 800 troops under his command refused his order to disarm the radicalised Militia and to come to the rescue of the civil governor, José San Just, who was hiding from enraged militiamen. When San Just fled to a nearby building, he was shot dead by Carlos Barritaro, a militiaman who in 1838 became a correspondent in a press campaign defending the widows of two murdered Radicals against persecution by *moderado* authorities. Donadío, meanwhile, disguised himself as a National Guardsman and tried to flee, only to be executed in a similar fashion.¹⁸ The following day, a quickly assembled junta arranged for the Constitution of 1812 to be proclaimed in Málaga, and the revolution spread until the Queen-Regent was physically forced by rebellious sergeants to sign the Constitution on 13 August 1836. Some 2,000 *malagueño* militiamen were dispatched to Catalonia to fight Carlists in the name of the Constitution.¹⁹ Málaga's radicalism expressed one extreme of the 1836 revolution; the other extreme was the gentlemanly

stand-off between the pro-Constitution militia and the town hall of Cáceres (Extremadura), which went the militia's way without the need for any violence let alone killing.²⁰

As the Radical insurrection spread, the patriarch of *exaltismo*, Evaristo San Miguel, defied the Istúriz government's orders to resign his command of the Army of the Centre and rallied the Zaragoza Militia to the cause of the Constitution of 1812, keeping loyal government forces at bay. Santander's garrison joined the revolution because of pay and supply grievances.²¹ Málaga, the cradle of revolution, exercised its sovereignty by 'declaring war' on the pro-*moderado* French after one of the latter's vessels refused to acknowledge salutes from the revolutionary authorities.²² For the time being, meanwhile, Madrid stayed loyal. Cardero had been mooted as leader of a revolutionary *pronunciamiento* in the capital, but Quesada showed some timely ruthlessness for which he would shortly pay with his life. He proclaimed martial law in the capital, threatening any political activists who disturbed the peace with the death penalty. But Madrid's temporary quiescence was overtaken by the expanding revolution elsewhere, including Cristino Spain's second city, where Captain-General Espoz, though responding admittedly less quickly than San Miguel had done in Zaragoza, used his revolutionary credentials to win over Barcelona's powerful popular Radical movement to his leadership and to the proclamation of the Constitution of 1812, thereby forestalling the sort of political violence to which Catalonia's capital had become accustomed. The welcome bloodlessness of Barcelona's revolution was Espoz's last service before he finally succumbed to his agonising stomach cancer on 24 December 1836.²³

The revolution culminated at La Granja, at the hands of sergeants posted to the Spanish monarchy's summer residence at the town of San Ildefonso, some 80 kilometres north of the capital. Nineteenth-century writers, for whom the French Revolution was the dominant example of royal humiliation, were fascinated by María Cristina's submission at La Granja, seeing this as the product of conspiracy funded by Radicals, unlike the popular revolution of the juntas the previous year.²⁴ Certainly, structural pay arrears made even the royal bodyguard vulnerable to agitators, and it was logical for officers and sergeants who could not pay their men to search for political solutions instead. Twentieth-century writers gave the La Granja revolution secondary importance to that of the juntas the previous year. Whilst the social significance of lowly sergeants dictating to royalty was noted, writers saw La Granja as the work of a *mendizabalista* clique bent on holding on to power in the face of newer, and often more radical, chaos generated by the

Málaga revolution and the penetration by the Gómez Expedition of the Cristino 'home front'.²⁵ During the first days of the sergeants' rising, the *moderado* prime minister who had replaced Mendizábal, Istúriz, tried to win over the rebels, and when this attempt failed, tensions rose further as the Madrid government declared the Queen-Regent a captive of the revolutionaries. London and Paris grew alarmed. But whereas the British backed the revolution to the hilt (an attitude which raised suspicion that the whole affair was Ambassador Villiers' doing), France disapproved of this violent shift to *progresismo*. But both Quadruple Alliance powers advised that the Queen-Regent captain the revolution as an act of free will on her part: otherwise abdication (or worse) could be the alternative. Villiers was shocked by the apparent leaderlessness of this army revolution, and the precedent it might set to Europe.²⁶ Franco-British diplomacy was proving highly prescient. The militiamen who rose in 1835 and the soldiers in 1836 both did so in the name of the constitutional monarchy, but so central had the army's claims to Spain's political future become that it would not hesitate to dispense with any given monarch in order to recraft the state in its own image, as the revolution of 1840 would show. The Queen-Regent was defenceless, and the revolutionaries sent out fraternal calls to other units exhorting them to proclaim the Constitution of 1812 elsewhere in Cristino Spain. The army and militia in besieged Pamplona united in replacing the city's elderly governor with a younger leftist.²⁷ Eventually, María Cristina agreed to reinstate the Constitution of 1812, and the capital's revolutionary militia were rearmed and recalled, unpopular ministers being sacked whilst other diehard *moderados* fared worse.²⁸

The revolutionary repression of political adversaries distinguished 1836 from 1835 as it was done by central government rather than regional juntas. Mob violence certainly featured strongly, perhaps more strongly, during 1836, too. Captain-General Quesada was lynched by a Madrid mob led by revolutionary militiamen, his body mutilated and paraded around the streets. The former *moderado* Prime Minister, Istúriz, escaped a similar fate by fleeing in disguise.²⁹ For weeks afterwards his son went into hiding whilst his wife was forced into house arrest by demonstrations of rough music.³⁰ In the provinces *moderado* governors were often lynched, such as in Figueres or Cartagena, where the governor was chased upstairs in his house by militiamen and defenestrated.³¹

Gone were the days of 'Liberal union'. The capital was placed under a revolutionary state of siege which invaded the homes of its political opponents. The war had made the regime desperate for money, but it

was shunned by non-British lending markets. The government decreed the famous round of nationalisation of ecclesiastical properties (known in Spanish as *desamortización*), accompanying this with the abolition of all remaining noble and clerical distinctions in law by the following summer. A levy of 50,000 men was ordered, the blood tax for exemption being lowered to 2,000 per draftee, or 1,500 with a viable horse. This cheaper tax helped the lower middle-class constituency of *progresismo*. Wealthier Liberals, by contrast, tended to support the *moderados*, and were collectively subjected to a 200,000,000-reales forced loan (termed a 'patriotic subscription'), captive subscribers being promised reimbursement in instalments yielding 5 per cent interest. Wealthy individuals who tried to flee the country without permission were subject to the decree of 16 September 1836, which confiscated their property, this being made retroactive to emigrants since the victory of the La Granja revolution on 15 August. Confiscation of property had so far happened only to the Carlist enemy, so sectarian theft was a new departure. But such was the economic chaos that even Finance Minister Mendizábal could not prevent Cristino Spain defaulting in November 1836, for the first time, on some of its interest repayments.

Other solutions conveniently conformed to stated *progresista* policy, including the revival of the 1823 municipal legislation, which devolved wide-ranging local autonomy (and financial responsibilities), underpinned by voting rights for male householders.³² But this reform was inoperable for two reasons. First, states of siege grew to combat growing Carlism, and military law overrode all civil jurisdiction, even in reformed town halls. Second, the rural insecurity was compounded by the revolutionary Cortes decree that wealthy notables should quit their homes for safe urban centres whenever they were threatened by Carlists. This decree was designed to drain the lake of economic Carlism by depriving the enemy of loot or hostages for ransom. But in fact it proved disastrous. It recoiled on poorer citizens who were robbed instead of their absent social betters. Such citizens were even more likely to take their chances joining Carlist bands (despite the fact that the families they left behind faced the full rigour of revolutionary reprisals).³³ Third, the flight of wealthy individuals severely undermined both the practice of respectable politics and the organisation of the militia. The tragic Mayor of Urda (Toledo), for example, should have been a Cristino success story. He had spent his family fortune to become mayor during the transition of 1833, but the civil war saw nearby insurgents rally under the Carlist flag, ravaging local agriculture and forcing the mayor to take on debts. Failing to negotiate a middle ground between Cristino and

Carlist forces, the mayor's administration was preyed on by both sides, as local elections of councillors were dominated by corruption and violence and the whole administration, including the Militia, collapsed into decrepitude. In May 1836, a 600-strong force of Carlists sacked Urda, burnt the militia commander's home to the ground and raped all the women they could find.³⁴ Urda's remaining wealthy families were relieved to follow the revolutionary Cortes' decree to flee the town for safer urban centres. The mayor tried to follow them but the Cristino forces, who had declared a state of siege, ordered him to stay in his post, also refusing his resignation (and even fining him when he made this desperate plea). At his wits' end, the mayor took his own life.³⁵ Whatever else it was, this era of 'local democracy' was no 'golden age'.³⁶

The La Granja revolution had a greater impact internationally than the intervention of foreign auxiliaries discussed in Chapter 5. The year 1836 was a crisis one for Spanish foreign policy for two reasons: the La Granja revolution and Madrid's recognition of the independence of the Spanish American republics. Existing studies have stressed political, cultural and international law factors surrounding this recognition. Politically, the Quadruple Alliance has been viewed as the subordination of Cristino Spain's foreign policy to Paris and London, especially with regard to British pressure for free markets and independence recognition.³⁷ Culturally, Madrid's tardy recognition has been invoked as Spain's failure to reinvent itself as a post-imperial state.³⁸ This certainly applied to the Carlists who impotently condemned this recognition as the bitter harvest of 1820, and of one illegitimate revolution begetting another, to the ruin of Peninsular Spain.³⁹ Finally, the law of the peoples was being accepted as the natural law base for international law across the Americas, and Cristino Spain's honouring of this integrated it back into the European concert.⁴⁰

Whereas links between the Carlists' war effort and their foreign policy have been well studied,⁴¹ comparatively little has been investigated with regard to the Cristino Liberals. Yet the very first motion passed by the 1836 revolutionary Cortes was to proclaim that Spain would remain a monarchy. The revolutionaries were right to be worried about European diplomatic reaction. In September 1836, Tsar Nicholas I, smarting from a Quadruple Alliance snub regarding his proposed international peace conference, urged Austria and Prussia to join him in recognising Don Carlos and withdrawing ambassadors from Paris; Metternich, by contrast, urged caution, but agreed this course of action the moment the Carlists got control of Madrid, whilst in the meantime increasing his covert help to the Carlists.⁴² The absolutist powers, Austria and the

Italian states in particular, had memories of 1820 which still rankled: for them the proclamation of the 'Republican' Constitution of 1812 proved little short of a *casus belli*.⁴³ Russia feared revolutionary Spain would give strategic depth, and even a battle-hardened army, to a revolutionary France bent on tearing up the Vienna settlement.⁴⁴ The Kingdom of the Two Sicilies withdrew its skeleton legation from Madrid, whilst a Spanish merchant at their court who had been acting as a semi-official ambassador was withdrawn before he could be expelled. A group of 35 Carlists who had seized control of a Cristino ship in the Mediterranean and sailed it to Naples were welcomed into Neapolitan service. Unofficial Cristino representatives were expelled without regard to rank or ceremony (Naples, after all, had never recognised the Pragmatic Sanction of 1830 nor the subsequent accession of María Cristina in the name of Isabel II), whilst the ministerial *Giornale del regno delle due Sicilie*, mouthpiece of the absolutist regime, mounted a sustained campaign of vilification against Liberal Spain and against the British legation which was seen as its staunchest defender.⁴⁵ The Calatrava administration responded by expelling such remaining Neapolitan agents as it could find. Yet this was barely more than symbolic: as diplomatic relations had been broken anyway since 1833, the only Neapolitan agents who mattered were undercover and protected by powerful friends or identities. Marquess Grúa, official Neapolitan representative until 1833, had continued in Madrid ostensibly in the role of court archivist. The privileged access this commission gave him spared him from revolutionary witch-hunts and equipped him to play a key role in unofficial diplomatic manoeuvres in 1837 to reach a compromise peace.⁴⁶

Meanwhile, serious cracks were appearing in the Quadruple Alliance itself. Portugal withdrew its legion, citing domestic threats of its own. France, resentful of Britain's forward role in the revolution, impressed by the resignation of the Cristino ambassador to Paris (a move which the ambassador to Brussels followed)⁴⁷ and, above all, paralysed by domestic political divisions on Spanish affairs, gave as little support as possible whilst remaining within the alliance. The French legitimists (dubbed 'Carlists', even in France) wanted to support Don Carlos, the governing party of 'resistance' (Guizot, Broglie, Molé) wanted strict neutrality, and the party of 'movement' comprising Republicans and centre-Left Liberals wanted formal intervention on the side of Spanish liberty.⁴⁸ Meanwhile, even London's support could not be taken for granted as power swayed between the pro-interventionist Palmerston and cautious Peel. The revolutionary regime thus undertook radical diplomatic measures. Prime Minister Calatrava concluded a policy, begun in 1835, of

Cristino recognition of the Latin American republics on the American mainland. Mexico, whose independence had been the bitterest pill for Spain to swallow and the biggest threat to her remaining possessions in the Caribbean and Pacific, was recognised in a Treaty of Peace and Friendship on 28 December 1836, which was ratified in turn by Mexico in May 1837, and soon led to an exchange of ministers and commercial relations.⁴⁹ Moreover, both the Jackson and Van Buren administrations of the USA, the rising hemisphere power, supported the Cristino side for ideological reasons and as a guarantee of continued good diplomatic and commercial relations, despite the often pessimistic reports of US missions to Madrid regarding anarchy and militarisation.⁵⁰ Yet this diplomatic sea change in its favour was not immediately apparent to Cristino Spain. Madrid was rightly tormented by the threat that such remaining Spanish possessions as Cuba might be invaded (Mexico's General Santa Anna and President Victoria had recently aborted an invasion of this island), compromising the war effort, or even given up to Carlist insurrection with outside help. Thus, the peace treaty stipulated that Mexico would prohibit expeditions being launched from its ports against Spanish territories and refrain from encouraging agitation for the liberation of the same.⁵¹

Cristino Spain in 1836 was more worried about Carlist than Bolivarian subversion of its colonial and ex-colonial relations. During 1836, Don Carlos's agents in Rome focused on trying to frustrate the Vatican's impending recognition of the former New Spain and putative jewel in the Pretender's empire.⁵² But various schemes also flourished in the extant colonies, including a bid to raise Cuba for Don Carlos once Gómez Expedition had been launched in Spain, on another occasion when Bilbao was under its second siege, and on a third occasion when the Royal Expedition crossed the Ebro. Conditions were ripe for subversion in this colony. Captain-General Tacón, a sexagenarian veteran of the Spanish American Independence wars and high-handed architect of administrative and police reforms, countermanded orders from the revolutionary Cortes in 1836 to hold elections on the island under the Constitution of 1812. But whilst Tacón's order held sway in Havana, Cuba's second city, Santiago, inspired both by the possibilities of the Constitution of 1812 and by resentment at the capital's economic dominance, staged a 'Liberal' revolt, which saw the underdeveloped east hold out for three months against Tacón's military rule. Tacón's pacification brought him no respite, as news reached him of a mysterious 'English agent' who was en route to the island in a bid to persuade its oligarchs to become neutral in the civil war raging in the motherland (given

Cuba's tax revenues – which accounted for some 15 per cent of Madrid's exchequer – 'neutrality' objectively meant Carlist⁵³). Cuba's fervent religiosity, so Carlists hoped, could be exploited, especially in the person of Santiago's Archbishop, Cirilo Alameda y Brea.⁵⁴ But Tacón expelled the archbishop from Cuba. Alameda y Brea made, on 2 January, for Jamaica, then, early in July, to London.⁵⁵ After a brief exile the archbishop found his place at Don Carlos's side as a spiritual leader of the anti-*apostólico* faction.⁵⁶ Deflecting the Carlist threat, the Madrid government lost no time in seeing off the danger that liberalism would lead to independence on the island; a special law was quickly passed by the Cortes exempting Cuba from constitutional rule and allowing for 'special laws' in the colony. This came in spite of a spirited campaign by Radical *progresistas* to demand political rights for these colonies and even, on the margins, to abolish slavery (a proposal which was quickly blocked due to fears of creating 'another Haiti' and, most crucially, depriving the hard-pressed Spanish exchequer of the tobacco plantations' vital revenue).⁵⁷ The effect of these laws was soon felt. In 1838, the financially starved Madrid government ordered the sale of a round of ecclesiastical property on Cuba, whilst imposing on both Cuba and Puerto Rico an extra-ordinary tax of 60 million reales.⁵⁸

Given Cristino preoccupations with Cuba, it is surprising that the most impressive Caribbean impact of Spanish Carlism was not conspiratorial in nature, but Romantic, in the inspiration it gave to the cause of Santo Domingan independence from Haitian rule. The Santo Domingan 'father of the nation', Juan Pablo Duarte, had spent the Carlist War in Catalonia, but in 1838 he left for his native Dominican Republic, inspired to agitate for his nation's independence against Haitian rule. He adapted the Catalan Carlist slogan, *Rey, Patria y Fueros* to *Patria, Fueros y Libertad*. This inspired his Trinitaria secret society, which he founded in 1838 in Santo Domingo, and led to the 1844 declaration of Dominican independence under a Carlist-inspired slogan.⁵⁹ The symbol of emancipated, black Haitians exercising sovereignty over whites had terrified colonial societies, and Duarte was doubtless influenced by the constant Carlist allusions to the 'usurping' Spanish Liberals as 'blacks' (*negros*).

The international impact of the civil war may have mattered to the Jacobin politics of Madrid, but was marginal to the daily experience of war. The Spanish Left's greatest 'export' since 1812 had been the Constitution of Cádiz, but its domestic reimposition after the La Granja revolution had rendered it otiose as the army overruled local politicians. Senior officers who, unlike San Miguel, Quiroga and Cardero, were not part of the victorious revolutionary party had even more reason to use

high-handed military jurisdiction against troublesome civilian authorities. The revived civil supremacy principles of the Constitution of 1812 had rendered the daily management of military operations difficult. Troops had to go miles out of their way in desperate pursuit of insurgents just so they did not 'invade' the Captaincy-General of Madrid. Meanwhile, contending civilian authorities, both well-established ones like intendants, and new constitutional varieties of provincial governors, prefects, elected local mayors and civil governors, may have been progressive as far as Liberal politics was concerned but proved detrimental to strategic operations. This autonomy impeded the commissariat's task even more than the inefficient system of private contractors, and provoked sharp inequalities. In Valencia province, for example, Chiva and Buñol were overburdened with demands for supplies whereas nearby Utiel and Requena were not, even though all four municipalities were threatened by Cabrera.⁶⁰

The insecurity caused by rural terrorism places a virtual embargo on travel. Even the royal escort was robbed on one occasion. A government report in 1837 blamed the human geography of Andalucía for the rural insecurity of the south, as labourers traipsing miles between *pueblo*, *cortijo* and field were particularly vulnerable targets for bandits.⁶¹ But matters were even worse in the pro-Carlist north, where the Protestant missionary, George Borrow, reported 'almost every road is teeming with banditti, who under the name of Carlists plunder friend and foe, and to robbery join cruelty so atrociously horrible that indignation at the crime is frequently lost in wonder'.⁶² Muleteers and labourers suffered particularly, as they were often the easiest targets for opportunistic raiders. Their fates made for grim government reports and press coverage. Accounts abound of civilians being preyed upon by Carlists acting as bandits (or the other way round). A raid near Vendrell (Tarragona) was typical: five farm labourers ridden down and a ten-year-old boy mortally wounded.⁶³ A Cristino supply column trapped by Carlist invasion in the village of Ruidera (New Castile) refused to surrender to the local Carlist bandits led by the Pallilos brothers but agreed to surrender to a Carlist expeditionary force of outsiders.⁶⁴ Agriculture, especially valuable and vulnerable livestock husbandry, was badly hit. Daimiel in New Castile was so terrorised by marauding Carlist bands during the autumn of 1837 that its farmers left their animals exposed in the fields to die, the harvest going uncollected.⁶⁵ The absence of village menfolk feminised the practice of agriculture, devolving food production to the close environs of dwellings. The war accounted for much of the general subsistence crisis of 1837, just as the Peninsular War had done with the

more severe famine of 1811–12.⁶⁶ It was worsened when the *moderado* government of 1837 imposed an extraordinary compulsory purchase of 5,000 horses. This had originally been mooted by the revolutionaries in February 1837 for the Militia; now the *moderados* did it for the army, impairing agriculture whilst also removing the social mobility offered by Militia membership to peasants with horses.⁶⁷

This security crisis meant that villages and small towns in both Castiles which had no Cristino garrison could be regarded as 'Carlist', either because they were occupied or invaded by bands or because these bands operated close enough in the vicinity to induce willing or unwilling 'geographical loyalty'. At least 24 Carlist bands were known by Cristino security forces to be plaguing both Castiles in 1836. Their members came from one or more of the following four categories: deserters/draft-dodgers, men conscripted by the Carlist bands, criminals/adventurers and agricultural workers displaced by war-ravaged harvests and the Liberal property revolution. The presence of so many rural poor in Carlist bands, and the fact that these were usually led or mentored by reactionary priests, led generations of historians, especially the Marxists and neo-Carlists of the second half of the twentieth century, to understand the Carlist war as a conflict between a liberal, urban, modernising bourgeoisie and a backward, traditional, Catholic rural society, the latter comprising a broad spectrum of threatened livelihoods united by their false consciousness of throne and altar.⁶⁸ Yet the twentieth-century preoccupation with class conflict was too self-contained and hermetic. Castile showed that 'Carlism' covered many more categories than *declassés*, and in any case the same economic grievance could be a recruiting sergeant for Cristinism, too. In New Castile, for example, the naturalised Spaniard and Irish-born veteran of the British Army, Colonel Jorge Dawson Flinter, beat the Carlists at their own game. Influenced by his first-hand knowledge of the Spanish American Independence wars, Flinter created a Cristino counter-guerrilla force of desperate men called *peseteros* (they earned one peseta per day) who were armed with nothing more than shotguns and who fought the Carlists and their supporters in a private, asymmetrical fashion.⁶⁹ Later in the war, the Cristinos recruited a mounted volunteer guerrilla force in Logroño under Martín Zurbano Baras (alias Martín Varea), which plundered and terrorised Carlist villages in the Basque country for pecuniary gain.⁷⁰

In effect, the deep war privatised politics, and not just for combatants, as local communities used the aims of each side in order to protect or advance their interests. The flight to Valladolid of local village authorities drove villagers to seek the protection of rural insurgents, selling

them arms, sacking the homes of the absent wealthy and proclaiming Carlos V. When a Cristino counter-insurgency operation at the end of 1837 re-established control, the captain-general showed no compassion for the villagers' plight, and imposed crippling fines on families whose menfolk had joined the insurgents. The intimate details of 'wrongdoing' possessed by the captain-general implies the widespread use of local informants.⁷¹ Sometimes exasperated municipalities protected themselves by deflecting military oppression back onto the commanders. The commissariat of a Cristino division quartered in Sarrión (Teruel) refused to give the municipality a receipt for 3,000 rations commissioner (*habilitado de comisario*) Castillo demanded as only 2,800 had been produced. Even worse, the same division returned to Sarrión a few days later. The Mayor of Sarrión therefore acted fast. He humoured Castillo and managed to get him to sign off the receipts, and not only these but also some receipts from Cabrera who had plagued the area shortly before with similar demands. Castillo did not bother to read the small print. For this mistake a court martial started against Castillo, but before he could be sentenced, he defected to the Carlists out of embarrassment.⁷²

The ideologically committed minority despaired at the apolitical pragmatism of communities at war. A solitary Liberal in Sonseca (Toledo) complained at how 'the insurgents are the only people in charge around here', confiscating the cattle of local Cristinos and abducting the local mayor for ransom.⁷³ In Métrida (Toledo), meanwhile, local authority had passed into the hands of 'men of no character' who, so an investigating judge was appalled to find, paid off Carlist irregulars in the surrounding hills, thereby preserving a *modus vivendi*.⁷⁴ Communities in Toledo which failed to make such accommodations could expect to fare worse. In March 1837, some 26 irregulars descended on Malpica del Tajo (Toledo) and might have kept it in their possession, as the few militiamen who reported for action merely barricaded themselves in the local castle. Yet the irregulars contented themselves with sacking the house of the wealthiest Liberal and burning the mayor's residence to the ground before moving on.⁷⁵ The Protestant missionary, George Borrow, was self-evidently prone to attract hostile Carlist attention. But his account of León in the summer of 1837 is nonetheless indicative of how nominally Cristino civilian authorities were powerless in the face of Carlism:⁷⁶

I had scarcely been at Leon three days when I... had published my advertisements as usual, though without very fervent hope of success, as Leon is a place where the inhabitants, with very few exceptions, are furious Carlists and ignorant and blinded followers of the old Papal

Church. It is, moreover, a Bishop's see, which was once enjoyed by the prime councillor of Don Carlos, whose fierce and bigoted spirit still seems to pervade the place... I had scarcely risen from the bed where the fever had cast me, when I found that my servant had become alarmed; he informed me that he had seen several soldiers in the uniform of Don Carlos knocking at the door of the inn, and that they had been making enquiries concerning me. It was indeed a singular fact connected with Leon that upwards of fifty of these fellows, who had on various accounts left the ranks of the pretender, were walking about the streets dressed in his livery, and with all the confidence which the certainty of the protection of the local authorities could afford them, should any one be disposed to interrupt them. He moreover informed me that the person in whose house we were living was a notorious spy to the robbers in the neighbourhood, and that unless we took our departure speedily and unexpectedly, we should to a certainty be plundered on the road.

The further south and south-west the Carlist bands roamed the more they encountered Cristino resistance. Don Carlos knew that the north-west, Asturias and Galicia, offered the best prospects for a new Carlist safe zone, if they could be reached by an expedition to match the achievements of Guergué in Catalonia the previous year. The 'Batanero raid' into Castile of some 220 infantry and 52 cavalry during January and February 1836 had shown promise of what a force more than ten times that number might achieve. The summer of 1836 posited the enemy in an even greater revolutionary crisis than during Guergué's expedition. The last weeks of Córdoba's command, in July, had been marked by a serious mutiny of a battalion in Gerona and a general breakdown in deference as soldiers disobeyed their officers, deserted and defected in increasing numbers. An irate and desperate Córdoba proclaimed from his headquarters at Pamplona on 6 July 1836 that the revolutionaries who were rising in the name of liberty and the Constitution of 1812 were actually treacherous fifth columnists for the Carlists.⁷⁷ Subjectively, this was arrant nonsense, and enraged Cristino soldiers at Lerín (Navarra) almost lynched Córdoba for this calumny as he fled the revolution the following month.⁷⁸ But objectively the 'Gómez Expedition' that summer did indeed show a strong military link between Carlist expansion and revolutionary militancy.

Miguel Gómez, born in Jaén province in 1796, veteran of the Peninsular and Royalist Wars, and purged colonel of 1833, was like a minor character in a play whose actions reveal the bigger plot. His expedition

westwards from the Basque country into Old Castile and Asturias began with not much more than 3,000 men, but, crucially, he picked up more on the way. High secrecy surrounded the expedition before it began at first light on 26 June 1836. Twenty-five hours' march later in blistering sunshine got the expedition to Colina, some nine leagues from the starting point. A crucial early defensive victory was secured for Gómez at nearby Baranda when General Tello y López's Cristino division lost vital hours discovering the nature of the breakout. By the time Tello had closed on Gómez on 27 June, the Carlists had had time to choose their ground. Both sides suffered in the baking heat, and several of Das Antas's Portuguese literally died of thirst when pursuing this breakout. But the Carlists intercepted part of the Cristino supply wagons, which meant that it was the Cristinos who ran out of water first. Tello's defeat allowed Gómez to continue the expedition, even though Espartero pursued with forced marches, knowing that he had to deny the Carlists exploitation of territory because it was marked by 'weak and abandoned Cristino garrisons'.⁷⁹

Gómez's remarkable invasion has been analysed in exhaustive detail elsewhere.⁸⁰ Its salient feature is a six-month campaign across north-western, western, southern and eastern Spain, which achieved both remarkable victories (such as the capture of Córdoba) and survived important defeats (such as Majaceite). The expedition was supported by a more limited westward raid by Pablo Sanz y Baeza, and another south by Basilio García, and it was joined across New Castile and Extremadura by Cabrera's seasoned forces. Oviedo was twice occupied by Carlists, first by Gómez in July who seized its artillery and small arms, and hundreds of recruits, before Espartero's vanguard on 8 July obliged him to evacuate, and second by Sanz in October who was repulsed by subaltern revolutionaries who shamed the more cautious army and Militia officers and their declaration of an open city.⁸¹ As Espartero drove Gómez from Oviedo, the Carlists continued westwards into Galicia, following their King's instructions. Gómez was aided not just by the Carlism of clerics, but also by the vicious (or virtuous) cycle of military paralysis and revolution afflicting the Cristino zone. Galicia's Captain-General Latre, cowed by his failure against the Andújar revolutionaries the previous summer, thought the streets of Lugo too dangerous to leave unguarded and therefore refused to intercept Gómez, confining himself to firing artillery when the Carlists came into range of the city walls.⁸² A political crisis in Portugal withdrew Das Antas's badly mauled auxiliaries across the frontier. The provincial committees of armament and defence came under dictatorial pressure from the army to increase

their contributions; Córdova increasingly had to intervene personally. On 9 July, Córdova found time between his endless threats of resignation to warn Madrid that he had only enough food to supply the Army of the North until the next day.⁸³ On 17 July, General Espartero, the only officer yet to show any *élan* against the expedition, wrote to the government complaining of the state of his men. Two weeks later the response he received was evasive and rhetorical.⁸⁴ Meanwhile, Gómez seized Espartero's pay-wagon carrying 8,000 reales and attracted volunteers from across the generally pro-Carlist north. On 18 July, Gómez reached the cathedral city of Santiago, and was welcomed with a Mass. Gómez ordered a mobilisation in Santiago, to be enforced by the usual draconian penalties, but Espartero's pursuit evicted him the following evening, although not before the Carlists had stripped the city of 100 oxen, 350 sacks of powder, 450 of bullets, 2,000 muskets, 3,000 bayonets and some 350 cartridges.⁸⁵

Gómez's subsequent evacuation of Galicia and invasion of Old Castile was remarkable, not least because his expedition survived a defeat by Espartero at the Asturian village of Escaro on 8 August and the loss of some 500 prisoners. Yet even more remarkable was the fact that a rural expedition alternating around 6,000 men (some of these being priests and other itinerants of little military value) seemed not only unstoppable but also an external factor in Cristino Spain's revolutionary crisis. Gómez spent the first week of August occupying León, before fleeing before Espartero's vanguard once again. Soon afterwards, Espartero himself fell ill from exhaustion, and the counter-insurgency forces were led, from 23 August, by Alaix.⁸⁶ As the expedition drew closer to the Cristino capital, revolutionary opinion turned on War Minister Rodil. Rodil had presided over an embarrassing defeat of the Royal Guard, which, despite its better training and artillery, had suffered demoralisation since the La Granja revolution, symbolised by the revolutionaries' insistence that the Guard's standard be emblazoned with the green ribbons of the Constitution. Local authorities at Guadalajara fled to Madrid in panic.⁸⁷ Guadalajara province saw its communities caught between Carlist violence and 'revolutionary justice'. Cristino forces fined municipalities which did not display tablets dedicated to the Constitution of 1812, and Carlists sacked those that did. A constitutional judge of Riaza (Segovia) on the border of Guadalajara cut an undignified figure by fleeing to La Granja soon after exhorting others to fight to the end.⁸⁸ The isolated Guadalajara village of Maranchón was surrounded by opposing forces but had no particular affiliation of its own. Its villagers decided that the Carlists were stronger, and a

delegation gave them intelligence about a nearby Cristino unit which was then subjected to an attack that yielded dozens of prisoners, several of whom chose to serve under the Carlists. Other communities were divided between themselves. Almodovar's (Guadalajara) divisions had been dormant, but news of both revolution and Carlist invasion radicalised local politics. When its Liberal mayor held a banquet to celebrate the proclamation of the Constitution of 1812, his address was cut short by one of the musicians in attendance, who lunged forward with a dagger, killing the mayor's wife instantly and mortally wounding the mayor (the local surgeon, a civic Carlist, refused to treat him), before snuffing out the candles to assist his escape. The assassin was later caught by militiamen and executed, but not before he had declared himself 'glad to have killed a *negro*'.⁸⁹

Gómez could not seriously consider assaulting Madrid, but it would have helped Rodil's career if he had. War Minister Rodil decreed a strategy which would soon be his undoing. Adopting his tactic of 'centralisation' sustained by parallel lines of deployments and patrols on the approaches to the capital – 'defence in depth' – Rodil certainly saved the capital, but in a manner of strategic overkill more suited to his dogged defence of Callao in Peru than against a guerrilla band. His strategy ceded the initiative to Gómez, deflecting him into the surrounding areas of Extremadura, New Castile and, eventually, Andalucía, where he enjoyed a series of embarrassing conquests. Alai's campaign troops, meanwhile, were impeded by the attitude of the local constitutional authorities, which wanted to stabilise their power by refusing army demands for supplies and, especially, the mobilisation of local militiamen, out of fear that the revolutionary process could be reopened with unpredictable results. Cristino troops, tired of having to deal with presumptuous civilians, reverted to imposing states of siege, suspending constitutional guarantees in the hope that force rather than negotiation would yield more support. This equated the Cristino campaign to that of Gómez, who was under no such constraints and could offer civilians either threats or rewards.⁹⁰ The threat of martial law supplied Alai's troops in Cuenca on 11 September with sufficient shoes.⁹¹ Cobblers, like telegraphists in later conflicts, were artisans whose skill was so essential that they were targeted by military law. Consequently, cobblers in revolutionary Málaga faced forced mobilisation on pain of imprisonment.⁹²

The disarray of Cristino forces offered the Carlists surprisingly easy conquests. News reached Gómez that Córdoba was lightly garrisoned (actually, the Cristino garrison would prove larger than Gómez was led

to believe, containing some 2,000 militiamen, including several who had evacuated local villages, and some 200 cavalry). Gómez regrouped with the forces of Cabrera, and Brigadier Santiago Villalobos managed to breach the city walls, in part thanks to the city's restive poor neighbourhoods of Santa María and San Lorenzo, whose inhabitants welcomed the Carlist invasion as an *emeute*. After days of skirmishing, the Militia retreated and blockaded itself into the last redoubt, the former headquarters of the Inquisition, where it surrendered to terms on 1 October, only for a misunderstanding to break this truce, which was followed by a definitive surrender. *Moderados* attacked the Radicals' mismanagement of the war effort. Exaggerating the strength of the Cristino garrison and minimising the Carlist losses (but not by much in either case), *El Español* reported that the city's 3,000-strong Militia surrendered to a Carlist force less than three times in number, and which had to suffer a mere four fatal casualties (including Villalobos).⁹³ Gómez had performed a rare feat: the capture of a Cristino provincial capital, and his insurgent lifestyle could, for the moment, take pause. Gómez pointedly remained in Córdoba for a week: hasty departure would be seen by all as a sign of insurgency, and not the actions of a regime-in-waiting. Hence, Gómez concocted a deliberately elaborate Carlist regime in the city, led by the Dean of the Cathedral and effectively run by the subaltern crowds, who now helped themselves to Militia arms, joined Carlist ranks, and victimised and sometimes killed local Liberals. Several prominent militiamen were executed to popular applause, along with their commander and the prefect. Meanwhile, the city's poor joined the Carlists in their plunder of local Liberals' property.⁹⁴

It was a week before Alaix's force could threaten Córdoba. Gómez quit the city, reoccupied it for a night on 11–12 October, but then left it definitively in response to the coordinated movements of Alaix and Rodil. The War Minister had come under intense pressure to abandon his cautious strategy, but Rodil dared not leave the capital undergarrisoned. Although Córdoba was retaken, Gómez (and the city's recent Carlist junta) remained at large in Andalucía. It was small comfort that Gómez was burdened by Cabrera's restive contingents who wanted to withdraw to Aragón, by a growing sick-train and some 300 Cristino prisoners from a Málaga regiment defeated at Alcaudete. Gómez parleyed with Alaix to propose an exchange of prisoners. But Alaix knew that the sick and wounded prisoners in the enemy's entourage were the only burdens obstructing the Carlist general's progress, and wished to avoid offending revolutionary opinion by subjecting virgin Andalucía to an Eliot Treaty-lite.⁹⁵ Gómez outmanoeuvred Rodil and escaped through

the Sierra Morena towards another valuable target, Almadén, whose mercury mines had been leased for a Rothschild loan in 1835.⁹⁶ The barren sierra treated Gómez's forces harshly. His 8,000 infantry were hungry and badly shod, only 400 of his 1,200 cavalry were battle-worthy and the lower-ranking Cristino prisoners had to be 'freed' to fend for themselves in the wastes.⁹⁷ But he was still able to take Almadén, a town of 8,000 inhabitants stretched along an east–west line which made it hard to defend against a determined attack. In fact, the town's modest 50-strong Militia garrison, earlier in the war, had proved hard-pressed to keep at bay small guerrilla bands. Continued pressure from Carlist guerrillas and news of the Gómez expedition led to a reinforcement of the militia and the establishment of a serious, though still modest, army garrison. Despite these measures, Gómez needed only a few days' bombardment carried out by two well-positioned mountain guns to capture the town on 24 October 1836; the Carlists characteristically employing night attacks to secure parts of the town. The Military Governor of Almadén, Aranguren, surrendered the town after its general destruction had served as morbid battle honours. Aranguren, displaying a non-committal rhetorical ability common to Cristino elites, made a parting plea to Gómez not to destroy the valuable mercury mines as these would be vital for national prosperity 'whoever wins this war'.⁹⁸

The occupation of Almadén was the final straw for Rodil's position. An image appeared in the press lampooning him: showing him wearing an eyeglass to survey the campaign horizon, whilst Gómez's expedition passed between his extended legs.⁹⁹ Laughter damaged reputations in cultures of honour and Rodil was sacked both from the Royal Guards and the War Ministry. Gómez, for his part, evaded capture yet again, and on 31 October marched into Cáceres (Extremadura), beginning a three-day occupation of this provincial capital which had been abandoned to its fate by its civil authorities and Militia.

Rodil's shame was the first order of business of the unicameral revolutionary Cortes which convened on 24 October 1836. Cristino Spain been seized by Jacobin politics. Whereas Espoz and Meer, and other captains-general, used their military authority to impose forced loans, a civilian police state gripped Madrid. Salustiano de Olózaga, an ambitious lawyer with excellent radical credentials, was made Civil Governor of Madrid. He used constitutional defence legislation to open correspondence relating to the forthcoming elections and imprison over 500 civic Carlists.¹⁰⁰ Quiroga, Captain-General of Granada, wrote to Mendizábal informing him of his political opponents. This crackdown

was followed in other provinces like Badajoz, where some 160 civic Carlists were imprisoned.¹⁰¹ Priests who refused blessings to the Queen or who even expressed sorrow for the plight of the religious evicted by the disentailment laws were arrested by the National Militia.¹⁰² Andan, Civil Governor of Zaragoza, imprisoned priests without due process, whilst Latre, Captain-General of Galicia, threatened mayors with prison if they refused to cooperate with his military orders.¹⁰³ Civic Carlists faced unprecedented government persecution.¹⁰⁴ The non-ministerial Left also flourished, as several Radical conspiracies and secret societies were now liberated, to an extent, from police pressure. Secret societies old and new flourished such as Joven Italia, Leñadores escoceses, Templarios sublimes, Asociación de Derechos del Hombre and others besides.¹⁰⁵ The government tried to keep control of the revolution via such symbolic actions as auctioning church bells and treasures and rejecting or extorting those wealthy rightists in the capital and elsewhere who applied for passports for exile in France.¹⁰⁶ Yet the years 1835–37 still saw the ministerial Left outflanked by republican secret societies, which regarded Carlism as a mortal threat because of its royalism. The Federation (*La Federación*) convened a clandestine network of Radicals in Andalucían provincial capitals under the leadership of a 'Supreme Federated Regulator' (*Supremo Regulator Federado*), who resided out of harm's way in Paris.¹⁰⁷ By the end of 1837, government spies had penetrated much of its activities, recording the oaths taken by new members:

1. I swear never to respect any class of government, power or authority which does not originate in the people.
2. I swear obedience and submission to the Supreme Federated Regulator: likewise to those who conduct work and operations in his name, whether from the Central or Departmental sections.
3. I swear to obey no-one other than those purely of the Federation residing in my area.
4. I swear to observe the greatest discretion in everything I obey, see and understand, of the Venerated Federation, and to disclose neither the names of fellow *federados*, nor the location of the Assembly, nor the hours it meets.
5. I swear to offer all manner of services demanded of me, sacrificing my life, and all my belongings, so that the regenerating principles of Universal Federation may prosper and spread.
6. I swear to recognise tyrants and all those obeying them as enemies of man.

7. I swear to consider as a usurpation of the People the power and Authority known as Royal.
8. I swear to work to give liberty to the world and take it out of the slavery of being subject to just one person, even if that person's power is restricted.
9. I swear to obey Federated law, and any amendments and modifications agreed by the Assembly.
10. I swear to submit to suffer the penalty which article 84 prescribes for perjurers.

I make a special oath before the Supreme Legislator that I have freely and spontaneously sought admission to this sacred place without having been prompted or coerced by anyone.¹⁰⁸

Outflanked on the left, the *progresista* government tried to capture public disaffection by scapegoating Rodil. The Cortes narrowly rejected a motion to send deputies on permanent mission to the headquarters of every field army (a version of the French Revolutionary *représentantes en mission*), but it did decide to send a deputy to interrogate Rodil.¹⁰⁹ The Cortes nominated none other than the upstart Cardero, the darling of the Radicals, who, since his January 1835 rising, had become Cortes deputy and aide-de-camp to General Espoz, to lead an investigation into Rodil.

Rodil was incandescent with rage receiving Cardero, the man whose entire career had been attributed to his killing of Rodil's friend and fellow *ayacucho*, Canterac. Rodil feared that what had happened to Canterac, and later to Bassa and Quesada, could happen to him. On 11 November 1836 Cardero arrived at Rodil's headquarters at Monte Rubio, but pointedly did not go to interview him until nightfall, and only then in secret. This precaution was sensible, for Cristino troops across Spain were revolting against Rodil, such as at Miajadas (Cáceres), where troops refused to march against Gómez and instead shouted 'Death to Rodil!' On 29 November 1836 a battalion in the Royal Guard of Infantry launched a revolt which was suppressed when three of its leaders were executed.¹¹⁰ During the meeting between Rodil and Cardero, the former was beside himself listening to the tactful preachings of this upstart; he threatened to silence Cardero and to execute him, before finally ordering him to leave his presence. With Cardero turned out, Rodil now had to act fast. He had received the envelope containing the order for him to resign his command, so before he opened it, he assembled his staff, got their support, and only then opened the letter in their presence. All being suitably indignant, Rodil nominated an

acting commander who would do his bidding whilst he left for Madrid with only a personal guard, ready to defend his honour at the capital. Reaching Almaráz (Extremadura), a further order came into his hands ordering him to march directly to Toledo, not Madrid. Rodil, terrified of being made a sacrifice to Radicals, wrote to the Queen-Regent and got her personal guarantee for his safety and modified terms. He could now choose internal exile in Ciudad Rodrigo, Zamora or Segovia. He chose Ciudad Rodrigo for its proximity to the Portuguese frontier. After crossing into exile, he issued an indignant manifesto protesting the political interference in army affairs, the underhand behaviour of Cardero, the Radical government's failure to supply his army, particularly with shoes, and its second-guessing of his strategy.¹¹¹

Rodil's exile was a sideshow to the government's inability to control its territory. One of the most powerful men in Cristino Spain was the editor of the Radical *Eco del Comercio*, Fermín Caballero, now president of the revolutionary junta of his native Cuenca. Gómez's interception of his correspondence revealed intelligence about the identities of Carlists and Liberals in La Mancha.¹¹² Córdoba was reoccupied, but the Carlist junta had stripped the city of military supplies, including some 20,000 sorely needed pairs of shoes. Cobblers were forced to make as many shoes as possible, and officers ordered to buy soles and to set their men to work making sandals. Poor supplies and unreliable communications complicated the Cristino pursuit of Gómez.¹¹³ Such impediment as came to the Carlists came from within rather than without.

At Cáceres Gómez ordered Cabrera to retire to Aragón, overriding his bitter protest at this breaking of an earlier agreement, and at the manner that the order was delivered (Gómez amassed armed men around him in the rituals of a *pronunciamiento*). The King, Gómez said, needed Cabrera in the east in the wake of the fall of Cantavieja, but he provided his rival with nothing more than a personal guard of cavalry, and a suggested route which would suspiciously take him close to Cristino garrisons. In the end, Cabrera accepted his assumed identity (Llorens, a Valencia guerrilla subordinate of Quílez), but set out on his own path through Cristino territory. Despite Gómez's parsimony, 'Llorens' fought a serious of successful rearguard actions, zigzagged in order to confound pursuers, set off a minor panic in the capital between 21 and 25 November by invading the Tarancón (Cuenca) area and, most impressively, as he neared the Basque country on 24 November, captured the Bishop of Pamplona, Andriani, who had played a double game with both sides and whom the Cristinos had been holding in internal exile. Cabrera escaped back across the Ebro after losing a battle to the Cristino covering force

at Rincón de Soto, abandoning stragglers and wounded, but keeping the bishop. He had ignored Gómez's instructions to go directly east and would instead protest before his King at his treatment.¹¹⁴

Meanwhile, the Cristinos dispatched three divisions towards Andalucía under General Ramón María Narváez. Narváez is a figure who dominated Spain's mid-nineteenth century as the cornerstone of *moderado* praetorian politics. Of a long-standing, moderately wealthy, Andalusian military-aristocratic family – highly representative of the military caste – Narváez's experience in the Carlist War taught him to deride all civilian politicians as 'lawyers' and to conserve a paternalistic disdain for the capacities of ordinary people. Leftist historians have seen in Narváez everything that was wrong with Spain's praetorian politics, whereas rightist historians, such as Córdova's brother in the late nineteenth century and his hagiographer, Andrés Révész, in the mid-twentieth century saw him as a Romantic man of action and a political innocent.¹¹⁵ An innovative recent study by Guy Thomson, by contrast, casts Narváez as a reflexive, proactively conservative strongman of post-Carlist War *moderado* politics.¹¹⁶ Perhaps Narváez's legend will shift, from the man who, on his deathbed in 1868 was asked to forgive his enemies, only to reply 'I have no enemies to forgive for I have had them all shot', to the man who, for decades, was the next-door neighbour of Andalucía's most prolific Democrat. The Narváez of the Carlist War has been less studied than the Narváez of mid-century liberalism. The Ominous Decade had not been kind to Narváez's career as he refused to compromise his liberalism, but the Carlist War saw him re-enter the army as a captain, after which his bravery on the battlefield (especially at Mendigorría) saw him promoted to colonel by the end of 1835.¹¹⁷ In November 1836 he became Commander-in-Chief of the Army Reserve, making him the *moderado* rival to the *progresista* Espartero, whose Army of the North was stretched containing shorter-range Carlist offensives.¹¹⁸

Gómez's march from Cáceres to San Roque, Algeciras and other parts of the Cádiz province was dictated by the presence of the only serious Carlist enclave in Andalucía, the Serranía de Ronda, where brigandage in rugged terrain had flourished under the banner of Carlism. This corner of Andalucía, an acute triangle between Málaga, the Ronda and Gibraltar, had long been characterised by conspiracy and wrongdoing.¹¹⁹ The Cristino police state had been watchful of subversive activities: the secretive travels in the region of a Tangier Jew claiming to seek Christian baptism, and the incendiary activities of a French agent collecting money for Don Carlos once the war had begun.¹²⁰ More than any other location, the Ronda conformed to the wild, Irvingesque image of

Spain, placing *costumbrista* outlaws into an international conspiratorial network. Even before the arrival of the Gómez Expedition reached the region, the Carlist Royal Government had appointed guerrilla leaders there. But Navarra was far away and Don Carlos discovered that Carlist commanders in the Andalucía had a short life expectancy.

In July 1835 the former royalist colonel, Vicente Mateos, was caught near Gibraltar with documents incriminating him as Don Carlos's man and was imprisoned pending court martial.¹²¹ Mateos was executed amidst the radicalism of the 1835 juntas in retrospective 'revolutionary justice' for his role in the execution of the Liberal hero, Manzanares, in the Torrijos expedition of 1831.¹²² Brigadier Salvador Malavilla was named Mateos's successor as Carlist commander in Andalucía. Malavilla had presided over a plan to raise a loan in Gibraltar to fund the creation of a proper army. (Seeing the threat of Gibraltar and suspecting British motives, Narváez, on 22 November 1836, reported the Carlist deployment of three battalions on the border in the Campo de Gibraltar as proof of their intent to launder their loot in the British colony.¹²³) But when he was arrested and his correspondence uncovered, Malavilla was executed in Seville (after which the dangerous rank of Carlist commander in Andalucía passed to Pedro Fermín de Iriberri).¹²⁴ The Gibraltar–Serranía de Ronda conspiratorial network proved a potent way to induce Carlism in a part of Spain which would otherwise have been entirely lost to the cause of legitimism. May 1836, for example, saw Seville rocked by a conspiracy led by a group of priests and redundant monks who had hired the allegiance of some tanners, bakers and sergeants, to spring Carlist prisoners from gaol and seize the city for Don Carlos. Luckily for the authorities, government spies were active in the cafés, and arrests were made before the plot was enacted.¹²⁵ Gibraltar provided a springboard for cloak-and-dagger smugglers, especially the *mochileros* ('backpackers') who made the seldom-trodden paths of the Serranía de Ronda their own, and who, in the context of civil war, could be recruited to act for Carlist conspiracies.¹²⁶ The revolutionary authorities knew that Gómez's invasion could act as a magnet for insurgents in the Serranía de Ronda and even fifth columnists inside Cristino towns and cities. In October 1836 the Seville Armament and Defence Committee warned that gatherings of more than five people within a league of known enemy positions would be broken up by bullets, any correspondence with the Carlists pronounced espionage and Seville closed off to all comers without passports.¹²⁷

Narváez's famous skill for rapid marches inconvenienced Gómez who wanted to spend more than a few days regrouping in the Serranía. His

subordinate, General Rivero, detailed the terror Gómez inflicted during his Andalusian campaign. Liberals imprisoned in Córdoba were dragged on a forced march, tied up in villages in the Carlists' path whilst the villages themselves were pillaged. Prisoners who could not keep pace were bayoneted by the wayside. This terror made Andalucía even more hostile to Carlism than it already was. Estepona's militiamen circulated arms to civilians in a successful repulse of 200–300 'Carlist scum' who had demanded 30,000 reales. The invaders later returned demanding half this sum, only to be repulsed again. Several British military and civilians were spectators of an unlikely invasion from the north of San Roque, on the actual borderline with Gibraltar, on 22 November. With British help, the Cristinos had reinforced the border with artillery which harassed the Carlist occupation of San Roque, provoking Gómez into reprisals including 'sacking homes, burning others, and smashing the town's vats containing wines, olives, oils and spirits, so that the streets resembled a noxious flood'.¹²⁸ This sacking of Liberal San Roque contrasted with the Carlists' behaviour in the Serranía where 'they took more care of the inhabitants, as they committed nothing like the same outrages, nor any significant inconvenience'.¹²⁸ But there was no way back into the friendly Serranía, and whilst Gómez left half his combatants on the border to negotiate their internment (and that of Córdoba's fugitive Carlist junta), the other half invaded the nearest Cristino port of Algeciras. Here the Carlists' lack of artillery told once more as they were repulsed by the concentrated fire of a Portuguese frigate, a British corvette and Cristino coastguard vessels, suffering considerable losses. The Carlists invaded the Mediterranean on horseback up to bridle-height in a vain attempt to get near enough to the Quadruple Alliance naval supremacy to fire their muskets. However, the pursuit of Cristino forces obliged Gómez to flee Algeciras, but not before he had burnt the town to the ground.¹²⁸

While Gómez was put to flight, the Carlists and their junta of Córdoba on the Gibraltar frontier were allowed internment in the colony. The French consul arrived to agree terms, but the internees' voyage out of the colony on 23 November was intercepted by the Cristino coastguard, the passengers being taken prisoner and sent to Seville for trial. There they were defended by the local lawyer, *moderado* provincial deputy and National Guard battalion commander, Manuel Cortina, and despite – or because of – his efforts (Cortina had been targeted by local revolutionaries during riots in July) the Carlists were all deported to the Philippines.¹²⁹ The harsh treatment of Córdoba Carlists allowed Seville's Radicals to save some face in the context of the *moderado* rally.

Cortina had risked provoking anti-militarism by mobilising the militia for service under Narváez. His decision paid off when Narváez expelled Gómez from Andalucía as a consequence of the Battle of Majaceite on 23 November 1836.¹³⁰ The Carlist presence in Andalucía had had the effect of rallying communities to the less worse option of liberalism and its defence of the municipal autonomy resurrected under the Constitution of 1812. The militia's battle honours led the citizenry-in-arms to assert their social and political demands. When, in early December, some of Loja's militia were ordered to mobilise, they refused to do unless the whole battalion was so ordered, as campaign rations and higher pay were sorely needed for the men's families, whose livelihoods had been disrupted by the war.¹³¹

The revolutionary Cortes, desperate for victories against Gómez, played two generals against each other by ordering Narváez to relieve the more sclerotic but senior Alaix at the 'most opportune moment'. Yet Alaix's forced marches had made his worn-out men virtually mutinous, and they were in no mood to accept command from a more ruthless general.¹³² One lieutenant pronounced 'now is the time to march on Madrid!' and demanded the death of 'counter-revolutionary' Narváez. However, Narváez used anti-Carlist rhetoric to regain the initiative before ordering the execution of 11 of the mutineers.¹³³ But these measures only bought Narváez time, and he was soon embarrassingly forced to reinstate Alaix (who was an ally of Espartero and had pronounced against his dismissal). Narváez, meanwhile, was summoned to Madrid to explain his conduct. Luckily for him, the Cortes was far more divided about what his fate should be than it had been for Rodil; Narváez asked to be escorted to Cuenca to answer charges, and the matter passed.¹³⁴ The Cabra mutiny was a parable of revolutionary mismanagement of the war. A revolutionary Cortes had not allowed its ignorance of the march of events to override its deliberations and the revolt of the lieutenants and sergeants had lost Alaix's division several vital hours in its pursuit of Gómez. Even though the Carlist expedition was defeated at Alcaudete (Jaén) on 29 November, Gómez extricated the bulk of his force once again and disengaged from Andalucía.¹³⁵ Over fewer than four weeks, until 19 December 1836 (when Gómez arrived at the Basque city of Orduña), the expedition executed a remarkable withdrawal, traversing Bailén and several smaller places on the route northwards, fighting battles and skirmishes, and bivouacking across several rivers, along the way. Gómez halted in friendly mountains near Soria to take a counsel of his staff: should they continue the retreat or rally to launch another invasion from this mountain base? Deciding

to continue the retreat, the expedition fought its way past a Cristino covering force in the Ribera, and arrived back in Carlist Spain and safety. Gómez returned with twice as many men as he had set out with (his recruits included 1,643 defectors from Cristino ranks).¹³⁶ But Don Carlos, in a move which confounded his international sympathisers, placed Gómez on trial for having disobeyed his orders to concentrate on Galicia, and for having 'deceived' Cabrera and deprived him of forces which might have stemmed San Miguel's offensive in the east.¹³⁷ The King was blind to the fact the expedition had destabilised Cristino Spain, deflected the enemy's war effort away from the Basque country, caused the panic-selling of Cristino bonds in European bourses,¹³⁸ and emboldened the Carlists into thinking that victory was possible.¹³⁹ International opinion was dazzled by the Carlist effort, as George Borrow wrote:¹⁴⁰

Gómez has proved himself to be a most extraordinary man, and with his small army of Aragonese and Basques has within the last four months made the tour of Spain; he has very frequently been hemmed in with forces three times the number of his own, in places whence escape seemed impossible, but he has always baffled his enemies.

Given Gómez's impact, it was remarkable that the King sided with Cabrera and appointed Marshal José Mazarrasa, a hard-bitten *apostólico* fiercely loyal to the King, to lead an inquiry into Gómez's conduct and that of other senior officers (Eguía, Villarreal, Elío, Guergué) accused of being too lenient with Cristino prisoners and 'ignoring the interests of the Basque country'.¹⁴¹ Gómez sent the King an indignant letter attacking the whole management of a war which had boxed the Carlists into the Basque country. But Gómez passed into obscurity; besides, the court had decided to break the strategic blockade by making a second attempt at taking Bilbao.¹⁴² The court were labouring under the old impression that the capture of this port would lead to Northern Powers' recognition, and as such had been blind to the possibilities that Gómez's much smaller force had shown. Conditions for a conquest were perhaps worse in the autumn of 1836 than they had been in the spring of 1835. Espartero, recovered from his illness brought on by pursuing Gómez, was named Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North on 16 September, and his bravery was now matched by greater military skill born out of experience. The Cristinos had shown themselves to be effective in point-defence whenever the will to fight existed, and the location of Bilbao played to Quadruple Alliance naval supremacy

and all its morale-boosting possibilities for reinforcement. British Royal Marine and Legion commanders, Lord John Hay and Lacy Evans respectively, quickly deployed 6,000 of their men to seal the French frontier to Carlists between Irún and San Sebastián, and Evans sent 150 artillerymen to bolster Bilbao's defences. The Córdoba legacy of strong defensive lines around the Carlist Basque country, including flash telegraphs and mutually defensible forts, had improved Cristino capabilities for active defence.¹⁴³

Bilbao was certainly not a unanimous decision from the Carlist junta of generals which met to decide the matter at Durango. La Torre urged a bold breakout invasion south towards Madrid as the best way to win European recognition and aid and so win the war. But Erro was resolved, and Lt-General Vicente González Moreno's even-handed letter on 15 October 1836 swayed the decision. González explained to his King that Bilbao was the less worse option ('better' options, he insisted, did not exist in civil wars). A strike south, by contrast, would expose the Basque country to the mercies of the Cristino defensive ring and so destabilise civilian morale. Moreover, this time the Carlists had more artillery to use against Bilbao, including some abandoned pieces from the Peninsular War which had been salvaged and even those 13-inch shells fired by the British from Pasajes and San Sebastián that had failed to explode on impact and had been turned in by local peasants.¹⁴⁴ Also, a dispute between Bilbao's civil and military authorities over the funding of fortifications had simmered since the revolution of the juntas, slowing progress improving the city's defences.¹⁴⁵ The Carlist hold on Bilbao's outlying towns and countryside, meanwhile, had strengthened since 1835 and had emboldened morale against the blockaded Cristinos. One local soldier made good was 'generally on duty blockading Bilbao, and as soon as the cowardly Cristinos withdraw their advanced guard within the walls for the night, he and half-a-dozen wags will follow and write some moral or political abuse of the Queen on the town gates'.¹⁴⁶ But Carlist morale was matched by the Cristinos who had fortified the heights and nationalised convents surrounding Bilbao, and could rely on some 4,300 soldiers and militiamen garrisoning the city with as many as 86 cannon. When the Carlists launched their assault on 22 October, the Cristinos were ready for them.¹⁴⁷

The Carlist bombardment was at its most intense on the 24 and 28 October. Women, children and the elderly took to cellars and store rooms in order to stay out of harm's way, even though some ten women, seven children and three elderly were amongst the 79 fatal casualties in

Bilbao that week, whilst dozens more were amongst the total of 307 Cristino wounded. The Carlist projectiles included incendiary fireballs which had been invented by the French Carlist engineer, Colonel Lizoire, better known for his braggadocio as 'Tout-terraser', whose projectiles expelled noxious 'Greek fire' upon impact.¹⁴⁸ Lizoire was joined by several other European Carlists in the assault on Bilbao, and in being opposed by European Liberals the struggle for Bilbao became a crucible of the international struggle between Absolutism and Liberalism.¹⁴⁹ At one point the Carlists briefly breached the walls, only to be flushed out by militiamen supported by Bilbao workers. Meanwhile, the morale of the civilian population was sustained by the erroneous belief that Gómez had been utterly destroyed somewhere in southern Spain. The Carlist assault flagged from 29 October and the bitter divisions in the Carlist court reappeared. Eguía, still rankling from his replacement by Erro, seized his chance by convincing Don Carlos's courtiers that he could take the city within 24 hours, a gambit that won him command of the besieging troops and the relegation (and subsequent resignation) of Villarreal.

Eguía's conference on 5 November with his artillery generals and engineers resulted in a plan to break the deadlock by assaulting Bilbao's adjacent fortified points and convents which protected its access to the sea. An unlikely Carlist spy inside Bilbao (an elderly woman) had disclosed the weakness of the Cristino fort which had been put up at Mallona on the city's outskirts. This was taken after a short artillery bombardment, and was followed up by the capture of a fortified convent whose surrender gave the Carlists a stranglehold on the city's river links to the sea. French residents being evacuated were fired upon by the Carlists, and, despite the French consul's protests, Eguía refused them safe passage. Meanwhile, the Royal Navy commander of the *Ringdove* complained to the defending Cristinos of the speed with which the defenders had surrendered the outlying forts. Eguía in November was showing promise where his predecessor had failed, as well as a common touch as he disguised himself as a simple soldier and shared the violence of the front with his men.¹⁵⁰ Time appeared to be on his side: Carlist espionage revealed to the besiegers that the city was going hungry as food stocks dwindled and the prices of bread, eggs and especially meat, rose exponentially. A chance shipload of cod had been made to last and bequeathed Bilbao its signature dish,¹⁵¹ one of two enduring gastronomic legacies of the First Carlist War.¹⁵¹

The further Eguía advanced, the stiffer the resistance he encountered. The Cristino detachment at Luchana withdrew only after it had

exhausted all its ammunition, and even then it redeployed to the stronger position garrisoned by an Anglo-Cristino force at a place known as El Desierto, which was strengthened by the gunfire of the Royal Navy brigantines *Ringdove* and *Saracen*.¹⁵² But Erro was confident enough with Eguía's progress to outline to his King on 17 November elaborate details of the peace the Carlists would impose on Bilbao. Thus, foreign consuls in the city representing powers opposed to Don Carlos would be treated as nothing more than private aliens, a ruinous 12,000,000 reales tax would be imposed on known Liberal families opposed to Don Carlos, all nationalised convents and monasteries in the city would be revived and even put to work 'imprisoning and correcting those decent women who had fallen into corrupt and unruly ways and so scandalised the people'.¹⁵³ Clearly, the inference between revolution and breakdown of family morality, which began in the Carlist imagination with the female usurpation of the throne, was plain to see. Whereas Carlists had the unimpeachable Virgin Mary as their icon, the Cristinos had the secular Isabella as theirs. Isabella's 'innocence' and her mother's worldliness provoked a veritable avalanche of books, essays and pamphlets debating the proper role of woman in Liberal society, the vast majority of which predictably reverted to the traditional feminine values of religion, morality, self-abnegation and self-control.¹⁵⁴

But in planning the correction of Bilbao's corrupted women, the Royal Government was counting its proverbial chickens. Bilbao's counterbattery was now outgunning the Carlist attackers. The Carlists managed to take the fortified ex-convent of San Agustín before being halted by a Cristino rally in front of Sendejá, where the defenders intimidated some of the weary Carlist attackers by draping a barricade in front of the ex-convent with a slogan saying 'Transit to Death'. Meanwhile, Carlist logistics were also flagging. Carlist civilians shirked work building wooden siege-trains with the result that soldiers had to be redeployed for this task. One final Carlist effort to take the fortified ex-convent of La Concepción, which was repulsed on 29 November, finally pushed the besiegers into exhaustion. The Cristino garrison was now returning artillery fire at rates twice and then three times that of the Carlists, who were under orders to conserve their dwindling ammunition. Even worse, intelligence arrived of Cristino relief forces. After Evans's British force was sent by sea from San Sebastián to Portugalete on Bilbao's extreme right, Espartero resolved to relieve the city by striking through the area of the bridge at Luchana, a key location where the Asúa River flowed into the Nervión. Espartero's victory here relieved Bilbao on Christmas Day, restoring Cristino Spain's fortunes in the wake of the Gómez debacle,

and turning both himself (ennobled as Count Luchana) and the city into heroes of Liberal resistance. Cristino casualties during November–December 1836 exceeded those that of the Carlists: 240 dead and 887 wounded militiamen, 3,700 army dead and wounded (including some 1,000 dead at Luchana), and incalculable civilian casualties. Wide areas of Bilbao lay in ruins, some 26,000,000-reales worth of damage having been caused.¹⁵⁵

7

Carlist Failure, 1837–39

This chapter explains how Carlist Spain was transformed by the defeat of the Royal Expedition. The Carlist Basque country was debilitated by civilian war weariness and army revolts. Popular hatred of *ojalateros* ('would-to-God-ers', or shirkers) grew on the backs of Basque peasantry overburdened by taxes and conscription. War weariness created factionalism both from within between an 'enlightened absolutist' (Marotista) and theocratic absolutist (Apostólico) camp, and even from without (Muñagorri's 'Peace and *fueros*' insurgency sponsored by Madrid). Meanwhile, Cabrera's military state in the east maintained its cohesion, defying the Cristino ascendancy elsewhere (as, to a lesser extent, did the Catalan Carlists). But the strategic situation reverted to an unsustainable stalemate, renewed minor Carlist expeditions notwithstanding. The Carlist 'home front' in mid-war differed greatly from that of its enemy. Carlist Spain matched a stultifying social and political culture with a generally effective military strategy and order of battle: the very reverse of the Cristinos. Unlike Cristino Spain, its territory was small, restricted to a Basque-Navarrese statelet, and much more makeshift rural areas of Catalonia, Aragón and Valencia besides. Although Carlist guerrillas roamed in other areas of Spain, even dominating significant geographical spaces, their itinerant nature prevented them from enforcing anything more than the most rudimentary military administration. Thus, the Carlist 'home front' entails the Basque country, and, to a lesser degree, the east. Its study involves three broad categories, the cultural, the political-economic and the military.

Culturally, Carlist Spain was characterised by an official puritanism based on the union of throne and altar. The Vatican never recognised Carlist Spain. Even though most of the cardinals supported such a policy, Pope Gregory XVI in 1832 had condemned all rebellion

against constituted authority, which meant that Papal recognition of the Carlists was impossible without either a dynastic reconciliation or the capture of Madrid. In this respect, the very conservative Pope resembled Chancellor Metternich.¹ Yet the lack of formal Papal recognition did not impede the Carlist mobilisation of Catholicism in its war effort. On 1 August 1835, the Virgin Mary was proclaimed *Generalísima* of Carlist forces, repeating similar anointments by Peninsular War Patriots and anticipating Franco 100 years later.² In fact, beyond official puritanism, Carlists exploited the range of popular Catholicism to inspire Christian soldiery, exculpate exterminating angels or even justify acts of protest. Faced with the intensely irrational and violent environment of war, many Carlists relied on the miraculous powers of icons. Hence, Carlist guerrillas in Aragón turned against their leader, an exterminating angel priest called Escoriguela, after he discarded a holy cross when wading across the River Ebro. The weight of the cross almost made him drown, but this counted as nought to his men who had always kissed the icon before battle and almost executed the priest for his act of sacrilege.³

The demands made by the war distorted the public and private exercise of Catholicism. In April 1836, Don Carlos revived and transformed the Sancti Spiritus University at Oñati (Guipúzcoa), purging those scholars suspected of the merest whiff of liberalism, replacing them with theologians of often inferior qualifications, and forcing staff to take an oath of allegiance to the King and to uphold the mystery of the Marian Immaculate Conception. Yet this traditionalist drive failed as the University had to be used to house armaments, all areas but the chapel being used for arms storage.⁴ Official concerns mounted that total war was eroding popular religiosity and encouraging licence and blasphemy, and these were answered by punishments targeting swearing and 'scandal'.⁵ Carlist Spain's greatest female poet, Vicenta Maturana de Gutiérrez, suffered from the cultural crackdown when, on 1 May 1838, her ironic lyric poem, *Himno a la luna*, was banned from Carlist territory.⁶ Of greater concern for its pervasiveness was the growth of extramarital liaisons and the children these produced, belying the regime's official piety as expressed in the *Gaceta Oficial*, and the cult of the Virgin. A decree was therefore passed on 25 December 1836 allowing soldiers and officers to marry, even though these married men would have to forgo their rights to military pensions. Beyond dogmatic anti-liberalism, Carlist religion was always a reflection of changing social relationships. Yet both leftist and traditionalist historians have tended to view Carlist War Catholicism as a constant rather than diverse and changing, even though the orphaning of the Pretender's cause by

the Vatican in fact liberated religious commitment away from political strategy and enabled it to mean different things to different people.⁷

The official culture of Christian soldiering was undermined by a counter-culture of shirking, which shared some of the features, but not the extent, of the Cristino zone. The *ojalatero* phenomenon ('would-to-God-er') showed how shirking military duty was more controversial for Carlists than for Cristinos.⁸ *Ojalatero* became a humorous and offensive term to describe all men of fighting ability in the Carlist camp who, for whatever reason, were not fighting; after the Royal Expedition it was used by diehard Carlists to describe the disproportionately non-Basque peace faction known as the *transaccionistas*. Often, Basque women unkindly called wounded men in the rearguard *ojalateros*. The moral belligerence of Basque women was matched by Cristino women only in the embittered front-line areas of the east, as was evident in the enemy camp by the *Eco del Comercio's* attempt to shame men into fighting by sensationalising the story of a young heroine. Eighteen-year-old Luisa Casinól disguised herself as a man and enlisted in the Cristino army in Catalonia, proving herself on the battlefield and becoming something of a mascot (dubbed 'Luis') in the eyes of her comrades, even after her true sex had been revealed.⁹ Catalan Cristinos had no problem with temporal rather than supernatural female icons: their very battle cry *¡Viva la petita!* referred to Princess Isabella.¹⁰ As the *ojalatero* phenomenon had the potential to damage the war effort, it was answered by repression from the Carlist Royal Police. Measures included a ban on all non-combatant males from bearing arms or wearing martial moustaches, dishonouring them in a chauvinistic society.¹¹ Towards the end of the war, the Cristino Basque spymaster, Aviraneta, turned the *ojalatero* phenomenon into a propaganda offensive to destabilise the Carlist war effort from within. His 'Letter from a Basque farmer to a tinker' was a pun on the shirkers of the Carlist home front (tinker, or 'hojalatero', is a homophone of 'ojalatero'). Its content brilliantly set the Carlist Basques against the Carlist 'Castilians'.¹² Even though Aviraneta's impact has been overstated by neo-Carlists keen to stress the autonomism of nineteenth-century Carlistism, it remains the most effective propaganda campaign of the war.¹³

The repressive arm of the Carlist state was the Royal Police. Created in April 1836, initially with the modest aim of being a royal bodyguard, it quickly assumed classically nineteenth-century police-state functions in the face of growing discontent and war-weariness, controlling internal passports, combatting desertion, supervising local foral elections and, controversially, superimposing its law-and-order jurisdiction over

that of the *fueros*. Above all, it hunted deserters. Soon after its creation the Royal Police enforced punitive measures enacted by the juntas of each Basque province and Navarra during the spring and summer of 1836, fining and imprisoning the families of deserters, and its repression reached a peak during the first half of 1837.¹⁴ The harshness of the law of hostages was moderated in March 1837 by the personal intervention of Don Carlos (only families which had sheltered deserters remained in prison).¹⁵ Such was the Royal Police's unpopularity that it was disbanded in June 1837 by Prime Minister José de Uranga, a middle-aged royalist veteran of 1821–23 and 1831 and erstwhile ally of Zumalacárregui. The King was on expedition, hence technically there was no longer the need for a royal bodyguard in the Basque country, but Uranga's real reasons were telling. If legend is to be believed, Uranga slept protected by a personal bodyguard of two men inside his room and another two outside. The Byzantine world of Carlist politics often saw ministers attend meetings armed, and this friction was largely caused between the disproportionately Basque *apostólico* (and *fuerrista*) and the disproportionately non-Basque enlightened absolutist wings of Carlism. Since the death of Zumalacárregui Don Carlos had appointed prime ministers whose centralising measures had alienated *apostólicos* and *fuerristas*. One such, Carlos Cruz Mayor, a very capable enlightened absolutist, was already controversial for having led the 'Bilbao faction' blamed for Zumalacárregui's death. But in April 1836 he alienated the *apostólico* faction further by speaking out against peace plans to extend the *fueros* beyond the Basque country, and Don Carlos yielded to pressure to replace him with the more tactful Juan Bautista Erro y Azpíroz.¹⁶ But Erro, a 62-year-old academic and fugitive from Cristino captivity, soon alienated the same elements with his zeal to centralise revenue collection, his creation of the Royal Police and the 'Armamento General', the May 1836 decree forbidding private ownership of arms. The decision to attempt a second siege of Bilbao was largely Erro's, and its failure provided Don Carlos with a pretext to sack him.¹⁷ Thus Uranga, whose cabinet included both *apostólicos* and moderates, trod carefully with the former. His continuation of the centralisation of his predecessors was made palatable both by his abolition of the Royal Police – who were sent to the front to assuage *ojalaterismo* – and his campaign of limited offensives against Cristino forts in the Basque country to distract Cristino forces from the pursuit of the Royal Expedition. In August 1837, Uranga silenced his critics by taking the important Cristino fortress at Peñacerrada.¹⁸

The war forced the Royal Government to impose unprecedented regulation and taxation upon the Basque population. Money was lacking and it was only a matter of time before the crushing fines imposed on local Liberals, combined with forced loans levied on Carlists (even on nuns), would run dry, not least because discontent was growing even within the ranks at the one-third pay given to each soldier and officer. Administrative reforms proved more effective at finding new resources: Juntas Generales, it was decreed, should meet every two years at Guernica, the Carlist Deputation of Vizcaya decreed new levies on imports, whilst the Guernica junta on 14 July 1835 hit the civil population yet again with a new forced loan of 2 million reales to be paid back at 5 per cent annual interest, and to be guaranteed against all national assets across Spain. Don Carlos, was less successful, however, when it came to enlisting international financial support for Carlist Spain. The mooted 125,000,000-franc loan arranged by financiers Haber, Jange and Gower never materialised, nor did other deals, largely because Don Carlos displayed the rare ability always to pick the wrong argument at the wrong time. He promised that a future Carlist government would categorically refuse to honour any foreign creditor who had outstanding debts to the 'usurping government'. This debacle took the wind out of the sails of overseas Carlist representatives.¹⁹ In the event no real financial help arrived apart from the erratic and varying donations of European legitimists, despite the varying pledges of financial support made by Prussian, Dutch, Austrian and Italian rulers, so Carlist agents were forced to tap the vagaries of private lending markets.

The militarisation of Carlist society proceeded more thoroughly than in Cristino Spain. The Carlists developed a comparatively more efficient hierarchical organisation of their military. Comandante generales retained default control of all forces in their province unless a division general asked for them.²⁰ Beyond this, the demands of the war regulated food and production far more than in Cristino Spain. From 28 January 1836 food was rationed: two daily rations of bread and meat and wine for serving soldiers and workers in arms forges and factories, and half this quantity for all 'passive' classes (such as retired, and other civilians) except heads of family. The wine ration was harder to provide in Guipúzcoa and parts of Durango where vines were traditionally not cultivated, but such was the demand of soldiers for wine, especially Basque soldiers whose relative lack of sobriety was not satiated by the abundant but unsatisfying local cider, that the Carlists passed a special decree reserving all wine in these areas exclusively for soldiers and arms

workers. Arms workers were given special consideration because of the vital need for increased output. Output did increase markedly, largely because of territorial expansion in 1835, but there was an accompanying rise in explosives-related accidents.²¹ Otherwise, the Carlists had only unreliable and intermittent imports from Castile. Alava banned the storing of grain in order to prioritise military needs; in return a 14 March 1836 decree from Durango treated all food shipments throughout the Basque country as if they were traversing within a single province (hence an anti-foral single market), and maximum prices were imposed on wheat, corn and barley. Thus, the general European grain depression of the 1830s was distorted in the Basque country into a boom as prices stayed high.²²

The regulation of the domestic economy was made harsher by the growing burden of conscription. A decree on 29 January 1836 ordered all 17-year-olds into the Carlist ranks, imposing a 200 ducados fine on communities who failed to give up these youngsters within three days.²³ Clearly, the early image of hardy Basque volunteers, rising up against the usurping government in Madrid in defence of throne and altar, was overborne by the grim demands of total war. This conscription decree had been preceded by draconian measures targeting desertion. During November and December 1835, three decrees imposed penalties escalating to the death penalty against deserters. The Carlist state was thus relying on depressingly modern machinery in order to sustain the war effort, which contrasted with the timeless religiosity motivating Carlist villages and combatants. The fact that the Carlist rearguard still offered a more peaceable and united aspect than the chaos reigning beyond the Cristino lines owed a great deal to the fact that virtually every available man was at the front, and that Cristino occupation could realistically threaten any village in the statelet. The taboo of desertion and draft-dodging thus explained popular anger at *ojalateros* and further decrees passed in 1836 tightened up conscription still further, exempting only the most desperate families (for example, unigeniture with parents over 60, widowers with dependants under 16).²⁴ The regulation of the war economy was more consistently applied than in the far larger Cristino zone. In light of this fact it is remarkable how pre-modern values of religion and personalities continued to shape Carlist propaganda. Zumalacárregui was dead but the Royal Government persisted in deploying the Great Man's popular resistance motif: the unaltered address of 'volunteers' to conscripts, a press publication of an alleged conversation between a foreign traveller and a belligerent Carlist mother in the Baztán and the ennoblement of the commoner, Juan Bautista Esaín, dubbed

'Don Carlos's donkey', in recognition of his close-run rescue of the King from Rodil's forces in September 1834.²⁵

In the Carlist east, the intangible power of personalities and religion continued to play a central role as the Carlist state and its civil powers of regulation were far less developed. Cabrera lacked the Zumalacárregui's magnanimity yet his austere charisma commanded the loyalty of his men. Cabrera was defiant: 'I know the King is being told that I'm not very pious; this may be true, because I am no saint, and yet I perform miracles.'²⁶ As the Carlist north was deteriorating in 1839, Cabrera inspired his men into victory in battle on his saint's day, St Raymond's Day, the medieval Catalan saint beloved of his men.²⁷ In other words, the itinerant nature of warfare in the east fostered charismatic rather than bureaucratic leadership, mobilising religiosity with audacity, just as during the first year of Zumalacárregui's command in the north. Much of this was Romantic haze, but this should not discount the impact of charismatic leadership on Carlist military successes – elements of nineteenth-century 'Great Man theory', rather than twentieth-century sociology and Marxist social history.

Meanwhile, both sides recovered, over the winter of 1836–37, from their respective setbacks of Gómez and Bilbao. A winter flu epidemic added to the Cristinos' usual burdens of supply and desertion.²⁸ Statistically, the northern front was as militarised as it would ever be: 30,000 Carlist infantry supported by 1,500 cavalry and 40 artillery pieces and opposing 59,094 Cristino campaign infantry supported by 2,491 cavalry, and a further 23,225 Cristino infantry supported by 293 cavalry on garrison duty. The Carlists were thus outnumbered, but their traditional advantage of interior lines of communication was augmented by a flourishing spy network at Bayonne, which had given them advance warning of Cristino operations during early 1837.²⁹ A major Cristino offensive in March was turned into a defensive victory at Oriamendi, a mountain near San Sebastián that gave the Carlist movement its enduring hymn.

The Carlist victory at Oriamendi on 16 March 1837 was a textbook example of its superiority in active defence and local initiative in defence of the Basque homeland. In brief, the pincer action promised by Sarsfield was thrown into retreat when a forced march by the Carlist Prince Sebastián threatened his flank, thereby allowing a Carlist counter-thrust between the forces of Espartero and Evans which defeated both Cristino commanders in detail. The Cristinos' losses were more than 400 dead, 900 wounded, and 137 prisoners and several small arms and artillery pieces captured, whereas the Carlists had 88 dead, 669 wounded and only a handful of prisoners. This defeat was even harder to bear for

the Cristinos as their offensive had started well, so the Carlist counter-attack subsequently led to many decorated Cristino officers theatrically forsaking their awards until they regained victory. Evans's auxiliaries, for whom Oriamendi was their greatest setback, were singled out for brutality at the hands of the pursuing Carlists, no quarter being given to stragglers who failed to keep up with the retreat.³⁰ Only the brief positioning of a Royal Marines battalion on the road from Oriamendi prevented a wholesale rout from taking place. Lord John Hay, commander of the British naval squadron stationed at Pasajes which had disembarked the Marines, had felt obliged to withdraw his men and, crucially, their artillery, at the first available opportunity. He knew that Tory attacks in the House of Commons and press were mounting against the Whigs' forward policy in Spain, and the deployment of regular British forces some seven miles inland from the coast could hardly be seen as anything other than formal military intervention.³¹ The British Legion's underperformance at the Battle of Oriamendi provoked an intense debate in the British parliament.³² The early ground won by the Cristino offensive, meanwhile, had caused such widespread destruction in such nearby Carlist settlements as Hernani, much of it malicious, that even heads of family who had been exempted from conscription into the Carlist ranks thereafter formed volunteer anti-Cristino guerrilla units in the area. The retreat of the Cristinos towards Bilbao ensued, fighting a bloody rearguard action on the way.³³

The Carlist victory did not halt court intrigues. The word 'transactionist' (or *transaccionista*) surfaced as a description of those Carlist elites who sought some sort of the compromise peace with the Liberal regime in Madrid. In early 1837, this attitude was associated with Count Casa-Eguía, who, so rumours ran, was conspiring with the French king, who was exasperated by the cost of fortifying his southern border. But the transactionist phenomenon still had more than two years to run before it culminated in the compromise peace accord of Vergara, and even then the Basque country was divided broadly between pro-*transaccionista* Vizcaya and Guipúzcoa and diehard Alava and Navarra.³⁴ These court intrigues impelled Don Carlos to undertake a bold strategic offensive during the summer of 1837, known as the 'Royal Expedition'.

The Carlist capture of the Cristino town of Lerín, lynchpin of the Ribera, in May 1837, at first appeared as a minor victory like any other: 400 Cristino prisoners were taken prisoner and a local judge taken hostage.³⁵ But this attack was actually the opening feint of the Royal Expedition. This expedition would last 160 days, traversing Navarra, Aragón, Catalonia, Valencia, both Castiles, La Mancha and Alava, in

total over 2,000 kilometres, four cities, 152 small towns and some 353 villages.³⁶ The summer of 1837 witnessed three interconnected developments which would seal both the outcome of the war and its legacy. Cristino Spain moderated its revolutionary Constitution, the Carlists launched their Expedition as a 'liberation' and Cristino Spain was turned into a praetorian state. We deal with the Constitution of 1837 elsewhere, but the other two developments bear discussion here. The elevation by the Cortes of the Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North, Baldomero Espartero, to Generalísimo, had both short-term and long-term consequences. In the short term, Espartero's overlordship rankled with his colleagues, in particular the Commander of the Army of the Centre, Marcelino Oráa. Espartero's gratuitous failure to acknowledge Oráa's victory at Chiva led, in July 1837, to a breakdown of coordination between the two armies, allowing the Royal Expedition to recover its fortunes and, indirectly, to inflict a serious defeat on the Cristinos at Herrera.³⁷ It remains moot whether the Cristinos would have handled the Carlist expedition better had their generals been answerable to the War Ministry rather than Espartero (Table 7.1).

The long-term consequences of Espartero's powers are more poignant, for they completed the transition to praetorianism, which, apart from a hiatus during the last quarter of the nineteenth century, would remain the dominant feature of Spanish politics until the era of Franco. This transition was not fully understood at first for what it was. Espartero, like Espoz before him, was a man of the Left whose anodyne mantra of 'Let the national will be fulfilled!' rallied most of both army and Militia opinion in the 'peace dividend' revolution of 1840; only the more radical wing of the Left noted that the 'people's choice' had in fact turned into the 'Spanish Napoleon'. The dominant, pseudo-dictatorial role of Espartero now became evident when he complained of the publication,

Table 7.1 Eco del Comercio, 18 January 1839: State of regular Cristino and Carlist armies throughout Spain at end of 1838

	Infantry	Cavalry	Artillery pieces
Cristino total, including free corps	213000		
Cavalry total, including free corps		12500	
Total artillery			128
Carlist infantry (in 58 battalions)	55000		
Customs guards	4000		
Organised cavalry		4000	
Total artillery			80

in *El Patriota* newspaper, of an article criticising Valmaseda's evacuation. Espartero called the author an imposter and agent of Don Carlos and demanded he be punished. The government could not risk displeasing its hero and two press censors who had let the article through were replaced.³⁸ Espartero's power forced newspaper editors to tread carefully. The wife of the editor of a new leftist satirical journal (*La Injusticia*) fawningly asked for the Generalísimo's endorsement of its mission to use satire for the service of 'the happiness of the people and in defence of their rights'.³⁹ The structural shift towards a praetorianism caused by the Carlist War was plain for all to see when, in 1843, *moderado* counter-revolutionaries violently evicted Espartero and his remaining supporters from office. A parallel praetorianism dominated Carlist politics as a result of the defeat of the Royal Expedition and its *apostólico* advocates. But both Maroto's military dictatorship in the north and Cabrera's in the east were truncated by the Carlist defeats of 1839 and 1840.

None of this, of course, was the intention of the fateful Carlist decision to march on Madrid in 1837. Carlist calculations were compelling for four reasons. The first two reasons were interconnected: diplomatic and dynastic. Despite Cristino Spain's improved diplomatic links with Britain and the Americas following the La Granja revolution, the European response had favoured the Carlists. France's policy had been equivocal, whereas several absolutist powers had emboldened their support for Don Carlos to the verge of virtual recognition. Only Metternich's caution – and British naval supremacy – prevented the Italian kingdoms from launching a Sardinian–Neapolitan naval attack on Valencia in 1837.⁴⁰ Although short of direct intervention, the financial help and illicit arms deliveries to Carlist Spain had grown since La Granja, and even though the King's emissaries overseas still felt let down by the European capitals of the counter-revolution, they had every reason to believe Metternich's recognition would follow their capture of Madrid.⁴¹ The second reason was dynastic in nature. María Cristina was more wounded by her humiliation at La Granja the previous August than most nineteenth-century writers realised. The very real prospect of violence against her person, and her regal captivity under Calatrava's revolutionary dictatorship, had driven the Queen-Regent to correspond with her brother, Absolute King of Naples, seeking a private release from Spain via her abdication and exile, and a dynastic resolution to the civil war via the future marriage of her daughter Isabella with the son of Don Carlos. Thus, her captaining of Liberal resistance in Madrid in September 1837 was a double game. Ironically, María Cristina's eventual capitulation at Valencia during the post-war 'peace dividend' revolution of

October 1840 ended a process of her personal fear of Spanish liberalism that began with the sergeants' rising at La Granja on 13 August 1836.⁴²

The third reason was military. The Carlists had proved secure in their northern heartland, and the Gómez expedition had shown their ability to destabilise the enemy's rearguard. Thus, a three-pronged strategy gave them the initiative: whereas the actual Royal Expedition marched south-east, a smaller expedition struck south-west, and the bulk of the Royal Army remained in the Basque country to harass Cristino garrisons in a series of local offensives. Moreover, the Royal Government had demanded the removal of as many Carlist forces as possible from the Basque country, as the local economy was on the point of collapsing under the 'total war' burdens of men, food and munitions.⁴³ March 1837 had seen Navarrese battalions in Estella openly insubordinate for the first time, shouting 'Death to the *ojalateros* and the junta! Long live the people (*paisanos*)!', as their pay arrears had made them desperate. They disbelieved the King's promise of redress.⁴⁴ It remains unclear whether the Expedition's champions were exaggerating in their warning that the Basque country could support only 15 more days of operations.⁴⁵ But rising interest from some Carlists in quack military solutions to their strategic blockade (including a British adventurer's offer to arm corsairs with a prototype torpedo from the Woolwich arsenal) is highly suggestive.⁴⁶

The fourth reason was moralistic in nature. The 're-evangelisation' of revolutionary Spain was Don Carlos's main strategy, even though, in measuring his success in the number of Masses held in liberated villages, he invited criticism from contemporaries and historians.⁴⁷ Church ordinations and attendance had collapsed in the wake of two years of Cristino anti-clericalism. The Carlist press trailed stories of abandoned parishes in the wake of the schism with Rome, the powerlessness of the bishops, the expulsion or imprisonment of priests by Cristino soldiers and militia, and, above all, the *mendizabalista* disentailment; indeed, some 400 parishes closed due to lack of ministers during the first half of 1836 alone.⁴⁸ Linked to this moralistic reason was the real hope that Madrid would bloodlessly pronounce in favour of Don Carlos as soon as his army reached the city walls. A foreign journalist who had visited Madrid the previous year reckoned that some 'three-fourths of the respectable portion of its population are in favour of Don Carlos'.⁴⁹

But the Carlists were not complacently hoping for a spontaneous fifth column to rise. A clandestine Carlist junta operated from a safe house in the Calle de Alcalá where a pro-Carlist noble met agents of the absolutist

powers to advance a dynastic solution to the conflict, involving an honourable exile for the 'widow of Ferdinand VII' and a Carlist takeover humanised by an agreement neither to resurrect the Inquisition nor to oppose 'sensible reforms'. These terms were agreed in a private letter from the Queen-Regent to her brother (Ferdinand II of Naples), which the unofficial Neapolitan representative carried with him when the revolutionaries deported him.⁵⁰ All that was needed, it seemed, was the appearance of the Carlist Royal Army and its welcome into the capital by a grateful Queen-Regent. Carlist peace terms had certainly improved since the previous year, when Don Carlos turned away a Cristino delegation by demanding the dismantling of the Quadruple Alliance, refusing to recognise the constitutional regime in Portugal and tactlessly suggesting that all Spain offer Masses for the Virgin as *Generalísima* of the Carlist forces. Delegates Roncali and Zambrano were aristocrats and right-wing *moderados*, enemies of the Calatrava revolution, but Don Carlos saw in these men not two potential counter-revolutionaries (as they would indeed become in 1844), but two Liberals.⁵¹ But even though pro-Carlist historians sympathised with Don Carlos's integrity in 1836, they also criticised the dynastic peace option of 1837 for making the entire Expedition a hostage to the whims of the Queen-Regent, and for distorting the campaign into an eschatological carnival of religious piety rather than a ruthless assault on the capital.⁵²

In retrospect, Don Carlos's campaign of re-evangelisation is not as supine as it may seem. Both the Catholic resistance against revolutionaries during the Vendée during the 1790s and during the twentieth-century Mexican Cristiada showed a link between religious fervour and popular resistance, and Don Carlos had been encouraged by the Church's policy of excommunicating expropriators and purchasers of disentailed ecclesiastical property. But the King's thinking created two flaws, one of strategy and another of perception. As the expedition was supposed to be a government-in-waiting, its mobility was burdened by excessive numbers of non-combatants and shoestring logistics, which impeded the Carlists' ability to transport and deploy sufficient artillery and alienated 'liberated' communities more than necessary by forcing the 'liberators' to live off the land.⁵³ The second flaw was far more profound. Don Carlos believed that the enemy's will to fight was still coerced by the 'usurping' elites of 1833, and that the war remained a dynastic dispute. In fact, such had been the wave of revolutionary change since the start of the civil war that the Bourbon family troubles had become irrelevant, or at the very least their solution could no longer be relied upon to create peace. Ironically, the will to exercise absolute

powers for peace by both Don Carlos and María Cristina proved not only hollow, but also the last serious attempt by any Spanish monarch to rule on so important an issue as war and peace; after the Royal Expedition, the generals, not the monarch, would have the last word. Moreover, religious fervour outside of the Carlist safe zones was a notoriously uselessly ally. Most purchasers of disentailed Church property had, in any case, been using intermediaries to avoid excommunication, and could thus claim innocence if they were unlucky enough to come under Carlist occupation.

Don Carlos's pilgrimage of grace was not immediately exposed as militarily flawed, in large part because of the usual pattern of Cristino disintegration. The invasion broke through the Cristino covering force near Estella on 15 May 1837. Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the North dispatched a pursuing force under General Iribarren, who was reinforced by 12,000 militiamen mobilised from Huesca and Zaragoza. But the first battle at Huesca on 24 May 1837 was a Carlist victory, as some 1,000 Cristino soldiers and militiamen were either killed or captured as the Carlist invaders were skilled at pinning Iribarren amid the sticky mud along the banks of the swollen River Cinca, forcing him to retreat. Virtually all the Cristino authorities fled the city, but the bishop remained to welcome Don Carlos, who stayed for three days before moving on to take Barbastro, which surrendered without a shot being fired. Don Carlos heard Mass in this ancient city's cathedral whilst the Cristinos tried to regroup. The next Cristino counteroffensive came from Oráa's 12,400 infantry, 1,400 cavalry and artillery of the Army of the Centre. Yet the Carlists had fortified Barbastro in time for the battle on 2 June 1837. The Carlists were massively outmatched in artillery, but they managed to defeat the Cristinos, by again using the geographical contours of the river bank to their advantage. Barbastro resonated for being a civil war within a civil war. The thousand-strong Carlist foreign legion (comprised of French Foreign Legion defectors and pardoned *miguelistas* defecting from the Oporto Hunters⁵⁴) fought its former comrades, and the German Carlist, Prince Lichnowsky,⁵⁵ was saddened to hear that they killed each other shouting in French and German.⁵⁶ One of the fratricidal casualties was the French Legion's commander, Brigadier Conrad, an Alsatian Napoleonic Wars veteran known for his common touch and his humanitarian treatment of civilians, whose death was all the more galling as it came in a forlorn bid to rally the terrified flight of men who had recently distinguished themselves at Huesca.⁵⁷ The Carlist foreign legion, in the thick of the fighting during this victory, was almost wiped out and was dissolved.⁵⁸

Despite these Aragonese victories, the Carlists' poor logistics, compounded by the large number of non-combatants accompanying the invasion, made Don Carlos's progress appear sluggish when compared with Gómez a year earlier. Some 300 expeditionaries were drowned in an ill-fated mass crossing of the swollen Cinca.⁵⁹ The poor agriculture of Huesca province could not support invasion, and the Carlists made enemies of the villages in their path. Angüés had tried to 'welcome' the expedition but had been sacked and pillaged by its hungry contingents all the same. Estopiñán's villagers, on 6 June, tried to hide its food-stuffs, but the telltale eggshells in a pantry drove the Carlists to break in the chicken pens and slaughter the poultry before moving on.⁶⁰ Pillage blunted the expeditionaries' use of Catholic revivalism in order to win over civilians. But pillage was inevitable for an expedition advancing on a nutritional shoestring. Poor nutrition also made it hard to recover from defeats. It was remarkable that the expeditionaries managed to extricate themselves from a serious defeat by the Captain-General of Catalonia, Baron Meer, on 12 June 1837; so remarkable that Cristino Radicals suspected treachery on Meer's part.⁶¹ Ever since riots had swept Zaragoza and Barcelona in January 1837 Meer had appeared to be more concerned about subduing radicalism than fighting Carlism.⁶²

Radicals were exasperated because the expedition had invaded Catalonia, a province which, beyond its traditionalist far west, had become virtually diabolical in Carlist eyes. Santpedor, only 45 miles from Barcelona, saw its outskirts burnt and far worse threatened after its militia garrison refused to capitulate.⁶³ The expedition traversed Catalonia, crossing the Ebro at Cherta on 29 June, a busy day marked by the defeat of a pursuing Portuguese division, a solemn Mass and Te Deum in the town's patron saint church of St Martin (and a pillage of its surroundings), and a personal meeting between the King and Cabrera, whose forces were now linked with the expedition.⁶⁴ Reinforced by Cabrera, other victories followed. Castellón, a Valencian provincial capital only a few miles from the Mediterranean, had been abandoned by revolutionary soldiers and militiamen the previous summer, and subsequently sacked by Cabrera. The Militia had re-formed since and those citizens who had not fled were resolved not to face the same fate again. But Castellón fell a second time all the same, and the expedition got closer to the safe zone of the Maestrazgo.⁶⁵ The Cristino Army of the Centre used superior topography and cavalry to defeat the expedition at the Battle of Chiva (Valencia) on 15 July 1837. But Oráa's lack of food and water stopped him routing the expedition, which escaped into Aragón.⁶⁶ The march into Aragón was punishing for both

expeditionaries and pursuers, and doubly so for the civilian communities in the armies' path, which saw their entire wealth pillaged by one army, only to end up being occupied by the following army. After a retreat of some 150 miles, the Carlists, on 24 August 1837, defeated Oráa at Villar de los Navarros (called the Battle of Herrera), inflicting over 2,000 casualties and capturing sorely needed weapons and supplies.⁶⁷

No tragedy matched that of the Cristino prisoners taken after this battle.⁶⁸ More than half would die over the course of an itinerant captivity which would stretch over six months before the surviving prisoners were exchanged. Cabrera was bent on keeping conditions so dire as to force the prisoners to defect to his ranks. That the Cristino prisoners refused to do so turned them into patriotic-Liberal heroes of the Cristino effort. But it also condemned them to the direst excesses of cold, hunger, disease and mortality. No trial was spared the prisoners: cannibalism, scavenging, murder, exposure, typhus, forced marches, random executions. By the time that the survivors had been exchanged in March 1838 they had become martyrs to liberty. The nineteenth-century historian, Antonio Pirala, published the diary of a captive officer (Sub-Lieutenant Juan Manuel Martín), which resonates for being a rare literary account of common suffering in Spain's last great pre-literary conflict.⁶⁹

25 August 1837 Passing through the village of Blesa the inhabitants take pity on us poor prisoners, giving us big servings of bread, chocolate, and some shoes.

1 September 1837 We return from Cantavieja to Villarluengo, we officers staying in the same building as three days before, and the men in a convent. For nine days we remain here, sleeping on hard floors and being given nothing more than a hundredweight of bread every day.

10 September 1837 We return to Cantavieja and are housed in the local castle for a fortnight, after which we are incarcerated in the local prison.

27 September 1837 The Liberal prefect of Teruel organises a donation which sees us receive some shirts, linen and bandages, and later some blankets, too. The Carlists abuse us for this.

15 October 1837 Word spreads that General Oráa is about to lay siege to Cantavieja, so the *facciosos* spirit us off towards Beceite, after which we march by day and sleep at different locations each night.

20 October 1837 We leave Peñaroya for Valderrobles, some officers remaining behind stricken with typhus. Reaching Valderrobles we realise that this disease has spread amongst us and I'm almost at

death's door. I lie delirious and helpless as some Carlists enter my room and rob me of everything they can lay their hands on. The care of the village doctors saves me from death, but the same cannot be said of several other officers who succumb.

1 November 1837 We leave Arnés for Orta, eating nothing more than miserable half-rations whenever they are given.

10 November 1837 We are ordered to leave at 11 o'clock at night, without being given any time even to fetch our blankets, the only bedding we possess. No beasts of burden were assigned to transport the sick. One officer, it is said, was too sick to move and was killed by the Carlist guards who were responsible for him, and now they are wearing his particulars. Also the widow of the officer Mediero who had tended to her dying husband until the end is robbed and raped.

11 November 1837 Today and last night more than 40 soldiers have been shot who were so weakened by hunger that they couldn't keep up.

12 November 1837 We sick officers who were in the hospital at Valderroble leave for Beceite. Early this morning our men arrived here. We were horrified to see them, as they look more like ghosts than men. They are put to marching ahead of us whilst we are roused from our beds to follow them. We are all starved, but the road ahead is littered with the corpses of those captives who were executed for straggling.

14 November 1837 The officers' hunger is assuaged somewhat by some occasional half-rations. But the men are not given anything, with the result that at least 8–10 soldiers are dying each day from the combined effects of hunger and cold.

25 November 1837 Mortality continues. Officers receive some 3,000 reales generously donated by the National Militia garrison of Tortosa, which equates to 37 reales for each individual.

4 December 1837 Horrendous mortality. The men haven't had bread for more than 12 days and are reduced to eating a ration of one pound-and-a-half of raw potatoes per day. They are forced to strip the roofing which leaves them terribly exposed to the cold. They crowd on to the balcony to beg for help from local inhabitants. The balcony gives away killing 15 prisoners and leaving several more injured.

8 December 1837 Mortality continues. Another overcrowded floor holding prisoners gives away. More than 50 are killed or injured.

- 10 December 1837* Delivery arrives from Alcañiz of 306 blankets which are distributed amongst the men.
- 19 December 1837* Constant daily mortality. Word reaches us from Cabrera that our exchange is in train, and that Pellicer should give us full rations. Nonetheless, we continue to receive only half.
- 28 December 1837* No ration whatsoever today. 21 soldiers die. Such is the hunger and misery that anyone with even a couple of maravedis (ochavo) in his possession risks being murdered just for this puny sum. Any soldier ordered to leave for work on fortifications would pick up bones to be ground into bonemeal to be eaten. The corpses of dead comrades are hidden away to be picked over and cooked at night by lantern light. Such is the state of the unhappy prisoners of Herrera! History teaches us about the sufferings of ancient heroes, and about martyrs in Spain's bloody wars, but can anyone have suffered as much as we imprisoned heroes of Espartero?
- 29 December 1837* One-fifth rations today. But a subscription arrives from Teruel at the invitation of its prefect of some 2,000 reales which are distributed amongst both officers and men.
- 30 December 1837* One-fourth rations. Officers from the regiment of Badajoz province garrisoning Tortosa send us 2,000 reales which are distributed amongst both officers and men. Our thanks are eternal and our hearts warm to know that we have not been forgotten by our comrades.
- 31 December 1837* No rations today. Mortality rises to 13. Only 500 soldiers are left in their depot, which means that around 600 have fallen victim to our appalling situation.

Military solutions to this barbarity were virtually impossible. The Cristino government hoped that the Expedition had denuded the Carlist north of forces, yet it had also drawn Cristino forces away from the Army of the North in pursuit (15 battalions, nine cavalry squadrons and substantial artillery pursuing the 16 battalions and eight squadrons of the Carlist expedition). Yet the Carlist Royal Army in the Basque country retained 31 battalions, four squadrons and almost all its field artillery, against which the Cristinos could mount for campaign 28 battalions, 11 squadrons and rather less artillery. The Carlists thus retained defensive superiority against Espartero's Army of the North, even while their Expedition was wreaking havoc with Oráa's Army of the Centre.⁷⁰ Espartero was weakened even further when Portuguese politics robbed him of Das Antas's Legion, which Lisbon ordered to redeploy from the Navarrese

Ribera towards Portugal's frontier. In June 1837, disaffected Portuguese civil war veterans – one-third of whom were pardoned *miguelistas* – revolted, and Lisbon dared not risk them in battle.⁷¹ Also, Espartero's forces were absorbed by another Carlist expedition, smaller in number but also more mobile and one that traversed pro-Carlist areas of Old Castile. Juan Antonio Zaratiegui, a young royalist during the Triennium and Inspector of Royalist Volunteers in his native Navarra thereafter, excited exculpatory post-war writings indignant at his 'scapegoating' for the failure of the Royal Expedition.⁷²

In July 1837, Zaratiegui launched an expedition of some 280 cavalry and five infantry battalions imbued with the same religious liberation ethos as the Royal Expedition. After defeating Das Antas's Portuguese on the Ebro, Zaratiegui pushed into Old Castile towards Madrid.⁷³ Most of the defenders, including the teenage cadets from the military college, fled to Madrid, even though several college professors offered their services to the occupying Carlists. News in the capital of Zaratiegui's approach caused panic, and a state of siege was imposed on 6 August, decreeing a wide range of pro-Carlist activities and opinions to be punishable by martial law. The capital's Militia came out in a show of force and was supplemented by the formation of some companies of 'distinguished citizens' to patrol suspect districts of the capital (although both Carlist and Peninsular War experience with these units had revealed them to be ceremonial rather than warlike in their usefulness).⁷⁴ Key military facilities in the Carlists' path, the Military College at Segovia, the Artillery College at Alcalá and the Engineers School at Guadalajara, were evacuated to the capital.⁷⁵ Zaratiegui suffered the usual Carlist vain-glory at having conquered a substantial city, and began minting coins embossed with Don Carlos, and publicising his conquest in the language of the Christian soldier, thanking Divine Providence for triumphing over the 'faithless' anarchy of the Madrid government and all its false philosophy.⁷⁶

Zaratiegui's victory speech was untimely, as the pursuit of Espartero's battle-hardened Army of the North obliged him to abandon Segovia, although not before he had emptied the city of its volunteers and artillery, sabotaging those guns that could not be transported. Yet conquests like Segovia and others across Old Castile had served the purpose of destabilising Cristino defences while the main Carlist invasion of Cabrera and the Royal Expedition approached the capital from the east. War- and revolution-weary Cristino garrisons had surrendered often after a symbolic exchange of fire and Zaratiegui got new recruits, both volunteers and conscripts. Valladolid was occupied in a negotiated,

almost gentlemanly manner. Its war-weary municipal delegation rode out to meet Zaratiegui and Liberal members of the local government resigned and departed whilst pro-Carlist administrators took their place and awaited Zaratiegui's instructions. This accommodation spared the city from pillage and atrocities. The delegation performed this handover in reverse when the Army of the North arrived to reoccupy the city days later.⁷⁷ Some communities, like those on the Ribera del Duero, showed the same degree of public enthusiasm for the Carlists as they had previously for the Liberals. Partisan ideology was negligible in this. Rather, communities were so terrified by the prospect of violent occupations and counter-occupations that they resolved to 'manage' their occupiers by staging public welcomes which, in reality, kept the soldiers as much as possible at arm's length.⁷⁸ Local authorities across Old Castile discovered their Carlist sympathies. Or rather, perhaps, they rediscovered them: the Pretender's ideas of theocratic monarchy were far from being alien to men who, under Cristino occupation, would opt for *moderantismo*, but who would also, without much difficulty, move from one camp to another.

The disarray of the Cristino war effort led Espartero to ride ahead of his forces to Madrid in order to reassure the Queen-Regent in person. A spate of military indiscipline in units around the capital was dealt with in a lenient fashion by Madrid's military governor, San Miguel, who admitted that the gravity of the Carlist invasion outweighed the need to punish indiscipline.⁷⁹ The main threat came from Don Carlos's expedition in the wake of its victory at Herrera. Eventually the Carlists occupied Arganda and stood before Madrid's city walls on 10 September 1837. The capital, which had already been placed under a state of siege, was now in a state of suspended animation. Contemporaries poignantly associated this crisis with dust being settled: quite literally, as Madrid, which was already known as the 'city of dust', was choked by the dust thrown up by the demolition of nationalised church property underway since the revolution of 1836.⁸⁰ As the Carlists neared the walls, the capital fell deathly quiet, with its shops and industry paralysed and the streets emptied of people apart from the patrols of the National Militia. Isolated attempts by Carlist agents to whip up a fifth column failed. San Miguel judiciously sent one general, whose sympathies were suspect, away from the walls and to the centre of the capital. Now the Radicals demanded defence *à la outrance*, but nothing could have been further from the minds of the well-to-do 'distinguished citizens' who were happy to preside over glittering street patrols by day – especially when the Queen-Regent came to inspect – but shirked the more dangerous

night watches.⁸¹ Meanwhile, the capital's underground Carlist junta made a clever ploy by circulating a promise not to reintroduce the Inquisition or despotism, and suggesting an honourable Italian exile for the 'widow of Ferdinand VII' and the marriage of her child Isabella to the Carlist Crown Prince. Given this tense atmosphere of plots and counterplots, it was remarkable how the crisis was defused: not with conquest or siege, but with the unmolested withdrawal of the Carlist army from the capital's walls.⁸²

In the midst of this crisis, on 15 September 1837, Captain-General Quiroga seconded the strident revolutionary rhetoric of Governor Seoane by condemning the Carlists as vainglorious murderers: brave words given that many on both sides suspected that a negotiated peace (*transacción*) would now take place. Even the session of the 'besieged' Cristino Cortes was remembered for being quiet and sombre rather than inflamed and belligerent, in stark contrast to the Patriots' parliament in Cádiz during the Peninsular War. Admittedly, Carlist takeover was not the only threat on the deputies' minds. Espartero had been drawn into a stand-off with the capital's revolutionary dictatorship of General Seoane over the political leadership of the revolution, which, since 18 July 1837, had seen its Constitution of 1812 moderated by a bicameral legislature and other brakes on radicalism that were part of the Constitution of 1837.⁸³ A *moderado* army insurrection in Pozuelo de Aravaca, to the west of the capital, had Espartero's blessing and so the Left-Liberal Calatrava administration fell. Now Seoane's 'revolutionary dictatorship' had lost its political support. Espartero's mobile forces overawed Seoane's garrison largely thanks to the Carlists' decision to withdraw in the face of Espartero's march. This series of events allowed Espartero – and the army, as opposed to Seoane's Militia – to be seen as the saviour of the capital and the Liberal *patria*.⁸⁴ Both men were leftists of the 'Ayacucho' clan, but Espartero's victory consolidated all power in his hands.⁸⁵

The expedition's retreat from the capital opened a series of misfortunes for Carlism from which it would never recover. Redeploying to Alcalá in a bid to fall on Espartero's flank, the Carlist army then received an order to retreat further still, causing outrage in the ranks. Rumours ran that Don Carlos had ordered the retreat to a more salubrious location in order to hear Mass. Others asserted that he wanted to avoid bloodshed. Both probably played contingent roles, and spoke of Don Carlos's piety being his worst enemy.⁸⁶ But the shifting diplomatic situation was the main cause. When the Calatrava administration expelled the Carlist Marquess Grúa, the Carlist agent carried a letter from the Queen-Regent to her brother, Ferdinand II of Naples, proposing

a compromise peace based on Don Carlos's accession in return for a general amnesty and the marriage of the infant Isabella to the Pretender's son. All depended, especially Metternich's vital approval, on Don Carlos's occupation of Madrid. But the downfall in August of the Radical Calatrava ministry, and the accession of the *moderado*, Eusebio Bardají Azara, meant that when the Carlists reached the gates of the capital on 12 September, the Queen-Regent no longer felt herself to be a prisoner of the revolution. Hedging her bets even more, María Cristina sent Espartero a letter begging him urgently to rescue the capital, a letter that the Carlists intercepted, confusing them even further.⁸⁷ Never a decisive commander, Don Carlos thus began an initial retreat which turned into one of general proportions, whilst sheer luck made Espartero appear the saviour of the capital and the Liberal revolution. Carlist historians condemned the Queen-Regent's spite and duplicity, and regretted that Don Carlos did not force the issue.⁸⁸ Madrid was now free of external threats. Antonio Quiroga made a triumphalist victory declaration couched in terms of popular defence and rebranding the Queen-Regent as a constitutional Patriot.⁸⁹

The Carlist retreat, meanwhile, was easy prey for Espartero's vanguard: hundreds from the Carlist rearguard at Aranzueque were killed or captured on 19 September. In desperation, the King invited Cabrera to replace Moreno as the Carlist Commander-in-Chief but Cabrera, who had wanted a violent pincer attack on the capital, refused due to thinly disguised disgust at the failure of the King's leadership. German Carlists – anticipating the frustration of their great-grandchildren with Franco's slow offensive 100 years later – were exasperated with the absence of the strategic vision worthy of Cabrera. Lichnowsky was baffled: 'It was as if no-one had given any thought to descending on Madrid.'⁹⁰ The artillery expert, Wilhelm von Rahden, did not understand why Carlist victories were squandered with decorations and festivals of grace instead of a purposeful thrust.⁹¹ Now it was too late: the Expedition was retreating northwards and the initiative was Espartero's. Although Espartero could not prevent the Carlist forces of Zaratiegui and the King regrouping in their retreat, he was ruthless in his pace and in the way he treated civilian populations in his path, sometimes promising the death penalty against hoarders of food and drink. The Castilians had shown little resistance to the Carlists, and Espartero's hand was forced by the perennial problem of hunger and insufficient and inadequate (cardboard-soled) shoes being delivered by *asentistas*. On 25 October, despite his victory against the retreating Expedition at Retuerta two weeks earlier, Espartero offered his resignation in

frustration at the general neglect of his men. He found time to ask his wife and friends to send him money on his own authority, giving the Generalísimo a reputation for paternalism as well as heroism. The immediate crisis passed when Espartero reached Miranda de Ebro on 28 October to find that the Expedition had retreated back across the Ebro.⁹²

In some respects this was a strange victory for Cristino Spain. Despite all the revolutionary rhetoric of the previous two years concerning the popular struggle of the Militia and citizens against Carlism, the Expedition had been defeated in a fashion more akin to Early Modern than Modern warfare: a dynastic misunderstanding, a carnivalesque armed 'pilgrimage', a cabinet war across seemingly apathetic civilian populations. Yet beneath the high politics of Madrid and Estella, the low politics of desertion, mutiny, even economic militancy had continued to grow. While the Expedition approached Madrid, the Army of the North had been paralysed by mutiny. In August 1837, General Ceballos Escalera, commanding the Cristino lynchpin of Miranda de Ebro, was lynched by his own regiment, his soldiers subsequently seizing control of the streets and daring officers to come out of hiding. News of this insurrection quickly spread to Vitoria, the Cristino capital of Alava, which was blockaded by the Carlists right up to its walls. Whilst its Cristino citizens dared not leave, a muleteer used to running blockades by both sides carried the news. In Vitoria, too, the Cristino garrison lynched its military governor, the elderly Cortes deputy, Cano, the president of the Cristino deputation, and the editor of the official provincial bulletin, all before levying a fine of 40,000 duros against the municipality. This was the downtrodden, brutalised Cristino soldier asserting his honour in solidarity with his comrades against both Carlists and against Cristino elites.⁹³ In both cases, the caretaker authorities which the garrisons permitted to enter the power vacuum were prevented from taking anything more than token measures against the perpetrators of the violence.

The last two-and-a-half years of the war would see a surging popular radicalism in the Cristino zone that was irrelevant, and ultimately hostile, to María Cristina's throne. Even the Carlist zone would reject its king in a bid to advance the secular rights of Basque autonomy and army veterans. In other words, the dynastic dispute of 1833, upon which Don Carlos had made his obsolescent calculations in 1837, had turned into a war whose meaning was transformed into secular concerns of Cristino liberty and Basque *fueros*.

Don Carlos's humiliating retreat across the Ebro set in motion the secularisation of Carlist politics. At first, it was the brutish, *apostólico*

wing of Carlism which won the argument, and the cabinet posts, in the wake of the defeat. On 29 October 1837, the so-called Manifesto of Arceniega saw *apostólicos* capture their King and launch public proclamations describing the Expedition's failure as the work of the *transaccionistas*. Certainly, few Basques were fooled by the King's proclamation at Arceniega that he had 'returned only momentarily' and – bizarrely – that the Royal Expedition was a promising dress rehearsal for a future offensive of 'national liberation' (rather than the conclusive march on Madrid spoken about only weeks earlier).⁹⁴ Moderates were purged from the cabinet and many exiled, whilst such *apostólicos* as Teijeiro and Guergué took their place and thereafter maintained a stranglehold on Carlist politics which would antagonise the army under Maroto and ultimately result in a civil war within the civil war. That Maroto would win, and thus clear the way for peace, could not have been predicted by anyone in late 1837, not as Don Carlos gave three key ministries (State, Finance and War) to the belligerent José Arias Teijeiro, a Galician of impoverished noble background, Royalist War veteran and subsequent chamberlain to Don Carlos's household, whose promotion into the Carlist nobility of service offended both the older nobility of birthright and such eighteenth-century military nobles as Maroto.⁹⁵

The only strategic achievement of the Royal Expedition was to lurch Carlism eastwards. The fact that most of the Expedition's victories had been won on Aragonese territory consolidated Cabrera's leadership in the Maestrazgo and created a functioning and centralised Carlist state in the region. An offensive which stalemated the Basque country energised the Carlist Maestrazgo.⁹⁶ Moreover, the propaganda value of local Carlist victories (especially at Huesca, Barbastro and Cherta) encouraged recruitment into Carlist rather than Cristino ranks (and, further, was stimulated by the Liberals' property revolution which created insecurity in the pre-modern landownership rights that dominated Carlist areas of Aragón).⁹⁷ The 'Supreme Royal Governing Junta of Aragón, Valencia and Murcia', set up in 1837, gave Cabrera an effective power of veto on all matters: whereas he could vote on any matters he saw fit, the junta was forbidden from interfering in any way with military matters. These arrangements were similar to those of the Junta of Berga in Catalonia, whose territory was generally coterminous with that of Cabrera's after late 1837. All Cabrera would now need was a run of major victories in order to make his position unassailable. This would come in 1838, and so change the centre of Carlism's gravity eastwards from the stalemate in the north.

The Carlist domination of the Catalan far west and wide areas of Aragón repeated the deep war of Cristino areas of Castile. The ravages of Carlist bands forced agriculture and proto-industry into sudden slumps, and these in turn fed recruitment. Recruitment into the Cristino National Militia rose from 1837 due to the salary active service offered. But as mobile Militia were routinely deployed away from their homes, this opened up local communities to further depredations at the hands of the Carlists. Equally, precisely in order to prevent hardship swelling the ranks of the Cristino Militia, Carlist commanders frequently forced local elites under their sway to hire hands in order to starve the Cristino of recruits.⁹⁸ This economic war was enough to give the Carlists domination of the Catalan countryside in the interior but could not generally break the Cristino stranglehold on the towns and cities. Thus, it was not just the lack of an Eliot Treaty in this part of Spain that made the civil war particularly devastating for civilian lives and livelihoods: it was also the total economic war which the nature of the combat here made logical. This feature of Catalan Carlism has been acknowledged but not adequately contextualised in war by historians.⁹⁹

Consequently, war in the east underwent 'privatisation' just as in Castile. The industrious small town of Valls was ruined when local Carlists set up a toll gate along the main road leading to the town.¹⁰⁰ When Tristany, Catalonia's principal Carlist guerrilla leader, saw a royal envoy from the Basque country pay villagers for some supplies, his remark showed surprise: 'Well, I simply take the best of what they have and pay them with my best wishes.'¹⁰¹ In western Catalonia, where Carlist control by this time was virtually complete, a two-tiered requisitioning system operated. Families of known royalist or apolitical backgrounds were compensated in full and those with Liberal backgrounds, generally with family members serving in the National Militia, were robbed.¹⁰² The privatisation of warfare was sometimes mitigated by community solidarity. In March 1837, the southernmost Carlist guerrilla leader operating in the east, Forcadell, occupied Orihuela (Alicante), whose inhabitants were divided between Cristino and Carlist sympathisers (including its virtually Carlist bishop). Orihuela offered a potential civil war within a civil war which had nonetheless remained peacefully coexistent until Forcadell's occupation. Ardent Liberals left for the safety of Cartagena ahead of the occupation, but even the civic Carlists who remained protested to Forcadell about one of his captives, a constitutional judge of nearby Almansa, Juan Pablo Clemente, a popular local figure whom Forcadell wanted to execute. But the judge's extensive friendship circle prevailed upon Forcadell to revoke the sentence, even while Orihuela itself turned Carlist, as some 500 draftees previously earmarked for

Cristino conscription enlisted in Forcadell's force instead. Civil wars foster virtuous community cohesion as well as vicious denunciations. The small towns and villages that comprised most Spanish demography created networks of social interaction which at their best forged solidarity and at their worst terror and denunciation. Forcadell told Clemente: 'if I had been in your power I'm sure I would be dead, but I grant you your freedom in recognition of the good you have done to others'.¹⁰³

Local mercies, however, barely altered the general terror of warfare in a region without the Eliot Treaty. In early February 1837, a Carlist detachment surprised a platoon-sized detachment of Cristino mobile militia which had been planning to intercept Carlists at San Pedro de Torelló. Instead, a rapid deployment of Carlist cavalry surprised the Cristinos, who fled and barricaded themselves in a house where they refused to surrender and were instead all burnt alive.¹⁰⁴ On 18 February, a particularly gruesome tragedy overtook a sharpshooter column from Málaga, that southern bastion of radical liberalism which immortalised its victims as martyrs to liberty. Tristany surprised the column whose commander, Colonel Francisco Antonio de Oliver, was cut down after his men refused to follow his death-or-glory charge against the surrounding Carlists. The prisoners, however, fared even worse. Some 280–300 were executed in cold blood, whilst one of their hapless number managed to take refuge behind a church altar. Although Tristany's men searched the building he managed to escape, naked and starving, to the Cristino stronghold of Calaf.¹⁰⁵ But the terror did not end there. Calaf soon fell to Tristany, some 70 of its houses being burnt and several wives of militiamen murdered. Tristany was halted at Solsona, whose besieged defenders underwent the most signal trials (including the drinking of urine, whose saltiness was extracted by an apothecarist), and were indemnified by a special Cortes motion.¹⁰⁶

The passage of the Royal Expedition through Catalonia convinced the King of the need to regularise the chaotic war in the east, so he made the controversial appointment on 27 June 1837 of an outsider, the 34-year-old Guipúzcoan, Antonio Urbiztondo, as the Comandante General of the Carlist Army of Catalonia. A month later, the town of Berga fell to the Carlists, and this became the seat of the Junta of Berga, a civilian council which, like its Maestrazgo counterpart to the south, could not assert itself against Carlist martial law. Whereas Urbiztondo's campaign against Cristino fortified centres bore fruit in the summer – Gironella and Ripoll fell soon after Berga – his Basque suppression of Catalan wrongdoing was a controversial centralisation of power over the bandit-guerrillas (*latrofaciosos*) and exterminating angels who had characterised the Catalan far west hitherto.¹⁰⁷ The Royal Government

agreed that regularisation was necessary. In February 1837, the Carlist representative in Paris, Pedro Gómez Labrador, made his King aware of the damage Catalan border violations and terrorism was doing both to Spain's richest province and to support for the cause amongst legitimists in France:¹⁰⁸

The letters of very sensible and royalist people leave no doubt of the frightful excesses being committed in Catalonia at the hands of guerrillas who call themselves 'Carlists', because in reality they are nothing more than bandits laying the country waste, rustling entire flocks, even those belonging to respected local Carlists, looting country houses and farmsteads, levying ruinous contributions, seizing hostages amongst those who cannot pay and ransoming them for exorbitant sums. Many country houses are now closed and the inhabitants of small villages have fled for the safety of forts and fortified places, preferring to live amongst usurping Liberals than to lay themselves open to the constant robberies and violence of the so-called defenders of throne and altar. It is imperative that the strictest orders be given to our commanders in Catalonia that they impose military discipline on those bands of rogues who are laying to waste the most industrious province of Spain.

Urbiztondo's imposition of military discipline was difficult enough. A biscuit-store bound for Carlist soldiers protecting the Junta of Berga was violently robbed en route. Battalion commander, Pau Mañó, had been conducting a private war abducting and extorting local civilians, imprisoning them in caves to be ransomed. The money families had to pay for ransom depleted available resources for the Carlist war effort. Urbiztondo's siege of Pont d'Armentera was delayed by his need to discipline a battalion whose officers had absconded to sell looted goods and whose leaderless men had broken ranks.¹⁰⁹ But the opposition of respectable Catalan Carlists made Urbiztondo's mission impossible. When he quartered a new, locally raised battalion from the Mondoñedo area in the monastery of San Francisco (itself inhabited by only 14 friars and therefore targeted for dissolution by the Cristinos), the men started stripping an organ to be melted down to make bullets. The Bishop of Mondoñedo protested, claiming that Don Carlos never stooped so low in the Basque country and that there was no Papal approval for such drastic war measures. Urbiztondo, exasperated by Catalan bandit-priests, replied that he would strip churches of all metal and 'even force the slippers off his Holiness if he thought they were made of lead'.

But Mondoñedo, despite his episcopacy, was a powerful virtual Carlist whose hitherto quiet hopes for a Carlist victory would soon explode into a vehement sermon against the Cristino regime and its 'war against religion and its opinion', turning him into a schismatic like León. Mondoñedo's authority proved greater than Urbiztondo's and the military power lost to the religious, the troops being billeted elsewhere.¹¹⁰

The onward march of the Royal Expedition denuded Urbiztondo of forces and this soon began to tell as the Cristino counter-insurgency initiative passed to Cristino Captain-General Meer from August 1837. Urbiztondo's defeat at San Juan de las Abadesas forced him to do what he least desired, order his men to change their shirts and resort to guerrilla warfare. He complained to Berga at its deliberate neglect of his men, who had been reduced to scavenging potatoes, but the junta was contemptuous in its reply and had in any case been lobbying Don Carlos for Urbiztondo's removal. Intelligence reached Urbiztondo of a plot to kill him, and the junta got the King to promote Urbiztondo's subordinate, Benito Tristany, a Catalan exterminating angel, to command the best local forces (his mountain corps). Finally, on 14 November, Berga presented Urbiztondo with Don Carlos's note dismissing him. This produced a stormy junta session from which the deposed comandante was lucky to escape to Andorra with his life. He was followed into exile by the Carlist intendant, whose unpopular policing of Carlist mountain villages, suppression of desertion and heavy taxation of the clergy had also subjected him to death threats.¹¹¹ The Barcelona press rejoiced: 'Berga is a veritable Babylon, and Urbiztondo has failed in his mission. We are doing well, very well.'¹¹²

The Urbiztondo controversy had overshadowed the division of the Junta of Berga, between an *aristocrática* faction (Catalan nobility led by Count Fonollar) and *universitaria* faction (comprising clerics expelled from the Cristino-occupied University of Cervera). The clerics were the most intransigent, but the aristocrats had been happy to follow their lead over Urbiztondo, and to persuade Don Carlos to provide José Segarra as a more amenable replacement comandante. But Segarra's command was marred by a vigorous counter-insurgency by Cristino Captain-General Meer, who reconquered Ripoll and boxed the Carlists into unyielding mountain areas. By March 1838, Meer's counter-insurgency had borne fruit: the Carlist forces had shrunk from some 13,000 to 7,000.¹¹³ Thus Segarra's command was exposed as incompetent, and he was replaced in July 1838 by a greater figure, Count España, a legitimist of French origin who had been purged from Catalonia's captaincy-general in 1832. The Berga aristocrats hoped that

'Count' España would be their ally, but in fact he silenced them first, and most of their junta members either fled to France or remained to rubber-stamp military policy. Then España turned against the *universitarios*, but not before he had met, and exceeded, their demands for the most draconian military and most reactionary cultural policy.¹¹⁴ In the latter regard, for example, España showed particular contempt for 'geographically Cristino' priests. The predicament of the Priest of Balsareny showed the dangers facing clerics near front lines who made accommodations with the 'usurping' Cristinos. Balsareny was strongly garrisoned enough to make its priest feel safe from Carlist reprisals by both complying with the Cristino abolition of the tithe (since 1837), and, consequently, refusing to hand over these monies to the Carlists, thereby breaking with this wartime tradition of covert clerical financing of Carlists in front-line areas. But one day, the priest went to visit a neighbouring priest on the occasion of a religious feast. The latter had him seized and carried into Carlist territory where España set him before an ecclesiastical tribunal. On España's instructions, the local Carlist paper *Restaurador* spun this story in a dastardly fashion. The newspaper reported that the priest had fled Balsareny to reach loyal territory where he altruistically handed over not only the tithe but also other donations as well. This marked the man as a true Carlist. España was unmoved by the fact that this made the poor fellow a marked man, as the Cristinos would doubtless target him for his 'betrayal'. But España was unmoved: 'a revolutionary cleric is either a madman or a monster who deserves neither pity nor sympathy'.¹¹⁵

España's military ruthlessness carved out for him the title 'Tiger' in the enemy press, a title hitherto used only to describe Cabrera further south.¹¹⁶ His Catalan soldiers nicknamed him the 'decapitator' (*Trencacaps*), and the count was famed for keeping a gallows outside his sleeping quarters that was always busy hanging some unfortunate victim of his wrath. España perfected the role of exterminating angel, renaming all battalions as 'Catholic and Royal' (deliberately imitating the counter-revolutionary Vendée), marrying it – during 1838 at least – with the role of successful military strategist.¹¹⁷

Whereas the Carlist east reached its apogee, the cradle of Carlism, the Basque country, never escaped from the stagnation caused by the failed Royal Expedition. Nothing more imaginative than yet another expedition was proposed late in 1837. Even though the expedition led by Basilio Antonio García on 28 December 1837 succeeded in breaking into Castile, it did not alter the Carlists' stagnation. Furthermore, weary Cristino civilians proved both far less willing to collaborate with

yet another Carlist invasion and far more willing to oppose it. Two graphic episodes illustrate how Cristino citizens had learnt from bitter years of war to mobilise popular resistance against invasion. García's Carlists passed through the eastern Andalucían village of Nerpio on 13 February 1838; the village's resentful inhabitants were rallied by the local sheriff and murdered some stragglers who had fallen behind the invaders' rearguard. But Basilio, unaware of this atrocity, returned Nerpio whose inhabitants, fearing the worst, deserted their village en masse. The Carlists did not suspect anything sinister until the bloodied clothes and powder of their unfortunate comrades were found in the loft of the sheriff's house. Outraged, the expedition burnt the house, and then the whole village, to the ground. Whilst other villages did not fare so badly, they nonetheless experienced routine ransacking and wastage: whatever was not useful to the Carlists was destroyed.¹¹⁸ And even innocent villages sometimes paid the ultimate price for resistance. When the expedition swung north into New Castile it made an example of Calzada de Calatrava. Some 166 of its inhabitants – militiamen and their women and children – were either burnt or crushed to death after the church they had fortified was set on fire, weakening its roof, which collapsed onto the defenders. This catastrophe was made possible by the defection to the invaders of the local prior. When Army of the Centre Commander-in-Chief Narváez arrived to liberate Calzada, he bowed to popular pressure and had the cleric shot.¹¹⁹

The Basque war effort never recovered from the defeat of the Royal Expedition. The Royal Police were gone, but the Royal Police state remained and became more irksome on a population exhausted by the war. A law passed on 22 January 1838 banned any interaction by any persons other than designated men with Cristino prisoners-of-war. This was very hard on families caught between lines and sides. On 19 February 1838, a quarantine was placed on all foreign and Cristino vessels trying to enter Carlist ports. The financial demands of war were exhausting even the stoic ability of the Basques to give. Total Carlist tax revenue raised in Navarra, Guipúzcoa, Vizcaya and Alava in the year up to November 1838 amounted to some 40,188,886 reales, plus some 3,400,000 reales raised at customs. But this 43,588,886 total fell short of the 46,355,000 expenditure for the same period, leaving a deficit of 2,766,114 reales. This had to be bridged by yet more indirect taxes, 'voluntary' contributions from clerics, fines on Liberals and by grants from foreign powers whose sympathy was wearing thin. In May, the King of Sardinia promised some 800,000 francs to Carlist Spain, offering to increase this donation if Russia, Prussia and Austria followed suit.¹²⁰ But

the chronic shoestring nature of Carlist finances gave a keen edge to the war-weariness and outright conspiracies which grew in the north during 1838. Sometimes Don Carlos managed to ride out this disaffection by judicious changes in policy. In March 1838, the Bishop of León successfully prevailed upon his King to dismiss the unpopular José Arias Teijeiro y Correa (who had always been regarded as a vulgar and brutal upstart) as his War Minister and to have him replaced by friends of the popular Prince Sebastián. But other conspiracies, whipping up hatred of the *ojalateros* as a convenient vehicle for protest, grew in frequency and, as the Muñagorri phenomenon would show, began to break with the Carlist regime.¹²¹

Despite this strategic and political malaise, in early 1838 yet another expedition invaded Castile, led by one of the most controversial figures in Carlist politics. Count Negri was a middle-aged Peninsular and Royalist War veteran and twice-fugitive from Cristino captivity. His skills as a courtier won him promotion and the scorn of fellow Carlist diplomats like Marquess Labrador who judged: 'chamberlains, chaplains and lawyers should stick to their assigned duties and keep out of the affairs of military strategy and commanding armies'.¹²² Negri's incompetence in setting out with a badly provisioned force across unyielding rocky terrain led one later, admittedly biased, anti-*Marotista* (Negri was Maroto's protégé) traditionalist to suspect that the whole operation was designed to sabotage the Carlist cause.¹²³

Negri's expedition during early 1838 was poorly provisioned even from the outset. It marched across the Ebro and around northern Spain, including a westward march towards Galicia, and then south-east via Burgo de Osma and Segovia towards La Granja. Strategic assistance came from Merino in the mountains around Burgos and from Basilio's expedition in La Mancha, both of whom diverted Cristino troops. Yet Espartero was hard on Negri's heels, not allowing him time to regroup or take proper rations. Negri's men went months without pay. A modest victory at Bendejo strengthened Negri's hand in negotiating prisoners' treatment with the enemy, and the Eliot Treaty was agreed to be respected by both sides during the campaign. Meanwhile, Negri went about the usual Carlist invasion tactic of setting up improvised Carlist juntas in the settlements he occupied, disarming the National Militia and taking on recruits who proved to be more of a burden than anything else. Once again, some communities 'managed' Carlist occupations: for example, by town-hall delegations riding out to hand over the 'keys' to their towns. Other settlements barricaded themselves in defensible points, such as the army and militia garrison of Burgo de Osma, which held out in the town's fort and cathedral tower. Negri 'poached' conscripts

for his own forces and set up workshops on the approach to Segovia which employed craftsmen with the loot of surrounding villages to produce badly needed berets and clothes. Negri took Segovia where, like Zaratiegui before him, he wooed Catholics by hearing a Palm Sunday Mass and by issuing a 7 April 1838 proclamation to Castilians asking them to renounce the usurping Cristinos and to rally to his side in the name of religion.¹²⁴

This was clever propaganda for communities which had faced three years of drastic secularisation measures tempered only by local inertia and the incompetence of the Madrid regime. But the time for winning over civilians' religiosity was over. The latter were exhausted by repeated demands and outrages from both sides, and were in no mood to receive Espartero's reprisals. Espartero, for his part, conducted his most successful counter-insurgency campaign. Appalling weather and lack of footwear burdened Negri's march, his numbers dwindling by the end of April 1838 to 1,800 infantry and 100 cavalry. Since having been forced to quit Segovia on 10 April, Negri had not had a moment's respite, his forces at one point having to perform a 40-mile forced march. Settlements in his path bolted their doors to his men and increasingly offered resistance, such as the militiamen and *peseteros* of Aguilar de Campo, who barricaded themselves on 25 April 1838, resisting Negri's Carlists until Espartero's vanguard arrived. While Negri extricated his precious artillery, he was less successful at stopping the desertion of his men. Finally, on 27 April at Brújula, Espartero routed Negri. Espartero attributed his triumph to 'free men' defeating the forces of despotism. Even though Negri escaped with his bodyguard, and would fight again in the defence of Morella, this was the first unambiguous defeat of a Carlist expedition since the Royal Expedition. Cristino military morale, now virtually personified by the figure of Espartero, was recovering.¹²⁵ So was Cristino military *materiel*. The 163 higher officers, 1,662 officers, 23,426 troops, 654 cavalry and over 1,000 artillery officers and men counted by the Carlist Royal Army in the Basque country in September 1838 were outnumbered three times by the Cristino forces in theatre.¹²⁶ Moreover, the Cristino arms production, hitherto massively dependent upon French and, especially, British factories, promised to improve markedly when cannon production from foundries relocated from the Basque country to Seville finally got underway in early 1839.¹²⁷

The Carlists, by contrast, faced a bleak future. Ever since the defeat of the Royal Expedition, hostility towards Don Carlos in Carlist ranks had passed its tipping-point. In particular, the King's treatment of Prince Sebastián, the hero of Oriamendi, rankled (a fleeting act of insubordination had been turned by the *apostólicos* into grounds for dismissing

him); equally so did the imprisonments and suspended death sentences handed down to such popular leaders as Zaratiegui and Elío. The latter two were championed by a mutiny by troops in the Carlist capital, during which demands for their release and the removal of Don Carlos were uttered. The ringleader, a certain Lieutenant-Colonel Urrea, was executed, but the signs were clear that a civil war was starting to engulf Carlist ranks from within.¹²⁸ Manuel Lassala, who, since the July 1836 revolution had been the secretary to the provincial deputation of Zaragoza, leading the city's defence in 1838 against Cabañero's Carlists, was well placed to judge the mood of Carlists in the surrounding countryside.¹²⁹ He observed the growing influence of Carlist *transaccionismo*, or *marotismo*, dynastically loyal enlightened absolutism hostile to the theocratic 'brutes', or *apostólicos*, and Basque *fuieristas* who dominated the ranks of non-Castilian Carlism. The loose bag of absolutists, foralists and medievalists of 1833 was splitting into an absolutist and *apostólico* wing, with Basque foralists between the two factions. For the moment, the dynastic loyalty to the person of Don Carlos made both factions prioritise the war over their own divisions. But as the compromise peace offers from the Cristinos improved, Carlism's last commander-in-chief, the absolutist, Rafael Maroto, would make peace over the heads of his King and his theocratic entourage. Don Carlos, after all, had become at best a mere cipher and at worst the object of ridicule. His time-wasting Masses during the Royal Expedition, his flat refusal even to consider recognising Cristino debts and his insistence on sharing the military 'advice' he regularly received from a nun all made the *marotista* faction see him as a liability.¹³⁰ The increasing extremism of the Carlist Royal Government also sapped the willingness of Basque villagers to sustain the fight. The prohibition placed on officers and men marrying any woman with relatives who were Cristinos was particularly resented, as was the clique of religious extremists who 'worked towards' the King's poorly articulated will by launching ill-conceived expeditions and leading cultural crackdowns. Manuel Lassala observed that a growing clamour rose for moderation on the Carlist side:¹³¹

Don Carlos was too fanatical, bloody and superstitious. True Carlists did not volunteer for this, and did not mean to sacrifice their lives and goods in order to hand over Spain to the hangman and the backward times of Philip I. Those were Carlists never worthy of the name; no, a thousand times, no! – supposing all Carlists wanted to reignite the bonfires of the Inquisition is as unjust as supposing that all Liberals were partisans of the guillotine and lamp-post lynchings.

This grassroots discontent could not fail to play out on the battlefield. The Madrid government, thanks to growing Carlist defection to the Cristinos and to the cross-border intelligence networks of Spymaster Aviraneta, was keenly aware of the divisions in Carlist ranks and sought to exploit them. José Antonio de Muñagorri, a native of Verástegui (Alava), began the war as the backbone of Carlist war-related industry, owning six factories in Guipúzcoa and Navarra. He has been represented as a treacherous buffoon in traditionalist scholarship.¹³² After his repeated petitions to the Carlist court for a compromise peace fell on deaf ears, he emigrated to the French side of the Pyrenees where he contacted Cristino agents and forged a plan to raise a guerrilla force of Spanish Basques. By November 1837, Muñagorri had become a salaried Cristino officer, and on 18 April 1838 he raised his standard in Verástegui calling for peace and *fueros* (*paz y fueros*), designed to divide the *fuerrista* Basques against the *transaccionista* Castilians. Muñagorri's gambit reflected the growing willingness of both many *fuerristas* and many disenchanted absolutists (who would soon be captained by Maroto) to forge a compromise peace sacrificing Don Carlos in return for Basque autonomy.¹³³ In fact, Muñagorri's military operations proved to be tragicomic, and Cristino generals were so vexed by the desertion his 'free corps' attracted from conscripts that they refused to cooperate with him, and his whole force was interned in France the following year.¹³⁴

The sudden Cristino rediscovery of the Basque *fueros* was as much for its own security as for the division of the enemy. On 27 May 1838, the Cristino free corps in Pamplona rose in rebellion, killing General Sarsfield and Colonel Mendivil, and occupying the city for more than a month before Espartero's pacification action.¹³⁵ The motives for this rising betrayed the divided loyalties of Basques serving the Cristino cause: for its leaders, the Peninsular War guerrilla veteran, Colonel León Iriarte, and Comandante Pablo Barricart, were motivated by the anti-*foralismo* of Madrid, and proclaimed the independence of Navarra.¹³⁶ But the *fueros* were still peripheral to Cristino strategy, whereas for the Carlists, except in Aragón and the Catalan far west, they were part of its terminal crisis. An unlikely understanding of two Ayacucho veterans, now opposing one another as rival commanders-in-chief, would soon bring the war to an end over the heads of crowned princes and even elected governments.

8

Stalemate and Cristino Victory, 1838–40

The defeat of the Royal Expedition passed the strategic initiative to the Cristino army. Whilst Espartero's Army of the North tightened the noose around the Basque country in the north, Narváez's Army of Reserve suppressed both remaining Carlist pockets and radical liberalism in the south. Cristino tactics, strategy and supplies improved. States of siege were imposed in a growing number of Cristino provincial capitals, Revolutionary Militia units were purged, militarised or disbanded. The *moderado* government (elected in 1837) justified counter-revolution in terms of the Carlist threat, eroding constitutional liberties and governance in order to streamline the war effort. But the *progresista* opposition rallied by mobilising disbanded militia, press campaigns and, above all, their resilient power bases of popularly elected local government. They also enlisted the support of the Cristino war hero, General Espartero. Espartero brokered a victorious peace settlement with his Carlist opposite number, Rafael Maroto, which outlawed Don Carlos, allowed Carlists to join Cristino ranks, and promised that the Basque ancient laws (*fueros*) would be respected. Rafael Maroto's command of the Carlist army from June 1838 excluded the Apostólico faction from power, culminating in his execution of several of their leading figures, and prepared the way for a compromise peace with the Cristinos. The August 1839 Treaty of Vergara was negotiated by commanders-in-chief from both sides, demonstrating the degree to which the civil war had emasculated civilian authority. It orphaned Cabrera's achievements in the east, whence the following year he left for exile, ending the First Carlist War.

The year 1838 saw the Madrid Cortes conduct debates about how to end the conflict. Whereas *moderados* proved willing to entertain some sort of negotiated peace on Cristino dynastic terms – a 'transaction' –

progresistas argued that both national honour and revolutionary logic demanded unconditional victory. *Moderado* Finance Minister, Alejandro Mon, complained about San Miguel's appeal for yet another levy of 100,000 men, as it was clear that the previous batch had largely gone over to the *facciosos*. In the end, it was agreed that a *quinta* of 40,000 men be added to the nominal Cristino strength of 207,000 infantry and 14,000 cavalry (a number which casualties and desertions in fact rendered much lower). *Progresista* San Miguel observed that only a war to the death could end civil wars, *transacción* being a canard; he was answered by Toreno that history proved the opposite. San Miguel countered that he meant that only Carlist *idea* could be crushed forever, not its defenders. The rarefied nature of Spanish Cortes debates, involving Europe's most elegant political addresses, was almost obscenely divorced from reality. This was symbolised by Cristino Spain's last prime minister to have commanded a civilian power base (*juntas*, militia), Mendizábal, who grew tired of the complaints of senior army officers in the wake of the La Granja revolution. His Cortes speech that 'each officer had a girdle of gold' which they might divert from their pleasures to pay their men, following the brazen claim in the same speech that no Cristino units were owed more than four months' pay arrears, was met with rage by the officer corps and demands for personal satisfaction.¹ Leftist politicians could not see beyond their ingrained anti-militarism: Mendizábal answered Espartero's complaints in a tactless fashion, implying soldiers were little more than beasts of burden ('mercenaries', as Argüelles had slandered them in 1813) and that Espartero's soldiers had consumed 40,000 rations per day for ten weeks after his relief of Bilbao even as his army stood idle.²

With the crucial exception of Espartero, most senior Cristino officers were aligned with the authoritarian *moderados*, especially as this faction endorsed the tendency of regional captain-generals, after 1837, to subordinate National Militia rivals to army power, usually through the imposition of states of siege. Yet the Liberal parties had limited impact on the civil war: indeed, despite some consistent constitutional disagreements (suffrage, municipalities, prerogatives of the Crown), the Liberal parties themselves barely amounted to more than patronage networks held together by subscriptions to rival newspapers and occasional rallies disguised as banquets, and as such they rode rather than made the waves of the civil war. Rather, the last three years of the war saw the militarisation of the politics of both 'home fronts', most enduringly in the victorious side of Cristino Spain, where the years 1837–40 have been seen as the advent of praetorian politics in Spain.³ On the one

hand, there was a participatory dimension to praetorianism as soldiers and – in the case of the underpaid Cristino naval base at Cartagena – sailors were paid to ‘fix’ election results to favour the *moderados* (*progresistas* during 1835–37 had done the same using militiamen), either by being unconstitutionally enrolled in the electoral roll, or by being deployed to exercise a range of ‘moral’ as well as violent pressure. The phenomenon of soldiers making and breaking elections, which Romero Alpuente denounced during the Triennium, was repeated during the Carlist War on a greater scale.⁴ The praetorian domination of ministerial politics turned Spain under Espartero at the end of the war into the exact opposite of what Cea Bermúdez, Spain’s last civilian absolutist prime minister at the start of the war, had desired (Table 8.1).

Whereas the ministerial politicisation of Spain’s hundreds of thousands of serving soldiers was a dramatic consequence of the Carlist War, its significance was pedestrian in comparison to the two other political legacies of the conflict. The first legacy was the rise to power of a Bonapartist ‘people’s choice’, General Espartero, at the end of the war, for reasons which were almost entirely to do with the conflict itself rather than structural shifts. The second legacy both accounted for the first (popular support for the ‘peace dividend’ revolution of 1840) and stood apart, sometimes opposed, to it, namely the radicalisation of popular, non-ministerial politics (economic militancy and support for double regime radicalism) which, again, was either caused or at least shaped by the war. None of this radicalisation assisted the formal war aims of the Cristino faction, namely the national and international recognition of the legitimacy of Princess Isabella’s succession and the regency of her mother, and, as a corollary to this, the institution of a constitutional civilian rule of law in Spain. Rather seven long years of war had changed its popular meaning from a dynastic (and consubstantially, religious) dispute, into a war in which hundreds of thousands of soldiers and militiamen, and hundreds of thousands of civilians besides, had been schooled by violence into exercising political consciousness for the first time. In the previous chapters we have explored this development largely in the context of mobilisations, battles, sieges, invasions and occupations. But the war also caused, or at least influenced, social protests and class struggles in a manner poorly explored by the existing historiography.

Some of this radicalisation may be linked to the highbrow concerns of the Cortes with regard to the virtual bankruptcy caused by the war. Mon’s despair at the state of Cristino finances exposed him to ridicule when he was taken in by a Swiss adventurer that some treasure allegedly buried in Santiago in 1809 could be unearthed. Excavations were begun,

Table 8.1 *Eco del Comercio*, 11 December 1839: Strength, preparedness and distribution of Cristino National Militia late 1839

District	Infantry	Cavalry	Artillery	Firemen	Total	Infantry under arms	Cavalry under arms	Artillery under arms	Firemen under arms	Total under arms	Infantry without arms	Cavalry without arms	Artillery without arms	Firemen without arms	Total without arms
New Castile	52632	1267	344	0	54243	25102	1158	343	0	26603	27530	109	1	0	27640
Old Castile	154103	1266	499	0	155868	22666	1092	479	0	24207	131467	174	20	0	131661
Aragón	38211	395	527	135	39268	13310	395	519	133	14357	24901	0	8	2	24911
Catalonia	37978	160	834	0	38972	29277	116	749	0	30142	8701	44	85	0	8830
Valencia	58857	1409	2169	118	62553	26859	1317	1720	118	30014	31998	92	149	0	32539
Andalucía	27710	2471	719	0	30900	5822	1283	650	0	7755	21888	1188	69	0	23145
Granada	48195	1199	330	1031	50775	11726	572	274	632	13204	36469	627	56	0	37551
Extremadura	33392	961	163	85	34601	5301	301	141	85	5830	28091	658	22	399	28771
Navarra	1565	196	0	0	1761	1517	196	0	0	1713	48	0	0	0	48
Basque provinces	2508	6	104	43	2661	2302	6	70	42	2420	206	0	34	0	240
Galicia	145539	140	158	0	145837	13122	135	141	0	13398	132417	5	16	1	132439
Mallorca	10521	79	499	0	11099	3409	76	353	0	3838	7112	5	146	0	7261
Total	611211	9549	6346	1412	628518	160383	6649	5439	1010	173481	450828	2900	907	402	455037

but all that was uncovered were the latrines of the San Roque hospital, which stank out the unfortunate town.⁵ Cristino Spain's foreign policy during 1838 was dominated by its financial crisis. Government expenditure exceeded receipts by almost double: 838 million reales were received by the Treasury against outgoings of 1,546 million. Seeing the financial plight, the British minister, Villiers, again pressed a plan which he had been formulating for four years, namely an Anglo-Spanish free trade treaty. Britain would lend Spain money in return for the suspension of import duties on cotton. When this proposal reached the Cortes it was bitterly opposed and defeated, Catalan deputies and senators leading the resistance.⁶ Catalonia's cotton industry was advanced by Spanish standards but could not possibly hope to compete in a free-trade environment with that of Britain. Catalan cotton magnates thus acted as good Spanish nationalists, and a certain strand of Anglophobia was revived amongst the otherwise generally Anglophile *progresistas*. More radical-republican secret societies in Barcelona turned the protection of 'national industry' into doctrine. When, soon after the civil war, Espartero signed the free trade treaty, the republican 'Society of Spanish Regenerators' alleged that the British want to 'turn Iberia into a new India, have no principles beyond their own egotism, and want to keep us poor and ignorant so that we might work for them as slaves'.⁷

An attempt by several *moderado* Cortes deputies to reintroduce the tithe in order to assuage the crisis of secular clergy was blocked by *progresista* deputies who were undoubtedly expressing the popular will (which included episodes of popular violence against tithe-proctors, especially in the Liberal south and east).⁸ The Count of Ofalia, *moderado* prime minister from December 1837 until September 1838, symbolised the rightward shift in ministerial liberalism, not least for being 'soft' on the Catholic Church.⁹ But the persistence of tithing was wormwood and gall to a Cristino population which had come to see the 'Carlist' Church as the source of its suffering. During the revolutionary summer of 1836, as the Gómez expedition tore into southern Spain, tithe-proctors in the province of Toledo were jeered at and assaulted, and local authorities could not (or would not) offer them protection.¹⁰ When the central government sent troops, this only served to inflame radicalism even further. Thus, General Peón's use of force in collecting the *culto y clero* in the province of Málaga during the summer of 1838 left bitter memories.¹¹ The following year, citizens in this province mobilised in a mass tithe strike, which began in Motril (Granada) before spreading to other *pueblos*. Central government despatched an infantry battalion to protect the proctors but the strike held.¹²

The broadest and deepest networks of popular radicalism had evolved in Liberal port-cities, in particular, Barcelona, Málaga and Cádiz.¹³ Meer's crackdown on radicalism in Barcelona was mirrored elsewhere on the Cristino home front in accordance with the *moderado* election victory of 1837, by disarming and reforming the militia of Barcelona, Reus and Tarragona.¹⁴ Meer's successful counter-insurgency against Segarra's forces, including his capture of Solsona on 27 July 1838, earned him political capital to suppress the Radicals.¹⁵ The Radical press cast the *moderado* Catalan as an honorary member of the 'Angels of Andalucía', the satirical title given to dictatorial captain-generals who imposed martial law in provincial capitals. Meer imposed a 10,000-reales bond on all people in Barcelona who could not satisfy the authorities of the reasons for their stay. The city was full of secret societies and mainly French expatriate Radicals.¹⁶ But the crackdowns by Meer, and other *moderado* captain-generals were limited in their effectiveness, for the *progresista* press campaign of the late 1830s made heroes out of those Radicals imprisoned and deported to the garrison colonies in Spanish North Africa.¹⁷

In Málaga the *moderados* imposed a state of siege in response to local authorities' refusal to cooperate in the judicial investigation into Donadio's and SanJust's assassinations. Málaga occupied a strategically vital position: it triangulated Cristino control over the only enduring Carlist insurgency in Andalucía, the Serranía de Ronda to the west, and its role as a port grew in importance from 1838 as a series of Carlist prisoners' insurrections in the North African garrison colonies made the city the staging point for punitive expeditions. Certainly, its importance was appreciated by allied forces: in October 1836 the commander of a Royal Navy ship stationed in the port threatened to suspend all British aid deliveries unless the 'revolutionary chaos' came to a halt.¹⁸ The risings of the Militia in 1835 and 1836, as we have seen, started here (whilst Málaga would either be the first, or one of the first, provinces to spawn future revolutions in 1840, 1843, 1854 and 1868).¹⁹ Between 1812 and 1835, the name of Málaga's main square alternated between 'Royal' and 'Constitution' no fewer than six times. By 1835, the town decided to save money on stonemasonry by leaving two plaques bearing the alternate names at opposite corners of the square, in the hope that either might serve the political demands of the day. During the 1836 revolution, however, revolutionaries destroyed the 'Royal' plaque and it was never reinstated.²⁰ Málaga's radical liberalism can be explained by several factors. Its modest iron-and-steel industry expanded throughout the 1830s, to make the city second only to Barcelona in industrial

importance by 1850, yet with classically Liberal free-trade elites instead of Catalonia's protectionists. Málaga, during the Carlist War, was the only Cristino port to register a positive trade balance with the outside world, even though this success was tempered by a deficit in Spanish cabotage and by rampant smuggling, which was afforded local protection.²¹ If statistics could have computed the activity of the so-called *mochileros* ('backpackers'), the smugglers who moved contraband from Gibraltar via the lawless Serranía de Ronda, then Málaga would have conformed more closely to the Spanish trade deficit.²²

It is hard to explain much of Málaga's radicalism because its exasperated governors did not risk committing their intelligence to paper. In March 1838 Captain-General Palarea wrote to Madrid saying that he was successfully penetrating the 'juntas and affiliations of Andalucía' but the delicate nature of this task obliged him to keep most details secret.²³ That said, a great part of the radicalism was certainly an expression of the elaborate local economic interests arising from support for free trade. In 1837 the Secretary of the Treasury professed his disgust at the fact that only 5 per cent of the contribution owed by Málaga to help fund the costs of the central government had so far been paid, an unpatriotic meanness all the more outrageous because '[Málaga] has swamped the nation with illicit goods which have considerably reduced tax receipts'.²⁴ Whenever carabineers tried to impound contraband, they were met with all kinds of resistance. In October 1839, vendors went on strike in protest at a violent anti-contraband operation in one of the main shopping streets, which forced the head of carabineers to resign.²⁵ Official protection for contraband was matched by that for political extremism. The *moderado* state of siege here was the least effective of all the provincial capitals. The fact that the Militia used the occasion of the Queen-Regent's birthday in 1839 to hold political meetings and to publish satires which 'scandalously abused the precious right of the free press' suggests that the citizens' force was not cowed as in other Cristino cities.²⁶ Military governors frequently resigned, sometimes in response to death threats,²⁷ and always under the relentless pressure of *progresista* newspapers which used Málaga as proof that the *moderados* were more interested in persecuting their political enemies hundreds of miles from the front lines than in vanquishing the mortal enemy of liberalism. The shabby treatment of the widows of two murdered Radicals underlined this charge.²⁸ By October 1838, the 'Widows of Comares' campaign had borne fruit as controversy forced the Military Governor of Málaga to end the transportations of Radicals to African garrison prisons and to return to liberty all those surviving prisoners.²⁹

It was one of the war's peculiarities that desertion from Cristino ranks, and subsequent banditry, continued at a high rate even in 1839 when the Cristino side was in sight of victory.³⁰ Some of this may be explained by a growing pragmatic indulgence shown by a victorious army, which, during the revolutions and defeats years earlier, had been prone to more condign punishment of offenders. Other explanations lie in the popular anger at the way that Church properties nationalised under the revolution were not being parcelled out to Cristino veterans, as had been proposed by some 'social Liberals', but were being auctioned off to local oligarchs to remedy disastrous state finances. This 'missed chance' of popular landownership was explained by Marxists as a failed 'bourgeois revolution'. New property owners, who were few, unlike during the French Revolution, were too weak to advance their 'historic mission' of advancing capitalism.³¹ This 'failure' school was partially revised by post-Cold War scholarship, which presented a more optimistic, but still mixed, picture of the Liberal property revolution.³² In fact, the 1830s property revolution was hybrid in nature. Whereas several new buyers did become property owners for the first time, they generally did not drive radical capitalism but were 'feudalised' by the social and cultural hegemony of the landed nobility, even though the legal separateness of the nobility had been abolished for good. The undynamic *rentier* landlord with strong contacts with local authorities was the social category that benefited most.³³

Of course, this property revolution had already been underway in fits and starts since the 1790s, with Jovellanos's free-market philosophy, Godoy's confiscation of a portion of Church property a decade later, and that of the Liberals in the early 1820s.³⁴ But the greatest nineteenth-century programme of land nationalisation in Spain happened during Spain's greatest civil war, when half-a-million Spaniards were under arms, and when an 1839 Cortes motion to reward Carlist War veterans with nationalised land was rejected by Liberal deputies who had spent six years exhorting 'the people' to accept sacrifices in the fight against Carlism.³⁵ Even veterans lucky enough to afford nationalised property found the auctions rigged in favour of vested interests, as intendants designated the lands to be offered for auction with the assistance of local 'experts' who were usually the agents of existing landowners. And the intendants themselves were easily bribed to rig auctions in advance, despite the theoretical risk of sanctions against such abuses.³⁶ The structural grievances of Spanish landownership were at their plainest in the large estates in the south and south-west, which were worked by landless and (controversially) largely Galician migrant labour, and the wartime

property revolution energised these like never before. A *progresista* election campaign in Córdoba six months after the end of the war went awry when a hired mob of veterans ended up targeting migrant workers instead of *moderados*. The veterans were reminded 'not to hit the Galicians', but to attack 'the fat people'.³⁷

The consubstantiation of war and revolution provoked economic militancy across the Cristino 'home front'. Both desertion and banditry remained high towards the end of the war as virtual reserve armies of bandits roamed the Cristino countryside. The generalised states of siege in Andalucía from 1837 allowed Captain-Generals to make short work of bandits, especially whenever there was the slightest hint that the bandits might in fact be 'Carlists' as well as mere criminals. Thus, the Captain-General of Granada in November 1838 was glad to make public proclamations of the execution of 13 insurgents who had been preying on rural communities.³⁸ Even though civil authorities were emasculated under states of siege in matters of crime and punishment, by the following spring the Civil Governor of Granada had concluded that economic grievances were motivating at least some of this wrongdoing. He parcelled out fallow municipal lands to landless labourers, in a desperate bid to end the violent lawlessness around Guadix caused by draft-dodgers and deserters.³⁹

In Cristino cities Spain's female tobacco workers gained a reputation for militancy. Smoking was a key part of Spanish popular culture: a foreign traveller was surprised to discover that even women smoked, and that the only smoke-free places were the Cortes and the judicial bench.⁴⁰ Spain pioneered cigarettes, displacing snuff and requiring dainty fingers for production. This changed the sex of the workforce as women workers (known as *tabacaleras* or *cigarreras*) vastly outnumbered men workers by the time of the Carlist War. Tobacco had long been a state monopoly produced in factories at Madrid, Cádiz, Valencia, Barcelona, La Coruña, Alicante and – the biggest – in Seville; all of these were in Cristino hands, and the finished product reached the front line bearing such images of Liberal patriotism as Espartero and Princess Isabella. Tobacco for troops ranked in importance alongside food and munitions, which turned its production into a patriotic and political matter, even more than it had already been before the war (when the Jacobin, Romero Alpuente, had campaigned to remove tax from tobacco).⁴¹ The war inflected grievances about conditions and management of the state monopoly. When José Lafita, a Cristino desk officer with powerful connections to the governing *moderado* party, was appointed director of the Cádiz factory, he was

lampooned by the opposition *Eco* because 'although he is completely untested commanding men on the field of battle, he may nonetheless prove some use commanding women'.⁴² One hundred and fifty male snuffbreakers who had been conscripted into the Cristino army returned to Seville after the war protesting their patriotic right to regain their jobs. Insult was added to injury when the government offered them alternative jobs in public works projects (which had been notorious for employing Carlist prisoners).⁴³

The greatest wartime economic militancy came from the strikes and smuggling of the tobacco women. Demands for increased wartime production were worsening their working conditions which, in addition to an eight-hour day, pensions and free overalls, had included the provision of crèches and wet nurses.⁴⁴ On 2 August 1838, after suffering four months' pay arrears and deteriorating factory food, all 2,000 Seville *tabacaleras* went on indefinite strike. The male minority was co-opted into joining the women, strike-breakers were barred, and the mayor received a delegation of 20 *tabacaleras*. The captain-general, who feared the impact of tobacco shortages on soldiers' morale, intervened to source a Chambers of Commerce loan to pay the backlog of wages. The captain-general conceded this in bad grace, stressing that so many young men were spilling their blood for liberty and the crown of Isabella whilst silently suffering pay arrears (a grating and also inaccurate statement, as at least one conscripted tobacco worker had recently been executed for turning his musket on an officer in the course of a pay dispute).⁴⁵ Even though the women failed to get their secondary demands met (removal of the 3-reales weekly levy for medical and burial insurance, and the right to hold meetings), this first great Seville strike passed without further incident.⁴⁶ Four more strikes would ensue in as many years, the May 1842 strike being the most prolonged.⁴⁷ In July 1839, the Madrid *tabacaleras* launched a strike in protest at the continued humiliation of having to undergo a body search at the end of shifts. This time the factory administrators enlisted 40 militiamen to lock the women in the building, denying them food until they submitted. The authorities were right to suspect smuggling, but the women did this via a tunnel to a secluded street outside. When this was discovered, two weeks after the strike, the press condemned this 'sabotage of the state coffers' at a time when the war for liberty was still ongoing.⁴⁸ Not only had Carlist smuggling across the Pyrenees lengthened the war, but Cristino civilians were doing the same by exercising their 'moral economy': in October 1839, Málaga's shop owners closed their premises in protest at

overzealous carabineers.⁴⁹ Smuggling had long been a way of life along Spain's porous borders and coastline, practised in three ways.⁵⁰ But the civil war had politicised it like never before.

The war also inflected Spain's experience of the European trade slump of 1839 and the default it made on National Debt interest repayments.⁵¹ Spain's first strike movement to be coordinated across industries was broken by government charges of 'Carlism'. The Cristino abolition in 1837 of the guild system had advantaged wholesalers, who ratcheted up prices.⁵² This was answered in Granada by a movement led by a certain Julián Malaguilla, silk worker artisan, who rallied 200–300 fellow silk workers to halt work and ransack the premises of wholesale silk merchants who had hiked prices. The Militia was overwhelmed and the city's shoemakers joined the strike. Three companies of infantry had to be drafted in to uphold the state of siege. But the strike held as workshop masters were sent letters threatening them with 50 lashes if they did not cease production. The movement collapsed only when Malaguilla was tricked into arbitration at the city hall. He was arrested and imprisoned upon charges of 'Carlism' (letters were produced showing Malaguilla's appeal for volunteers to join insurgents in the restive Serranía de Ronda).⁵³ Madrid itself saw significant strike action, and from very proletarian quarters. The water-bearers (*aguadores*) of Madrid were mostly Galician migrants, numbering some 900 in the capital in 1840.⁵⁴ The luckiest of these water-bearers rented licences from the municipal authorities to carry drinking water to Madrid's private houses and businesses; the less lucky might subcontract these licences or work in small teams as journeymen for the licensee; whilst the least fortunate would work the streets as water-vendors.⁵⁵ As municipal licences were hard to acquire, and as most of the water-bearing labour involved seasonal migration, the luckiest *aguadores* had the opportunity to sell their licences for inflated prices. By February 1840, it emerged that a cadre of *aguadores* in Madrid was doing precisely that, the money being found by raising the monthly fee levied on water delivery from 6 to 8 reales per household to 12. When consumers complained to the authorities, the municipality arrested some of the 'usurers' whilst enforcing a cut in water levies. The response from the *aguadores* was to launch a strike, which resulted in no water being carried anywhere in the capital for a whole day. Militia were dispatched to force the *aguadores* back to work. The authorities' hard line was welcomed by several of the most recent migrants, who had run the virtual blockade of Carlist banditry to reach Madrid and had indebted themselves in order to subcontract the licence.⁵⁶

Working-class protest came at a sensitive political time. The *moderado* government was accused by Radicals of manipulating elections, and a month after the *aguadores'* strike, Fermín Caballero, editor of the *Eco del Comercio* and leader of parliamentary *progresistas* led Olózaga and other leftists in a walkout of the Cortes.⁵⁷ By March 1840, Radical political meetings were taking place in all the Andalusian provincial capitals, and delegates were dispatched to Seville to deliberate upon a confederation along the lines suggested by the martyred Catalan Republican, Xaudaró y Fábregas.⁵⁸

Militancies in Cristino society grew while the most savage fighting shifted eastwards, away from the stagnation of the Basque country and towards the Carlist ascendancy in Aragón and the Catalan far west. Such was the pressure that, in February 1838, San Miguel decided to evacuate the entire population of Gandesa rather than continue to waste lives and supplies in its defence. Refugee civilians from Gandesa were housed in Zaragoza and a subscription in their aid was opened in Madrid. The civilians did not return to their destroyed homes until Cabrera left for France in 1840.⁵⁹ This Carlist success emboldened Cabrera to launch an offensive against Zaragoza. Some 2,200 infantry, and 300 cavalry under the command of the French Carlist, Lespinace, tried to surprise the city on 5 March 1838. But Zaragoza resisted thanks to its garrison of National Militia supported by some regular troops and even civilians armed with such improvised weapons as burning oil and water in imitation of the greater sieges of the Peninsular War. Carlist casualties were about 20 times those of the Cristinos, so a special medal was awarded to the city's National Militia and a laurel added to its emblem.⁶⁰ Unlike Córdoba in 1836, Zaragoza in 1838 no longer had enough civilians prepared to act as a fifth column for the besiegers. The failed plot on 27 February 1834 to raise the city for Don Carlos had been answered by months of official arrests and imprisonments and unofficial anti-clerical outrages.⁶¹ By 1838, its streets were indisputably Cristino.

Cristino operations in Aragón during 1838 were dominated by attempts to conquer the virtually impregnable Carlist capital of Morella. Oráa and San Miguel combined an offensive in July which was under-supplied in food and artillery. The Carlists rounded up cattle in the approaches to Morella and burnt the ripe corn harvest (both sides customarily burnt crops on land that they did not expect to hold), thereby burdening the Cristinos' already shoestring supplies. Moreover, Morella was constructed like a city-tower, its relief and architecture naturally favouring the defenders. Between the mid-July start of the offensive and Oráa's order on 17 August 1838 to retreat, there were some 22 battles

and two failed Cristino attempts to storm Morella. Oráa was exhausted by years of war and had long thought a military solution to the conflict was impossible. Moreover, he had had to detach some forces to aid the Prefect of Murcia to crush some revolutionary National Militia. An intercepted letter revealed to the Carlists that Oráa's colleagues thought him old, vacillating, bereft of his earlier speed and unable to leave anything to chance.⁶² Cabrera's defensive victory was followed with an offensive victory at the Battle of Maella against a division led by one of the Cristino's most popular generals, Pardiñas, whose élan contrasted with Oráa's circumspection. Yet Cabrera won the battle, killing Pardiñas in combat and massacring most of the several hundred Cristino prisoners taken.⁶³

Cabrera's ascendancy in the Maestrazgo was secured. At the end of 1838 his army numbered some 15,255 infantry, 1,328 cavalry, and 378 artillerymen with some 40 guns. Moreover, Carlist artillery had been improved by the Prussian Baron von Rahden, who had voluntarily quit a post in the Basque provinces to come to the Maestrazgo for this end. A grateful Cabrera made him comandante general.⁶⁴ The brutality of Cabrera's war effort continued to be a source for consternation for Cristino Radicals:

To understand the state of alarm and indignation which Liberals in Aragón and Valencia reached in the autumn of 1838, it is not enough to read the Madrid newspapers. Rather one has to have lived in those provinces in, or near, the Maestrazgo; to have heard the fathers, sons and brothers of the executed, to have seen the pathetic refugees lucky enough to have reached the safety of a fortress or column; to have conversed with the well-to-do who lost all their cattle, homes and livelihoods. One has to hear the stories of those who witnessed the killings and the threats made by Carlists who had done away with the lives of even the most distant relatives of the Liberals. If those lucky enough never to have experienced a civil war can understand this, they would not consider Cabrera a member of the human race.⁶⁵

Towns and villages were being sacked. When Urrea near Zaragoza was sacked, the smoke billowing from its ruins was visible in the Aragones capital, causing panic. Such brutality was defended on the self-fulfilling grounds that residents were defending their properties by firing on the invaders from houses. A furious exchange of letters between San Miguel and Cabrera did nothing to assuage the violence. Cabrera, as

ever, invoked the execution of his mother as proof that the usurpers had no lessons to impart on humanitarianism, an attitude which had been consistently held up in the Carlist press.⁶⁶ The failed epistolary exchange took place amidst an escalation of reprisals and counter-reprisals in the east during late 1838. Oráa's replacement Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the Centre, Van-Halen, complained that the Carlists always retained the upper hand as they could simply rob, kill and snatch draftees at will. The sovereignty of local municipalities, meanwhile, tied the hands of Cristino armies and made the 'nuclear option' of imposing states of siege necessary not just because of the Carlists but because of Liberal politics, too. A cycle of riots and assassinations in Valencia and Zaragoza were directly related to Cabrera's advances in the surrounding countryside and atrocity stories emanating from them. The worst fighting and atrocities took place during the Carlist capture of Caspe. Six Cristinos were shot in cold blood after the town's capture on 27 October: three soldiers from the Burgos regiment and three local militiamen. In reprisal Van-Halen, bowing to the pressure of Cristino opinion, executed eight Carlist prisoners.⁶⁷

Whilst the east went Carlist, Cristino Spain found the threat from the north far more manageable than during the revolutionary summers of 1835–37. Carlist raids from the provinces during 1838 showed that the headier days of 1836 and 1837 could no longer be repeated. The elderly priest Merino, who had been present at the last siege of Bilbao, during the Battle of Oriamendi and in the Royal Expedition of Don Carlos, could not sustain his earlier prowess against stiffened Cristino opposition. Don Carlos had made him Carlist Captain-General of Old Castile and the president of its junta, yet Merino's actions were those of an insurgent rather than a governor. In 1834 villagers had flocked to him, but in 1838 he abducted draftees from the countryside around Burgos and Aranda del Duero and ransomed, even executed, the family members of escapees.⁶⁸ Merino joined forces with Cabrera in a raid during the summer of 1838 which took Burgo de Osma, threatening Valladolid on 8 September 1838, whence a prompt campaign by the city's mobile militia marched to pursue the Carlist raiders eastwards. Over the following days several villages were invaded. All tailors in Covarrubias were forced to join the campaign in order to satisfy demands for uniforms. Merino was then pursued back across the Ebro. From there, on the 12 October 1838, Maroto received desperate royal instructions to order Merino to launch a new raid. But despite the usual speed and ruthlessness of Merino's men, they were matched by a Cristino counter-insurgency equally ruthless with civilians in its path, and which

defeated Merino, inflicting some 800 losses on him. Merino retreated and never took to the field again. After Vergara settlement he joined the exodus into France where he would become a minor celebrity on account of his Peninsular War fame and reputation.⁶⁹ Other minor raids may have got the royal sanction but barely amounted to more than organised crime. The raids of Carrión and Cellis are remembered mainly because of their vindictive atrocities in the village of Villada (Palencia), whose wealthy residents had recently welcomed a stay by Espartero. The occupying Carlists imposed ruinous forced contributions on the municipality and even killed the young wife of Lino de Cosío, a wealthy Liberal landowner, who had only just given birth.⁷⁰

The era of Carlist expeditions had passed. The last one, during the winter of 1839–40, came not from the Basque country (which had surrendered) but as a desperate move from Cabrera in the east to overwinter his troops on the food supplies of New Castile.⁷¹ It was not only Carlist exhaustion and demoralisation which ended this offensive strategy but also the decision of the *moderado* government in early 1838 to form an established Army of the Reserve in Andalucía, under the command of General Narváez, who was tasked with both eradicating Carlist bandit-insurgents and with bringing Radical cities to heel. Lengthy states of siege were imposed in Málaga, Cádiz, Huelva and Córdoba, whilst Seville was the last provincial capital to follow this example after a coup attempt in the city by Narváez himself backfired in November 1838, sending its instigator into exile in Gibraltar. Narváez had been locked in rivalry with Espartero, but although he had the support of several *moderado* deputies and ministers in the capital who wanted to see him replace Espartero, the Queen-Regent, grateful for her rescue from the Royal Expedition and despite her *Generalísimo's* leftist politics, still trusted Espartero. On 31 October 1838 Espartero wrote her a lengthy letter that was devastatingly critical of Narváez, and riots followed in Madrid. Pro-Narváez *moderados* fought pro-Espartero *progresistas* as popular proxies of praetorian politics, and the Radical *Eco del Comercio* dared to call its readers 'to arms, then, against the traitors'. A confused and sometimes tragicomic few days followed when the new prefect of the capital, Brigadier Puig, on 8 November 1838, decided to crack down on the disturbances by ordering the arrest of all men with moustaches who were not members of the army or Militia. In the end it suited both Liberal factions to describe the disturbances as a Carlist plot, and many civic Carlists still residing in the capital were arrested, a renewed round of injustices ensuing only two weeks after the expulsion from the capital of the wives and children of absent Carlists.⁷²

Defeated in the capital, Narváez joined with the former Commander-in-Chief, Córdova, in seizing control of the Seville's garrison and Militia, and proclaiming a junta.⁷³ But the Captain-General of Andalucía, the Conde de Cleonard, condemned the rising from Cádiz and the Army of Reserve failed to rally to its commander. Thus Narváez and Córdova fled into exile, their parliamentary immunity notwithstanding: Narváez to Gibraltar and thence to France where he sustained a petitioning campaign to the Cortes and his friend and owner of a *moderado* press empire, Andrés Borrego.⁷⁴ Espartero now reigned supreme, and the Army of the Reserve – Narváez's power base – was dissolved. Actually the humiliation and banishment of Narváez would prove a pyrrhic victory. The man from Loja had been made into a man who, like Louis Bonaparte, would prove to have greater ambitions than careerism and personal rivalry.

Narváez had been a visible threat to Espartero, but the last years of the war saw Radical plots flourish from lower ranks. In November 1838, prisoners at the Spanish North African garrison at Alhucemas rose in revolt, even though barely more than a quarter of the rebels were actually Carlists, pressed a claim to being Spanish first before Liberal or Carlist and promised to defend the colony against any Moroccan attack. A similar Carlist takeover ensued at Melilla, before the insurgents agreed to a negotiated peace and to being shipped back to the peninsula on the condition that they would be free.⁷⁵ A plot to assassinate Espartero was centred on Manuel García Uzal, a Radical Cortes deputy, newspaper correspondent and, since 1835, a captain serving in a battalion of 'guides' (a species of elite unit generally associated with scouting activities), the fact that he was also battalion adjutant making him ideally placed to radicalise the troops. Uzal forged a strange conspiracy between his own circle and Carlist fifth columnists (led by a writer called Vicente Canseco), but the plot was penetrated by Espartero's intelligence networks and its leaders imprisoned.⁷⁶ A republican conspiracy in the army just a few months earlier at León had petered out quickly. Its two *cabecillas*, the standard-bearer of an off-duty battalion, Francisco Doti, and a lieutenant, Joaquín María Guisasola, seized a caravan of rations as bait for the troops to second their calls of 'Long Live the Constitution of 1812' and 'Long Live the Republic'. Even though this *pronunciamiento* attracted a limited following, after three days, most had deserted, before the 12 remaining revolutionaries were captured by loyal troops. Doti and Guisasola were executed.⁷⁷

The war had created a radical constituency in the army and society which had digested the constant diet of 'liberty' and was expressing it on its own terms. Both Spains were weary of conflict, and despite

the misfired diplomatic venture of the Royal Expedition, various efforts came from the Cristino side for peace. In January 1839, Eugenio de Aviraneta designed a plan to abduct Don Carlos via a naval landing near his lightly guarded winter quarters at Azcoitia, to be launched on British vessels from Pasajes. Only the reluctance of Lord Hay to breach British rules of engagement grounded the abduction mission.⁷⁸ Any effective diplomatic solution to the Spanish problem could only come via some accord between Europe's Liberal and absolutist powers. Palmerston and Metternich were surprised that they saw eye to eye on this point from 1838. But Metternich's Europe still saw Liberal Spain as the revolution incarnate, an attitude that hardened when Spanish emissaries with colourful pasts reached Vienna. Manuel Marliani Cassens, a cosmopolitan, *gaditano* friend of Mendizábal and protégé of Calatrava, was made Spanish consul general to France in September 1836.⁷⁹ He forged a plan to impress upon Metternich a dynastic end to Spain's civil war via the marriage of the young Princess Isabella to an Austrian prince. But this plan backfired on his mission to Vienna when French agents – wary of the prospect of a Hapsburg on the Spanish throne – destroyed Marliani's credentials by reminding the Austrians of his revolutionary past in Piedmont in 1821. Metternich refused even to see him, and Marliani was ordered to leave Vienna within 18 hours, after which the combined pressure of Austria and Sardinia got him sacked as Spanish consul to Paris. Even though Marliani rebuilt his career in Spain, his plan for a dynastic solution to the civil war came to nought.⁸⁰ Equally there was no diplomatic breakthrough for the Carlists either. The secret Carlist junta in Madrid had seen its hopes dashed with the failed Royal Expedition of 1837. In 1838 the Neapolitan foreign minister, the Prince of Cassaro, suggested to the Carlists that if they descended on either Zaragoza or Valencia they would be supported by a naval squadron of Neapolitan volunteers. However, Cassaro's enthusiasm was not shared by his King.⁸¹

Carlist diplomacy made desperate pleas for international help to stave off defeat. But Don Carlos's plea on 9 March 1839 for more aid from friendly sovereigns was met by either cool or business-like responses. Piedmont-Sardinia refused more money, disgruntled at how money sent hitherto had been spent on maintaining the Carlist army on home ground – which was now shrinking – rather than marching on Madrid. Russia and Austria agreed that to send more money would end up merely postponing eventual Carlist defeat. The only serious offer came from a minor absolutist power, the Netherlands, which offered money in return for Don Carlos's consent to a Dutch conquest of the Philippines

in his name. The Cristino garrison was weak, Amsterdam believed, a fleet could be launched from Java in the Dutch East Indies, and the Dutch would be repaid by a stake in Philippine customs revenues. Both Don Carlos and his cabinet quickly rejected this proposal, but it is unclear whether they did so out of misplaced imperial pride, realism or superior knowledge of Philippine affairs. In fact, the Spanish presence in the Philippines during the 1830s was comparatively strong, as Guillermo Galvey, amateur ethnographer and Cristino Captain-General of the colony, led a series of expeditions to expand the colonial frontier in the Cordillera.⁸² International supporters of Carlism were disenchanted by more than just the military situation. Even kings and diplomats openly upbraided the division and misappropriations of the Carlist court.⁸³ Finally, a plan to sail a 1,500-strong Carlist amphibious force from Bermeo to attack Cádiz during July 1839 foundered first on the lack of financial support from Europe's absolute powers, and then because of the Treaty of Vergara.⁸⁴ Carlist hopes of international aid had collapsed, and Cristino Commander-in-Chief of the Army of the Centre, Van-Halen, ridiculed Carlists hoping against hope as 'Jews waiting for the Messiah'.⁸⁵

The Treaty of Vergara ended the war on its main front, and this came about first because of the executive power taken by Espartero, and more fundamentally, the exhaustion and political divisions of the Carlist Basque country. The growing clamour for peace in the Carlist zone in 1839 undermined the Royal Government's attempts to sustain the war effort. The demographic losses caused by the war and Cristino occupation forced the Carlist government, in December 1838, to issue a blanket amnesty allowing émigrés on the French side of the border to return to their homes. Meanwhile, the screw of conscription was tightened still further, and a crackdown was announced on the growing tide of subversive pamphlets which attacked Don Carlos's advisers in a thinly veiled critique of the King himself. Most decisively, the Basque and Navarrese peasantry was seeing itself reduced to below-subsistence level by the repeated requisitioning by the Carlist army (and, as 1839 progressed, by the invading Cristinos), which Carlist civilian authorities never managed to control.⁸⁶

The 'man of Vergara' was Rafael Maroto. Maroto was a middle-aged Murcian, veteran of the Spanish-American wars and widower to a Peruvian wife. Purged from the army in 1833 and imprisoned, he escaped from Cristino captivity to join his King in Portugal early in 1834. Maroto was the archetypical 'Castilian' hated by *apostólicos* and Basque *fuertistas*: dynastically loyal to Don Carlos and loyal to

nothing else in the Basque country besides. Maroto was also enlightened absolutist in his politics, and was therefore a perfect broker for a 'transacted' peace: indeed, during 1839 the *Marotista* and *transaccionista* parties in the Basque country became synonymous. Maroto had few Basque or *apostólico* friends and his appointment to commander-in-chief in 1838 was the result of patient networking and military accomplishments. Once appointed, Maroto knew that time was not on the Carlists' side. No sooner had he regularised the disorderly and parochial fortress system which defended the Basque country at local levels, than he had to fight against court intrigues (especially that of a certain Eustaquio Laso, placed at his side to spy on him). Even worse, Maroto's Cristino enemies now had a flourishing spy network of their own, straddling both sides of the French border.⁸⁷ And militarily the Cristinos had nothing more to learn from Carlist territory or tactics. Under Espartero's leadership they knew the ground and in September 1837 marched on the Carlist capital of Estella. Hence, any new Carlist offensive had to be perfectly coordinated in order to avoid catastrophe.

Maroto understood that the *apóstolico* 'universal minister', Teijeiro, would exploit any military defeat to oust him, so he focused on reorganising the army and fighting only local battles rather than bold offensives. Maroto enjoyed exceptionally good relations with Carlist agents abroad, which allowed him to increase the always haphazard foreign subsidies.⁸⁸ But hostility towards him grew, and Maroto realised that only the execution of the conspirators could reassert his authority. He prepared his ground by warning the King at Tolosa. Kissing Don Carlos's hand, Maroto theatrically quipped that his King had no desire to kill him. The surprised King replied in the affirmative. Maroto replied that in that case it was his duty to request royal approval for the execution of rebellious officers. Don Carlos temporised, assuring Maroto that the conspiracies were no more than hot air, and that he knew from experience more about these things than his loyal commander-in-chief. Maroto made his intention clear, and left for his headquarters at the Carlist capital of Estella. There he found the streets suspiciously deserted, and those of its war-weary inhabitants and garrison he did encounter hurled abuse at him from windows and doorways. Maroto summoned one of the *apostólico* conspirators, General Carmona, to meet him at a café. Maroto's escort arrested Carmona the moment he arrived, whilst swift arrests ensued of García, Sanz, Guergué and Intendant Uriz. Two other generals, the Conde de Negri and Silvestre, quickly rallied to Maroto's side. All the captives were imprisoned in the town's fort and executed by firing squad two days later, each offering final indignant

words foretelling the damage that the execution of loyal officers of the King would do to the Carlist cause.⁸⁹ However, violence, even projected assassinations, had long characterised the Byzantine world of Carlist court politics, and Maroto's ruthlessness was met as much by relief as indignation. Only the year before a Carlist princess fundraising at Italian and German courts had been approached by a Royal Government agent seeking support for a plan to execute certain Carlist generals.⁹⁰

Maroto wanted to kill Balmaseda, too, a particularly efficient guerrilla comandante in Aragón who was fiercely loyal to the King, but a signed message arrived from Don Carlos in the nick of time ordering this man to be spared. Don Carlos, shocked by Maroto's purge and swayed by Teijeiro, lost little time in condemning his commander-in-chief as a traitor and dismissing him from command. Knowing that this would be his death sentence, Maroto received this dismissal using the familiar ritual of the *pronunciamiento*. Gathering his men around him, he read out the letter in order to provoke their indignation. Having secured his officers' loyalty, the fate of the Carlist War now basically lay in Maroto's hands. Maroto marched on Tolosa and overwhelmed the King into rescinding his order and sacking Teijeiro and the Bishop of León. Maroto put his friends in leading positions in the army (Zaratiegui, Eguía, Villarreal and Elío). The King's humiliation was almost complete, whilst Maroto's coup certainly was complete, at least as far as the provinces were concerned.⁹¹ His supporters, Generals Elío, Villarreal, Eguía and Zaratiegui, quickly occupied leading army posts.

The Frenchman, Saint-Silvain, stepped in as a go-between between the chastened court and Maroto, thereby saving himself from the list of *apostólicos* Maroto had ordered expelled to France, and allowing Don Carlos himself to save face.⁹² Saint-Silvain had been the unimpeachable face of French legitimism, and Don Carlos's most active diplomat in Spain.⁹³ Don Carlos caved in with understandable meekness, giving final proof, as if any more were needed, that the absolute King was absolutely helpless in the face of the two main Carlist court factions, the *transaccionista* one of which had become triumphant. Teijeiro, who had been subject to personal attacks in a proclamation Maroto made to his army, led the flight of elites for France, one step ahead of the assassins. Carlism's diplomatic agents endorsed the coup. Even the King of the Two Scillies had found the machinations of the *apostólicos* distasteful. The unofficial Carlist ambassador to Naples, José Alvarez de Toledo, summed up this mood by declaring that 'some men at court had been doing more damage to our cause than Espartero and Van Halen combined'.⁹⁴ Maroto marched into Tolosa where Don Carlos reviewed

his army. The King did not even speak about the events of Estella. The initiative was now Maroto's.⁹⁵

Meanwhile, Espartero had been pondering the best way to take advantage of the civil war within Carlist ranks. Much might have been achieved by merely awaiting the enemy's collapse, as the Carlist war effort was now grinding to an exhausted halt. Overburdened arms foundries produced inadequate weaponry: shoddy workmanship and lack of inspection led to tragedy at the fort of Guardamino on 1 May 1839, when its defending Carlist garrison opened fire on the enemy, only for the shell to explode in the cannon's bore, igniting the magazine, which killed most of the fort's garrison outright.⁹⁶ On 23 March 1839, Espartero wrote to War Minister Alaix, explaining two possible ways of ending the war, namely, via either a compromise peace, or *transacción*, or a scorched-earth policy to devastate the provinces. Espartero had no qualms about justifying such a policy for the sake of national integrity: 'It is best to amputate a diseased member than let it infect the whole body.' He was convinced that the civil war could only be won in the provinces. He hoped an offensive strategy in the north would capitalise on Carlism's internal divisions and win the confidence of sympathetic European powers. But Alaix's response was unsatisfying. Whilst he offered Espartero limited and temporary reinforcements from Galicia, and authorised him to take any action in the north that he saw fit, he also stressed the self-serving *moderado* position: that the northern front would have to take its turn for reinforcements along with the east.⁹⁷ Espartero was thus ever more inclined to use his military powers to search for peace above the heads of the politicians.

Luckily for Espartero, Maroto wanted the same, but for more desperate reasons. He marched the Royal Army westwards on the back of military operations towards Santander, a mundane deployment which, in reality, was cover for interviews with Cristino and Quadruple Alliance (Lord John Hay of the naval squadron at Pasajes) intermediaries. The road to the Vergara settlement became easier and more comfortable as these illicit contacts increased. Cristino military superiority obliged Maroto in any case to approve increasing parleys with the enemy. He negotiated the surrender of the fort at Guardamino on 12 May 1839: the magazine explosion of the 1 May combined with a failure to dig in at the crest surrounding the fort had made the position poorly defensible. For this feat Espartero was awarded the title Duke of Victory, and Cristino celebrations embittered the Carlist press, which was at pains to represent Guardamino as a truce rather than defeat. Maroto was in an unenviable position: he needed to achieve some significant victory both in

order to stem the growing tide of desertion from Carlist into Cristino ranks (which had been particularly marked in the lines facing Cristino Bilbao)⁹⁸ and to strike a peace from some position of strength. But the latter was growing more improbable by the day, whilst Espartero's encroachments into the Basque–Navarrese heartland heaped suffering on the already exhausted Carlist home front, which then fed back into demands for peace.⁹⁹

Meanwhile, anti-*marotistas* may have been cowed but they were not inactive. Propaganda was spread describing Maroto as a traitor prepared to sell the King for English gold, and starting rumours that Carlist defectors, contrary to being welcomed into Cristino ranks, were being shot.¹⁰⁰ An exchange of letters between the *apostólico* priest, Juan Echevarría, and Maroto, revealed a personal antipathy which typified the malicious gossip that had dominated Carlist court politics over six years. Maroto, whose impressment into his personal service in 1835 of a captured adolescent British auxiliary had been the subject of *apostólico* gossip and innuendo, now vengefully repaid his tormentors in kind, waving off Echevarría's accusations of treason and accusing him of having fathered children, and of trying to hide the affair by forcing their unhappy mother to marry her brother.¹⁰¹ The puritanism of Carlist political culture was being cast off by its own elites.

On 9 August, the late Zumalacárregui's right-hand man, Zaratiegui, led four battalions in a pro-war *pronunciamiento* near Pamplona.¹⁰² But this rising was deadlocked: both *marotistas* and *apostólicos* competed to win over the vital legitimacy of Don Carlos, but the King now had grave doubts about his personal situation in the wake of Maroto's coup. When he reviewed some Basque battalions at Elorrio, rather than shouting the customary 'Long Live the King', the men cried 'Long Live Peace!'¹⁰³ This civil war within a civil war was sapping the war effort from within. General Elío was caught between the Scylla of Cristino invasion and the Charybdis of the *apostólico* rising, remarking 'If I attack the rising, we are lost, and if I don't, then I see no hope.'¹⁰⁴ This scenario revived the fortunes of the much-derided Muñagorri who linked up with Jaúregui on the frontier under the ever-more attractive banner of peace with *fueros* without Don Carlos.¹⁰⁵ Knowledge was widespread that a *transacción* along these lines was the subject of negotiations, especially at Bayonne.¹⁰⁶

This move towards peace became all the stronger as Espartero's summer offensive penetrated ever more into Carlist territory, capturing Estella, impounding villages' harvests and burning produce that could not be carried or consumed. This military crisis sharpened the

political one, and Maroto asked Espartero for a truce, which the latter refused.¹⁰⁷ Meanwhile, Espartero continued invading Navarra, scorching farmsteads in his wake. Maroto was in an invidious position because of Espartero's refusal to agree to a peace which would allow Don Carlos to participate in the *transacción*. Espartero was determined that peace should be brokered by Spaniards alone, and that international mediation should be minimised. Espartero's attitude hardened when the French government, in June 1839, launched its proposals for a mediated peace which were virtually pro-Carlist, and confirmed the long-held suspicions about King Louis-Philippe's affiliation. Thus both the *fueros* and Carlist military commissions and salaries would be respected, whilst both Don Carlos and María Cristina would be sent into exile, and the Spanish Bourbon dynasty reunited via the marriage of the Carlist infant and Isabella. The repeated use of the French *raisonnable* to describe these terms stuck in the throats of the Cristinos, and allowed the British to monopolise the international side of peace-making to which Espartero did consent.¹⁰⁸

Meanwhile, Espartero maintained the pressure with a calculated, gradual pace of invasion designed to exact the maximum psychological effect on his opponent. Maroto was also under immense pressure both from the restive Navarrese peasantry and from their King, who grew suspicious and fearful of his commander-in-chief's negotiations and would launch a furious counter-manifesto once the Vergara terms were proclaimed.¹⁰⁹ Both Espartero and Maroto knew that military logic would dictate peace on Cristino terms. Both men carried out secret negotiations via Bayonne and an elaborate fourfold secret code. Maroto was desperate to save face by gaining the concession of either a Cristino fortified town ('victory') or the marriage of Don Carlos's son to the young Isabella ('honour'). Espartero refused both, but reiterated his promise not to harm the *fueros* and his offer of army commissions for Carlist officers as long as Don Carlos was either handed over or sent into exile.¹¹⁰ In the end Maroto caved into these terms, but until the last moment could not actually bring himself to discuss preliminaries at Vergara, deputising General La Torre to lead the delegation in his stead. Whatever the anguish of the Carlist high command, the attitude of the Carlist rank and file had become both so despondent and enraged with army elites that a negotiated peace promised to safeguard against something far worse. When the Carlist generals set out to meet Espartero at Vergara, they found a group of Guipúzcoan deserters in their path. The deserters damned the generals and detained them. The situation might have ended disastrously, but the generals convinced the deserters that they

were on a mission for peace, and Spanish soldiers' love of peace in 1839 was greater than their contempt for their leaders.¹¹¹

Finally, on 29 August 1839, the Vergara settlement was signed. Carlists were to switch allegiance to Isabel II in return for continued careers for officers and men in the reunified army if they desired and Espartero promised to speak in favour of preserving the *fueros* at the reunified Cortes. Anti-*marotista* Carlists left for French exile. The King reached exile safely but not all were so fortunate. General Vicente Moreno, the 'hangman of Málaga' and one of Maroto's great enemies, was caught by Carlist soldiers at Urdax, just one kilometre from the French frontier, and murdered.¹¹² Ironically for its eponymous peace settlement, Vergara was the last Carlist fort to surrender to Espartero's victorious army. Thus, the Treaty of Vergara (also known as the 'Embrace of Vergara' – *Abrazo de Vergara* – for the theatrical embrace that Espartero and Maroto gave each other as a symbol of peace and reconciliation in front of their men) was the compromise peace that ended the war in the north.¹¹³ Thousands of pro-*fueros* Carlists, almost all from the mooted loser provinces of Alava and Navarra, rejected the peace and followed their commanders into French exile. They were right to suspect Maroto's verbal assurance from Espartero that a reunified Spain would 'respect the *fueros*'. Near Elizondo, the Cristino consul at Bayonne reported that four companies of the fifth battalion of Navarra honoured the passing into exile of their King with the cry of 'Death to Maroto, Long Live the King!'¹¹⁴ Risings continued into 1840, such as the failed attempt of Balmaseda to reignite the civil war, but the country was exhausted. Foral privileges were eroded, which was a matter for the Cristino cities as much as the Carlist countryside. Vitoria saw its lucrative customs frontier redeployed at the French and coastal frontier to the benefit of Bilbao and San Sebastián.¹¹⁵

The nineteenth-century Liberal historian, Antonio Pirala, tried to rehabilitate Maroto, but to no effect: Maroto remained forever tarnished with treason in both Romantic eyes and those of the theocratic wing of Carlism.¹¹⁶ Thus, a persistent 'Vergara literature' was spawned, reproducing the myth that Carlism was stabbed in the back but undefeated on the battlefield, the culmination of a betrayal of popular Carlism that began with the connivers of Don Carlos's court and ended with Maroto's treachery.¹¹⁷ The 1898-generation 'Great Man' novelist, Pío Baroja, called Don Carlos's climbdown cowardly.¹¹⁸ Maroto died in exile in Chile, ending his career where he had begun it, having tried to defend two lost causes of Spanish monarchism.

Fighting continued in the east, but not even Cabrera's genius could hope to withstand the 50,000 battle-hardened Cristino troops bearing

down on Aragón. Even before the Vergara settlement there were signs that Carlism was beginning to lose its grip on Catalonia and Aragón. The year 1839 saw the tide turn even against Count España's Carlists in Catalonia. His failure in February 1839 to take the small Cristino town of Balsareny marked the turn of the tide, and turned the town into a martyr of Liberal resistance: troops, militia, Belgian and even women volunteers had all died in its defence and practically every house had its roofs blown off by artillery, some 8,000 sacks being ordered after the battle to provide makeshift shelter. In late May, Carlist fortunes briefly returned when España successfully besieged Ripoll. Overwhelmed by the odds facing them, the Cristino governor accepted a negotiated surrender, his men and arms going into captivity whilst he rejected Carlist guarantees and shot himself in the head. During the negotiations, Carlist emissaries encountered the town's women and children solemnly gathering in the beautiful church of San Pedro. The Carlists removed their berets in respect and let the civilians leave the church so as to avoid being targeted in the event of hostilities restarting. After the takeover, the town was burnt to the ground, and those buildings which had survived the flame were blasted into rubble. Even though Ripoll would rise again, España had achieved what Espoz had done with Castellfullit in 1822. He ordered a memorial plaque to be constructed in the town's ruins saying 'Here was Ripoll'.¹¹⁹

España hoped that the downfall of Meer (a victim of the Radical press campaign), and his replacement as captain-general by Jerónimo Valdés, might improve matters. But Valdés was both an experienced counter-insurgent and, crucially, for Radical opinion, politically to the Left of Meer. When city magnates' refused him a loan he imprisoned them for ransom in the *Ciudadela*, a dictatorial abuse of the state of siege which nonetheless pleased radical opinion.¹²⁰ The financial statistics certainly justified his ruthlessness: Catalonia yielded an annual tax income of 6 million reales whilst military expenditures alone amounted to 8 million. And yet it was the wealthiest Cristino city. Workers had tacitly accepted the reintroduction of the machines since the Bonaplate riots of 1835 because production in general had been booming – as shown by the more than doubling of raw cotton imports to Barcelona between 1824 and 1840 – and the capitalist class was awash with cash.¹²¹ And, now that peace had broken out in the north, until Valdés could get reinforcements he was confined to little more than operations of active defence, such as the bitter battle to resupply Solsona against Carlist attacks during November 1839.¹²² Finally, the end of the war in the north allowed Espartero to reinforce Valdés (only a third of whose

23,000 troops in Catalonia had so far been available for campaigning) with the forces of General Antonio Azpiroz (four veteran battalions, one excellent cavalry squadron, one company of sappers and artillery). These forces arrived at Lérida on 7 November 1839.¹²³

España's notorious theocracy and military discipline had become objectionable because he had stopped winning battles. España's strategic defeat revived the Junta of Berga and gave his enemies the chance to take revenge. España was abducted and forced to appear before the junta, which dismissed him from his command on 26 October 1839. España again tried to temporise, this time literally at knifepoint, but it was to no avail. He pronounced himself happy that his predecessor, José Segarra, was to be appointed his successor but demanded a chance to delay handing over his command until he had conversed with Segarra about confidential military matters which were not appropriate for mere civilians to hear. The junta was unmoved and España began his forced journey into exile in Andorra. Although staying at safe houses en route, travelling by night and undergoing the indignity of being dressed in peasant clothes, España did not have to endure this humiliation for long. After crossing the River Segre close to Orgaña España was strangled by his own escort, and his body dumped in the river.¹²⁴ His assassins, who were operating with uncertain connivance of higher authority, would justify their actions by claiming outrageously that España was a Mason (i.e. Liberal) and about to turn like Maroto. In reality, the Carlists knew that once they had bested this fanatical reactionary, they would have to kill him. Carlos de España, after all, had bloodied Barcelona as its captain-general during the Ominous Decade, and then subjected the Carlist war effort in the Principality to the most unforgivingly draconian discipline since. If he lived he could wreak the most abject revenge upon his enemies, even from exile. Nevertheless, España's assassination caused great controversy.¹²⁵

The whole of the eastern Carlist zone had been traumatised by the events in the Basque country. España had never shown much respect either for the person of Don Carlos or for his Byzantine court. When desperate diehards in Navarra had suggested placing the Carlist Crown Prince at the head of the war effort in the east, España's reply was full of sententious scorn:¹²⁶

Princes, just like all kings, are either too good to be true that we lose them, or are so bad because they are worked on by a rabble of flatterers. And do you believe that if our prince came here or to Aragón he would not be accompanied by a court worse than Satan's? Haven't

you seen what's been happening and it still happening in Navarra? Haven't I told you several times that Navarra on its own is enough to lose us this war?

But the reinforcement of enemy troops made the situation bleak, even for the Tiger of the Maestrazgo. Lord John Hay operated as a conduit for negotiations between Van-Halen and Cabrera to instate the Eliot Treaty in this region. Hay had greater obstacles to overcome in committing Cabrera to the agreement, as the Count of Morella continued to commit atrocities even after his signature had been secured in March 1839. Cabrera was reeling from the loss of a shipment of arms which he had procured in Britain. The Cristino coastguard intercepted a British vessel carrying weapons bound for a remote beach under Carlist control, impounding the cargo in Barcelona. The Cristinos did not know that these arms were detailed for nothing less than a 22,000-strong expedition which Cabrera planned to lead against Madrid in the summer.¹²⁷ Cabrera tried to take this strategic calamity in his stride, reverting to the mystique of the guerrilla:

War has secrets which are not explained in books. Any general who does not know more than what is written down may make an excellent writer of military books and lose all battles at the same time. In the War of Independence we saw how Blake hardly won a single action in spite of being brave and a great tactician... Napoleon's generals who came to Spain were the same, and our guerrillas defeated them... Now all the generals of the Army of the Centre who are fighting me think they have technical superiority over me, and I don't mean to debate this... but war gives results, not theories. I repeat that the science of war has its secrets.¹²⁸

This 'people's war' theme, inherited from the Peninsular War, was a desperate but logical response to enemy superiority. But people's war requires civilian support, and this was ebbing among the war-weary communities of the east. Cabrera found civilians feared Cristino strength whereas once they had feared his own. Cabrera ordered that Segura (Teruel) organise its own Carlist garrison in order to free up his sorely needed troops for deployment elsewhere. Fearing the wrath of the Cristinos, its inhabitants declined, so Cabrera tore down Segura's impressive church, other public buildings and some 350 houses. A total of 1,600 inhabitants were thus turned into homeless refugees, seeking shelter in nearby settlements and the caves of Los Pinares.¹²⁹

The pressure on Cabrera to agree to a more humanitarian conduct of the conflict grew unbearable once Don Carlos added his name to the criticism. The King's censure was wide-ranging, and included criticism of Cabrera's zeal in suppressing even the most moderate Liberal tracts which made it into Carlist territory. Don Carlos did not think it wrong to censor, only that this was the proper duty of the civilian junta, not the military. But Don Carlos's most pressing critique was on humanitarian grounds. Finally, early in April, both Cabrera and Van-Halen put their names to a version of the Eliot Treaty in the eastern zone, Cabrera signing at his headquarters at Segura on 1 April 1839, whereupon the emissary took it for Van-Halen's signature at Lécera on 3 April 1839. Cabrera had initially been piqued that such an important negotiation had first been opened up only verbally when Van-Halen had despatched to him a Carlist prisoner as an emissary. The Treaty of Lécera (known by Carlists as the Treaty of Segura) also excited controversy besides, by civilian politicians and journalists. George Villiers defended Van-Halen's and British government policy in this matter from an attack in the House of Lords by Lord Londonderry on 23 July 1839.¹³⁰ And the international controversy paled in comparison to that raging in the press of Cristino Spain. In particular, the treaty's provisions to protect the lives of captured Carlists who had previously served in Cristino ranks, the insistence that both able-bodied and wounded prisoners be given treatment equal to those of serving soldiers, and the ban placed on deporting prisoners overseas all excited the ire of the Liberal press, which pointed out that these points privileged the Carlists more than the Cristinos.¹³¹ Moreover, problems remained as civilians would still be subject to the rigours and excesses of armies, even though local communities now felt encouraged to strike bargains with local Carlist forces in order to be able to work their lands unmolested (deals which local Cristino forces were obliged to tolerate out of sheer necessity). Also, local commanders were still prone to ignoring or distorting the provisions. Prisoners numbering more than 300, for example, were to be left in open towns devoid of all war-related material and to be quarantined up to a distance of two leagues' radius from any troops. The Carlist deputy comandante general of Aragón interpreted this provision as excluding everyone on pain of death.¹³²

Meanwhile, pressure was mounting on Van-Halen to inflict a decisive defeat on Cabrera. Cabrera still dominated large areas of Aragón, Valencia and Catalonia. Carlist domination included an armed river and coastal flotilla on the Ebro estuary, the only instance in the war where Carlist naval power matched that of the enemy.¹³³ Van-Halen

marched on Segura, but he found the town in ashes as Cabrera had levelled it rather than spend resources on its defence. A series of engagements in March and April 1839 finally wore out Van-Halen's momentum and he was forced to retreat. This sent shock waves through the Liberal government, which had banked on Segura being an easy victory. Bowing to the inevitable, Van-Halen offered his resignation, which was accepted.¹³⁴ War Minister Alaix replaced him with Nogueras, who was appointed on 16 April 1839 but whose ill health required the temporary nomination of General Bartolomé Amor in the interim. On 27 April 1839, War Minister Alaix gave both Amor and Nogueras special instructions to seek out any offensive opportunity against Cabrera in Aragón and Valencia, lest the northern side of the Ebro end up turning into Carlist-dominated territory with all the adverse diplomatic connotations that would produce. In order to streamline this effort, he instructed them not to prioritise payments to the unpopular *asentistas* except in the case of food deliveries.¹³⁵ The latter stipulation was a shrewd response to the renewed crisis of morale in the Army of the Centre, with hunger, lack of footwear and desertion taking their toll.¹³⁶

Banditry and insecurity continued to blunt the by-now nominally massively superior Cristino forces, some 31,556 infantry and 2,136 cavalry in the Army of the Centre in April 1839. Furthermore, this army was riven with unimaginative and timorous commanders who failed to progress from the inflexible tactics of halting their infantry to fire long-distance volleys at Carlists, even though rushing the enemy from the outset would have yielded better results. The army was also chronically undersized by desertion and overstaffed by officers – brigades comprising only 12 companies, each of these commanded by comandantes, being a common phenomenon.¹³⁷ In short, the Cristino offensive was a laborious affair. Thus, the suffering continued to devolve onto civilians. Montalbán (Teruel) had been devastated by Carlists in 1836; now tragedy overtook it again when its National Militia commander, Jaime Vicente, requested from Cabrera a temporary truce so that medicines might replenish the exhausted supplies of the town's hospital which, as stipulated by the Treaty of Lécerá, was treating both Cristino and Carlist casualties on an equal basis. Cabrera refused, but suggested the defenders hoist a flag on the roof of the hospital so that the Carlist artillery would be able to spare it their bombardment. As soon as the flag was hoisted, Carlist artillery rained down a withering fire on the building. In one day some 66 shells fell on the building, reducing it to ruins and killing its inmates, including some 13 of Cabrera's own men. After 50 days of bombardment, the Cristinos abandoned the town, which had

now been reduced to ruins. Against Cabrera's terrorism the Cristinos constructed a narrative of heroic defence, including that of 22-year-old woman, Manuela Cirugeda, who distinguished herself fighting as a soldier in the town's defence.¹³⁸

The Cristinos launched assassination attempts against Cabrera, but he became aware of these plots throughout 1839 and 1840, and took precautionary measures. No one, except trusted comrades, could get close to him. He randomly changed his routines, calling on villages for food and accommodation, in order to either remain anonymous or minimise the chance of malicious plots coming to fruition. A special police force was set up to filter defectors from the Cristinos army for possible assassins and he built up a counter-espionage network which soon foiled Cristino plots. An elaborate plot involving a poisoned dagger hidden in the baggage of a 'Carlist horse-trader' who claimed to be fleeing Madrid was thwarted, the unfortunate assassin being caught, tried and decapitated. More than ever Cabrera began issuing verbal orders rather than committing anything to paper, and subordinates obeyed them down the line of military hierarchy.¹³⁹ Cabrera imposed a reign of terror against civilians who threatened to compromise Carlist positions and morale in any way. In Rossell (Castellón de la Plana) an elderly local notable with whom Cabrera was billeted pleaded with him to realise that the Carlist cause was lost. Making an immediate example of this defeatism, Cabrera marched the old man outside, ordered him to kneel and had him shot from behind by his escort, Cabrera giving the execution order himself.¹⁴⁰ Any sign of communication with the Cristinos could likewise spell death for the civilian involved, however innocent and helpless. A nine-year-old girl from Pobla de Claramunt (Barcelona) who had been sent to carry chocolates to the fortified Carlist weapons factory at Forts del Turó was stopped and searched on her way by some *facciosos* from nearby Igualada. In her basket they discovered a letter from her brother, which confirmed the fall of the Carlist stronghold of Morella. The girl was executed on the spot.¹⁴¹

The Treaty of Vergara ended the war on its main front and promised, finally, to produce Cristino victory in the east. Cabrera was fortunate to receive news of the northern 'treachery' – the northern Carlists had tried to 'prolong their miserable existence by selling out to the revolutionary power' – in the wake of two local Carlist victories at Carboneras and Chulilla. His men were thus well-blooded when he summoned a meeting to give his officers the choice of release from service and safe conduct to their homes, or the strictest discipline and subordination to continue the fight. Clutching at straws, he thought that the coming

of winter would buy them time. He promised the most draconian discipline, including the death penalty for anyone even suspected of desiring *transacción* with the enemy.¹⁴² By giving his officers this sole and fleeting opportunity to abandon the Carlist cause, Cabrera showed that he retained control of the situation. His army, after all, peaked at some 30,000 at the end of 1839, some eight times larger than what he had found in 1835, whilst he cherished hopes that the diehard *apostólico* opponents of Maroto might yet be rallied along the French border for a fresh attempt to reignite the northern front. But Cabrera would need to strain every nerve to resist the 50,000-strong army and overwhelming artillery launched from Zaragoza in October. *Moderados* accused Espartero of delaying his descent on the east in order to maximise his political power, but his gradual rather than rapid offensive still left no one in doubt as to the hopelessness of the Carlists' strategic situation. As we have seen, the immobilisation of Catalan Carlism caused by the España affair gave Cabrera no relief from the north. Cabrera's active defence began well but turned for the worse in mid-December when he fell gravely ill. In February 1840, the Valencia press reported popular manifestations in the Maestrazgo willing Cabrera's recovery, evidence of resilient morale, perhaps, but also evidence of how personalised the leadership of the Carlist east remained.¹⁴³ Whilst Espartero picked off fortified points one by one, Cabrera could not even rise from his bed until May 1840.¹⁴⁴

Cabrera knew that his line could only hold if the war were reignited in the north. But the French police frustrated most plots and prevented suspicious Spaniards from concentrating on the border. Despite these measures, it was remarkable that Balmaseda still managed to invade the Spanish Basque country in June 1840 with some 510 men and 470 cavalry. But this failed to reignite the war. Seeing this, Cabrera, on 5 July 1840, crossed the French frontier at the head of some 4,600 infantry and 300 cavalry.¹⁴⁵ Cristino forces now occupied all national territory. But the victorious Liberals did not take any chances. The major Carlist arms foundries at Villarluengo were destroyed in order to dissuade local Carlists from restarting the war. The First Carlist War was over.¹⁴⁶

Conclusions

At the war's end in 1840, the Catalan priest and 'common sense' philosopher, Jaime Balmés, posited an apposite question: 'if the Carlists had been nothing more than a gang of thieves and outlaws, why could the Cristino armies not destroy them?'¹ Of course, thieves and outlaws may have used Carlism as a flag of convenience, but this was largely outside the safe zones of the Basque country, and to a lesser extent, Catalonia and the Maestrazgo. But Balmés was correctly parodying the self-assured arrogance that made Spanish Liberals view opposition to their transition and regime as a symptom of rural, priest-ridden ignorance. The Cristino denigration of their enemy as 'bandits', *caribes* and *facciosos* was as facile as the Carlists' fight against *negros* and 'usurpers'. Yet the fact that Carlist wars would resurface (in 1846, in 1872 and again in 1936), albeit on nothing like the scale of the first war, showed that there was no peace and reconciliation, and the persistence of belligerent language represented far deeper tensions.

For one thing, the peace of 1840 was really no peace at all. Spain would remain in a revolutionary versus counter-revolutionary crisis until 1844 at least, when a draconian *moderado* crackdown and the institution of the first rural gendarmerie (Civil Guard) illegalised most open recourses to popular radicalism (i.e. definitively abolishing the veterans' Militia) while also presiding over the first real economic boom of the nineteenth century. The immediate weeks and months after the conflict saw violence persist. The Vergara settlement had positive effects in Asturias and Galicia where 'Carlists' had to revert to banditry and were therefore targeted by united local communities.² But it was powerless in other areas to arrest violence. The area around Ciudad Real (New Castile) was particularly disfigured by conflicts between 'Liberals' and 'Carlists', which quickly turned into a cycle of blood vendettas, in which

women, even pregnant ones, and children, and sometimes whole families, were massacred. On 25 August 1839, four days before the northern peace, families of Carlists began to be held as hostages to be targeted in reprisals for atrocities from the other side. Gradually this draconian peace began to work, as villages could see themselves reconnected with each other and the outside world, and 'Carlist' fighters who failed to submit to the Peace Treaty could now be hunted down as criminals instead of legitimate enemies. On several occasions local communities, freed from the fear of organised reprisals, took the initiative in hunting down their persecutors. But as so many Carlists continued to be active as brigands beyond the law after the Treaty of Vergara, some unfortunates continued to be held and killed several months after the formal end of hostilities. Francisco Martín, for example, was the four-year-old son of a wanted Carlist. He was held hostage and remained in detention despite the frantic efforts of the residents of his home village of Fuente el Fresno to retrieve him. On 4 July 1840, the prison commanders ordered a captive to be executed in reprisal for a Carlist outrage and young Francisco drew the fatal lot. Being led out to face his firing squad, Francisco was too young to understand the fate that was about to befall him. He thought the soldiers were going to play with him: 'Will you buy me some oranges, and you won't hurt me, will you soldiers? Nor my father or mother either?' The soldiers were beside themselves with grief about their orders. They temporised frantically, hoping against hope for their orders to be countermanded, but to no avail. In desperation they retrieved an orange and threw it in front of the firing squad and encouraged the boy to fetch it. The soldiers opened fire and Francisco fell, claspings his stomach wounds before crawling towards the soldiers pleading 'Don't kill me, don't hurt me.' Obeying orders the soldiers let loose a second volley which killed the child outright. The child's father later gave himself up and carried on serving in the newly unified army under Liberal command. Conditions in Espartero's army grew so bad that the man joined a 'Carlist' rebellion which killed some officers at Fernán Caballero, a village ten miles away from where his son had been executed. He was caught and executed by slow strangulation in Madrid on 9 February 1843. His wife, Francisco's mother, survived.³

Perpetrators of terrible atrocities remained at large and were effectively amnestied by the Vergara settlement. Carlist exterminating angels were exonerated with the restoration of full diplomatic relations between the Spanish Church and the Holy See via the Concordat of 1851. José Lorente, the priest who had ordered the massacre of 73 Cristino prisoners by a roadside in October 1836, lived a long and quiet life, and was

still practising in his home parish 30 years later, being paid a stipend from the Liberal state he had tried to overthrow.⁴

But the real legacy of Spain's bloodiest civil war was embodied in the thousands of individual anonymous tragedies, beyond the ken of historians. Often these were given a radical political meaning. Widows guarded their martyred menfolk's memory, cherishing images of Espartero as the people's war hero, hanging veterans' militia uniforms in a pride of place. When militia veterans presided over the 1841 exhumation of the massacred victims of the 1835 Carlist atrocity at Rubielos, they did so not just to remember these martyrs to liberty, but also to reaffirm the claim of the citizenry-in-arms to a stake in Spain's Liberal future.⁵ The suppression of the militia in 1844 did not remove it as an actual force. Disbanded veterans retained their own networks which sometimes sprang into life during later revolutions. Neither Cristino militia nor soldiers remained silent about their harsh treatment imposed upon them as a consequence of the peace treaty, the failure of land redistribution or even of decent conditions of service in the peacetime army.

The Cristino victory was attributed to Espartero, leftist war hero and 'Duke of Victory'. His success was a cause for both national and sectarian celebration. Whereas his victory parade through Barcelona was so rapturous that he had to dismount and allow himself to be carried aloft by the crowd, in Seville, where Espartero's presence was substituted by a giant portrait, thousands marched against the *moderados* and several hundred hotheads burnt to the ground the office of the rightist *El Conservador* newspaper.⁶ Espartero was leading a groundswell of veterans' opinions against the socially regressive centralisation of political power inherent in the *moderado* abolition of the autonomy of all but the smallest municipalities. Both militia and army veterans joined this 'peace dividend' revolution, and the situation in Granada, where the army took no time at all in following the lead of the militia, was typical.⁷ Hopes were briefly raised by the 'peace dividend' revolution of October 1840, caused by *moderado* attempts to abolish municipal autonomy, and which forced the abdication of that obsolescent symbol of the conflict, María Cristina, and her replacement the following year as sole regent by the war hero, Baldomero Espartero. The revolution was started by hundreds of thousands of militia and army veterans, and it was their common identity as veterans of a struggle for liberty which united them. Many veterans were swept up in the class conflict that reached an unprecedented scale in Barcelona during 1842 and again in 1843, and it ended up ousting Espartero from power. The economic tensions

behind the conflict exploded into violence in city barricades manned by Carlist War veterans.

The peace was cruel to the losers, especially in the Basque country which saw a spike in emigration in the early 1840s, in response to the stripping away of the economic privileges vested in the *fueros*, and an economic slump made worse by the devastation and a triumphalist *esparterista* elite. As for the vanquished Basque provinces, the Vergara settlement did nothing to stop the ongoing concentration of power in the hands of local elites; in fact, it actually encouraged it. Whilst most of the *fueros* were left intact, the definitive removal of the Spanish customs frontier to the Pyrenees privileged the liberal, commercial oligarchies of San Sebastián and Bilbao at the expense of the paternalistic, socially harmonious Carlist heartland of Vitoria.⁸ As for returning Carlist soldiers, little was done for them. The Basque armaments industry was prevented from supplying the Liberal army, despite the fact that the largest factory, that of Eibar, had been longer in Cristino hands during the previous seven years than in those of the Carlists. Workers made redundant, along with demobilised Carlist soldiers, were thus driven to emigrate to Cuba and the River Plate (Montevideo). The winter and spring of 1841 witnessed a surge in emigration from Spain's northern ports, whilst newspapers related depressing coverage of the haemorrhage of youth, many of the latter ending up shipwrecked, indentured or exploited upon arrival in Cuba and Spain's former colonies.⁹

The years 1833–40 had submerged Spain in a collective trauma which killed between 2 and 4 per cent of the 1833 population, and damaged the lives of hundreds of thousands of survivors. The significance of the First Carlist War is more than what has traditionally been attributed to it (namely, praetorianism in Liberal politics, proxy for Liberal revolution and the defiance of Europe's most enduring legitimism). It also created new patterns of popular politics which owed their origins to the sacrifices of communities (army, militia and civilian) that had been exposed to the conflict. This phenomenon shaped the *progresista* revolution of 1840. Above all, the length and scale of the conflict proved to be an enduring motor for Spain's political modernity and, in particular, a model for plebeian action in Liberal politics. Thus, this book argues that the First Carlist War shaped Spain's post-Napoleonic crisis more than it was shaped by it.

Notes

1 Introduction, History and Sources

1. Geoffrey Wawro's *Warfare and Society in Europe, 1792–1914* (London, 1999), for example, offers brief analysis of the Peninsular War, the French invasion of 1823 and two pages on the Spanish American War of 1898, but nothing on the First Carlist War.
2. José Álvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa: la idea de España en el siglo XIX* (Madrid, 2001), 22, 366.
3. Antonio Pirala, *Historia de la Guerra civil y de los partidos liberal y carlista (Tomo I: desde la Regencia de Urgel hasta la dimisión de Zumalacárregui* (Madrid, 1984), I, 50–57.
4. Alfonso Bullón de Mendoza, 'La primera guerra carlista' (PhD thesis, E-print Biblioteca Universidad Complutense, 2002), 77.
5. España. Ministerio de Educación, Cultura y Deporte. Archivo Histórico Nacional, DIVERSOS-TITULOS_FAMILIAS, 3353, Exp. 30: King's annulment of the Pragmatic Sanction.
6. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 117–127.
7. Radical-Liberal historians, meanwhile, virtually ignored the dynastic question altogether, casting the war instead as 'liberty versus the Inquisition' (F. Cabello, F. Santa Cruz and R. M. Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última en Aragón y Valencia* (Madrid, 1845), I, 17).
8. This rests on Don Carlos's birth, in 1788, one year before the secret Cortes decree which had no legitimacy to revoke a God-given birthright.
9. Jordi Canal, *El carlismo* (Madrid, 2004), 402–404.
10. Foreword by Julio Aróstegui (i–lxiii) to Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, vii–lvii.
11. C. A. M. Hennessey, *The Federal Republic in Spain: Pi y Margall and the Federal Republican Movement, 1868–1874* (Oxford, 1962), 170.
12. This model is explored in Thomas W. Laqueur, 'Bodies, Details and the Humanitarian Narrative', in Lynn Hunt (ed.), *The New Cultural History* (California, 1992), 176–204.
13. Pedro Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra última en Aragón y Valencia (escrita por F. Cabello, F. Santa Cruz y R. M. Temprado)* (Zaragoza, 2006), xxxiv, lxiii–lxx.
14. Canal, *El carlismo*, 435–436.
15. The most prominent examples were Javier de Burgos, *Anales del reinado de Isabel II*, 6 vols (Madrid, 1850–51), Modesto Lafuente, *Historia general de España*, Vol. 20 (Madrid, 1890), and Ildefonso Antonio Bermejo, *La estafeta del palacio*, Vol. 1 (Madrid, 1872).
16. Especially, Rafael Ciudad Gamba, *La primera guerra civil de España (1821–23)* (Madrid, 1950); Román Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo* (Madrid, 1965); Jaime del Burgo, *Para la historia de la primera guerra carlista: comentarios y acotaciones a un manuscrito de la época 1834–1839* (Pamplona, 1981).

17. Melchor Ferrer, Domingo Tejera and José F. Acedo, *Historia del tradicionalismo español*, Vols I–XVIII (Madrid, 1941–50); José Ramón Urquijo Goitia, 'Historiografía sobre la primera guerra carlista', in *Bulletin d'Histoire Contemporaine de l'Espagne*, No. 17–18, June–December 1993, 414–415; Canal, *El carlismo*, 407–410.
18. Federico Suárez Verdeguer, *La crisis política del antiguo régimen en España (1800–1840)* (Madrid, 1950); José Luis Comellas García-Llera, *El trienio constitucional* (Madrid, 1963); Pedro Pegenaute, *Represión política en el reinado de Fernando VII: las comisiones militares (1824–1825)* (Pamplona, 1974).
19. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 685; Suárez had said the same (Suárez, *Crisis política del antiguo régimen*, 14, 24).
20. Canal, *El carlismo*, 410.
21. Josep Carles Clemente, *Las guerras carlistas* (Barcelona, 1982), 84–85; *Las guerras carlistas* (Sarpe, 1986), 109–142.
22. Clemente, *Guerras carlistas*, 117–118.
23. Clemente was seizing on Karl Marx's observation that Carlism during its Second War (1872–76) was a form of 'feudal socialism' (Clemente, *Guerras carlistas*, 219).
24. E.g. José Extramiana, *Historia de las guerras carlistas* (San Sebastián, 1979), I, 125–126.
25. Cit. Canal, *El carlismo*, 410.
26. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 651–664. A study demystifying the Basque *fueros*, although not from a neo-traditionalist viewpoint, may be found in Coro Rubio Pobes, *Revolución y tradición: el país vasco ante la revolución liberal y la construcción del estado liberal, 1808–1868* (Madrid, 1996).
27. *El Castellano*, 4 March 1837.
28. Another *moderado* newspaper, for example, complained of how conscripts in Málaga province were deserting in the name of liberty and operating as bandits in nearby mountains and stealing from local property owners (*El Español*, 21 May 1836; 31 May 1836).
29. Canal, *El carlismo*, 416–422.
30. Urquijo Goitia, 'Historiografía sobre la primera guerra carlista', 437.
31. Pedro Rújula, *Contrarrevolución realismo y carlismo en Aragón y el Maestrazgo: 1820–1840* (Zaragoza, 1998); Urquijo Goitia, *¿Voluntarios o quintos?: reclutamiento y deserción en la primera guerra carlista: Violencias fratricidas. Carlistas y liberales en el siglo XIX* (Pamplona, 2009).
32. Eric Christiansen discussed army politics from the viewpoint of the élites (Christiansen, *The Origins of Military Power in Spain, 1800–1854* (Oxford, 1967), 42–107). Edgar Holt's bold title proves to be little more than a cue to discuss court politics and the activities of the British Auxiliary Legion (Holt, *The Carlist Wars in Spain* (London, 1967), 13–193), the latter force being the subject of an engaging but old-fashioned study (Edward M. Brett, *The British Auxiliary Legion in the First Carlist War in Spain, 1835–1838: A Forgotten Army* (Dublin, 2005), *passim*) and of a non-academic work comparing British intervention in Greece, Portugal and Spain (Moises Enrique Rodríguez, *Under the Flags of Freedom: British Mercenaries in the War of the Two Brothers, the First Carlist War, and the Greek War of Independence (1821–1840)* (Lanham, 2009).
33. John F. Coverdale, *The Basque Phase of Spain's First Carlist War* (Princeton, 1984).

34. Miguel Artola, *La burguesía revolucionaria* (Madrid, 1974); Carlos Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844): A New Society* (London, 1977); Juan Sisinio Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional y revolución burguesa: el prototipo madrileño 1808–1874* (Madrid, 1978); Diego López Garrido, *La Guardia Civil y los orígenes del estado centralista* (Madrid, 1982).
35. Julio Aróstegui Sánchez, 'La aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', in *Historia de España: La era isabelina y el sexenio democrático (1834–1874)*, XXXIV, begun by Ramón Menéndez Pidal and edited by José María Jover Zamora (Madrid, 1981), 75–81.
36. E.g. Manuel Chust, *Ciudadanos en armas: la milicia nacional en el País Valenciano (1834–1840)* (Valencia, 1987).
37. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 49; Alberto Risco, *Zumalacárregui en campaña. Según los documentos conservados por su secretario de estado mayor, don Antonio Zaratiegui* (Madrid, 1935), 300–301.
38. Extramiana, *Guerras carlistas*, I, 23–24; Clemente, *Guerras carlistas*, 219.
39. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 669.
40. Julio Aróstegui, Jordi Canal and Eduardo G. Calleja, *Las guerras carlistas: hechos, hombres e ideas* (Madrid, 2003), 23.
41. Especially, Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, and Urquijo Goitia, *¿Voluntarios o quintos?*.
42. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 136–145.
43. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 294–308.
44. Francisco Asín Remírez de Esparza, *El carlismo aragonés, 1833–40* (Zaragoza, 1983), 32–36.
45. Paul Preston, *The Spanish Holocaust: Inquisition and Extermination in Twentieth-Century Spain* (London, 2012), 63–64.
46. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 221–223; Fernando Fernández de Córdova, *Mis memorias íntimas* (Madrid, 1886), I, 376; George de Lacy Evans, *Memoranda of the Contest in Spain* (London, 1840), 11–12.
47. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 264.
48. Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 329–330; Mark Kurlansky, *The Basque History of the World* (London, 2000); Extramiana, *Guerras carlistas*, I, 41.
49. Extramiana, *Guerras carlistas*, 106–121, 154; Juan José Solozábal, *El primer nacionalismo vasco: industrialismo y conciencia nacional* (Tucar Ediciones, 1975), 290–294.
50. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 22–27, 70–71; Extramiana, *Guerras carlistas*, 129.
51. J. Antonio Zaratiegui, *Vida y hechos de don Tomás de Zumalacárregui* (Madrid, 1845), 11–12; Wilhelm von Rahden, *Aus Spaniens Bürgerkrieg* (Berlin, 1851), 34.
52. Ferrer, Tejera and Acedo, *Tradicionalismo español*, V, 221.
53. Josep Carles Clemente, *El carlismo: historia de una disidencia social (1833–1976)* (Barcelona, 1990), 38.
54. The Ebro frontier benefited the consumer interests of Navarra and Alava rather than the producer interests of coastal Vizcaya and Guipúzcoa (Renato Barahon Arévalo, *Vizcaya on the Eve of Carlism: Politics and Society, 1800–1833* (Nevada, 1989), 125–26).
55. José Ramón Urquijo Goitia, 'La primera Guerra carlista desde la ideología nacionalista vasca', in *Vasconia*, Vol. 26 (1998), 65–110, 70, 109; Marianne Heiberg, *The Making of the Basque Nation* (Cambridge, 1989), 36; Clemente, *El carlismo*, 40–41.

56. Stanley Payne, 'Catalan and Basque Nationalism', in *Journal of Contemporary History*, Vol. 6, No. 1, Nationalism and Separatism (1971), 15–51, 37.
57. Canal, *El carlismo*, 415–416; Brett, *British Auxiliary Legion*.
58. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 449; Urquijo Goitia, 'Historiografía sobre la primera guerra carlista', 414–415.
59. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 20–21.
60. Martin Blinkhorn, *Carlism and Crisis in Spain, 1931–1939* (Cambridge, 1975), 6–16.
61. Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra*, lxxxvii–lxxxix.
62. Manuel Ardit Lucas, *Revolución liberal y revuelta campesina* (Barcelona, 1977), 70.
63. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 32–36.
64. Miguel Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias del general don Francisco Espoz y Mina* (Madrid, 1962), II, 324.
65. Evaristo San Miguel, *De la guerra civil de España* (Madrid, 1836), 86–91.
66. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)* 118–123.
67. Aróstegui, Canal, and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 150–151; Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 104; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 13.
68. Artola, *Burguesía revolucionaria*, 90–112.
69. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 18–19, 170. In fact, as we have seen, it was the impoverishment on the margins of these advanced areas which led to the popularity of Carlism.
70. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 717–718.
71. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 11–21.
72. Evarist Olcina, *El carlismo y las autonomías regionales* (Madrid, 1974), 61.
73. Urquijo Goitia, *¿Voluntarios o quintos?*, 106–108, 117.
74. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 38–39.
75. Aróstegui, Canal and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 15.
76. Alexandra Wilhelmsen, *La formación del pensamiento político del carlismo, 1810–1875* (Madrid, 1995).
77. Geoffrey Jensen, 'Counterinsurgency at Home and Abroad', in Wayne H. Bowen and José E. Álvarez (eds.), *A Military History of Modern Spain* (Westport, CT, 2007), 21.

2 The First Carlist War: Origins

1. Ronald Fraser, *Napoleon's Cursed War: Popular Resistance in the Spanish Peninsular War* (London, 2008), 432–481.
2. Charles J. Esdaile, 'War and Politics in Spain, 1808–1814', in *The Historical Journal*, Vol. 31, No. 2 (June 1988), 295–317. The administrative apparatus of Bourbon Spain underwent militarisation during the eighteenth century, whereby offices of secretaries of state were increasingly filled by military men and the powers exercised by captains-general in provincial administration came to eclipse the respective authority theoretically held by government ministers (José Cepeda Gómez, *El ejército Español en la política Española (1787–1843): conspiraciones y pronunciamientos en los comienzos de la España liberal* (Madrid, 1990), 144–145).

3. Alicia Laspra, 'La ayuda británica', in Antonio Moliner Prada (ed.), *La Guerra de la Independencia en España (1808–1814)* (Barcelona, 2007), 153–182.
4. Juan Romero Alpuente, *Wellington en España y Ballesteros en Ceuta* (Cádiz, 1813), 1–26.
5. For the best deconstruction of the 'guerrilla myth', see Charles J. Esdaile, *Fighting Napoleon: Guerrillas, Bandits and Adventurers in Spain 1808–1814* (London, 2004). For a less convincing defence of the orthodox 'people's war' paradigm, see Fraser, *Napoleon's Cursed War*.
6. Cepeda Gómez, *El ejército Español en la política española*, 304–305.
7. B.U.Z. Faustino Casamayor, Años políticos e históricos de las cosas más particulares ocurridas en la Imperial Augusta y siempre heroica Ciudad de Zaragoza, Vol. 31 (1814): May diary entries.
8. Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 349–350.
9. Coverdale, *Basque Phase of the Carlist War*, 242, 296; Harold Dana Sims, *The Expulsion of Mexico's Spaniards, 1821–1836* (Pittsburgh, 1990); Renato Barahon Arévalo, 'The Origins and Causes of Carlism in Vizcaya, 1759–1833', in Stanley Payne (ed.), *Identidad y nacionalismo en la España contemporánea: el carlismo (1833–1975)* (Madrid, 1996), 21–22; Extramiana, *Historia de las guerras carlistas*, I, 33–35, 52.
10. A.H.N. Consejos, leg. 3781, Vol. I, No. 2: 7 October 1826 recirculation of Martin de Garay's 30 May 1817 tax reforms.
11. The complex jurisdiction and generally low productivity of Spanish agriculture is a vast question. As Islamic Spain was gradually 'reconquered' over the course of the Middle Ages, vast swathes of land were given as entail (which could be neither bought nor sold) in perpetuity to the victorious nobility, Church and military orders. These bodies enjoyed considerable degrees of economic and jurisdictional autonomy (*fueros*) under the Crown, and so provoked the ire of eighteenth-century enlightened absolutist monarchs who wanted to establish uniform state control, and whose ministers strove to achieve this end. In 1767, Campomanes began a project aimed at settling deserted land by establishing *nuevas poblaciones* under regal jurisdiction. The following year, Olavide proposed reforms designed to improve access to the land, whilst by the 1790s, Jovellanos was urging the proto-Liberal need to introduce a free market in land. Even if these reforms achieved little in practice, the intellectual argument for 'disentailment' (*desamortización*) had been largely won by the time the post-1808 Liberals set about freeing up property in earnest, most comprehensively during the Carlist War.
12. Javier García Fernández, *El origen del municipio constitucional: autonomía y centralización en Francia y en España* (Madrid, 1983), 304–305.
13. Cit. Juan Francisco Fuentes and Lluís Roura i Aulinas (eds), *Sociabilidad y liberalismo en la España del siglo XIX* (Lleida, 2001), 81.
14. Francisco J. Hernández Montalbán, *La abolición de los señoríos en España (1811–1837)* (Madrid, 1999), 185–199.
15. Miguel Artola, *La España de Fernando VII* (Madrid, 1999), 425–430.
16. Jules Renouard, *Narración de D. Juan Van Halen, Gefe de Estado Mayor de una de las divisiones de Mina en 1822 y 1823, ó relación circunstanciada de su cautividad en los calabozos de la Inquisición, su evasión y su emigración* (Paris, 1828), II, 58.

17. Andrés Sarría Muñoz, *Breve historia de Málaga* (Málaga, 1995), 74–81; Francisco Javier Maestrojuán Catalán, *Ciudad de vasallos, Nación de heroes (Zaragoza: 1809–1814)* (Zaragoza, 2003), 510.
18. José Luis Comellas, *Los primeros pronunciamientos en España, 1814–1820* (Madrid, 1958), 355–368.
19. José María Iribarren, *Espoz y Mina: El Liberal* (Madrid, 1967), 179–182.
20. María del Pilar Ramos Rodríguez, *La conspiración del triángulo* (Sevilla, 1970), 3–19.
21. Alberto Gil Novales (ed.), *Rafael del Riego: La revolución de 1820, día a día: cartas, escritos y discursos (Prólogo, biografía sucinta, notas y recopilación de documentos por Alberto Gil Novales)* (Madrid, 1976), 45–46.
22. Nicolás Sánchez-Albornoz, *Las crisis de subsistencias de España en el siglo XIX* (Rosario, 1963), 16–17.
23. T. M. Hughes, *Revelations of Spain in 1845* (London, 1845), II, 179.
24. Antonio Moliner Prada, *Revolución burguesa y movimiento juntero en España* (Lleida, 1997), 109–110; Thomas Bunbury, *Reminiscences of a Veteran: Being Personal and Military Adventures in Portugal, Spain, France, Malta, New South Wales, Norfolk Island, New Zealand, Andaman Islands and India* (London, 1861), II, 48–54.
25. Cit. Riego, *Revolución de 1820, día a día*, 38.
26. The Inquisition had become hated as the agent for the police state. That said, as with the storming of the Bastille in 1789, only a handful of political prisoners was found, none of whom bore signs of torture (*La abolición de la Inquisición Española*, 85–86).
27. Comellas, *Trienio constitucional*, 51.
28. Alberto Gil Novales, *Las sociedades patrióticas (1820–1823)* (Madrid, 1975), 116–117.
29. Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional y revolución burguesa*, 97–109.
30. B.U.Z. Casamayor, XXXVII (1820): 21 April 1820 transcription of Junta Gubernativa resolution to establish National Militia.
31. *Diario de Sesiones de Cortes*, No. 69, 11 September 1820, 931; No. 68, 26 April 1821, 1278–79; No. 30, 24 October 1821, 369–370.
32. Manuel Moreno Alonso, *Blanco White: la obsesión de España* (Sevilla, 1998), 470.
33. Victor Uribe Urán, *Honorable Lives: Lawyers, Family and Politics in Colombia, 1750–1850* (Pittsburgh, 2000), 9–31.
34. Jaime Elías Torras, *Liberalismo y rebeldía campesina (1820–1823)* (Barcelona, 1976), 149–164.
35. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 22–23.
36. Cepeda Gómez, *El ejército Español en la política española*, 304–305.
37. Comellas, *Trienio constitucional*, 83; Isidoro Lara Martín-Portugués, *Jaén (1820–1823): La lucha por la libertad durante el trienio liberal* (Jaén, 1996), 204–205.
38. Gil Novales, *Sociedades patrióticas*, 574–577.
39. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 38.
40. Raul Pérez López-Portillo, *La España de Riego* (Madrid, 2005), 303.
41. *El Espectador*, Spring–Summer 1821.
42. A.G.P. Papeles Reservados de FVII, 67, Palacio, folios 28, 219, 221: post-1823 government reports on secret societies.
43. *El Espectador*, 8 September 1821; Florencia Peyrou, *El republicanismo popular en España 1840–1843* (Cádiz, 2002), 45.

44. Torras, *Liberalismo y rebeldía*, 49–50.
45. In the judgement of the French ambassador after his country's 1823 invasion: 'Taxes paid in kind are nothing at all here: what is a real burden is tax paid in cash. One of the greatest errors of the Cortes government was to have established this reform: one of the greatest sources of hatred felt by the nation towards the government' (cit. Pérez López-Portillo, *La España de Riego*, 358).
46. *El Universal Observador Español*, 10 March 1821; Manuel Tuñón de Lara, *El movimiento obrero en la historia de España* (Madrid, 1985), I, 54–55; Julio Berenguer Barceló, *Historia de Alcoy* (Alcoy, 1977), II, 90–96.
47. *DSC*, No. 12, 9 March 1821, 382.
48. Gil Novales, *Sociedades patrióticas*, 127.
49. Comellas García-Llera, *El trienio constitucional*, 43.
50. María Cruz Romeo Mateo, *Entre el orden y la revolución: La formación de la burguesía liberal en la crisis de la monarquía absoluta (1814–1833)* (Alicante, 1993).
51. Iris M. Zavala, *Masones, comuneros y carbonarios* (Madrid, 1971), 72–75; Antonio Eiras Roel, *Sociedades secretas republicanas en el reinado de Isabel II* (Madrid, 1962), 6.
52. Charles J. Esdaile, *Spain in the Liberal Age: From Constitution to Civil War, 1808–1939* (Oxford, 2000), 55.
53. Gamba Ciudad, *Primera guerra civil*.
54. Artola, *España de Fernando VII*, 640–644.
55. Emilio La Parra, *Los cien mil hijos de San Luis: El ocaso del primer impulso liberal en España* (Madrid, 2007), 100–121.
56. Gil Novales, *Sociedades patrióticas*, 401–402; Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 25.
57. *El Espectador*, 24 December 1822; 9 January 1823; 14 January 1823; 13 February 1823.
58. A.H.N. Estado, 125, No. 31: 22 September 1822 resolution published by Council of State addressing collaboration between villagers and enemy agents.
59. Iribarren, *Espoz y Mina*, 341–345.
60. Comellas, *Trienio constitucional*, 216.
61. *El Mundo: Diario del Pueblo*, 20 April 1838.
62. Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional*, 338; Eiras Roel, *Sociedades secretas*, 10.
63. Coverdale, *Basque Phase of the Carlist War*, 118–119.
64. Pedro Rújula, *Constitución o Muerte: el trienio liberal y los levantamientos realistas en Aragón (1820–1823)* (Zaragoza, 2000), 195–204.
65. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 23–28; Lara Martín-Portugués, *Jaén (1820–1823)*, 316.

3 The First Carlist War: Context

1. A.H.N., *Diversos (títulos y familia)*, leg. 3353, doc. 6: 24 July 1823 proclamation by Antonio Salinas de Orellana, Comandante militar of the province of Córdoba.
2. *Eco del Comercio*, 14 September 1838.

3. Josep Fontana, *De en medio del tiempo: la segunda restauración española, 1823–1834* (Barcelona, 2006), 50–71; Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 131–132.
4. Irene Castells, 'La opinion pública ante la invasion francesa: Cataluña (1823)', in Francisco Fuentes and Roura i Aulinas (eds), *Sociabilidad y liberalismo*, 147–156.
5. Raymond Carr, *Spain (1808–1975)* (Oxford, 1982), 141.
6. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 420; Miguel Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias del general Don Francisco Espoz y Mina* (Madrid, 1962), II, 117.
7. Irene Castells, *La utopía insurreccional del liberalismo: Torrijos y las conspiraciones liberales de la década ominosa* (Barcelona, 1989), 55.
8. Aróstegui, Canal and Calleja (eds), *Las guerras*, 37–38; Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 75.
9. Comellas, *Trienio constitucional*, 312; Gerald Brenan, *The Spanish Labyrinth* (Cambridge, 1967), 97.
10. Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra última*, lxxxvi–lxxxix.
11. López Garrido, *Guardia Civil y los orígenes del estado centralista*, 26–27; Victor G. Kiernan, *The Revolution of 1854 in Spanish History* (Oxford, 1966), 3.
12. Pegenaute, *Represión política en el reinado de Fernando VII*, 84–87.
13. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 38–39.
14. A.M.M. 3/183, *Anales de Málaga: 1822–1889* (Recortes de la Unión Mercantil), 11–14.
15. Fernando Bellver Amará, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui* (Madrid, 2010), 221.
16. Artola, *España de Fernando VII*, 865, 922–923.
17. Fontana, *De en medio*, 165–193.
18. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 24–25.
19. Eiras Roel, *Sociedades secretas republicanas*, 17–18.
20. A.G.P. C-27, no. 146, Reinados, Fernando VII, 27: 25 July 1824 letter from Don Carlos to the King.
21. Garrido, *La Guardia Civil y los orígenes del Estado centralista*, 48.
22. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 48.
23. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 31.
24. Eric J. Hobsbawm, *The Age of Revolution: 1789–1848* (London, 1962), 146–48; *Primitive Rebels* (Manchester, 1974), 13–26.
25. Esdaile, *Fighting Napoleon*.
26. Torras, *Liberalismo y rebeldía*, 177–197.
27. Francisco Garrido, *Bandidos, bandoleros y contrabandistas en la Serranía de Ronda* (Málaga, 2001), 69–156.
28. Cit. Fontana, *De en medio*, 157–158.
29. Fontana, *De en medio*, 114–117; Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional*, 344–352.
30. Castells, *Utopía insurreccional*, 26–53; A.H.N., Estado, leg. 217–212, No. 17: 9 March 1826 advice from *camarilla* to King on how to proceed with the manifesto of Antonio Fernández Bazán.
31. A.G.P., C-27, No. 181, Reinados, Fernando VII, 27: 26 July 1826 complaint from Don Carlos to the King.
32. *Manifiesto que dirige al pueblo español una federación de realistas puros sobre el estado de la nación y sobre la necesidad de elevar al trono al serenísimo señor infante Don Carlos* (Madrid, 1 November 1826), reproduced at <http://hispanianova.rediris.es/textos/manifiesto1.htm> (accessed 20 March 2013).

33. Jaime Elías Torras, *La guerra de los Agraviados* (Barcelona, 1967), 1–40.
34. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 90.
35. Fontana, *De en medio*, 229–230; Coverdale, *Basque Phase of Spain's First Carlist War*, 14.
36. Fontana, *De en medio*, 224–225.
37. *Eco del Comercio*, 9 March 1837; Fontana, *De en medio*, 102.
38. Coverdale, *Basque Phase of Spain's First Carlist War*, 241.
39. Torras, *Agraviados*, 98.
40. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 65.
41. Torras, *Agraviados*, 66–94.
42. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 78–79.
43. Charles J. Emdin, 'Enlightened Absolutism versus Theocracy in the Spanish Restoration, 1814–1850', in David Laven and Lucy Riall (eds), *Napoleon's Legacy: Problems of Government in Restoration Europe* (Oxford, 2000), 65–82.
44. Coverdale, *Basque Phase of Spain's First Carlist War*, 11–28, 294–308.
45. Pirala, *Guerra Civil*, I, 43–48.
46. A.H.N., Estado, leg. 3141, No. 1, docs 1–433: December 1827 letters and proclamations of Portuguese *miguelistas*.
47. Castells, *Utopía insurreccional*, 26–27.
48. A.H.N., Consejos, leg. 3781, Vol. 1, No. 9: Interior Ministry suppression of the 14-page *Llanto de la madre España*.
49. Pío Baroja y Nessi, *Siluetas Románticas (y otras historias de pillos y de extravagantes)* (Madrid, 1934), 78; Romero Alpuente pressurised the influential Hispanophile, Lord Holland, into interceding with Prime Minister Wellington on his behalf, but no subsidy was forthcoming (Manuel Moreno Alonso, *La forja del liberalismo en España: los amigos españoles de Lord Holland, 1793–1840* (Madrid, 1997), 394–396). Romero Alpuente's pamphleteering during the Peninsular War had attacked Wellington as a 'Tory threat' to Spanish liberty and Spain's protected American markets (Romero Alpuente, *Wellington en España*).
50. Castells, *Utopía insurreccional*, 153.
51. Moreno Alonso, *Forja del liberalismo en España*.
52. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 154–173.
53. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 127–139.
54. Admittedly, on Madrid's insistence the Spanish émigrés were cut off both from the frontier and financial support. But the Cristino transition would soon rescue the émigrés and they were even invited to serve in the new Foreign Legion. Ironically, during the Carlist War, instead of Spanish Liberals going to the Foreign Legion, the Legion would go to Liberal Spain (Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 140–143; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 184, 198–204).
55. Iribarren, *Espoz y Mina*, 374–375.
56. Coverdale, *Basque Phase of Spain's First Carlist War*, 103–104; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 252–257; Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 358.
57. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 146–148; Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 88; Artola, *Burguesía revolucionaria*.
58. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 143–145.
59. A.G.P., Caja 28/3, Reinados, FVII, 27: series of letters between Fernando VII and Don Carlos.

60. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 175–179; Louis Xavier August de Saint-Sylvain, *The Career of Don Carlos, since the Death of Ferdinand and the Seventh: Being a Chapter in the History of Charles the Fifth* (London, 1835), 44–46.
61. Fernández, *Origen del municipio constitucional*, 311; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 168–170.
62. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 219.
63. Cit. Javier Fernández Sebastián and Juan Francisco Fuentes (eds), *Diccionario político y social del siglo XIX español* (Madrid, 2002), 7.
64. Manuel Santirso (ed.), *Joseph Tañski: el informe Tañski y la guerra civil carlista de 1833–1840* (Ministerio de Defensa, April 2011), 100.

4 The Basque Phase, 1833–35

1. A.H.N. Diversos, *títulos y familias*, leg. 3353, exp. 6, doc. 30: 1834 (no exact date) oath (credo político) of José Martín, Superintendent-General of Police (Superintendencia General de Policía del Reyno).
2. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 31; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 17.
3. A.H.N. Estado, leg. 901, doc. 5: 3 February 1834 reminder by War Ministry to Queen-Regent of policy to spare lives of all captured Carlists except ringleaders. A total of 73 of these rebels were given death sentences, commuted to banishment to the Philippines.
4. Manuel Llauder, *Memorias documentadas del teniente general Don Manuel Llauder* (Madrid, 1844), 49.
5. This was the permanent representation of the local Cortes and was, in practice, the highest foral jurisdiction in Navarra.
6. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 136–145.
7. *Eco del Comercio*, 28 October 1834; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 195–201.
8. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 128–129.
9. Saint-Sylvain, *The Career of Don Carlos*, 74–75.
10. Joseba Agirreazkuenaga, 'From "Coup d'Etat" to Civil War: An Analysis of the Carlist "Coup d'Etat" of 1833 in Vasconia and Spain', in *Parliaments, Estates & Representation*, Vol. 20 (2000), 191–204.
11. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 221–227.
12. *Galería militar contemporánea, colección de biografías y de retratos de los generales que mas celebridad han conseguido en los ejércitos liberal y carlista* (Madrid, 1846), I, 217–218.
13. *Eco del Comercio*, 8 May 1834; 20 May 1834.
14. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 223–234.
15. Francisco Melgar, *Pequeña historia de las guerras carlistas* (Pamplona, 1958), 86–92; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 209–215; *Galería militar contemporánea*, I, 221–222.
16. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 217–221.
17. Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional*, 369–379.
18. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 110.
19. Risco, *Zumalacárregui en campaña*, 42–45; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*.
20. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*.
21. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 142–145.

22. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 20–31, 51, 131–142, 181–201.
23. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 197.
24. Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 106.
25. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 227–246.
26. Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 106.
27. Vicente Fernández Benítez, *Burguesía y revolución liberal: Santander, 1812–1840* (Santander, 1989), 140–146.
28. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 274–288.
29. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 224–225; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 26–27.
30. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 260.
31. William Walton, *The Revolutions of Spain from 1808 to the end of 1836* (London, 1837), II, 245–248; Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 40.
32. Risco, *Zumalacárregui en campaña*, 74.
33. *Eco del Comercio*, 2 May 1834.
34. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 41; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 298–309; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 224.
35. *Le Peuple Souverain: Journal du Midi*, 14 February 1834.
36. Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 32–34; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 372–380.
37. *Galería militar contemporánea*, II, 6–7; Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 105.
38. *Galería militar contemporánea*, II, 11–21.
39. Archivo Espartero: 25 July 1835 letter from Espartero at Logroño to Jacinta Espartero.
40. John Francis Bacon, *Six Years in Biscay* (London, 1838), 168–169.
41. *Gaceta Oficial*, 15 April 1836.
42. Raúl Martín Arranz, 'Espartero: figuras de legitimidad', in José Alvaro Junco (ed.), *Populismo, caudillaje y discurso demagógico* (Madrid, 1987), 101–120; *El Huracán*, 23 July 1840.
43. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 267–273, 310–319, 680–681.
44. Walton, *Revolutions of Spain*, II, 182; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 292–295.
45. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 258–266; Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 204–205.
46. Coverdale, *Basque Phase*, 226–229.
47. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 245–246.
48. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 267–273.
49. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 252–257; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 52–56; Suárez, *Crisis política del antiguo régimen*, 25.
50. *Eco del Comercio*, 30 March 1834.
51. Chust, *Ciudadanos en armas*, 28–29; Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 58.
52. *Eco del Comercio*, 21 May 1834.
53. *Eco del Comercio*, 5 November 1834; 14 April 1841; 8 September 1841.
54. E.g. Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional*; Artola, *Burguesía revolucionaria*.
55. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 252–255, 269.
56. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 423–425; Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 269–271; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 246, 314.

57. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 120–121; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 37–38.
58. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 393–401.
59. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, 406–409; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 233.
60. Lucy Riall, 'Martyr Cults in Nineteenth-Century Italy', in *The Journal of Modern History*, Vol. 82, No. 2, The Persistence of Religion in Modern Europe (June 2010), 255–287.
61. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 249–251.
62. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 319–329; Llauder, *Memorias*, 52, 64.
63. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167/93: 18 October 1834 letter from Juan J. Aguarrero to Ministerio de la Guerra.
64. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 341–346; *Eco del Comercio*, 10 July 1835.
65. *Eco del Comercio*, 15 August 1834.
66. *Eco del Comercio*, 19 August 1834.
67. *Eco del Comercio*, 8 July 1834; Juan Antonio La Comba, *Sociedad y política en Málaga en la primera mitad del siglo XIX* (Málaga, 1989), 37–42.
68. *La Abeja*, 18 July 1834.
69. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3357, leg. 14/2, doc. 5: 26 July 1834 Madrid police report into massacre of religious on 17 July 1834; A.H.N., Estado, leg. 904, doc. 13: 18 July 1834 official mobilisation of the militia in response to previous day's events.
70. Aróstegui, Canal, and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 61–63.
71. *Eco del Comercio*, 6 February 1835; 25 October 1834; 18 July 1835.
72. *Eco del Comercio*, 7 October 1834; 15 October 1834; 25 October 1834.
73. A.H.B. Política y Representaciones, 1834, folios 357–358: 18 October 1834 town hall report.
74. Antonio Ballesteros y Beretta, *Historia de España y su influencia en la historia universal* (Barcelona, 1934), VII, 498.
75. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 228. Don Carlos had ostentatiously presided over the re-establishment of the Jesuit order in 1816 and again in 1823 (Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 475).
76. Gonzalo de Porras y Rodríguez de León, *La expedición Rodil y las legiones extranjeras en la primera Guerra carlista* (Madrid, 2004), 64; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 372–380.
77. Córdova, *Memorias*, 141.
78. Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 204.
79. Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 48–54.
80. Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 234.
81. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 329–340.
82. *Gaceta Oficial*, 26 January 1836; 1 March 1836; 1 July 1836.
83. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 264, 343; José Ramón Urquijo y Goitia, 'Represión y disidencia durante la primera Guerra carlista: la policía carlista', in *Hispania: Revista española de historia*, Vol. 45, No. 159 (January 1985), 141–143; Carlos Dembowski, *Dos años en España durante la Guerra civil, 1838–1840* (Barcelona, 2008), 28.
84. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 296–297.
85. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 226; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 32.

86. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 385.
87. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 196–199.
88. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 249; *Gaceta Oficial*, 5 July 1836.
89. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 242.
90. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 130.
91. Walton, *Revolutions of Spain*, II, 378.
92. Canal, *El carlismo*, 75.
93. Risco, *Zumalacárregui en Campaña*, 113–114; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 393–401.
94. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 247; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 33–34.
95. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 110; Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 249; Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 134–142.
96. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 409–413.
97. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 245–246.
98. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 405–406; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 149.
99. Bacon, *Six Years in Biscay*, 179; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 383–393.
100. Bellver Amaré, *Tomás de Zumalacárregui*, 247; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 33–34.
101. Jensen, 'Counterinsurgency at Home and Abroad', 22.
102. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 180; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 72.
103. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 37; Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 53.
104. Risco, *Zumalacárregui en Campaña*, 153.
105. Rahden, *Aus Spaniens Bürgerkrieg*, 123–124.
106. A.M.M. *Anales de Málaga*: 1822–89 (Recortes de prensa de la Unión Mercantil), 7 March 1837, 40.
107. Bacon, *Six Years in Biscay*, 176–177; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 428–432.
108. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 428–430.
109. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 441–450.
110. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 557–559.
111. Castells, *Utopía insurreccional*, 120.
112. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 560–562; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 304–307.
113. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 537–541; Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 634–635.
114. Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 263.
115. Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 79–85.
116. Virginia Maza Castán, 'El país que celebraban los cantos orientales: el recurso a España en la formulación del discurso político alemán de las primeras décadas del siglo XIX', in *Ayer*, Vol. 46 (2002), 220–227.
117. August Karl von Goeben, *Vier Jahre in Spanien: Die Carlisten, ihre Erhebung, ihr Kampf und ihr Untergang* (Hanover, 1841), 1–2.
118. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 541–543.
119. Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, I, 68.
120. *Eco del Comercio*, 21 June 1836.
121. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 541–543; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 61.
122. *El Español*, 11 September 1836.
123. *Eco del Comercio*, 17 February 1835; 21 February 1835; 18 May 1835.

124. *Eco del Comercio*, 17 February 1835; 21 February 1835; 18 May 1835; Francisco García Villarrubia, *Aproximación al carlismo andaluz en la guerra de los siete años, 1833–40* (Madrid, 1979), 35.
125. *Eco del Comercio*, 5 July 1834.
126. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167/89: 12 June 1834 letter from Mayor of Corella to Comandancia de Armas de Tudela; leg. 167/126–128: 18 August 1834 letters from Superintendente General de policía del reino to Captain-General of New Castile relating disorders.
127. *Eco del Comercio*, 29 July 1834.
128. A.H.N. Estado, leg. 901, doc. 25: 23 December 1834 circular from Consejo Supremo de la Guerra to provincial governors regarding expansion of the army in 1835.
129. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 451–453.
130. Juan J. Triás and Antonio Elorza, *Federalismo y reforma social en España (1840–1870)* (Madrid, 1975), 95–104.
131. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 533–534.
132. Luis Landa el Busto, *Historia de Navarra: una identidad forjada a través de los siglos* (Pamplona, 2001), 222–223.
133. Isabel Burdiel, *La política de los notables: moderados y avanzados durante el del Estatuto Real (1834–36)* (Valencia, 1987), 94, 164.
134. Pío Baroja y Nessi, *Aviraneta, o la vida de un conspirador* (Madrid, 1931), 187–193; *Eco del Comercio*, 5 August 1834; Alberto Gil Novales, Alberto (ed.), *Juan Romero Alpuente: historia de la revolución española y otros escritos*, 2 vols (Madrid, 1989), I, lxix–lxxviii.; Miguel Artola, *Partidos y programas políticos, 1808–1936* (Barcelona, 1979), 220.
135. José Fernández Gaytán, 'La marina carlista en las guerras civiles del siglo XIX', in *Revista de historia naval*, Vol. 6, No. 20 (1988), 5–32, 7.
136. Cabello, Santa Cruz, and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, I, 46, II, 300.
137. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 486–488.
138. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 488–490.
139. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 490–493.
140. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 176–180; Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 265–266.
141. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 497–507; Saint-Sylvain, *Career of Don Carlos*, 273; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 267–268.
142. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 257.
143. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 255–258, 263.
144. Liberal Pirala blamed Jaúregui, whose divisions broke a supporting plan of movement leaving Espoz exposed: only Espoz's hasty forgery of a countermanding order conveyed to Elío drew one of the Carlist pincers away and allowed Espoz to retreat (Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 513–522). Traditionalist Jaime del Burgo claimed that Espoz was himself to blame for his retreat, and that only the timely intervention of Oráa and Elío's delay (which Burgo did not explain) enabled the viceroy's retreat (Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 135). Such detail interests historians who seek to substantiate Espoz's image as the swordarm of Radical liberalism during the first half of the First Carlist War (Iribarren, *Espoz y Mina*. A recent account dero-manticising Espoz (but which stops short of the Carlist War) is given by Charles Esdaile, 'Prohombres, aventureros y oportunistas: la influencia del

- trayecto personal en los orígenes del liberalismo en España', in Alda Blanco and Guy Thomson (eds), *Visiones del liberalismo: política, identidad y cultura en la España del siglo XIX* (Valencia, 2008), 65–87).
145. *Gaceta Oficial*, 20 May 1836; Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 109; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 274, 301–303.
 146. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 523–527; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 176–180.
 147. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 534–536.
 148. *Eco del Comercio*, 28 October 1834.
 149. *Eco del Comercio*, 29 October 1834; 29 November 1834.
 150. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 578–580.
 151. Cit. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 57.
 152. The British consul at Bilbao was disparaging: 'the furious Spanish Liberals who have impugned this treaty have done so sitting in safety in their coffee-houses, where it is marvellously easy to talk about national honour and so forth' (Bacon, *Six Years in Biscay*, 195).
 153. Bacon, *Six Years in Biscay*, 205–206; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 603.
 154. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 192, 204–219; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 246; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 537–545.
 155. Charles Frederick Henningsen, *The Most Striking Events of a Twelvemonth's Campaign with Zumalacarregui in Navarre and the Basque Provinces* (London, 1836), II, 165.
 156. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 580–582.
 157. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 545–552, 583–584.
 158. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 590–594; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 281–284.
 159. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, I, 587–590; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 48.

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1. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 7–14.
2. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 15–17.
3. *Gaceta Oficial*, 1 January 1836.
4. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 199, 262; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 50.
5. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 43–47.
6. Antonio M. Moral Roncal, *Las guerras carlistas* (Madrid, 2006), 154; Rodríguez, *Under the Flags of Freedom*, 212; Jean-Charles Jauffret, 'Le division de legion étrangère du Général Bernelle, 1835–1838', in *Revue Historique des Armées*, Vol. 1 (March 1981), 51–72.
7. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 21–27.
8. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 28–31; *Gaceta de Madrid*, 16 July 1835.
9. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 36–37.
10. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 240.
11. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 171–174.
12. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 126–128.
13. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 186–188.
14. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 176–180, 245–246; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 63–64.

15. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 188–197.
16. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 278–279.
17. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 197–201.
18. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 356.
19. Michael Burke Honan, *The Court and Camp of Don Carlos: Being the Results of a Late Tour in the Basque Provinces, and Parts of Catalonia, Aragón, Castile, and Estramadura* (London, 1836), 410.
20. *Gaceta Oficial*, 5 August 1836.
21. Manuel Tuñón de Lara, *La España del siglo XIX*, 2 vols (Madrid, 2000), I, 112.
22. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 87–88; *La Abeja*, 18 January 1835.
23. Canterac appealed to the loyal troops of the palace regiment called the ‘King’s lieutenant’, or Teniente del Rey – ‘Viva el Teniente del Rey!’ – which was misheard as ‘Viva el Rey!’
24. E.g. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*.
25. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 88–108; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 184–186.
26. *Eco del Comercio*, 26 January 1835; Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 54; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 186.
27. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 201–202.
28. *Diario de Zaragoza*, 3 February 1835.
29. *Gaceta Oficial*, 12 January 1836; 29 January 1836; 10 June 1836.
30. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 229.
31. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 109–114; Llauder, *Memorias documentadas*, 106.
32. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 114–120.
33. Roger Bullen, ‘France and the Problem of Intervention in Spain, 1834–1836’, in *The Historical Journal*, Vol. 20, No. 2 (June 1977), 363–393, 383; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 121–123.
34. A.M.M. 3/183, *Anales de Málaga: 1821–81* (Recortes de la prensa de la Unión Mercantil), January–March 1835; *Eco del Comercio*, 17 February 1835.
35. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167. doc. 60: account given by Fernando Córdova, Civil Governor of Málaga, to the Ministerio de lo Interior on the events of 22, 23 and 24 March 1835.
36. *Gaceta Oficial*, 20 November 1835; 1 December 1835.
37. *Eco del Comercio*, Spring–Summer 1835.
38. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 123–124.
39. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), leg. 3601: 8 April 1835 letter from Captain-General of Aragón to Ministerio de la Guerra; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 123–130.
40. José Manuel Cuenca, *La iglesia española ante la revolución liberal* (Madrid, 1971), 19–21.
41. A.H.N. Diversos, (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167/106: 13 August 1835 letter from interim military governor, José del Arrenal, to captain-general in Zaragoza.
42. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), leg. 3601: 8 April 1835 letter from Captain-General of Aragón to Ministerio de la Guerra.
43. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 50–51.
44. Bullón de Mendoza, ‘Primera guerra carlista’, 722–723.
45. Cayetano Barraquer y Roviralta, *Los religiosos en Cataluña durante la primera mitad del siglo XIX* (Barcelona, 1915), II, 409–411.

46. Jordi Maluquer de Motes, *El socialismo en España, 1833–1868* (Barcelona, 1977), 117–122; Trías and Elorza, *Federalismo y reforma social en España*, 80–82.
47. *El Vapor*, 10 August 1835.
48. Barraquer y Roviralta, *Religiosos en Cataluña*, II, 410.
49. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 127–132; Barraquer y Roviralta, *Religiosos en Cataluña*, II, 411.
50. A.H.B. *Política y Representaciones*: 27 July 1835 town hall circular to district mayors.
51. Llauder, *Memorias documentadas*, 53.
52. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 51–53.
53. Tuñón de Lara, *España del siglo XIX*, I, 110–111.
54. *Eco del Comercio*, 12 August 1835.
55. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 132–142.
56. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 143–144.
57. Isabel Burdiel, *La política en el reinado de Isabel II* (Madrid, 1998), 70.
58. Chust, *Ciudadanos en armas*, 49.
59. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 144–148.
60. Baroja, *Aviraneta*, 135–182; Isabel Burdiel and Manuel Pérez Ledesma, *Liberales, agitadores y conspiradores: biografías heterodoxas del siglo XIX* (Madrid, 2000), 140.
61. A.H.N. Estado, leg. 902, doc. 17: 26 August 1835 decree from Ministerio de Guerra.
62. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3359, leg. 19, doc. 49: summer 1835 proclamation by the ‘masses of Madrid’.
63. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 151–164.
64. *Eco del Comercio*, 13 August 1835.
65. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 164–167; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 304.
66. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 315.
67. Miguel Angel Esteban Navarro, *La formación del pensamiento político y social del radicalismo español (1834–1874)* (Zaragoza, 1995), 103–105; Zavala, *Masones, comuneros*, 169.
68. *Eco del Comercio*, 27 September 1835.
69. La Comba, *Sociedad y política en Málaga*, 105–109; Eiras Roel, *Sociedades secretas*, 21–29.
70. Burdiel, *Política de los notables*, 200–211; Maluquer de Motes, *Socialismo en España*, 275–284.
71. Esteban Navarro, *Formación del pensamiento*, 103–105; Zavala, *Masones, comuneros*, 169.
72. *The Times*, 11 August 1836.
73. A.H.N. Estado, leg. 902, doc. 19: 25 August 1835 relay by Duque de Alhumada to Queen-Regent of complaints of the Captain-General of Valencia.
74. For example, Artola, *Burguesía revolucionaria*; Trías and Elorza, *Federalismo y reforma social en España*.
75. A feature that endured from ‘cacique’ to corporatist politics over the nineteenth and twentieth centuries (Fernando del Rey Reguillo, ‘Antiliberalismo y democracia en la España de entreguerras’, in Fernando del Rey Reguillo and García Sebastiani (eds), *Los desafíos de la libertad: transformación*

- y crisis del liberalismo en Europa y América Latina (Madrid, 2008), 221–244).
76. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 475–483.
 77. *Eco del Comercio*, 3 October 1835; Charles J. Esdaile, *Outpost of Empire: The Napoleonic Occupation of Andalucía, 1810–1812* (Oklahoma, 2012), 36–38; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 162.
 78. Antonio Eiras Roel (ed.), *La emigración española a ultramar, 1492–1914* (Madrid, 1991), 22.
 79. *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 November 1835; José Jiménez Guerrero, *El reclutamiento militar en el siglo XIX: las quintas de Málaga (1837–1868)* (Málaga, 2001), 53, 84–85.
 80. Orlando Figes, 'The Russian Revolution of 1917 and its Language in the Village', in *Russian Review*, Vol. 56, No. 3 (1997), 323–345.
 81. A.H.N. Diversos, (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167/18: 11 September 1835 account by Rafael de Cevallos, commander of the Reserve Army.
 82. A.H.N. Diversos, (*títulos y familia*), leg. 160: 5 November 1835 request from Comandante General de la Provincia de Soria, Valdés, to Espartero for reinforcements.
 83. *Eco del Comercio*, 7 March 1836.
 84. *Eco del Comercio*, 30 October 1835. Complaints were repeated in the Radical press with regard to the two-tier militia system (*Eco del Comercio*, 16 October 1836; 24 September 1837).
 85. *Eco del Comercio*, 22 September 1835; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 168–169.
 86. Peter Janke, *Mendizábal y la instauración de la monarquía constitucional en España (1790–1853)* (Madrid, 1974), 193; Bullen, 'France and the Problem of Intervention in Spain', 369, 389; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 234–238; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 296–297; II, 96.
 87. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 321.
 88. Alexander Gallardo, 'Anglo-Spanish Relations during the First Carlist War (1833–1839)' (PhD dissertation, St John's University, New York, 1977), 60–100, 140–171.
 89. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3359, leg. 19, doc. 56: 14 August 1835 anonymous tip-off sent to government about plot to assassinate Toreno; *Eco del Comercio*, 22 September 1835.
 90. Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, II, 308.
 91. *Gaceta Oficial*, 24 May 1836; 5 July 1836; 20 September 1836; Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 93–98; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 18.
 92. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 321.
 93. Brett, *British Auxiliary Legion*, 30–31.
 94. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 238–240.
 95. Brett, *British Auxiliary Legion*, 61–73; *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 May 1836.
 96. Brett, *British Auxiliary Legion*, 38.
 97. Henry Mayhew, *London Labour and the London Poor* (London, 1857), II, 23.
 98. *Gaceta Oficial*, 30 October 1835; 24 November 1835.
 99. For Turner's biography, I am indebted to Dr Helen Rogers of Liverpool John Moores University who has researched prisoner reclamation at Yarmouth Gaol during the 1830s and 1840s (Helen Rogers, 'Singing in Gaol: Christian Instruction and Inmate Culture in the Nineteenth Century', in *Prison Service Journal*, Vol. 199 (January 2012), 35–43).

100. Martin Robson, 'Strangers, Mercenaries, Heretics, Scoffers, Polluters: Volunteering for the British Auxiliary Legion in Spain, 1835', in Nir Arielli and Bruce Collins (eds), *Transnational Soldiers: Foreign Military Enlistment in the Modern Era* (Palgrave, 2013), 181–201.
101. Robson, 'Strangers, Mercenaries', 194–195.
102. Alexander Somerville, *History of the British Legion, and War in Spain* (London, 1839), 498.
103. Charles Southwell, *The Confessions of a Free-Thinker* (London, 1850), 48.
104. Edward M. Spiers, *Radical General: Sir George de Lacy Evans, 1787–1870* (Manchester, 1983), 100–123; *Gaceta Oficial*, 1 January 1836; 2 August 1836.
105. Santirso (ed.), *Joseph Tañski*, 29.
106. Rodríguez, *Under the Flags of Freedom*, 210–212; Guy Thomson, 'Mazzini and Spain, 1820–1872' (Paper presented at 'Giuseppe Mazzini and the Globalisation of Democratic Nationalism 1805–2005', British Academy, London, 7–9 December 2005), 10.
107. *Gaceta Oficial*, 11 December 1835.
108. Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 108.
109. Rodríguez, *Under the Flags of Freedom*, 203–206.
110. *Gaceta Oficial*, 29 July 1836.
111. *Eco del Comercio*, 5 December 1835; *Gaceta Oficial*, 25 December 1835.
112. *Eco del Comercio*, 28 January 1836; 30 March 1836; *Gaceta Oficial*, 1 January 1836.
113. *Eco del Comercio*, 28 July 1835.
114. *Eco del Comercio*, 9 February 1836.
115. *Eco del Comercio*, 26 January 1836.
116. *Gaceta Oficial*, 16 August 1836.
117. Jesús Cruz, 'Notability and Revolution: Social Origins of the Political Elite in Liberal Spain, 1800–1853', in *Comparative Studies in Society and History*, Vol. 36, No. 1 (January, 1994), 97–121, 105.
118. Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 141–145.
119. *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 October 1835. The Carlist press fanned anti-Semitism, especially whilst Mendizábal led the Cristinos (*Gaceta Oficial*, 18 December 1835; 29 December 1835; 5 February 1836; 16 February 1836; 23 February 1836; 5 April 1836; 10 May 1836; 7 June 1836; 8 July 1836).
120. *Gaceta Oficial*, 18 December 1835; 10 May 1836.
121. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 169.
122. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 3.
123. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 326–327; The Mérida committee was also concerned about gypsies and forced them to carry special passes (*Eco del Comercio*, 5 April 1836). Suspicion of gypsies was codified by the paramilitary Civil Guard created after the war in 1844 (its article 10 ordered their luggage to be checked as routine).
124. Gonzalo Anes and Alvarez de Castrillón (eds), *Economía, sociedad, política y cultura en la España de Isabel II* (Madrid, 2004), 61–63.
125. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3359, leg. 19: collection of anonymous 1835 proclamations to government demanding half-tithe for peasants and lowering of tax burden to fund army.
126. Cuenca, *Iglesia española*, 29–65.

127. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 347–356.
128. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 176.
129. Burgos, *Anales del reinado de Isabel II*, III, 43–44.
130. *Gaceta Oficial*, 6 September 1836.
131. Jesús Cruz, *The Rise of Middle-Class Culture in Nineteenth-Century Spain* (Louisiana, 2011), 154–158.
132. *El Español*, 28 February 1836.
133. *Eco del Comercio*, 14 February 1836.
134. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 150–151.
135. Burdiel and Pérez Ledesma, *Liberales, agitadores*, 167.
136. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 362–363, 482–486.
137. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 29–30; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 141–144.
138. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 370–375; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 264–265.
139. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 65.
140. *Gaceta Oficial*, 10 June 1836; Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 731.
141. *Eco del Comercio*, 6 November 1835.
142. *Gaceta Oficial*, 22 April 1836; 26 April 1836.
143. *Eco del Comercio*, 20 October 1835.
144. *Eco del Comercio*, 16 December 1835.
145. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 294.
146. *Gaceta Oficial*, 8 January 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 180–184.
147. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 362–367.
148. Burgo, *Primera guerra carlista*, 137.
149. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 123–130.
150. A.H.B. *Política y Representaciones*, 1836, 1D. IV–111: 21 August 1836 letter of complaint from town hall authorities.
151. A.H.N. *Diversos (títulos y familias)*, leg. 3601: 6 July 1835 letter to Ministerio de la Guerra from Colonel Javier Rodríguez de Vera, relating 'effervescence' in population and Urban Militia.
152. A.H.N. *Diversos (gobierno y política)*, leg. 167, doc. 110: 16 October 1835 complaint from Marqués de Lazán, noble officeholder of Waterways Maintenance, to Captain-General of Aragón.
153. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 250–252.
154. A.H.B. *Política y Representaciones*, 1836, 1D. IV–111: 27 May 1836 report from captain-general to civil authorities.
155. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 388–390.
156. George Borrow, *The Bible in Spain* (London, 1843), 189–192.
157. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 375–388.
158. Bullón de Mendoza, 'Primera guerra carlista', 278–279.
159. Archivo Espartero: 1 October 1835 letter from General Espartero at Haro to his wife; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 191–192; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 266–268, 275–283.
160. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 268–283.
161. During the Royalist War of 1820–23, it was the scene of constant skirmishes between priest-led townsfolk and Liberal students who found themselves effectively besieged on the premises of Catalonia's only university (*El Espectador*, 9 February 1822). The university was closed down due to the

1823 reaction, and its staff and students purged. It reopened in May 1827 with the address: 'far be it for us to indulge in the dangerous novelty of thinking' (cit. Fontana, *De en medio del tiempo*, 152–153). University teaching in Castilian was compulsory, an edict which also alienated local Catalans (Alvarez Junco, *Mater Dolorosa*, 79).

162. A.H.B. Política y Representaciones: 12 October 1835 order of the town hall of Barcelona.
163. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 283–289.
164. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 240–244.
165. José Fernández Gaytán, 'La marina liberal en las guerras civiles del siglo XIX', in *Revista de Historia Naval*, Vol. 5, No. 19 (1987), 29–62.
166. A.M.S.S. Actas del Ayuntamiento (Libro 328), 6–13: 25 September 1835 and 8 October 1835 decrees.
167. A.M.S.S. Actas del Ayuntamiento (Libro 328), 75, Acta 57: 22 December 1835 relation of royal correspondence.
168. A.M.S.S. Actas del Ayuntamiento (Libro 328), Acta 73, 5 January 1836 and Acta 75, 8 January 1836: correspondence from Madrid and Mayor of St Jean de Luz.
169. A.M.S.S. Actas del Ayuntamiento (Libro 328), 46: 26 November 1835 decree.
170. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 247–250.
171. *Gaceta Oficial*, 8 January 1836.
172. A.M.S.S. Actas del Ayuntamiento (Libro 328), 89, Acta 67: 2 January 1836 town hall minutes.
173. *Gaceta Oficial*, 24 November 1835; 27 November 1835; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 423–430.
174. *Eco del Comercio*, 2 January 1836; a British officer later encountered the sister of one of the executed men, a market seller in San Sebastián who 'swore to avenge her brother' (Brett, *British Auxiliary Legion*, 109).
175. Archivo Espartero: 5 January 1836 letter from Espartero at Vitoria to Jacinta Espartero; Córdoba, *Memorias*, I, 385.
176. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 280.
177. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 297–300; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 324.
178. *Gaceta Oficial*, 25 March 1836.
179. Peter Sahlins, *Boundaries: The Making of France and Spain in the Pyrenees* (Berkeley, 1989), 208–209.
180. Gallardo, 'Anglo-Spanish Relations', 60–100.
181. Sahlins, *Boundaries*, 207–208.
182. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 300–303; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 334–335.
183. Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, I, 20; II, 240.
184. Goeben, *Vier Jahre in Spanien*, 338.
185. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 311–316.
186. Buenaventura de Córdoba y Miguel, *Vida militar y política de Cabrera* (Madrid, 1844), I, 200–204; *Diario de Barcelona*, 23 September 1835; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 316–318.
187. Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra última*, xxxi.
188. *Eco del Comercio*, 10 April 1836.
189. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 319–323.

190. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 325–327; *El Español*, 6 November 1835. Pro-Carlist sources claim that Cabrera gave quarter to the defenders after their surrender (Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 143).
191. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 330–334.
192. Córdoba y Miguel, *Cabrera*, I, 239–242; *Gaceta Oficial*, 5 April 1836; 15 March 1836.
193. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 398–401.
194. *Eco del Comercio*, 13 January 1836.
195. Baroja, *Aviraneta*, 195–199.
196. *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 January 1836; 29 January 1836; Albert Balcells, *Estudios de historia contemporánea: Cataluña contemporánea I (siglo XIX)* (Madrid, 1984), 139.
197. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 401–415.
198. A.H.B. Política y Representaciones: 9 January 1836 letter from Barcelona town hall to Queen-Regent concerning events of 4 January 1836.
199. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 410–415, 415–422.
200. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 447–450.
201. *Gaceta Oficial*, 12 July 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 80–93. The traditionalist, Oyarzun, pointed out that the Cristinos issued similar threats to Carlist mayors (Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 144).
202. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 97–124.
203. *Eco del Comercio*, 21 January 1836.
204. *Gaceta Oficial*, 29 April 1836.
205. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 430–439.
206. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 423–430.
207. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 440–447.
208. *Gaceta Oficial*, 1 March 1836; 26 April 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 467.
209. Archivo Espartero: 22 March 1836 letter from Espartero at Vitoria to Jacinta Espartero; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 450–464.
210. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 179–181.
211. Córdoba, *Memorias*, I, 389–390; Bullen, ‘France and the Problem of Intervention in Spain’, 385; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 473–475.
212. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7809–4, Caja 1: 22 April 1836 *reservadísimo* letter from Córdoba to Narváez.
213. *Eco del Comercio*, 30 May 1836.
214. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 483–486, 503–505; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 74–75.
215. Córdoba, *Memorias*, I, 348–352, 401–405; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 486–495.
216. Córdoba, *Memorias*, II, 37–53.
217. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 475–483.
218. Córdoba, *Memorias*, II, 116.
219. French intervention was not exclusively a *moderado* aim: Espartero, who was later identified with the *progresistas*, had responded to his wife’s hopes of the same that ‘it would only take 15,000 French troops to make the insurgents disarm and disappear’ (Archivo Espartero: 4 April 1836 letter from Espartero at Vitoria to Jacinta Espartero).
220. Isabel Burdiel, *Isabel II* (Madrid, 2004), 174; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 495–502; Córdoba, *Memorias*, II, 88.
221. Artola, *Partidos y programas políticos*, 228–229.

222. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 55–75.
223. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 157–163.
224. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 526–530; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 70; *Gaceta Oficial*, 8 December 1835; 26 July 1836; 2 August 1836.
225. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 506–513.
226. Pérez Garzón, *Milicia Nacional*, xxii.
227. Burke Honan, *Court and Camp of Don Carlos*, 408.
228. *Eco del Comercio*, 11 March 1836; 3 May 1836.
229. *El Español*, 21 May 1836; 31 May 1836.
230. *Eco del Comercio*, 8 October 1835; 22 October 1835.
231. Jiménez Guerrero, *Reclutamiento militar*, 53, 84–85.
232. *Eco del Comercio*, 24 February 1838.
233. A.H.N. Consejos, 12232, doc. 18: 11 March 1840 report by prefect of Granada province.
234. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 530–537.

6 Deep War Feeds Revolution, 1836–37

1. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 30–49.
2. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 62–80.
3. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 125–132, 169–171.
4. *Eco del Comercio*, 9 April 1836.
5. Luc Racaut, *Hatred in Print: Catholic Propaganda and Protestant Identity during the French Wars of Religion* (Aldershot, 2002), 81–98.
6. *Eco del Comercio*, 12 April 1836.
7. *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 September 1836.
8. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 307–309.
9. *Gaceta Oficial*, 2 August 1836.
10. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 153–156; *Eco del Comercio*, 5 November 1836.
11. Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, I, 137–142; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 160–163.
12. Cit. Rújula, *Contrarrevolución*, 240–241.
13. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 145–147.
14. San Miguel, *Guerra civil de España*, 86–91; Marichal, *Spain (1833–1844)*, 108–109.
15. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 464–466.
16. A.H.B.: 22 October 1836 demand from the Junta de Armamento y Defensa de Barcelona.
17. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 384–385.
18. *El Español*, 21 July 1836; 31 July 1836.
19. *Gaceta Oficial*, 30 August 1836.
20. A.H.N. Consejos, leg. 12232, no number: 13 August 1836 account by Juan Pasalodos y Roldán of Consejo de Real Audiencia de Extremadura concerning 1836 revolution in Cáceres.
21. *Gaceta Oficial*, 15 July 1836; 19 July 1836; 22 July 1836.
22. *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 September 1836.
23. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 384–404; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 348–352.

24. Antonio Alcalá Galiano, *Memorias de D. Antonio Alcalá Galiano* (Madrid, 1886), II, 55–70; Pirala accepted its conspiratorial nature but denied the importance of paid Radicals (Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 405–418).
25. Baroja y Nessi, *Aviraneta*, 210. More recent opinion accepts that the revolution aimed to channel radicalism from the centre, but also that the events owed far more to spontaneous improvisation than conspiracy (Juan Francisco Fuentes, *El fin del antiguo régimen (1808–1868): Política y sociedad* (Madrid, 2007), 112).
26. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 228.
27. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 49–58.
28. The best English-language description of the tense atmosphere at La Granja remains Holt, *Carlist Wars*, 147–149.
29. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 405–418.
30. *Gaceta Oficial*, 9 September 1836.
31. *Gaceta Oficial*, 13 September 1836.
32. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 87–90; Chust, *Ciudadanos en armas*, 91.
33. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 420–424.
34. *Eco del Comercio*, 18 May 1836.
35. Máximo García López, *Diario de un medico con los hechos más notables ocurridos durante la última guerra civil en las provincias de Toledo y Ciudad Real* (Madrid, 1847), I, 269–281, 262–264.
36. Javier García Fernández called the 1836–43 era of local democracy a ‘golden age’ (García Fernández, *Origen del municipio constitucional*, 315–317).
37. Juan B. Vilar, ‘España en la Europa de los nacionalismos: entre pequeña acción y potencia media (1834–1874)’, in Juan Carlos Pereira (ed.), *La política exterior de España (1800–2003)* (Barcelona, 2003), 404–405.
38. A. Blanco, ‘España en la encrucijada ¿Nostalgia imperial o colonialismo moderno?’, in Blanco and Thomson (eds), *Visiones del liberalismo*, 219–230.
39. *Gaceta Oficial*, 27 November 1835; 15 April 1836.
40. Ignacio de la Rasilla del Mora, ‘The Study of International Law in the Spanish Short Nineteenth Century (1808–1898)’, in *Chicago-Kent Journal of International and Comparative Law*, Vol. 13, No. 2 (2013), 121–150, 126–127.
41. Mariano de la Cámara’s *La política exterior del carlismo (1833–1839)* (Seville, 1933) remains unsurpassed.
42. Philip E. Mosely, ‘Intervention and Nonintervention in Spain, 1838–39’, in *Journal of Modern History*, Vol. 13, No. 2 (June 1941), 195–217; Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 43.
43. José Ramón Urquijo Goitia, ‘Los estados italianos y España durante la primera guerra carlista’, in *Hispania*, Vol. 52/3, No. 182 (1992), 947–997, 982–983.
44. Mosely, ‘Intervention and Nonintervention in Spain’, 209.
45. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 655–658.
46. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 81.
47. *Gaceta Oficial*, 20 September 1836.
48. Cámara, *Política exterior del carlismo*, 57–58; Jeremy D. Popkin, *Press, Revolution and Social Identities in France, 1830–1835* (Pennsylvania, 2002), 80, 211.
49. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 543.

50. Gilbert G. Fernández, 'American Perspectives on the First Carlist War, 1833–40', in *Consortium on Revolutionary Europe 1750–1850*. Selected Papers 1999. Tallahassee: Institute on Napoleon and the French Revolution, Florida State University, 1999. Tables. Notes. pp. xxii, 531, 384–392.
51. Enrique Olavarría y Ferrari and Juan de Dios Arias, 'México Independiente', in Vicente Riva Palacios (ed.), *México á través de los siglos: historia general y completa del desenvolvimiento social, político, religioso, militar, artístico, científico y literario de México desde a antigüedad más remota hasta la época actual; obra, única en su género* (Mexico, 1940), IV, 391–395.
52. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 231.
53. Hugh Thomas, *Cuba: The Pursuit of Freedom* (London, 2001), 123; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 110–112.
54. Thomas, *Cuba*, 120–124; Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 184. Rumours of British designs on Cuba were not isolated. Earlier in 1836, Prime Minister Mendizábal had confronted a Protestant missionary with suspicions that his Bible Society was trying to turn Cuban slaves against their masters (13 February 1836 and 22 March 1836 letters from George Borrow to Rev. A Brandram, courtesy of the George Borrow Society).
55. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 461–464.
56. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 412; Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 125.
57. Thomas, *Cuba*, 123; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 110–112.
58. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 193–195.
59. Juan Isidro Jimenes Grullón, *La ideología revolucionaria de Juan Pablo Duarte*, Archivo General de la Nación, Colección Cuadernos Populares 1 (Santo Domingo, 2009), 33.
60. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 164–169.
61. *Eco del Comercio*, 10 November 1837.
62. 19 August 1837 letter from George Borrow to Rev. A Brandram (courtesy of the George Borrow Society).
63. A.H.N. Consejos, 12232, doc. 33: April 1840 report by Audiencia Territorial de Cataluña recounting events of 11 May 1838.
64. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 99.
65. *Eco del Comercio*, 27 November 1837.
66. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 260; Sánchez-Albornoz, *Crisis de subsistencias*, 8.
67. Chust, *Ciudadanos en armas*, 102–103.
68. Aróstegui, Canal and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 144–145.
69. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 172–179. The Carlist press often referred to all Cristino soldiers as 'peseteros', presumably in order to imply their moral and financial misery.
70. Mark Lawrence, 'Poachers turned Gamekeepers: a Study of the Guerilla Phenomenon in Spain, 1808–1840', in *Small Wars and Insurgencies* (Abingdon, Oxon, 2014).
71. A.G.P. Caja 28/22, No. 1, Reinados, FVII, 27: supplement to *Boletín Oficial de Valladolid* detailing punishments; *Eco del Comercio*, 3 February 1838.
72. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 392–395.
73. *Eco del Comercio*, 7 July 1837.

74. A.H.N. Consejos, leg. 12232, doc. 23: 21 June 1837 report by juez de primera instancia, Julián Martínez y Yanguas, to Ministerio de Gracia y Justicia.
75. *Eco del Comercio*, 1 April 1837.
76. A 5 July 1837 letter from George Borrow to Rev. A Brandram (courtesy of the George Borrow Society).
77. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 521–526.
78. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 530–537; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 72.
79. Archivo Espartero: 29 June 1836 letter from Espartero at Gayangos to Jacinta Espartero; Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 118–120; *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 July 1836.
80. Alfonso Bullón de Mendoza, *La expedición del general Gómez* (Madrid, 1984).
81. *Gaceta Oficial*, 5 August 1836; Clemente, *Guerras carlistas*, 98–101; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 184–188.
82. José Villa-Amil y Castro, *Crónica de la provincia de Lugo* (Madrid, 1866), 31.
83. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 121–122.
84. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 206–213.
85. *Gaceta Oficial*, 16 August 1836; Clemente, *El carlismo*, 41.
86. *Gaceta Oficial*, 13 September 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 213–223.
87. *Gaceta Oficial*, 23 September 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 223–226.
88. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 353–364.
89. *El Español*, 25 August 1836.
90. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 251–256.
91. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 228–231.
92. A.M.M. (1/183): 23 November 1836 proclamation from Governor of Málaga.
93. *El Español*, 13 October 1836; 14 October 1836.
94. *Eco del Comercio*, 12 October 1836; Clemente, *El carlismo*, 41.
95. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 248–250.
96. Holt, *Carlist Wars*, 76.
97. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 275–282.
98. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 256–270.
99. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 282–284.
100. *Gaceta Oficial*, 5 July 1836; 19 August 1836; Artola-Gallego (ed.), *Memorias de Espoz y Mina*, II, 205.
101. *Gaceta Oficial*, 26 August 1836.
102. *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 August 1836. The name of the Militia changed from the Milicia Urbana (1834–35), to the Guardia Nacional (1835–36), before reverting back to the Milicia Nacional (symbolically the Radical name of the Triennium) after the 1836 revolution.
103. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 370–371.
104. *Eco del Comercio*, 28 October 1836; 3 April 1837.
105. Peyrou, *Republicanism popular en España*, 50–51.
106. *Gaceta Oficial*, 20 September 1836; 23 September 1836; 27 September 1836.
107. Peyrou, *El republicanism popular en España*, 50–51.
108. A.G.P. Caja 28/31, No. 1, Reinados, FVII, 27: Muy reservado police report dated December 1837.
109. *Gaceta Oficial*, 4 December 1835; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 291–298.
110. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 425–434.

111. José-Ramón Rodil y Gayoso, *Manifiesto del Marqués del Rodil a la nación española: campaña del 21 de septiembre a 13 de noviembre de 1836* (Lisbon, 1837).
112. R.A.H. 9/4717, Papeles de Fermín Caballero (Papeles inéditos, II, 1830–45): 27 August 1836 letter from Caballero to Srs. Clemot and Muños (copied 118–119).
113. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 308–313.
114. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 284–289; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 767.
115. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 280–405; Andrés Révész, *Un dictador liberal: Narváez* (Madrid, 1953).
116. Guy Thomson, *The Birth of Modern Politics in Spain: Democracy, Association and Revolution, 1854–1875* (London, 2009).
117. Révész, *Narváez*, 40.
118. Too much can be made of political theory during personal rivalries. Pío Baroja y Nessi subscribed to the ‘Great Man’ school that neither Espartero nor Narváez had preconceived political ideas, rather their personal rivalry meant that ‘the one showed himself white because the other was black’ (Révész, *Narváez*, 79).
119. Our understanding promises to be enhanced by a current research project (Principal investigator: Alison Sinclair, ‘Wrongdoing in Spain, 1800–1936: Realities, Representations and Reactions’) (University of Cambridge, 2011–14).
120. A.H.N. Diversos, *títulos y familias*, leg. 3353: 22 October 1832 letter from informant, Felipe Santiago Ximénez to Governor of San Ildefonso; A.H.N. Diversos, *gobierno y política*, leg. 167, doc. 57: 5 March 1834 letter from Antonio María Alvarez, Governor of Málaga, to captain-general inserting alarmist poster publicly displayed by Radicals.
121. *Eco del Comercio*, 10 July 1835.
122. Carlos Posac Mon, ‘Repercusiones de la primera guerra carlista en Gibraltar y el Campo de Gibraltar’, in *Almoraima*, Vol. 25 (2001), 357–367, 362.
123. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 664–665.
124. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 320–325.
125. *Eco del Comercio*, 1 May 1836; 2 May 1836; *El Español*, 15 May 1836.
126. Garrido, *Bandidos*, 115–125.
127. *Eco del Comercio*, 14 October 1836.
128. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7810, Caja 2, doc. 15: November 1836 account offered by General Rivero in his operations against Gómez in the Campo de Gibraltar.
129. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 320–325; *Gaceta Oficial*, 12 August 1836.
130. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7810, Caja 2: details of the medals awarded to Seville National Guardsmen distinguished at 25 November 1836 battle of Majaceite; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 325–335.
131. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7810, Caja 2, doc. 18: 2–3 December 1836 letters from Loja National Militia.
132. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 60–66.
133. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7809, Caja 1: 30 November 1836 account of mutiny from General Narváez to War Ministry; 9/7811, doc. 32: 21 March 1850 recollection by Lt. Sebastián Banuchi of events of November 1836.

134. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 335–346; Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 236–238;
135. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 335–348.
136. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 160–161.
137. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 348–353.
138. *Gaceta Oficial*, 22 July 1836; 29 July 1836.
139. *Gaceta Oficial*, 6 September 1836.
140. A 5 December 1836 letter from George Borrow to Rev. A. Brandram (courtesy of the George Borrow Society).
141. Fermín de Sojo y Lomba and José de Mazarrasa, *El Mariscal Mazarrasa* (Santander, 1973), 94–98.
142. Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 164–165.
143. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 483–497.
144. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 497–501; Edward Bell Stephens, *The Basque Provinces: Their Political State, Scenery and Inhabitants; with Adventures amongst the Carlists and Christinos* (London, 1837), I, 150–159.
145. Spiers, *Radical General*, 70.
146. Bell Stephens, *Basque Provinces*, I, 174.
147. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 502–503; Bell Stephens, *Basque Provinces*, I, 176.
148. Bell Stephens, *Basque Provinces*, I, 158, 188.
149. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 504–514.
150. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 514–519; Cristino defenders got to know of this and at once intimidated the besiegers by leaving them a mutilated Carlist corpse identified by the sign ‘I am Casa-Eguía’ (Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 603).
151. Biscay cod (‘Bacalao a la Vizcaína’) is one gastronomic legacy of the First Carlist War. The other is the ‘Desarme’ (‘Disarming’) of Oviedo, a meal prepared every 19 October, commemorating the city’s disarming of Sanz’s occupying Carlists in 1836 during their siesta produced by copious offerings of food and wine.
152. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra civil*, 175.
153. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 519–527.
154. Burdiel, *Isabel II*, 25.
155. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 527–594.

7 Carlist Failure, 1837–39

1. Cámara, *Política exterior del carlismo*, 19.
2. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 150–151.
3. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 323–326.
4. *Gaceta Oficial*, 12 April 1836; Bell Stephens, *Basque Provinces*, I, 146–147.
5. *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 July 1836; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 828–829.
6. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 169–174.
7. Matthew Butler’s research on a comparable yet more explicitly Church versus state civil war is highly suggestive (Matthew Butler, *Popular Piety and Political Identity in Mexico’s Cristero Rebellion: Michoacán, 1927–29* (Oxford, 2004), 13–26, 106–107).
8. The term *ojalatero* is the adjectivised or nominised form of the common subjunctive phrase, *¡Ojalá!*, meaning ‘hopefully’, ‘God grant’ or ‘I wish it

- were'. Its origin probably lies in General Carlos O'Donnell, father of two sons who distinguished Isabeline politics, who, before his death during the siege of Pamplona in 1835, had the habit of commenting on his comrades' near successes in combat preambly with ¡Ojalá! His audience thus coined the term *ojalatero* (Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 260–265).
9. The young Luisa Casiñol was 'inspired by the urge to defend the rights of the Queen', and thus joined the sixth company of the 'Riumbau' battalion; she distinguished herself during an action against the Carlists near Zaragoza, exhausting all her ammunition (*Eco del Comercio*, 23 September 1837).
 10. Córdova, *Memorias*, II, 391.
 11. *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 July 1836.
 12. Eugenio de Aviraneta, *Memoria dirigida al gobierno español sobre los planes y operaciones puestos en ejecución para aniquilar la rebelión en las provincias del norte de España* (Madrid, 1844), 111–113.
 13. Olcina, *Carlismo y las autonomías*, 130–134; Jesús Etayo Zaldueño, *Navarra: una soberanía secuestrada: historia y periodismo (1923–1931)* (Tafalla, 2004), 177.
 14. Canal, *El carlismo*, 104.
 15. Urquijo y Goitia, 'Represión y disidencia durante la primera Guerra carlista', 131–186; *Gaceta Oficial*, 19 April 1836; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 231–232.
 16. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 888–892.
 17. Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 99–101; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 223.
 18. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 246–255; Aróstegui Sánchez, 'Aparición del carlismo y los antecedentes de la guerra', 121–122; Canal, *El carlismo*, 98.
 19. These included Bishop Abarca (London), Juan Rocaberli de D'amato (Netherlands), Count Alcudia (Vienna), Marquess Monasterio (Berlin), Marquess Villafranca (St Petersburg) who carried the widest-ranging hopes and instructions, and Alvarez de Toledo (Naples), the hardest-working emissary (Cámara, *Política exterior del carlismo*, 22–32).
 20. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 444–449.
 21. In April 1835, for example, an armaments factory the Carlists had established near Roncesvalles exploded, killing 22 workers (*Eco del Comercio*, 8 April 1835).
 22. *Gaceta Oficial*, 15 April 1836; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 46–47; Extramiana, *Guerras carlistas*, I, 42.
 23. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 397–398.
 24. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 441–444.
 25. *Gaceta Oficial*, 12 July 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 455–470; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 32.
 26. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 81.
 27. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 332–333.
 28. R.A.H. Archivo Narváez, 9/7809, Caja 1: 24 October 1836 annual list of losses and desertions from Ejército de operaciones del Norte, división de vanguardia.
 29. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 25–32.
 30. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 181–182; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 76–77.

31. Holt, *Carlist Wars*, 157–159.
32. Canal, *El carlismo*, 86–87. In general the British Legion's performance was mixed. At the end of the summer of 1836, the unit participated in a few skirmishes in Hernani and the areas around Vitoria, and contributed to the conquest of the pass of Pasajes and to the maintenance of the fortress of Mount Urgull of San Sebastian against the Carlists' attempts to take the city. Likewise, in November of 1836, the unit participated in Espartero's liberation of Bilbao during the siege of the city. In 1837, the British Legion suffered a great setback at the Battle of Oriamendi, but later helped to delay the advance of the Expedición Real in Navarra.
33. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 32–48.
34. María Teresa Puga and Eusebio Ferrer (eds), *Los reyes que nunca reinaron: los carlistas. 'Reyes' o pretendientes al trono de España* (Madrid, 2001), 63.
35. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 75–76.
36. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 270.
37. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 166–176, 672–677.
38. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 504–512.
39. A.H.N. Diversos, *títulos y familias*, leg. 160: 18 January 1839 letter from Josefa Varela to Espartero.
40. Cámara, *Política exterior del carlismo*, 51.
41. Cámara, *Política exterior del carlismo*, 34–44.
42. Burdiel, *Isabel II*, 78–88, 127.
43. José Manuel de Arízaga, *Memoria militar y política sobre la guerra de Navarra* (Madrid, 1840), 86.
44. Baroja y Nessi, *Aviraneta*, 218–219;
45. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 86–93.
46. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 470–476.
47. Kurlansky, *Basque History*, 166–167; Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 212–213; Felix Lichnowsky, *Erinnerungen aus den Jahren 1837, 1838 und 1839* (Frankfurt-am-Main, 1841), I, 134.
48. *Gaceta Oficial*, 9 August 1836.
49. Burke Honan, *Court and Camp of Don Carlos*, 389.
50. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 699; Aróstegui, Canal and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 61; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 77–86, 222–226.
51. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 721; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 476–483.
52. Moral Roncal, *Guerras carlistas*, 162–184; Melgar, *Pequeña historia*, 69–72.
53. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 86–93.
54. Espoz had to disband the Hunters in April 1836 due to excessive defection from its ranks to the Carlists (*Gaceta Oficial*, 22 April 1836).
55. Prussian legitimist who would be killed by leftists during the Frankfurt uprising of September 1848 (Hanna Ballin Lewis (ed.), *A Year of Revolutions: Fanny Lewald's Recollections of 1848* (London, 1998), 122).
56. Lichnowsky, *Erinnerungen*, I, 137.
57. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 107; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 78–79.
58. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 94–107; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 636.
59. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 108–115.
60. Lichnowsky, *Erinnerungen*, II, 238–245.

61. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 115–122.
62. *El Constitucional*, 7 January 1837; Eiras Roel, *Sociedades secretas*, 29.
63. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 127–132.
64. Rahden, *Spaniens Bürgerkrieg*, 20–21; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 132–137.
65. *Gaceta Oficial*, 9 September 1836; Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, I, 135–136; Córdoba y Miguel, *Vida de Cabrera*, III, 4–9.
66. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 81.
67. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 154–160.
68. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 144–154; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 81.
69. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 662–672.
70. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 166–176, 672–677.
71. Harold Victor Livermore, *A New History of Portugal* (Cambridge, 1976), 283; *Gaceta Oficial*, 30 October 1835.
72. Clemente Madrazo Escalera, *Un episodio de la guerra civil en el ejército de Carlos V* (Paris, 1840), v–xii.
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75. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 191.
76. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 184–192.
77. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 206–207.
78. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 79, 82–83; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 193–199.
79. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 215–218.
80. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 250–252.
81. *El Castellano*, 16 September 1837.
82. Aróstegui, Canal and Calleja, *Guerras carlistas*, 61; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 222–226.
83. This charter provided one Cortes representative per 50,000 inhabitants, enfranchised all men paying at least 200 reales in annual taxes or receiving an annual private income of at least 1,500 reales, which amounted to one inhabitant in 48 enjoying full citizenship (whereas under the 1834 Royal Statute this figure had been one in 213) (Vicente Palacio Atard, *La España del siglo XIX* (Madrid, 1978), 200–202).
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91. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 212–213.
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97. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 46–59; Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 185–186.
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104. *Eco del Comercio*, 3 March 1837; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 312.
105. *Eco del Comercio*, 20 March 1837.
106. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 315–318.
107. Canal, *El carlismo*, 99.
108. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 309–310.
109. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 347, 361–365.
110. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 765; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 348–349.
111. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 283; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 356–360, 369–372.
112. *El Constitucional*, 2 September 1837.
113. Manuel Santirso Rodríguez, 'El incierto cenit del carlismo catalán (1837–1840)', in *Instituto de Historia Económica y Social Gerónimo de Ustariz*, Vol. 14–15 (1999), 153–178, 162–163.
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117. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 281.
118. *Eco del Comercio*, 22 February 1838; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 487–495; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 100.
119. *Eco del Comercio*, 11 March 1838; 14 March 1838; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 112.
120. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 169–180.
121. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 183–184; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 180–181.
122. Lichnowsky, *Erinnerungen*, I, 371–372.
123. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 97–101.
124. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 522–532.
125. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 533–540.
126. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 611–612.
127. *Eco del Comercio*, 11 January 1841; Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 182–188.
128. Holt, *Carlist Wars*, 175; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 107.
129. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 83.
130. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 575.
131. Manuel Lassala, *Historia política del partido carlista, de sus divisiones de su gobierno, de sus ideas y del convenio de Vergara* (Madrid, 1841), 98.

132. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 133–135.
133. Lawrence, 'Poachers turned Gamekeepers'.
134. *Eco del Comercio*, 16 October 1838; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 565–573; V, 182–186.
135. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 443–445; Córdova, *Memorias*, I, 253.
136. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 446–447; *Colección de documentos oficiales y extraoficiales, relativos a asesinatos y tentativas de insurrección, hechas últimamente en varios Puntos del reino, y castigos impuestos a sus autores* (Madrid, 1838), 10–16.

8 Stalemate and Cristino Victory, 1838–40

1. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 432, 464–466.
2. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 261.
3. Christiansen, *Origins of Military Power*, 67–98. The historian of the Civil Guard, Diego López Garrido, judged that 'praetorianism' is a misleading term because generals merely used their armies as a springboard for political power, and were faithful thereafter to the civilian politics of their chosen political parties (López Garrido, *Guardia Civil*, 44).
4. DSC, No. 69, 11 September 1820, 931, 942. Examples of soldiers intervening in elections are legion. The January 1840 elections in Cartagena saw both sailors and soldiers hired to vote, whilst in Córdova a cavalry regiment distributed proclamations heaping insults upon *progresistas* (*Eco del Comercio*, 17 January 1840).
5. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 203.
6. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 227–228.
7. A.G.P. Caja 28/32, No. 1, Reinados, FVII, 27: undated (1842?) police transcription of the manifesto of the Sociedad de Regeneradores Españoles.
8. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 193–195; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 135–136.
9. In this changed climate, the British Protestant missionary was banned from selling further copies of the New Testament from his Madrid outlet (15 January 1838 letter from George Borrow to Rev. A. Brandram (courtesy of the George Borrow Society)).
10. *El Español*, 19 August 1836.
11. A.M.M. 3/183, *Anales*, 12 August 1836.
12. *Eco del Comercio*, 6 November 1839.
13. A.H.N. *Diversos (gobierno y política)*, leg. 167, No. 3245: 13 December 1837 summary of reports of 11 December 1837 Radical rising of Cádiz militia and its subsequent disbandment by army.
14. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 11–12.
15. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 12–14.
16. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 32–33.
17. *El Eco del Comercio*, 8 July 1838; 12 July 1838; 13 July 1838; 15 July 1838; 22 July 1838; 28 July 1838; 14 March 1839.
18. *Eco del Comercio*, 23 October 1836.
19. Sarria Muñoz, *Breve Historia de Málaga*, 74–81.
20. Julián Sesmero Ruiz, *Los Barrios de Málaga: Orígenes e historia* (Málaga, 1993), 36–37.

21. La Comba, *Sociedad y política en Málaga*, 61–64.
22. Garrido, *Bandidos*, 115–125.
23. A.H.N. Diversos, *gobierno y política*, leg. 167/75: 28 March 1838 letter from Juan Palarea to Ministry of War.
24. *El Constitucional*, 6 January 1837.
25. A.M.M. 3/183, *Anales de Málaga: 1821–1889 (Recortes de prensa de la Unión Mercantil)*, 24–28 October 1839.
26. A.H.N. Diversos, *títulos y familia*, leg. 3601: 6 May 1839 complaint by Captain-General Antonio María Álvarez to Ministry of the Interior.
27. A.H.N. Diversos, *gobierno y política*, leg. 167/65: 10 October 1838 letter from Comandante General of Málaga to Captain-General Juan Palarea concerning assassination plot.
28. Mark Lawrence, 'Las viudas de Comares: un caso de radicalismo popular en la Málaga liberal', in Alda Blanco and Guy Thomson (eds.), *Visiones del liberalismo: política, identidad y cultura en la España del siglo XIX*, (Valencia, 2008), 87–98.
29. A.H.N. Consejos, leg. 12,232, ex 14: 27 July 1839 letter from regional court of Granada to Ministry of Grace and Justice confirming sentence of Juan Antonio Escalante and delay in carrying out death sentences of three civilians.
30. Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 235–236; Ana María Guerra Martínez, *Guerra e indefensión: realidad y utopía en la antigua provincia de la Mancha Alta durante la primera guerra civil española (1833–1839)* (Murcia, 1991), 53–54.
31. Antonio Miguel Bernal, *La lucha por la tierra en la crisis del antiguo régimen* (Madrid, 1979), 66–67, 111–115; Miguel Gómez Oliver, *La desamortización de Mendizábal en Granada* (Granada, 1983), 24, 56, 172–174; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 108–109.
32. Manuel Martín Martínez, *Revolución liberal y cambio agrario en la alta Andalucía* (Granada, 1995), 9–26, 140–143, 243–244.
33. Jorge Luengo Sánchez, *El nacimiento de una ciudad progresista: Valladolid durante la regencia de Espartero (1840–1843)* (Ayuntamiento de Valladolid, 2005), 63–64.
34. Irene Castells and Antonio Moliner, *Crisis del antiguo régimen y revolución liberal en España (1789–1845)* (Barcelona, 2000), 25.
35. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 139–140.
36. In his study of disentanglement in Granada, Miguel Gómez claims he was unable to find a single case of bribery being punished (Gómez Oliver, *Desamortización de Mendizábal*, 42).
37. *El Correo Nacional*, 12 December 1840; 15 December 1840.
38. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167, doc. 87: 2 November 1838 printed proclamation by Captain-General of Granada and Jaén.
39. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167, doc. 82: 1 April 1839 letter from Mayor of Guadix to Civil Governor; Martínez Martín, *Revolución liberal y cambio agrario*, 172–181.
40. Hughes, *Revelations of Spain in 1845*, II, 19–23.
41. José Manuel Rodríguez Gordillo, *Un archivo para la historia del tabaco* (Seville, 1977), 44–45; Romero Alpuente, *Historia de la revolución*, I, lxxviii.

42. *Eco del Comercio*, 14 January 1840.
43. *Eco del Comercio*, 16 September 1841.
44. José Pérez Vidal, *La industria tabaquera española, a través de las fábricas de Sevilla* (Madrid, 1966), 13–14.
45. *Eco del Comercio*, 21 June 1838.
46. *Eco del Comercio*, 11 August 1838; 14 August 1838; *El Mundo*, 11 August 1838.
47. *Eco del Comercio*, 6 December 1840; 11 December 1840; 17 March 1841; 21 March 1841; 25 March 1841; 27 August 1842; Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 179.
48. *Eco del Comercio*, 31 July 1839; 16 August 1839.
49. A.M.M. 3/183, *Anales*, 24–28 October 1839.
50. Landfalls by ships unloading contraband often with the connivance of corrupt carabineers; Gibraltar providing a springboard for overland smugglers, especially the *mochileros* ('backpackers') with their intimate knowledge of the Serranía de Ronda; and (until 1841) the carry-trade from Navarre and the Basque provinces, which was permitted by an open customs frontier on the western Pyrenees with France, coupled with lax state customs checks along the Ebro (Garrido, *Bandidos*, 115–125; Rubio Pobes, *Revolución y tradición*, 93).
51. Roger Magraw, *France 1815–1914: The Bourgeois Century* (Oxford, 1983), 70; *Eco del Comercio*, 30 June 1840.
52. Marichal, *Spain (1834–1844)*, 108–140.
53. A.H.N., Consejos, leg. 12232, Docs 6, 7: 23 and 25 October 1839 correspondence of escribano, José María Herreros de Tejada, detailing 'crimes' of Julián Malaguilla; A.H.N., Consejos, leg. 12232, doc. 15: 2 April 1840 report by juzgado de la primera instancia del partido de Ronda confirming ongoing imprisonment of 'Carlist' Malaguilla; *El Correo Nacional*, 30 October 1839; 2 November 1839.
54. Anes and de Castrillón, *Economía, sociedad, política*, 103–107.
55. For a vivid description of Galician water-vendors in Madrid, who deafened the streets with the cries of '*jagua fresca!*', see Henry David Inglis, *Spain in 1830* (London, 1831), 71–79.
56. *Eco del Comercio*, 14 February 1840.
57. R.A.H. 9/4714 Papeles de Fermín Caballero, Papeles inéditos, (II) 1830–1845: 19 March 1840 resignation of Cortes seat by Fermín Caballero in protest at illegal elections.
58. *El Correo Nacional*, 13 March 1840.
59. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 48–51.
60. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 66–76; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 52–54.
61. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 37–47.
62. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 64–96.
63. *Eco del Comercio*, 6 October 1838; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 97–98; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 158–160.
64. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 115–122.
65. Cabello, Santa Cruz and Temprado, *Historia de la guerra última*, II, 227.
66. *Gaceta Oficial*, 2 August 1836; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 105–106, 112–114, 591–593.

67. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3364, leg. 35: 15 November 1838 press cuttings concerning 6 November 1838 atrocities in Caspe of *cabecilla* José Puyol.
68. *Eco del Comercio*, 16 April 1838.
69. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 140–149.
70. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 152.
71. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 165–166.
72. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), leg. 2544, Docs 253–298; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 210–222.
73. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), Caja 3364, leg. 35: official comments on 16 November 1838 reports of *El Sevillano* newspaper concerning Narváez coup.
74. A.H.N. Diversos (*títulos y familias*), leg. 2544, Docs 253–298: letters from Narváez in Gibraltar to Andrés Borrego.
75. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 231–234.
76. *Eco del Comercio*, 21 April 1838; 22 April 1838; 27 May 1838; 2 November 1838; *El Mundo*, 20 April 1838. After a discreet interlude, Uzal began corresponding for the *Eco* once more (*Eco del Comercio*, 10 January 1840).
77. *Eco del Comercio*, 1 February 1838; 2 February 1838.
78. Baroja, *Aviraneta*, 223–227.
79. Janke, *Mendizábal*, 262.
80. Isabel María Pascual Sastre, *La Italia del Risorgimento y la España del sexenio democrático (1868–1874)* (Madrid, 2001), 122–125; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 228–230.
81. Urquijo Goitia, 'Estados italianos y España durante la primera guerra carlista', 947–997, 960–961.
82. Sinibaldo de Mas y Sanz, *Informe sobre el estado las Islas Filipinas* (Madrid, 1842), I, 27–138.
83. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 527–534, 710–711.
84. Fernández Gaytán, 'Marina carlista', 6, 5–32.
85. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 293–294.
86. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 522–527.
87. Aviraneta exasperated the hard-pressed Cristino consulate at Bayonne by maintaining a network of seven spies of both sexes and on both sides of the border who answered to the codes of S, T, U, V, X, Y and Z. The three women all worked in hospitality in the 'conspiratorial capital' of Bayonne (Baroja, *Aviraneta*, 219–221).
88. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 108–109.
89. Puga and Ferrer, *Los reyes que nunca reinaron*, 63.
90. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, IV, 275–277.
91. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 344–358; Holt, *Carlist Wars*, 184–186; Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 114–115.
92. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 358–366.
93. Burgo, *Historia de la primera guerra carlista*, 46–47; Mosely, 'Intervention and Nonintervention in Spain', 201–202.
94. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 366–369.
95. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 369–374.
96. Archivo Espartero, 13 May 1839: letter from Espartero to Jacinta Espartero; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 378.

97. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 373, 657–661.
98. Bullón de Mendzoa, 'Primera guerra carlista', 232.
99. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 378–387.
100. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 399–400.
101. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, II, 245–247; V, 415–416.
102. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 405.
103. Oyarzun, *Historia del carlismo*, 117.
104. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 407.
105. *Eco del Comercio*, 16 October 1838; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 405–418.
106. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 417.
107. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 418–430.
108. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 450–452, 676–677.
109. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 460–463.
110. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 439–445.
111. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 474–481.
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114. A.H.N. Diversos (*gobierno y política*), leg. 167, doc. 34: 14 August 1839 report by Consul Agustín Fernández de Gamba.
115. Rubio Pobes, *Revolución y tradición*, 49, 93.
116. Laetitia Blanchard Rubio, 'La Première guerre carliste ou la guerre de la dernière chance: la communauté légitimiste face à son destin', in *Culture de Guerre: Représenter et penser l'affrontement (XIX siècle à nos jours)*. *Amnis* (2011, 10), <http://amnis.revues.org/1449>; Oyarzun, *Historia del Carlismo*, 97–101, 105–123.
117. Urquijo Goitia, 'Historiografía sobre la primera guerra carlista', 413; Suárez Verdeguer, *Crisis política del antiguo régimen*, 93–94.
118. Baroja, *Aviraneta*, 232.
119. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 252–256.
120. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 265.
121. Tuñón de Lara, *España del siglo XIX*, I, 108, 110–111.
122. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 266–276.
123. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 257–259, 261–267.
124. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 276–286; Canal, *El carlismo*, 111.
125. For a sympathetic analysis, especially of the rare praise German Carlists had for this commander's imposition of discipline, see Bullón de Mendoza, *Primera guerra carlista*, 286–288.
126. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 256–257.
127. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 539.
128. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 292.
129. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 276–292.
130. *Hansard's Parliamentary Debates*: Third Series, Vol. XLIX, 664.
131. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 293–302.
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137. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 313–315.

138. *Eco del Comercio*, 13 June 1839; 15 June 1839; Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 311–313.
139. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 316–319.
140. *Eco del Comercio*, 31 May 1840.
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142. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 336–338.
143. Clemente, *Guerras carlistas*, 121.
144. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 88–94.
145. Remírez de Esparza, *Carlismo aragonés*, 93.
146. Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra*, XLVI.

Conclusions

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2. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 343–344.
3. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, V, 338–342.
4. Pirala, *Guerra civil*, III, 153–156.
5. Rújula (ed.), *Historia de la guerra última*, LX.
6. *El Huracán*, 21 June 1840; 2 August 1840.
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9. *Eco del Comercio*, 12 February 1841; 3 March 1841; 12 March 1841; 17 March 1841; 26 March 1841.

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